

Verb-third phenomena in Germanic verb-second languages

Historical and variational
perspectives

Edited by

Sarah Harchaoui

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Part I

Verb-third in Germanic verb-second languages: Overview and problems

Chapter 1

Introduction: Verb-third phenomena in Germanic verb-second languages

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1 Verb-third: A regular feature of Germanic V2 languages

All Present-Day Germanic languages except English and its varieties display some kind of verb-second (V2) rule. This rule states that the finite verbal form has to be placed in the second position of the clause, at least in declarative utterances and *wh*-questions. This means that a declarative utterance can begin with the subject, as in example (1a) from Danish, or by an adverbial, as in (1b) and (1c). In (1b), we find a temporal subordinate clause and in (1c), an adverb with a discourse function.

- (1) Danish (Danmarks Radio, *Tirsdag med sommer og sol*, Aug. 6th, 2024)
 - a. En rest af regnvejret vil dog ligge omkring Bornholm
'However, a remnant of the rainy weather will lie around Bornholm.'
 - b. Når regnen har passeret, kommer der en opklaring.
'When the rain has passed, there will be a clearing.'
 - c. Generelt har det været vådt denne sommer.
'In general, the weather has been wet this summer.'



All three examples were taken from the same weather report, where we can also find another phenomenon typical for V2 languages: the use of a placeholder in the pre-finite position, in order to maintain an indefinite subject as low as possible in the clause:

- (2) Danish (Danmarks Radio, *Tirsdag med sommer og sol*, Aug. 6th, 2024)
Der ligger nemlig skybrud og lur.
There lies namely cloudburst and lurk
'There are cloudburst lurking.'

It is slightly rarer to find arguments other than the subject in the pre-finite position, at least in Scandinavian. But that is still possible, especially when the fronted argument is a pronoun:

- (3) Danish (Danmarks Radio, *USA's udenrigsminister: Våbenhvileforhandlinger i sidste fase*, Aug. 7th, 2024)
Det fortæller USA's udenrigsminister Anthony Blinken på et
It claims USA-GEN foreign-minister Anthony Blinken at a
pressemøde natten til onsdag.
press-meeting night-DEF to Wednesday
'That's what the US Secretary of State Anthony Blinken said during a
press briefing on Tuesday night.'

The present volume goes back to a conference held in Paris in February 2023 and devoted to violations of the V2 rules across Germanic languages, as exemplified by the following examples.

- Resumption of an adverbial clause, with both the clause and the resumptive placed before the finite verb. For instance, in following sentence from a Danish weather report, the conditional clause in *som om* 'as if' is resumed by the adverbial pronoun *så* in the pre-finite slot:

- (4) Danish (Danmarks Radio, weather report for Sept. 9th, 2024)
Og som om kraftig regn, skybrud og torden ikke var nok, *så bliver*
det også noget blæsende i dag.
'And as if heavy rain, cloudbursts and thunder were not enough, it
will also be somewhat windy today.'

- Resumption of a non-clausal adverbial. For example, in Swedish, *så* can also resume a prepositional phrase introduced by *trots* 'despite':

- (5) Swedish (Sveriges Radio, *Så gör en miljon tyskar sin egen el med balkongkraftverk*, July 16th, 2024)

Trots deras framgång i Tyskland så är det en helt annan historia i Sverige, där balkongkraftverk belagts med säljförbud av ansvarig myndighet.

‘In spite of their success in Germany, it is a totally different story in Sweden, where balcony power plants are banned from sale by the responsible authority.’

- Stacking of arguments and verbal modifiers. In some contexts, several arguments and adjuncts depending from the same verb can be stacked in the pre-finite slot. This phenomenon has been identified in Standard German, where it is anything but rare. It seems, however, that the order of these dependents has to be what it would also have been in a subordinate clause, suggesting that this construction involves the movement of one and only one syntactic node, albeit of a higher level than the usual type of single-constituent fronting.

- (6) German (ORF, *Neun Parteien treten österreichweit an*, Aug. 2nd, 2024)

Bundesweit auf dem Stimmzettel *stehen* die fünf Parlamentsparteien ÖVP, SPÖ, FPÖ, Grüne und NEOS, sowie KPÖ, Bierpartei, Liste Petrovic und die Partei “Wandel”, die als “KEINE” in das Rennen geht.

‘The five parliamentary parties ÖVP, SPÖ, FPÖ, Greens and NEOS, as well as KPÖ, Beer Party, the Petrovic list and the Party “Change”, running this time as “NONE”, have national ballot access.’

In that example, both *bundesweit* ‘confederacy-wide, nationwide’ and *auf dem Stimmzettel* ‘on the ballot paper’ are dependents of *stehen* ‘stand’ and could fill the pre-finite slot alone. However, *bundesweit auf dem Stimmzettel stehen* can be regarded as a partially lexicalized expression (‘to have nationwide ballot access’), so that the apparent multiple fronting can be explained via the movement of the whole complex, in order to leave the highly rhematic subject alone in post-verbal position.

- Placement of a framesetting adverbial before the subject, with both phrases standing before the finite verb. While this pattern is well-described in

many V2 varieties with pronominal subjects, it is also attested, at least sporadically, with full NP subjects, as in the following example, where *im Wagen* ‘in the cab’ is followed by *die Kinder* ‘the children’ and then by the finite verb.

- (7) German (Ernst Toller, *Eine Jugend in Deutschland*, p. 25)
Ich sitze neben dem Kutscher, im Wagen die anderen Kinder *singen* und sind fröhlich, ich will nicht wie sonst die Zügel der Pferde führen.
‘I’m sitting next to the driver, in the cab the other children are singing and having fun, I don’t want to hold the reins as usual.’

Even though the general picture of V2 holds for all Germanic languages except English, the exact contours of the V2 rule vary strongly from one Germanic language to the other, and the different possibilities of verb-third bare witness of this variation.

The “bottleneck” (originally a theory-internal label, going back to Haegeman 1996) demanding that one and only one constituent be placed before the finite verb is not equally respected in all Germanic varieties. This casts doubts on whether there is really such a thing as “the V2 rule” in Germanic: previous research on Medieval Romance languages already showed that at least two types of V2 rules should be distinguished (Wolfe 2018). Previous cross-Germanic insights into these V3 phenomena can be found, among others, in Freywald et al. (2015), Walkden (2017), Alexiadou & Lohndal (2018), or in some of the studies collected in Meklenborg & Wolfe (2021). Within the framework of (cartographically-oriented) Generative Grammar, these two types have been modelled in terms of “phase edge”, with “FinV2” being opposed to “ForceV2”. FinV2 can be shown to license more “verb-third” phenomena than “ForceV2”. Independently of theory-internal conceptualizations, it seems that one type of V2 is more closely associated with illocutionary force than the other, and allows less exceptions.

1.1 What should count as verb-third?

Further phenomena are regarded as examples of verb-third by some scholars but not by the majority and will be left out of consideration in the main body of this volume. For the sake of clarification, the most two important ones are presented here.

1.1.1 Fronting in embedded contexts

Germanic languages display V2 only in matrix clauses or as a “matrix clause phenomenon” in illocutionary autonomous utterances (e.g. High German or Dutch). However, Mainland Scandinavian languages or Yiddish also follow a superficial V2 rule in subordinate clauses, albeit of a very different kind from what can be observed in main clauses: non-matrix V2 suffers more exceptions than what can be seen in matrix clauses in the same language. The issue of embedded V2 is a much debated one in Nordic languages, which display various possibilities of verb placement in subordinate clauses (see Julien 2007, Petersson 2009, Wiklund et al. 2007, Vikner 2020, among many others).

In Mainland Scandinavian languages, we expect subordinate clauses to exhibit an additional slot for adverbs between the subject and the verb. We can see this in the next example from Swedish, where the complementizer *at* introduces a subordinate clause whose first constituent is an expletive (*der*), followed by an adverbial (*for alvor* ‘for real’) and then the finite verb *er* ‘is’:

- (8) Danish (DR, *Maersk har igen sat damp under kedlerne med milliardoverskud*, Aug. 7th, 2024)

Det er særligt i andet kvartal, at der for alvor er kommet damp under kedlerne igen, efter at Maersk havde underskud i de sidste tre måneder af 2023.

‘It is especially in the second quarter that steam has really come under the boilers again, after Maersk had a loss in the last three months of 2023.’

Even though it is sometimes claimed that some adverbs, most prominently the clausal negation, have to be placed in that intermediate slot, it is quite easy to find counterexamples, suggesting that the S – NEG – V order in Scandinavian subordinate clauses is a preference, but not a grammatical rule:

- (9) Norwegian (Julien 2007)

Madsvåg mener at framtiden kan ikke alle drive med alt.

‘Madsvåg thinks that in the future, not everyone will be able to cope with everything.’

At least in some Scandinavian languages, it seems that the pre-finite slot of the subordinate clause needs not be occupied by the subject, so that a unified analysis of embedded and non-embedded verb-fronting is possible (in other words: verb-fronting in embedded clauses is V2, not SV). Even in languages allowing this phenomenon, stylistic fronting is not possible in all subordinate clauses and

should rather be regarded as a main-clause phenomenon licensed in illocutionarily autonomous subordinate clauses.

(10) Danish (Vikner 2020: 377)

- a. * At *tomater* spiser Johan ofte overrasker de fleste.
(intended: ‘That John often eats tomatoes surprises most people.’)
- b. Hun siger at *tomater* spiser Johan ofte.
‘She says that John often eats tomatoes.’
- c. Hun siger at Johan ofte *spiser* tomater.
‘She says that John often eats tomatoes.’

This distribution is reminiscent of classical claims about V2 in non-embedded contexts, according to which the filling of the pre-finite slot is driven by functional pragmatic features.

It is beyond any doubt that the type of verb fronting observed in Scandinavian subordinate clauses is quite different from what can be found in main clauses in the same languages. Still, this type of alternation between SV and SXV may be motivated by information structure, as argued, among others, by Dalberg (2023), who claims that the left half of Danish subordinate clauses mirror the structure of the middle field (the traditional *neksusfelt*) of main clauses, devoted to topical and thematic material, whereas the right part of subordinate clauses mirror the structure of the “content field”, that is the part of the main clause that follows a VO principle and hosts rhematic material. In other words: the superficial violation of an apparent V2-constraint bears witness of fine-grained differences between verb-placement rules and has consequences for the whole topological model of the clause. This is a common experience taught by the study of V2 main clauses and of fronting in embedded clauses. But because the mechanisms behind embedded fronting are not the same as those behind matrix V2 in the languages which display both phenomena, at this stage of the scientific discussion, they cannot be amalgamated. For that reason, these matters will be let out of consideration in the rest of the present volume.

1.1.2 Focus-sensitive particles

Another typical example of controversial constituent order is the behaviour of focus-sensitive adverbials and particles taking another constituent in their scope and coexisting with that constituent in the pre-finite slot:

- (11) Dutch (Foolen et al. 2009: 51)
Zelfs Jan *was* gisteren aanwezig.
‘Even Jan was there yesterday.’

While many scholars have been keen on insisting that the two constituents should be counted as one phrase, others, such as Buring & Hartmann (2001), have claimed the focus particle is an adverb of its own, not merged with its partner and thus triggering V3.

1.2 Approaches to V3

V3 phenomena have been mentioned in syntactic descriptions of urban vernaculars, but also in diachronic studies, suggesting that multilingual settings are not responsible for their emergence: much rather, it seems that Germanic verb-second has always included possibilities of violations and/or of ambiguous constructions or “apparent polyoccupation”. For instance, the stacking of VP modifiers forming a consistent complex as often been called “apparent” or “superficial” verb-third.

The reason why present-day examples are mostly identified in urban vernaculars and, to a lesser extent, other vernacular dialects such as West Flemish, should probably be found in the fact that these vernacular varieties are less submitted to the normative constraints prohibiting any apparent violation of V2.

The studies brought together in this book are concerned with various kinds of violations of this “bottleneck” in any variety of Germanic, present and past (including former V2 stages of English). At least three verb-third constructions are attested both in North and West Germanic languages and deserve a special place both in the introduction and in the volume.

2 Recurring V3 patterns across Germanic languages

2.1 Adverbial – subject – finite verb

In the first type of construction, an adverb or a phrase with an adverbial function stands at the beginning of the utterance and is followed by the subject, then the finite verb, whereas the standard V2 rule would state that only one of the two constituents can stand in the pre-finite slot at the same time. This phenomenon is particularly well described in urban vernaculars and typically involves an indexical adverb of time or place and a pronominal subject:

- (12) Norwegian
Nå de *får* betale.
'Now they have to pay.'
- (13) Swedish
Då alla *började* hata henne.
'Then everybody started to hate her.'
- (14) High German (Freywald et al. 2015: 82)
Dann *wir* sind gegangen.
'Then we left.'
- (15) Dutch (Appel 1984, quoted from Freywald et al. 2015: 82)
En dan hij *gaat* weg.
'And then he's going away.'

Data from Freywald et al. (2015) suggest that this pattern is much more restricted in Dutch urban vernaculars than in the corresponding Norwegian, Swedish and German varieties. Wiese & Müller (2018) also show that this pattern, while it is widely attested in vernaculars from multilingual urban settings, is not an innovation caused by language contact. The same pattern is well-attested in the West Flemish variety of Dutch (see recent discussion in Haegeman & Greco 2018), independently of the sociolinguistic context of urban vernaculars. The same seems to hold in colloquial Danish (Jørgensen 2016). Even though research on the acquisition of V2 suggests that language contact may facilitate the use of the Adv – S – V pattern (Johansen 2008), just like code-switching (Kahan-Newman 2015), the role of language contact in the rise of V3 is a matter of debate (compare Walkden 2017, Wiese & Müller 2018). Other factors or hypotheses also need to be addressed. For instance, if there is a privileged access of subject pronouns to this pattern, as opposed to heavier NP/DP subjects, one may wonder if this verb-third construction is not due to the pronoun partly losing its phrasal status, i.e. a phenomenon of pronominal deficiency (Cardinaletti & Starke 1999).¹ In that case, one could wonder if the deficient pronoun still “counts” as a filler for the initial slot. Another possible interpretation, more significant consequences, would be to consider that this subject pronoun builds an inflectional node with the verb and that the adverb, on the other hand, is a framesetter endowed with a high illocutionary position and a certain degree of syntactic autonomy with

¹This raises the question whether resumptive adverbials and personal pronouns stacked immediately before the finite verb should be treated separately, even when they are not clitics (see Jørgensen 2016).

respect to the inflectional layer. This would bring us in the vicinity of the FinV2/ForceV2 debate in Cartographic analyses of (historical) Romance V2, with the Adv – S – Fin construction being a sign of remnant (or incipient) FinV2.

2.2 Topic – adverb – finite verb

In this construction, an adverb fulfilling a text-structuring function can be inserted between the initial constituent (a topic) and the finite verb. Two subtypes of Top – Adv – VFin constructions must be distinguished:

- Adverbial resumption: the fronting of a non-clausal adverbial phrase, followed by an adverbial resumptive pronoun, and then by the finite verb.
- Topic change constructions: constructions involving an adverb (usually with a discourse-organizational meaning) after a new or a resumed topic, without requesting that this discourse-connecting adverb resume the topic on its left.

2.2.1 Framesetter resumption

In Scandinavian languages, the adverbial resumptive type of V3 is particularly well-attested for the pronoun *så* (Sollid & Eide 2007, Nordström 2010). It is important to note that this pattern is not restricted to the resumption of clausal adjuncts: *så* can also resume an adverb or a prepositional phrase.

(16) Swedish (Egerland 2021: 364)

Jag anlände till Rom och sedan *så* *tog* jag in på hotell.

‘I landed in Rome, then I checked into a hotel.’

This set of constructions is subjected to many parameters which have to be taken into account in the study of (micro-)variation: Does the resumptive have to be placed in the pre-finite slot or whether it can be placed elsewhere? Can the resumptive be modified or focalized? Is it obligatory or optional? Can it resume any kind of adjunct or is it licensed only after subordinate clauses? Is it even really restricted to adjuncts? Probably the most important distinction, however, is the one between specialized and generalized resumptives. Another important aspect is the status of the initial (resumed) constituent, especially on information-structural terms: Does it have to be a topic or a framesetter? Which kinds of topics are licit in this construction? Can this pattern be reduced to a subtype of left-dislocation? Is the initial constituent clause-external? Most recently, the studies

collected in De Clercq et al. (2023) suggest that many Germanic and Romance varieties show a pattern where peripheral adjuncts (in the sense of Haegeman's peripheral adverbial clauses, as opposed to central ones) with a framesetting function can be resumed by an adverbial pronoun in pre-finite position in a dedicated V3 construction; in some of these languages, a generalized adverbial resumptive, which can resume adjuncts of various semantic types, has gradually grammaticalized, giving rise to a specific V3 pattern where the second constituent, the resumptive, is actually a grammatical head cliticized onto the finite verb. Scandinavian *så*, in the construction mentioned above, would be an example of such construction. Even though these patterns often share striking similarities with left dislocation, a specific syntactic construction is likely to have played a role in the birth and rise of adverbial resumption, at least in Germanic languages: correlative constructions, most prominently those where the subordinator and the resumptive are formally identical (as opposed to *wh- ... th-...* correlative constructions).

2.2.2 Topic change constructions

A further case of real or apparent polyoccupation is attested when the first constituent of the utterance is a topic (aboutness topic or framesetting topic) with a strong discourse-structuring function, e.g. a contrastive topic:

- (17) German (DEREKO, BRZ05/SEP.05028)

Woran das liegt, das weiß niemand so recht. Lange hat sich Coach Falk von der Osten darüber den Kopf zerbrochen. Jetzt *allerdings* sind solche Fragen unwichtig.

'Nobody really knows why it is so. Coach Falk von der Osten has been thinking about it for a long time, in vain. Now, however, such questions are unimportant.'

Both *jetzt* and *allerdings* are full lexical adverbs and as such, they can frequently be observed alone in the pre-finite slot of declarative sentences. However, it has already been observed in the literature that these two constituents are by no means equal. One of the first analyses of this construction can be found in Altmann (1979), who calls it a case of "idiosyncratic focus particle usage", drawing on three observations which, to this date, are fully unchallenged:

- The initial constituent (here: *jetzt*) bears a contrastive stress; it can be an adverb, a prepositional phrase, a DP, and have different functions in the VP, suggesting that the only relevant selection parameter is information-structural.

1 Introduction: Verb-third phenomena in Germanic verb-second languages

- The second constituent has to be an adverb or a coordinating conjunction; only a limited set of items are eligible to this slot.
- The relative order of the two constituents in the construction is fixed: the adverb or conjunction has to follow the constituent bearing the contrastive stress.

In High German, this pattern is attested in contexts of topic change; in Swedish, it also selects non-contrastive framesetting topics:

- (18) German (contrastive topic) (Breindl 2008: 35)

Der Juniaufstand ist Ausdruck spontaner Empörung; ihm fehlt Führung und Organisation. Der Gegenschlag indessen *ist* ebenso kühl kalkuliert wie brutal.

‘The June Uprising is an expression of spontaneous indignation; it is deprived of leadership and organisation. The retaliation, on the other hand, is both well-calculated and brutal.’

- (19) Swedish (non-contrastive topic) (Egerland 1998: 1)

Hon kanske *kommer* i kväll.

‘Maybe she’s coming tonight.’

However, even in German, it is not hard to find cases showing that at least one of the discourse-organizational items licensed in that construction, *aber*, can occur after non-topics. For instance, in the next example, *aber* occurs after the adverb *trotzdem* ‘in spite of that’:

- (20) German (Tushoisdorf.de, 15.12.2018)

Wir haben leider gegen Timmerhorn und auch gestern gegen Zarpen jeweils 2 Punkte liegen gelassen. Das ist schade. *Trotzdem aber* ist der Trend in der Liga auch hier eindeutig positiv.

‘Unfortunately, we lost 2 points against Timmerhorn and also yesterday against Zarpen. That is a pity. Nevertheless, the trend in the league is also clearly positive here.’

Furthermore, the alleged restriction to contrastive contexts or to new topics may well have to do with the fact that in German, the vast majority of the discourse organizers used in that syntactic slot are contrastive, additive or adversative (Breindl 2011). As we can see above, this is not the case in Scandinavian languages: *kanske* ‘maybe’ is a modal adverb, and does not carry any adversative or

additive meaning. Historically, German also allowed this construction with one non-adversative, non-additive marker: *so* (maybe thanks to its otherwise well-attested uses as an adverbial resumptive). As Bloom (2025 [this volume]) shows, the restriction to topical discontinuity generally observed in Present-Day German does not hold for the Early New High German construction with *so*.

2.3 Constituent stacking in the pre-finite slot

2.3.1 Apparent polyoccupation by circumstantial adjuncts

The possibility to stack arguments and adjuncts in the pre-verbal slot is attested across Germanic V2 languages. The case of German has already been mentioned above, as these patterns have been extensively documented for that language since Müller (2003). However, it is important to bear in mind that stacking is not restricted to arguments. The next example, quoted from Müller (2003), includes two circumstantial adjuncts in the pre-finite slot, *vor wenigen Wochen* ‘a few weeks ago’ and *im Deutschen Theater* ‘at the German Theater’:

- (21) German (Müller 2003: 38)

Vor wenigen Wochen im Deutschen Theater *sagte* ich: „Unser Ziel muß sein, daß die Polizei friedliche Demonstranten schützt und damit den Namen Volkspolizei rechtfertigt.“

‘A few weeks ago, at the German Theater, I said: “Our goal must be that the police protect peaceful protesters, and thus deserve the name of People’s Police.”’

The same type of adjunct stacking can be observed in Mainland Scandinavian, e.g. in Swedish. In the following sentence, the pre-finite slot is jointly occupied by *i går* ‘yesterday’ and by *på jobbet* ‘at work’:

- (22) Swedish (TenTen2014 corpus, retrieved in February 2022 from SketchEngine, item number 1652707550)

I går på jobbet *var* det olidligt hur varmt det var.

‘Yesterday at work, it was unbearably hot.’

This kind of polyoccupation is commonly considered as merely apparent, since all constituents fulfill the same framesetting function. However, they need not belong to the same semantic domain (e.g. indications of place). For instance, in the examples above, an indication of time is followed by an indication of place. This suggests that bluntly unifying these constituents into one and the same

syntactic label is not trivial. The shared functional label under which they are subsumed in order to occupy the pre-finite slot together must be restricted to information-structurally marked constructions.

2.3.2 Argument stacking and VP-fronting

The same questions may be raised for other cases of “apparent polyoccupation” (Müller 2003 and subsequent) involving the fronting of manner adverbs and object arguments:

- (23) High German (Müller 2003: 41)
Eindeutig für die Existenz von Doppeltopikalisierungen *spricht* das
Beispiel 79a.
‘Example 79a speaks unequivocally for the existence of double
topicalizations.’

Depending on the theoretical framework, these phenomena can be interpreted as “remnant VP-movement” (within Generative Grammar) or any equivalent terminology: it can be admitted that this “polyoccupation” is actually no breach of the standard V2 configuration; rather, the unit filling the pre-finite slot is a syntactic complex that could have stood at the end of the clause but was placed in the initial position for various reasons, mostly information-structural considerations. This type of apparent polyoccupation is presented in detail in the next chapter by Augustin Speyer, using data from the history of High German.

3 Overview of the volume

This introduction is followed by a review and theoretical discussion of verb-third phenomena in the history of (High) German (*Verb-third in German: A diachronic perspective*). German is known for following the verb-second constraint rather strictly (hence its status as a paradigmatic example of “strong V2” language). Drawing on recent research on the fine structure of the left periphery, Augustin Speyer argues that in German, the tight “bottleneck” coexists with a rich left-peripheral hierarchy, hence two types of V2 violations: remnant VP movement, which is actually a merely apparent polyoccupation, and the independent movement of more than one phrase to the pre-finite slot. Diachronic data show that this second sort may have been historically dominant in Old High German, whereas present-day German rather displays phenomena of remnant

VP movement, in line with the evolution of the V2 rule, becoming stricter over the centuries.

The introduction and Speyer's chapter show that verb-third can be regarded as a surface signal giving insights into the fine structure of the left periphery and into the very nature of the "bottleneck" of V2, which undergoes important variation from one language to the other. These theoretical concerns build the core of Part II, *Verb-third as a theoretical challenge: Generative perspectives*. The first contribution to this part, by Espen Klævik-Petersen, takes a provocative stance against the use of the concept of bottleneck in the original sense of the generativist literature (*On the probable inexistence of "bottlenecks" in V2-languages*). The author takes aim at the idea that in V2 languages, the finite verb moves to a low position of the left periphery, usually Fin, which is endowed with a feature (EPP-feature) blocking movement to the left except for one slot in the Spec position of the head (SpecFin or SpecForce in those languages where V moves to Force after going through Fin). He claims that this view fails to make significant predictions about V2 and V3 in relaxed verb-second languages, i.e. those where V stays in Fin ("FinV2 languages" in the terminology proposed by Wolfe 2018), and makes too strong claims about "strict" or "strong" V2 languages, those where V moves to Fin and then to Force ("ForceV2 languages"). In the case of strict V2 languages, the crucial empirical issue is with clitic left dislocation and apparented constructions. The chapter also discusses two alternative accounts: a phase-based theory and a theory where the C° node of V2 languages would be regarded as compressing or bundling several features into one single projection.

In the following chapter, *No cracks in the bottleneck! A cartographic model for the derivation of non-V2 in German*, Nicholas Catasso takes the opposite viewpoint. His chapter is a plea for a strictly cartographic approach to V2 and its apparent violations, drawing on the assumption that in German, V2 is a structural rule linked to the movement of V to C, and to an EPP feature of the same kind as the one discussed in the previous chapter. Catasso tackles the apparent counter-examples to the predictions relying on the "bottleneck" hypothesis. Documenting a series of superficial violations, including V4 or V5, he derives these phenomena from the core structure of V2: V3 or V4 are variants of V2, and not proper violations of it. In his words, "the linear component of V2 can be violated, but its structural core is inescapable." However, the fine structure of the left periphery revealed by these variants suggest that in German declarative sentences, V may actually be moved to the Fin position and not to the Force position.

The third part of the volume, *Historical perspectives on verb-third with adverbial pronouns*, is devoted to the margins and appearances of adverbial resumption. Each of the three chapters investigates one phenomenon of apparent verb-third

involving adverbial pronouns: Old English *þa*, Old Saxon and Old High German *thô*, Old and Modern Swedish *då* and *så* as well as Early New High German *so*, all of which are “usual suspects” of adverbial resumption and/or of correlative constructions. However, it soon appears that not all constructions involving one of these items and another constituent coexisting in pre-finite position should be regarded as verb-third, and even less of adverbial resumption.

The first chapter of this part, *Verb-third with initial þa/thô in Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German verse*, by Élise Louvriot and Thérèse Robin, addresses the question of what should really count as verb-third in the sense of a deviation from verb-second, by tackling a frequent assumption about Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German *þa/thô*: it is usually assumed that these forms either behave as subordinators triggering a low position of the verb (“V-late”, which needs not be V-final), or as adverbial pronouns with a resumptive, a connective or an expletive function: in that case, *þa* or *thô* tends to be immediately followed by the finite verb, leading to the assumption that the adverbial pronoun fills the pre-finite slot of the otherwise attested V2 structure. There are, however, numerous examples where the finite verb is not adjacent to *þa* or *thô*, especially in Old English. The aim of the chapter is determine whether this should be regarded as a verb-third pattern of any kind. The authors show that in the verse corpora that they use, which otherwise seem to follow the standard assumptions of verbal syntax for the languages under consideration, verb-first and verb-late are well attested in independent clauses, so that apparent verb-third after *þa* or *thô* should not automatically be understood as a deviation from V2. The authors argue that what looks like verb-third should probably rather be interpreted as a specific form of V-late.

In the next chapter, *Tracing the origins of resumption in Swedish*, Christine Meklenborg examines the evolution of adverbial resumption in Swedish, from the 13th century to the first half of the 18th. Until the first half of that period, the dominant resumptive is *då*. Later on, the resumptive *så* takes over and becomes the standard resumptive, to this day. Christine Meklenborg shows that this change is tightly linked to the question of whether the fronted adverbial clause is syntactically integrated to the V2 clause or not. Initially, it was not. According to Meklenborg, the very characterization of *då* as a resumptive is dubious: that adverbial pronoun should rather be considered an expletive. However, with the adverbial clause gradually becoming syntactically integrated into the V2 clause, the expletive undergoes reanalysis as a resumptive, but because of the V2 rule, the placement of the resumptive between a syntactically integrated fronted adverbial clause and the finite verb is possible only under strict conditions of semantic congruency. This narrows the field of contexts eligible for *då*-resumptive

and paves the way to the subsequent evolution of *så* into a generalized resumptive as we know it today.

The last chapter of Part III, *Cohesion and/or disruption? The discourse functions of Early New High German V3 with so* by Barthe Bloom, is concerned with Early New High German constructions involving an adverbial followed by the adverbial pronoun *so* and then by the finite verb. The main question of the chapter is whether this construction has to involve some degree of disruption in discourse, as would be the case if the construction were restricted to contrastive topics and other kinds of topic change. Using a corpus of narrative prose, Bloom investigates whether the proposed adverbials tend to be framesetters, whether the subject of the finite verb tends to be a pronoun or a full nominal phrase, and whether it is co-referential with the subject of the previous verb. She shows that the construction is compatible with disruptive as well as with cohesive contexts. But the study also reveals there is a significant difference between clausal and non-clausal adverbials before *so*: clausal adverbials, especially temporal clauses, often have a framesetting value, whereas non-clausal adverbials, especially adverbs, tend to be on the cohesive side, and to link the utterance to previous discourse.

The final part of the volume is made up of two contributions devoted to *Violations of verb-second and areal micro-variation in Northern Italy*. It is composed of two chapters. The first one, by Luca Riccardelli, is actually concerned with Romance: Riccardelli investigates *V2 and V3 in Rhaeto-Romance Varieties* with the aim of “rethinking language contact”. Rhaeto-Romance varieties display the most robust V2 features in present-day Romance languages, and accordingly, they also display numerous verb-third phenomena. Because they are also characterized by long, extensive contact with Germanic languages, a plausible reason for their exceptional status may be a Germanic influence. Riccardelli argues against unilateral explanations resorting to contact as a major trigger for the Rhaeto-Romance typology of V2. He shows that the types of V2 and V3 observed in Friulian, Romansh and Ladin does not correspond to the observations made in German and its regional varieties: V2 in Rhaeto-Romance varieties is not a cohesive phenomenon, and contact with Germanic probably just reinforced what Riccardelli calls “a general tendency of Rhaeto-Romance to develop a V2 system”.

The last chapter of the volume is *Deriving CP-expansion in the German enclave varieties across Northeast Italy: Cracks in the bottleneck?*, by Romano Madaro, Alessandra Tomaselli and Ermenegildo Bidese. It is devoted to the range of V2 violations and to the fate of V2 itself in the German-speaking varieties in Northeastern Italy. The authors are concerned with the progressive of the C-domain in these varieties, and the specialization of the various projections in the C-domain. The authors use data from Plodarisch, Saurian, Timavese and several varieties

of Cimbrian, and compare them to other German(ic) languages. Although these varieties originally had (and, for some of them, still have) a structural V2 rule similar to what is known from other varieties of German, the bottleneck effect does not materialize in the same way, prompting the authors to resort an alternative model, the Feature-Scattering Hypothesis. They also investigate the variation along geographical lines (West-to-East and North-to-South). The North-to-South line documents the expansion in the left periphery across several varieties of Cimbrian, leading to the ultimate loss of V2. These findings are corroborated by diachronic data on Cimbrian.

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Chapter 2

Verb-third in German: A diachronic perspective

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German follows the V2 constraint rather strictly which is a consequence of all prefield phrases (i.e. phrases standing before the finite verb in main clauses) having to pass through SpecFinP. Considerations such as movement being feature-driven lead to the assumption that in German a richly articulated CP-structure is active nevertheless. Data from Early New High German suggest that independent movement of more than one constituent to the prefield is a grammatical option in that period. This is analyzed best as an articulated CP-architecture with violation of the bottleneck effect. At the same time, some examples are only analyzable as movement of a partially emptied VP (remnant-VP-movement). In Modern German, most instances of multiply filled prefields are in fact instances of remnant-VP-movement, although a residue of independent movement of more than one constituent is still active. This change of frequency is interpreted as the result of further strengthening of strict V2 syntax.

1 Introduction

German is known to be a language that follows rather strictly the Verb-second-constraint (in the following: V2) in declarative and wh-interrogative main clauses. This means that the German declarative main clause is built in such a way that some constituent comes first, regardless of its syntactic function, and is followed by the finite part of the verb (1). This state of affairs is implemented in the topological field model, in that the position of the finite verb (the “left sentence bracket”) is preceded by the so-called “prefield” which normally hosts



exactly one constituent (e.g. Wöllstein 2010). The generative term “left periphery” corresponds to prefield plus left sentence bracket in the topological field model.

- (1) a. Gestern hat Uller ein Buch für Gwendolyn gekauft.
yesterday has Uller a book for Gwendolyn bought
‘Yesterday, Uller bought a book for Gwendolyn.’
b. Uller hat gestern ein Buch für Gwendolyn gekauft.
yesterday has Uller a book for Gwendolyn bought
‘Yesterday, Uller bought a book for Gwendolyn.’
c. Für Gwendolyn hat Uller gestern ein Buch gekauft.
for Gwendolyn has Uller yesterday a book bought
‘Yesterday, Uller bought a book for Gwendolyn.’
d. Ein Buch hat Uller gestern für Gwendolyn gekauft.
a book has Uller yesterday for Gwendolyn bought
‘Yesterday, Uller bought a book for Gwendolyn.’

Of course, the question arises whether German follows a structural version of V2 or merely a linear version. In other words: Is V2 the result of a strict structural configuration that allows nothing but V2, or is it merely an epiphenomenon, a way of using whatever structure is underlying in such a way that the verb always follows the first non-verbal constituent.

Interesting in this respect are violations of the V2 constraint, often referred to as “multiply filled prefield” in German linguistics. Some cases from the literature are presented in (2). The constituents are indicated by square brackets.

- (2) a. (Müller 2005: 299)
[Zum zweiten Mal] [die Weltmeisterschaft] errang Clark
[to=the second time] [the world-championship].ACC gained Clark
1965.
1965
‘Clark won the world championship for the second time in 1965.’
b. (Müller 2005: 301)
[Den Kürzungen] [zum Opfer] fiel auch das [...] Magazin [...].
[the cutbacks.DAT [to=the sacrifice] fell also the magazine
‘The journal fell prey to the cutbacks.’

Such structures offer the possibility to investigate the question as to how the left periphery in the German sentence is structured. In Section 2, possible analyses of the German left periphery are presented and evaluated with respect to multiple prefield-filling. Section 3 offers data from Early New High German (in the following: ENHG) and pursues the question whether the evidence speaks in favor of either of the analyses presented in Section 2. A synthesis between Early New High German and Modern German (in the following: ModG) is given in Section 4, addressing the question whether the changes between ENHG and ModG are the result of syntactic change *stricto sensu*. With this term I mean real structural change in the sense of e.g. Lightfoot (1999) or Roberts & Roussou (2003) and not only change in frequency of competing variants, which might precede but not necessarily lead to syntactic change *stricto sensu*.

2 Analyses of the German left periphery

2.1 Unarticulated CP vs. split CP

There are mainly two generative approaches on the market pertaining to the German left periphery. The classical analysis originally goes back to den Besten (1983) and Thiersch (1978) and is pursued e.g. by Dürscheid (1989), Sabel (2000) and Bacskai-Atkari (2021). It states that the German left periphery is an unarticulated CP, the prefield corresponding to SpecCP and the left sentence bracket corresponding to C° (Figure 1). The second analysis takes the cartographic approach into account (Rizzi 1997). It is basically argued for by e.g. Haegeman (1996), Grewendorf (2002), Frey (2006), Frascarelli & Hinterhölzl (2007), Speyer (2008a), Catasso (2021a, 2025 [this volume]), to name but a few, although these analyses differ quite dramatically as to the exact structure of the left periphery. In Figure 2, a slightly modified version of the approach by Speyer (2008a), which basically goes back to Grewendorf (2002), is presented as an example of a cartographic approach. The prefield corresponds consequently to everything left of Fin°.

In Figure 2, all prefield phrases pass through SpecFin before being moved on to a specialized position in the C-architecture. This accounts for the bottleneck effect, i.e. that only one phrase is normally moved, although there are several potential landing sites in the C-architecture available. The bottleneck effect comes about by the fact that any phrase moved to the C-architecture lands first in SpecFin, the lowest possible landing site in the C-architecture, before potentially being moved further upwards. If the phrase is moved further to some higher position in the C-architecture, it leaves a trace in SpecFin which prevents movement of any other phrase in that position. Multiple prefield filling by movement is thus

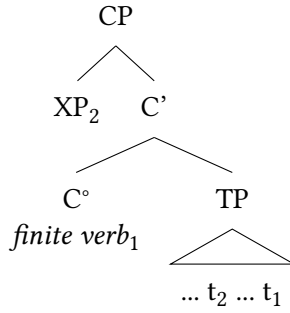


Figure 1: The German left periphery as unarticulated CP

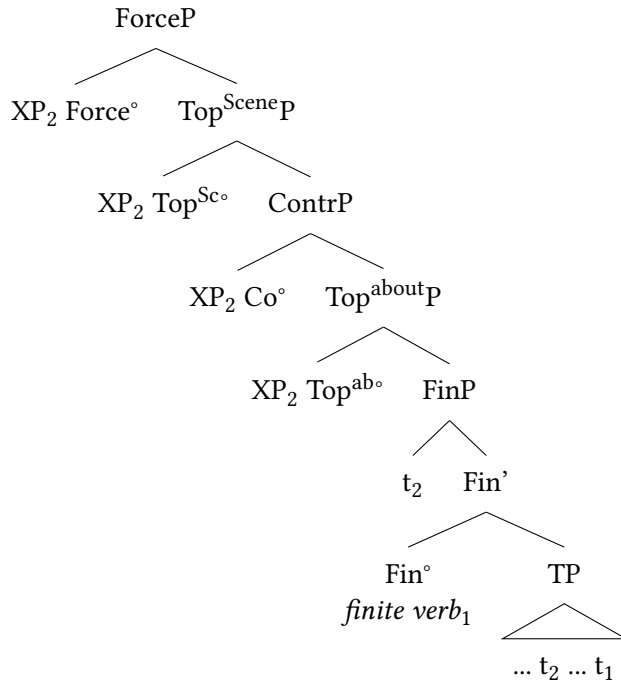


Figure 2: The German left periphery as split CP

excluded. If there is no bottleneck effect (that is, if not all phrases moved to the left periphery need to pass through SpecFin), the many potential landing sites in the C-architecture would allow multiple movement to the left periphery, as it is implemented in languages like e.g. Italian and Hungarian (Rizzi 1997). Note also that all of the above theories equate the landing site of the finite verb with the lowest projection in the C-architecture, Fin°. So, German would be a Fin-V2-language in the sense of Wolfe (2016). In theory, the landing site of the finite verb could also be the highest projection, Force°, in which case the bottleneck effect would come for free, ForceP being the highest phrase with only one specifier for prefield movement left. Usually, however, movement of the verb and the prefield constituent through Fin° and SpecFin, respectively, is assumed which gives rise to the bottleneck effect (De Clercq & Haegeman 2023). An analysis of German as a Force-V2-language is upheld by e.g. Poletto (2013); Wolfe (2016); Hinterhölzl (2017); De Clercq & Haegeman (2018), to name but a few. We will concentrate on the two approaches of the left periphery (a.) as an unarticulated CP (in the following: u-CP-analysis) and (b.) as a split CP in the cartographic tradition with FinP as bottleneck (in the following: s-CP-analysis).

A question that arises when trying to account for V3 phenomena is how the two approaches fare in that respect. Under the u-CP-analysis, basically the only possibility to derive V3 clauses is by “partial verb phrase fronting” or “remnant movement”, i.e. the VP from which parts have been removed is moved to SpecCP (4a; cf., inter alia, den Besten & Webelhuth 1990; G. Müller 1998; S. Müller 2003, 2005, Hinterhölzl 2006, 2009). In the s-CP-analysis, there would be in principle many landing sites available (indicated by underscores in the tree in Figure 4), if FinP did not function as a bottleneck. Either way, the constituents in the prefield are positioned independent of each other, be it by independent movement of the constituents (which leads to at least one violation of the generalized movement through SpecFin; cf. Speyer 2008a) or by base-generation of constituents in some positions and movement of (optimally one) constituent to another position (cf. Catasso 2021a, 2025 [this volume]).

Both analyses have their problems. The main problems with the u-CP-analysis are twofold. First: The final derivation shows many ungoverned traces in the VP-remnant (at least the subject, the verb, plus potentially material that has been moved out of the VP prior to raising it to SpecCP). Second: Movement out of VP is not necessarily warranted by information-structural features like focus. In Figure 3, which is an analysis of (2a), one could argue that the DP *1965* bears a focus feature by virtue of it being new information. But the clause could easily be extended by a phrase that is information-structurally inert and which would

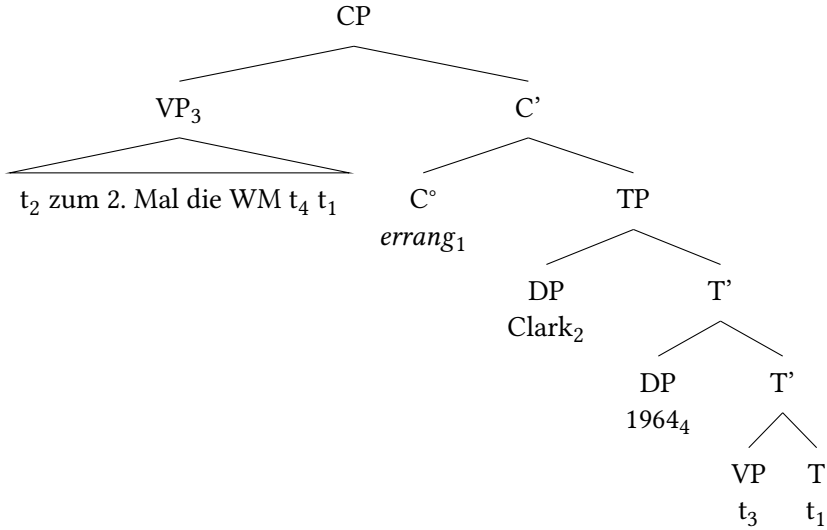


Figure 3: Multiple prefield movement in an unarticulated CP

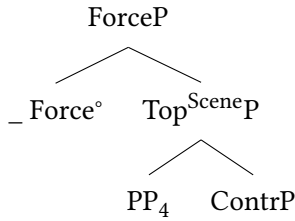


Figure 4: Multiple prefield movement in a split CP

have to be moved out regardless of its lacking information-structural features (3). This would violate the ban on movement that is not feature-driven.

(3) (Müller 2005: 299)

[Zum 2. Mal] [die Meisterschaft] errang Clark schließlich 1965.
 [to=the 2nd time] [the championship].ACC gained Clark finally 1965
 ‘Clark finally won the world championship for the second time in 1965.’

The main problem with the s-CP-approach is that the bottleneck is obviously circumvented somehow. Several attempts to explain this circumvention have been proposed: Speyer (2008a), for instance, assumes an optimality-theoretic module on top of the regular generative module. In his model, phrases can

be moved directly to a landing-site in the C-architecture, if SpecFin is already blocked; since this is, however, a “costly” operation (as it violates some optimality-theoretic constraints, among others a constraint that bans locality violations) it is done only rarely. Catasso (2021a, 2025 [this volume]) sees some phrases as being base-generated in the left periphery (in his model, the scene-setter “zum zweiten Mal” would be base-generated in the suitable specifier) and only one to be moved; thus, the bottleneck effect that constrains movement would be unharmed.

Let us now look at the advantages and predictions of these approaches for multiple prefield-filling. With the u-CP-analysis, the V2 effect comes for free, as there is only one specifier available for movement. V3 is derivable via remnant movement of a partially emptied VP. The predictions are that multiple prefield elements should always appear in the base-generated order (see Müller 2003: 54, 2005: 307–309). A second prediction would be that the subject should never be part of multiple prefield filling, as the subject is obligatorily moved out of the VP to SpecTP (Borsley & Suchsland 1997, Müller 2005: 309–310, Winkler 2014, 2017).¹ An exception are non-canonical subjects, like those of passive or medial constructions (Müller 2005: 299–300). The movement of the subject out of the VP is, however, a matter of dispute, as some researchers (e.g. Haider 2010) do not assume an independent TP in German.

On the other hand, the s-CP-analysis has the advantage that cases of multiple prefield filling can be accounted for in principle (although by circumventing the bottleneck effect somehow), as there are several landing sites available. The prediction here would be that the relative order of the multiple prefield elements should correspond to the hierarchical order of the cascade of split-CP-projections. So both analyses lead to clear predictions that can be checked.

2.2 Predictions of the u-CP-analysis

What would be the exact order predicted by the u-CP-analysis? As we might assume that only the unscrambled VP can be moved to the prefield, the order would have to conform to the base-generated order that is the outcome of the flattened-out hierarchical structure of VP. We already said that we would not expect subjects to appear in a VP remnant, as they are moved out of the VP for independent reasons. The base-generated relative order of dative and accusative objects is a matter of debate (see e.g. Speyer 2015): Dative before Accusative (Dat > Acc) is the unmarked order (e.g. Lenerz 1977, Höhle 1982), but there are good

¹Winkler (2014, 2017) offers a constraint-based approach to the multiple filling of the prefield

arguments in favor of a base-generated serialization Acc > Dat. First: In cases in which the dative and the accusative object refer to the same entity, it is the accusative which binds the dative reflexive/reciprocal and not vice versa (6; e.g. G. Müller 1999, Speyer 2015).

- (4) a. Gestern hat Gwendolyn die Gäste einander
yesterday has Gwendolyn the.ACC guests.ACC each=other.DAT
vorgestellt.
introduced
'Yesterday, Uller Gwendolyn introduced the guests to each other.'
- b. * Gestern hat Gwendolyn den Gästen einander
yesterday has Gwendolyn the.DAT guests.DAT each=other.ACC
vorgestellt.
introduced
'Yesterday, Uller Gwendolyn introduced the guests to each other.'
- c. Die Therapie gab die beiden einander wieder.
the therapy gave the.ACC both.ACC each=other.DAT again
'The therapy gave the two back to each other.'
- d. * Die Therapie gab den beiden einander wieder.
the therapy gave the.DAT both.DAT each=other.ACC again
'The therapy gave the two back to each other.'

This indicates that the accusative object is higher in the tree than the dative object.

Second: If we assume that the "Rektion" (i.e. assignment of case or other formal features to the complement) of a verb works via c-command (and not m-command), and the arguments which are not c-commanded receive structural case, we notice that the argument structure of most trivalent verbs is 'nominative – accusative – X'. where 'X' stands for a variable morphosyntactic shape of the argument (5). This could be, for instance, a dative DP (5a), a genitive DP (5b), a PP object (5c)² or an argument in the form of an adverbial (i.e. whose exact form is not determined by the governing verb, 7d).

- (5) a. Gestern hat Uller das Buch dem Lehrer geliehen.
yesterday has Uller the.ACC book.ACC the.DAT teacher.DAT lent
'Yesterday, Uller lent the book to the teacher.'

²The PP headed by *nach* counts as prepositional object because its form, that is, the choice of the preposition, is determined by the verb.

- b. Gestern hat Gwendolyn den Anwalt des Betrugs
yesterday has Gwendolyn the.ACC attorney.ACC the.GEN fraud.GEN
bezichtigt.
accused
'Yesterday, Gwendolyn accused the lawyer of fraud.'
- c. Gestern hat das Finanzamt die Steuern nach dem
yesterday has the revenue=office the taxes.ACC after the
Einkommen bemessen.
income measured
'Yesterday, the revenue office measured the taxes according to the
income.'
- d. Gestern hat Uller die Vase auf den Kaminsims gestellt.
yesterday has Uller the vase.ACC on the mantelpiece put
'Yesterday, Uller put the vase on the mantelpiece.'

This is explained rather neatly under the assumption that the nominative and the accusative are structural cases, whereas the variable argument shape of the sister argument to the verb is an outcome of c-command by the verb.

Third: If we assume that passivization is subject to a locality constraint in the sense that the DP which is closest to TP moves to SpecTP (in active clauses this would be the subject as it is the specifier of the highest V-shell, in passive clauses it would be the highest available DP below the subject position, the agentive subject having been removed), we notice that the "normal" passive of trivalent verbs promotes the accusative object (8a, 9).³ For promoting of the dative object another auxiliary has to be used, viz. *bekommen* 'to get' (6b). The fact that passivization promotes the accusative object although other objects are available again indicates that the accusative is in a higher position than the dative/genitive/prepositional object.

- (6) a. (... dass die Polizei dem Raser den
that the.NOM police.NOM the.DAT speeder.DAT the.ACC
Führerschein entzogen hat)
driving-license.ACC withdrawn has
'... that the police withdrew the speeder his driving license.'

³Note that the order of the dative object and the subject might be inverted due to the strong tendency to put animated referents first, but this does not touch the argument.

- passive: ... dass der Führerschein dem Raser
 that the.NOM driving-license.NOM the.DAT speeder.DAT
 entzogen wurde.
 withdrawn became
 ‘... that the driving license was withdrawn to the speeder.’
- b. ... dass der Raser den Führerschein entzogen
 that the.NOM speeder.NOM the.ACC driving-license.ACC withdrawn
 bekam.
 got
 ‘... that the speeder got his driving license withdrawn.’

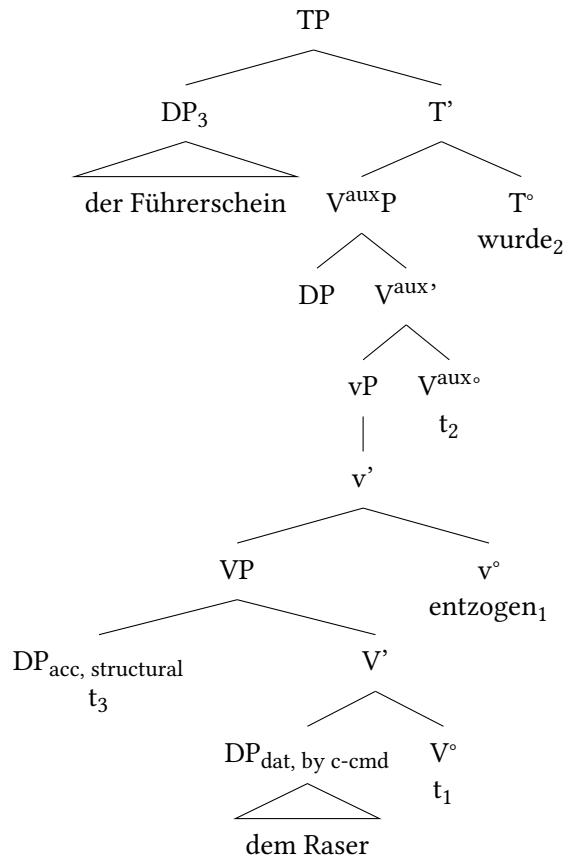


Figure 5: Passivization with accusative object higher than dative object

So the order in the prefield filled by a remnant VP should be accusative before dative. It is a general problem that this generalization does not hold, i.e. we do find both orders in complex prefields (s. 10a,b). Ex. (7a) with dative before accusative is slightly adapted from Müller (2005: 324, ex. 56a); ex. (7b) is a version in which the object order is inverted. However, both versions are acceptable. It is not clear how to account for that phenomenon. For partial VP-movement, both orders are on a par, for deep structural processes like binding and case assignment, the accusative before dative order appears to be the more basic one. This is left for further research, but see Voigtmann & Speyer (2024) for a tentative solution.

For other constituents we would expect the base-generated order as well, for instance or adverbials. Their position is notoriously hard to determine, however. Adverbials of time and place scope over the subject (see e.g. Frey & Pittner 1998), but the observable normal position in the clause is after the subject (10c vs. 10d).⁴ One might explain this by assuming that they are adjoined within the TP, from which they scope over the VP and thus over the base-position of the subject.

- (7) a. Seiner Freundin diesen Ring glaube ich nicht, dass er
his.DAT girl-friend.DAT this.ACC ring.ACC believe I not that he
schenken wird.
present will
'I don't think that he will give this ring to his girl-friend as a
present.'
- b. Diesen Ring seiner Freundin glaube ich nicht, dass er
his.DAT girl-friend.DAT this.ACC ring.ACC believe I not that he
schenken wird.
present will
'I don't think that he will give this ring to his girl-friend as a
present.'
- c. ... dass Uller gestern einen Brief nach Ulm geschickt hat.
that Uller.NOM yesterday a.ACC letter.ACC to Ulm sent has
'... that Uller sent a letter to Ulm yesterday.'
- d. ? ... dass gestern Uller einen Brief nach Ulm geschickt hat.
that yesterday Uller.NOM a.ACC letter.ACC to Ulm sent has
'... that Uller sent a letter to Ulm yesterday.'

⁴Frey & Pittner (1998) explain this word order by saying that definite DPs scramble across the temporal adverbial. But then it would be a scrambled word order, and consequently we would not expect it in a multiply filled prefield.

So, we would regularly expect time and place adverbials after the subject (although, again, we would not expect the subject to appear in a complex prefield anyway).

2.3 Predictions of the s-CP-analysis

The predictions of the s-CP-analysis depend on the hierarchical order of the CP cascades which one assumes (see Section 1). I will outline the expectations following the model proposed in Speyer (2008a,b, 2019).

If the prefield is occupied by only one constituent, the prefield constituents fall mostly in four information structurally defined categories: phrasal discourse relation markers (= PDRM, 8a, e.g. Fetzner & Speyer 2019; in (8a) examples are given for markers of the discourse relations Narration and Consequence), scene-setting elements (8b, e.g. Jacobs 2001) which are termed also stage topics (Erteschik-Shir 1997, 2019), contrastive elements which roughly correspond to list contrastive topics (8c, see e.g. Büring 2003; Lee 2006), and aboutness topics in the sense of Reinhart (1981) (8d, cf. e.g. Molnár 1991; Bader & Portele 2019). These aboutness topics are given information as a rule; topics representing new information are only allowed in the prefield if they are relevant or the macrostructure of the discourse (e.g. if they continue to be topics for a certain stretch of clauses, see Speyer 2009).

- (8) a. Dann/Folglich hat Uller das Buch dem Lehrer
then/consequently has Uller the.ACC book.ACC the.DAT teacher.DAT
geliehen.
lent
'Then/consequently, Uller lent the book to the teacher.'
- b. Gestern hat Uller das Buch dem Lehrer geliehen.
yesterday has Uller the.ACC book.ACC the.DAT teacher.DAT lent
'Yesterday, Uller lent the book to the teacher.'
- c. Das Buch hat Uller dem Lehrer geliehen (und
the.ACC book.ACC has Uller the.DAT teacher.DAT lent and
den Taschenrechner seiner Freundin).
the.ACC pocket-calculator.ACC his.DAT girl-friend.DAT
'As for the book, Uller lent it to the teacher, and as for the pocket
calculator, he lent it to his girl friend.'

- d. (context: Uller ist echt nett.) Er hat das Buch
 Uller is really nice he has the.ACC book.ACC the.DAT
 dem Lehrer geliehen.
 teacher.DAT lent
 ‘(Uller is really nice.) He lent the book to the teacher.’

If a clause contains no constituent that fulfills one of the above-mentioned conditions, there is an elsewhere-condition, i.e. that the highest middle field element is moved to the prefield or an expletive is base-generated there (Fanselow 2002; Frey 2006; Speyer 2009). If a clause contains more than one constituent that fulfills one of the conditions outlined above, the prefield slot is filled according to the hierarchy in (9).

- (9) PDRM >> scene-setting element >> contrastive element >> aboutness topic

While this does not say much yet about the structure of the left periphery it already suggests that the final targets of prefield movement are specialized positions bearing information structural features (at least in the case of scene-setting elements, contrastive elements and aboutness topics) in the spirit of Rizzi’s (1997) cartographic approach. Grewendorf (2002) adopts Rizzi’s (1997) cascade (10a) and assumes it to hold for German as well, with FinP as bottleneck. Speyer (2008a) applies the Rizzi/Grewendorf hierarchy to the cases which he observed in his study on an ENHG corpus (10b, adapted).

- (10) a. ForceP > Top*P > FocP > Top*P > FinP
 b. ForceP > Top^{scene}P > ContrP > Top^{about}P > FinP

The hierarchical order mirrors the hierarchy of prefield elements. The selection of prefield elements follows this hierarchy. PDRMs stand in the specifier of the highest projection ForceP, since they establish a link to the context. Scene-setting elements first are moved to SpecFin and finally land in SpecTop^{scene}P, because they bear the apt feature for this movement; likewise, contrastive elements move to SpecContrP, aboutness topics end up in SpecTop^{about}P. Finally, elements subject to the elsewhere condition either are moved to SpecFinP (if they are the highest middle field constituent and thus undergo formal movement) and are not moved further (as they lack a suitable information structural feature) or are directly merged in SpecFinP (expletives) in order to saturate the EPP feature located there (Catasso 2021a, 2025 [this volume]). More important, however, is that the order mirrors scope relations: PDRMs scope over the whole utterance

including scene and proposition. Scene-setting elements scope over the proposition regardless of the role the proposition plays in discourse. Within the proposition, contrastive elements, being members of an evoked set, function as very local topics in whose scope a (less local) aboutness topic can linger on (like the classic English topicalization example *Beans he likes, but peas he hates*: Here the referent of *he* functions as aboutness topic for both clauses, but is in the scope of the two enumerated members of the set of edible vegetables).

Turning to the original question, we would expect the constituents in a multiply-filled prefield to linearize in accordance with the hierarchical structure in (10b).

3 Multiple prefields in ENHG

In this section, the predictions outlined in Sections 2.1 and 2.2 will be checked on ENHG data. A question which immediately comes to mind is, why ENHG and not another historical stage of German? There are several answers to that question. First, ENHG is the earliest period in the German language history in which there is a large production of original prose. The textual testimony of earlier stages of German either is mostly in rhyme (Middle High German and the original texts of Old High German) or is more or less literally translated (most Old High German texts are translations) and therefore only to be used with caution for the question followed here (see e.g. Catasso 2021b). Second, the constraint that the prefield host only one constituent is almost categorical, but not yet quite so as in ModG, so there is the chance of finding examples for multiple prefields. Third, for ENHG a parsed corpus is available (*Referenzkorpus Frühneuhochdeutsch*⁵), which simplifies the search considerably.

The ANNIS-search in the ReF yielded in 86 multiply filled prefields, after manual elimination of false hits (such as left dislocations).⁶ Table 1 orders the hits such that those, which would conform to the expectations set out in Section 2.3, are in the fields above the non-applicatur-diagonal, those which do not conform to the expectations are in the fields below this diagonal.

We see that 71 tokens, or 83%, conform to the hierarchical order posited in (10b) while 15 do not. Very robust are especially the relative orders ‘PDRM > aboutness topic’ (11a) and ‘scene-setting element > aboutness topic’ (11b). Contrastive elements and aboutness topics do not show a clear picture in this search. In fact, the reverse ordering ‘topic > contrastive element’ is more common. However, some

⁵<https://www.linguistics.rub.de/ref/corpus>

⁶Many thanks to Nils Dörr for conducting the ANNIS-search.

Table 1: Information structural properties of 1st and 2nd element in pre-field.

1 st element	2 nd element				Sum
	PDRM	Scene-setting	Constr. element	Aboutness topic	
PDRM		9	7	35	51
Scene-setting	3		2	17	19
Contrastive	3			1	1
Aboutness topic	4	2	3		
Total (exp. order)					71
Sum tokens (unexpected order)	10	2	3		15
Total (unexp. order)					15

examples have been found in the manual corpus search on which Speyer (2008a) is based, I present one example from here (11c).⁷

- (11) a. deßhalb sein lob erhal gar weit.
therefore his praise sound.SBJ very far
‘Therefore, his praise shall sound very far.’ (Pfaffe vom Kalenberg, from ReF)
- b. darunter etliche schoene Teppich waren auff gebrait.
thereunder many beautiful carpets were on spread
‘Under that, many beautiful carpets were spread.’ (Der Artzney Doctorn vnd bestellten Medici zu Augspurg, from ReF)
- c. anders ich moehte sin nüt erlitten haben
other.ACC I might he.GEN not suffered have
‘Another thing I would not have been able to suffer for him.’
(Merswin, Bonner Frühneuhochdeutschkorpus 231.16.17, from Speyer 2008a:ex.38)

⁷The examples presented in Speyer (2008a: ex.33) are controversial in that they might be verb-final clauses, as the text discussing these examples clearly concedes. Catasso (2021c) refutes these examples as exponent of the ordering ‘contrastive element > topic’, but his wording suggests that Speyer (2008a) overlooked the possibility that these could be verb-final clauses. This is clearly not the case. The example on which the order is illustrated (ex. 38 in Speyer 2008a) is not taken into consideration in Catasso (2021c).

But the results are quite robust for PDRMs high up in the tree, on the next level scene-setting elements and then the others.

We see that orders such as in (11c) do not conform to the base order in the VP. So they cannot be instances of remnant movement. Moreover, (11c) contains the subject of the clause. If we assume that the subject is moved out of the VP on independent grounds, we would not expect subjects in the VP remnant. With order such as in (14a-b), it is different. Although they contain subjects as well, they could be analyzed in three ways: as remnant VP movement (if the scene-setting element or the PDRM is adjoined above the subject), as independent movement of the two constituents, or, following Catasso (2021a), as movement of the topic plus base generation of the PDRM/scene-setting element.

There are some unambiguous examples for remnant VP movement in the corpus (if we allow subjects to be part of the VP remnant). To wit, these are those that do not conform to the predicted serialization in Table 1. In (12a), an example is presented in which the topic precedes the contrastive element. Note that the topic is the subject and thus the highest VP element. In (12b), a topic subject precedes the scene-setting adverbial, which under the hierarchical stacking in (10b) should be excluded, but which would be a regular serialization in the middle field.

- (12) a. Kung Karl von allen dingen was nicht pegirdiger zu thuen.
king Charles of all things was not avid.COMP to do
'King Charles was not more avid to do any of all things.' (Füetrer, from ReF)
- b. Dieselben menschen alle vor peichten all ir sünd.
the-same humans all before confess all their sins
'Beforehand, the same people, all of them, confess all their sins'
(Hartlieb, from ReF)

So, the ENHG grammar seems to have allowed for both, independent movement of more than one constituent into the C-architecture and movement of a VP remnant. The necessary bypassing of the bottleneck SpecFin is assumed to be costly and therefore this is employed only rarely. On the other side, also remnant-VP-movement can only be applied if there is an information structural trigger, such as a contrastive feature on the whole VP.

4 The way to ModG: Syntactic change?

As many cases of multiple prefield filling are ambiguous between remnant-VP-movement (the u-CP-analysis) and independent movement of <1 constituent (the

s-CP-analysis), language learners might eventually have settled for one of the variant, the u-CP-analysis.⁸ This is largely the picture in ModG (see e.g. Müller 2005). However, there is still a residue of the “old” s-CP-analysis, namely multiple prefields with a scene-setting element or a PDRM followed by a topical element (13). Although this construction is often associated with Kiezdeutsch (16a, a variety spoken by multiethnic urban teenagers), such clauses occur in other varieties (such as standard German) as well (13b).⁹ Note that the source of (13b) is not a source that is associated with a very casual register.

- (13) a. Dann die sind zur U Bahn gerannt.
then they are to=the subway run
‘Then they ran to the subway.’ (Kiezdeutsch, from Wiese et al. 2017: ex.11b)
- b. An den SWR1-Wetterstationen wir messen...
at the SWR1-weather-stations we measure
‘At SWR1’s weather stations we measure...’ (SWR1 BW, 2/15/2016, 2:05pm)
- c. Nach ihrer_i Tat die_i sind zur U Bahn gerannt.
after their action they are to=the subway run
‘After their action, they ran to the subway.’

As the scene-setting and/or PDRM elements occupying the first position in the clauses in (13) is possible also in the middle field, there is no good reason to assume that they are base-generated in SpecTop^{scene}P (contra Catasso 2021a, 2025 [this volume]). Reconstruction of possessive binding relations is also possible (16c; altered version of (13a)), indicating that the subject originally c-commanded the scene-setter at an earlier stage of the derivation, which again speaks in favor of movement and against base-generation of the scene-setting element.

So the question is whether a syntactic change has occurred between ENHG and ModG. For syntactic change *stricto sensu*, the answer to this question is negative: ENHG offered at least two structural configurations that led to a multiply

⁸It might be noted that a similar situation arose already 1000 years earlier, in Old High German. Petrova (2023) pursues the question whether main clauses with the verb in a position after the second position are genuine verb-third clauses or verb final clauses. She finds that most examples are ambiguous with respect to both analyses and concludes that they coexisted at that time, without being sharply distinguished in terms of functions.

⁹As a reviewer points out, it is of course unlikely that migrants pick up an Early New High German pattern. However, they do not so much pick up a specific pattern, but a clause structure which allows for this pattern. The difference of Kiezdeutsch to standard German is that the constraint to use only one prefield element is less strict in Kiezdeutsch (see Speyer 2008b for an OT analysis of single prefields) so that deviations from this constraint occur more often.

filled prefield: independent movement of more than one phrase to the C-architecture, and movement of a partially emptied VP to the C-architecture. Both structural configurations are still possible in ModG. But we see nevertheless a change in frequency: Cases which are not analyzable as remnant-VP-movement have become more rare and are basically confined to one residual construction in ModG, viz. scene-setting element > topic > finite verb. We saw in Section 3 that some ENHG examples are ambiguous between an analysis as remnant-VP-movement and an analysis as independently moved constituents. It might well be that the u-CP-analysis (the analysis of the multiple prefield as movement of a partially emptied VP) is the result of a reanalysis of an original structure following the s-CP-analysis (14).¹⁰

- (14) a. in dem hohen schöwen jm werdent fur gehalten kunftige
in the high vision him.DAT become.3PL for held future
ding.
thing.PL
‘In the high vision, future things are presented to him.’ (Marquard von Lindau: De Nabuchonodosor, from ReF)
- b. [_{ForceP} [_{TopsceneP} in dem hohen schöwen₄ [_{ContrP} [_{TopaboutP} jm₃ [_{FinP} t₃ werdent₁ [_{TP} kunftige ding₂ [_{VP} t₂ t₃ t₄ fur gehalten t₁] t₁]]]]]]]]
- c. [_{ForceP} [_{TopsceneP} [_{ContrP} [_{TopaboutP} [_{VP} t₂ in dem hohen schöwen jm]₃ [_{FinP} t₃ werdent₁ [_{TP} kunftige ding₂ [_{VP} t₃ fur gehalten] t₁]]]]]]]]

The clause in (14a) would be analyzed following the (older) s-CP-analysis by the parent generation (14b). A u-CP-analysis would be possible, as the order conforms to the structure of the VP, apparent in the middle field serialization (14c). It is reasonable to assume that the language learner might opt for the u-CP-analysis in (14c) because it contains less structure and because it does not display a violation of the bottleneck effect. Since the u-CP-analysis is more economic, it becomes the default option to analyze multiple prefields and enters the competence in that the original freedom to utilize movement of more than one phrase in the C-architecture by bypassing the bottleneck SpecFinP is gradually lost, with the exception of the specialized scene-setter/PDRM plus topic cases demonstrated in (13). In ModG, most, probably all, instances of double filled prefield are either analyzable by the u-CP-analysis or the s-CP-analysis in its stripped down version

¹⁰The extraposition of the subject in the original sentence complicates the analysis somewhat; I offer the analysis with the subject still in SpecTP, thus deviating from the original sentence, to keep things at least approximately clear.

with only SpecTop^{scene}P and SpecTop^{about}P available.¹¹ This change contributes to the further establishment of the strict V2-character of German, in that former exceptions to V2 are analyzed as only spurious violations of V2.

5 Conclusion

We saw that multiple prefield filling in ENHG can be the result of two processes: Independent movement of more than one constituent into the C-architecture, or movement of a VP remnant as the only phrase. Whereas in ENHG cases which are at least analyzable as multiple movement are most common, in ModG the picture is reversed: Here the majority of cases is analyzable as remnant-VP-movement, with the residual “real” multiply filled prefield of the type scene-setting element > topic > finite verb. This suggests that in both periods of the language an articulated C-architecture in the style of Rizzi (1997) is available, although it is not utilized as freely as in e.g. the Romance or the Ugric languages because of the bottleneck effect. The bottleneck nature of German V2 became stronger over time (see Catasso 2021a,b, 2025 [this volume]), showing in a more restricted version of multiple prefield filling as opposed to ENHG and the fact that remnant-VP-movement has become the unmarked case.

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¹¹Strictly speaking, a change pertaining to the structure has occurred consequently, in that not all landing positions are available any more. SpecContrP seems to be unavailable in Modern German, as opposed to Spec Top^{scene}P and SpecTop^{about}P.

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Part II

Verb-third as a theoretical challenge: Generative perspectives

Chapter 3

On the probable non-existence of “bottlenecks” in V2-languages

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This paper addresses the question of how to account for the restricted left periphery of verb-second (V2) languages. The locality constraint known in the literature as the “bottleneck” is critically reviewed, and theoretical and empirical arguments against this hypothesis are presented. Reviewing the basic empirical generalisations regarding so-called “relaxed” (Old Romance) and “strict” (Modern Germanic) V2 languages, it is argued that the bottleneck hypothesis does not make any predictions for the former, and that there is direct counterevidence against the latter in the form of the Contrastive Left-Dislocation construction. The paper also discusses two different approaches to verb-second that do not involve “bottlenecks”.

Keywords: Syntax, verb-second, left periphery, cartography, Contrastive Left-Dislocation, phases, Germanic, Old Romance

1 Introduction

The verb-second (or V2) construction, which exists in all Modern Germanic varieties with the exception of English, generally requires the finite verb to be the linearly second constituent of the clause. In these languages, V2 is found in all declarative clauses and wh-questions as well as a narrowly definable subset of embedded clauses (Klævik-Pettersen 2019), regardless of the categorial status or grammatical function of the initial constituent, as the following examples from Modern Norwegian illustrate:



- (1) a. (Modern Norwegian)
 [Jeg] **solgte** bilen i forrige uke.
 I sold car.DEF in last week
 ‘I sold the car last week.’
 b. [Bilen] **solgte** jeg i forrige uke.
 c. [I forrige uke] **solgte** jeg bilen.

Cross-linguistically, V2 is a rare phenomenon, reportedly attested in quite diverse and geographically scattered varieties like Breton, Sorbian, Estonian, Kashmiri, Karitiana, and some dialects of Himachali (see Holmberg 2015 and references therein). Within the Germanic family, however, the construction has shown remarkable diachronic and diastatic stability, being attested for many languages in written corpora that span a millennium back (Eythórsson 1995, Walkden 2015) and found in all traditional dialects of the Germanic *sprachbund* (again except English) without distinction (though see Section 3.3 for the emergence of new varieties with innovation in the V2-grammar).

1.1 The “traditional analysis” of V2

Over the 1980’s and early 1990’s, an analysis of V2 was developed within the transformational generative framework (den Besten 1983, Travis 1984, Holmberg 1986, Chomsky 1986, Iatridou & Kroch 1992, Roberts 1993, Vikner 1995, Holmberg & Platzack 1995), which was generally accepted and enjoyed widespread consensus. According to this analysis, the finite verb in a V2 clause is attracted to the head of the maximal projection of the clause, the CP, while a single constituent is attracted to the specifier of CP. This analysis, which I will dub the “traditional analysis”, had the merit of explaining the linear second position of the verb and the restriction to a single constituent in the prefield, while also giving a plausible account of the (general) unavailability of verb-second in embedded clauses, since the head of CP in such would be lexicalised by a complementiser, thereby bleeding verb movement. All of these facts were given a unified account, and the verb-second construction was effectively reduced to an epiphenomenon of universal phrase structure coupled with V-to-C movement.¹

¹In (1), Head-to-Head movement is for simplicity shown as replacement rather than adjunction. Note also that the T⁰ head is not assumed to be an intermediate landing site of the verb, in line with the traditional assumption of only two verb position in Mainland Scandinavian (Holmberg & Platzack 1995, Vikner 1995), namely C⁰ (main clause V2) and in-situ (embedded clause non-V2). As a reviewer correctly points out, a direct movement of the verb from V-to-C is at odds with the Head Movement Constraint (Travis 1984). For a discussion of this issue, see Platzack (1986), Holmberg & Platzack (1995) and Vikner (1995).

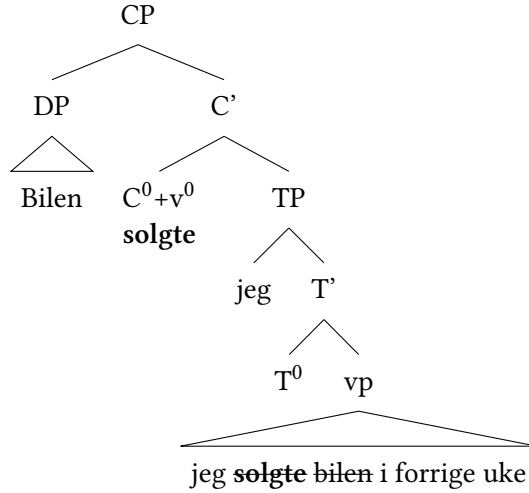


Figure 1: The traditional single CP-model of V2

In spite of its general success, the classical analysis encountered some empirical problems from the start. It was motivated by the facts of verb-second in Continental Germanic (Dutch and German), and even within other branches of the family like the Scandinavian languages, there is in fact no complementarity of verb-second and overt complementisers, counter to the predictions of the theory (Vikner 1995). Moreover, all Germanic V2-languages allow certain linear V3 orders, most notably in the so-called “Contrastive Left-Dislocation” (CLD) construction (2), forcing an exceptional CP-adjunction analysis (Figure 2).²

- (2) Bilen, den solgte jeg i forrige uke.
 car.the that sold I in last week
 ‘The car, I sold it last week.’

1.2 “Relaxed” V2 languages and cartography

Work on historical Romance varieties (Benincà 1983, Fontana 1993, Vance 1997, Vanelli 1998) revealed that many Old Romance languages featured verb-second

²It is important to note that linear non-V2 position in Modern Germanic V2 languages is not limited to the CLD construction. For instance, biscuit conditionals (Krifka 2017) and other “central” adverbial clauses can exhibit V3 in Continental Germanic (Csipak 2019, Breitbarth 2023), and certain adverbs induce V3 in Northern Germanic (Thráinsson 2007). For discussion, see Klævik-Pettersen (2019: ch. 2).

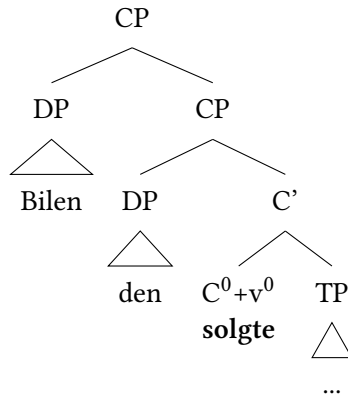


Figure 2: CP-recursion in the traditional model

type inversion and quite regularly featured the verb in linear second position, while at the same time not being nearly as consequent as Modern Germanic with respect to this linearization pattern, since V3 or even $V \geq 4$ -orders are also found. At the time, this observational fact earned them the descriptive label “relaxed V2 languages”, as opposed to the “strict” V2 languages of the Modern Germanic kind.

Alongside this emerging empirical landscape of variation saw new theoretical developments, noticeably the advent of cartography (Rizzi 1997 et seq.), which has demonstrated that many languages can combine several constituents in the left periphery of the clause. Clearly, a single CP cannot be a universal phrase structural reality, and therefore the linear position of the verb in Germanic V2 languages is no longer an epiphenomenon.

To use a forensic allegory, verb-second today appears like a case that was filed and closed, but which had to be reopened due to the discovery of new evidence. In this new, “cartographic” phase of investigation, new hypotheses were proposed to explain the V2-linearization and its exceptions. Currently, a hypothesis in favour by many syntacticians working on V2 in cartographic model holds that the CP/left-periphery is strongly articulated with many projections, but that at some point of the derivation, a “bottleneck” emerges which allows only one constituent to pass by movement.

1.3 The outline of the article

In this paper, I take issue with the “bottleneck” hypothesis on both theoretical and empirical grounds. I argue that the “bottleneck” is not indispensable for any

variety of V2-languages, whether “strict” or “relaxed”, and that for the latter, it is even vacuous and without effect. In sum, I question the existence of bottlenecks. I will also discuss other ways of accounting for the data, including the notoriously complicated question of explaining the restricted prefield of the Modern Germanic V2 languages.

The structure of the paper is as follows: In Section 2, I present the bottleneck hypothesis and briefly discuss some conceptual problems and theory-internal complications as well as empirical counterevidence. In Section 3, I consider the relevance of the bottleneck hypothesis for two different groups of V2-languages that have been proposed in the literature, the so-called “relaxed” (Section 3.1) and “strict” (Section 3.2) V2 languages, as well as a subgroup of the latter that I refer to as “semi-strict” (Section 3.3) V2 languages. I conclude that the hypothesis is either unhelpful by making no relevant predictions, or that there is indeed direct counterevidence. Finally, Section 4 discusses two alternative ways to account for the linearization of the verb and the restricted nature of the prefield in the Modern Germanic V2 languages.

2 The “bottleneck”-hypothesis

The evidence that has been summarily reviewed in the previous section should make it clear that the “traditional” analysis of verb-second (see Section 1.1) does not account for all the facts. In fact, it does not even achieve full descriptive adequacy for the Modern Germanic V2 languages (“strict V2”) for which it was originally developed, since linear V3 is permitted across the board in these languages in the CLD construction (2). With the benefit of hindsight, attempts to integrate these V3 orders in the form of “exceptional adjunction” (Iatridou & Kroch 1992) to an otherwise unitary CP-projection (see (2) above) seem today little more than patchwork. When we consider the more relaxed varieties, the problem grows more acute, since recursion or adjunction at the CP-layer would have to be iterative without any clear principle. The conclusion seems clear: the underlying assumption, that a main clause is universally a single CP-projection, is faulty, which the cartographic research program has demonstrated beyond reasonable doubt.

If, on the other hand, we pursue a cartographic logic to its ultimate conclusion by assuming that all languages universally exhibit the same wide array of dedicated projections in the left periphery, we are in essence faced with the opposite problem, for now the conundrum is no longer to fit the recalcitrant relaxed varieties with their articulated CPs into the theory, but rather to explain why the

“strict” V2 languages (generally) refuse to make use of more than a single projection. In other words, the V2-linearization of Modern Germanic V2 languages is again a fact in need of an explanation, and this is where the bottleneck hypothesis enters the stage.

2.1 A questionable locality mechanism

The bottleneck hypothesis is essentially a proposed mechanism of *locality*, and to be more precise, of *Relativised Minimality* (Rizzi 1990, 2004, Starke 2001, Abels 2012), which essentially states that a “specific” XP, commonly interpreted as an XP with a relatively rich feature make-up, can block crossing movement of a less specific XP. Originally proposed in Haegeman (1996), the perhaps most explicit formulation in the context of verb-second is provided by Roberts (2004). Adopting the conventional view that a head in the C-domain of V2 languages is equipped with an EPP-feature, Roberts goes on to state:

XP movement to Spec-Fin in full V2 clauses is movement caused only by Fin’s EPP feature.... The moved XP is thus of no particular type in terms of the typology of potential interveners, and so is able to block any type of movement. (Roberts 2004: 316)

This line of reasoning is not only stretching the logic of Relativised Minimality, it is “turning it upside-down”, to borrow an expression from Abels (2017). Rather, the final clause should read: “...is thus unable to block any type of movement”, since a blunt, formal EPP-feature should not be able to block the movement of topics or foci to the left periphery. Indeed, the EPP-feature that all textbook introductions to English syntax assume to be responsible for the merger of expletive subjects in Spec-TP does not have any blocking effect on A’-movement (3), since a focalised constituent is allowed to precede it. It is unclear why an EPP-feature on a head in the C-domain should work any differently:

(3) A: On Friday, it seemed like he was recovering.

B: No, on *Thursday* it seemed like he was recovering.

In spite of this, the bottleneck-hypothesis has been employed by many researchers working on V2 as an explanation for the restricted accessibility of the left periphery (Poletto 2002, Benincà & Poletto 2004, Cardinaletti 2009, Wolfe 2018, Meklenborg Salvesen 2019, Catasso 2022, 2025 [this volume]). The hypothesis builds on the generally accepted idea that the lowest head in the left periphery, Fin^0 , is equipped with an EPP-feature, since V2 languages are not allowed

to leave the prefield empty. This feature is either checked by the merger of an expletive subject directly in Spec-FinP or by “formal movement” of the subject to Spec-FinP (Frey 2004).

Proponents of the “bottleneck” assume that the EPP-feature is also involved when a topic or a focus is moved to the left periphery. In the latter case, Spec-FinP acts as an intermediate landing site caused by the EPP-feature, before the topic or focus moves on to Spec-TopP or Spec-FocP, respectively. This means the initial constituent in a V2-clause can be a topic or a focus (4), but the copy of the topic/focus in Spec-FinP blocks any subsequent movement operations, ruling out the combination of a topic *and* a focus (5). This gives a derivation as in Figure 3 (omitting non-lexicalised heads):

- (4) [Meine Mutter] **hat** das Buch gelesen, (nicht mein Vater)
 my.NOM mother has the.ACC book read not my.NOM father
 ‘My *mother* has read the book, (not my father)’
- (5) * [Das Buch] [Meine Mutter] **hat** gelesen, (nicht mein Vater)

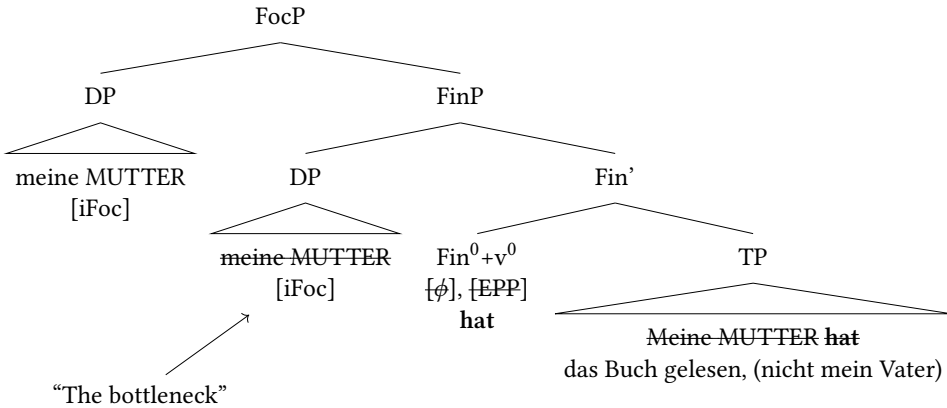


Figure 3: The bottleneck analysis

However, the bottleneck only constrains *movement*, meaning it should still be possible to first-merge an XP directly in the left periphery.

3 The role of the bottleneck in the derivation of V2-languages

Having presented the relevant theory, I will next consider to what extent the “bottleneck”-hypothesis can help us account for the different linearization pat-

terns of the verb in the typology of verb-second languages proposed in the literature. It has become quite common to talk about “relaxed V2 languages” (Section 3.1) and “strict V2 languages” (Section 3.2), but the empirical landscape does not conform to this neat dichotomy, which is the reason why I have chosen to add a section (Section 3.3) on some varieties that I refer to as “semi-strict V2 languages.”

3.1 “Relaxed” V2-languages: No evidence for a bottleneck

The term “relaxed V2” languages has been used predominantly to characterize various Old Romance varieties. According to many researchers, these languages seem to feature V-to-C movement of the verb in declarative clauses, since they display subject-verb inversion with all types of predicates, but at the same time, deviations from the linear V2 pattern in the form of V3 or even V4 (or more) are not infrequently attested. It is well-known that the different branches and varieties of Old Romance do not behave in a uniform way with respect to the linearization of the verb. Old French (Vance 1997), Old Northern Italian (Poletto 2014) and possibly Old Spanish (Wolfe 2018) only feature a quantitatively as well as qualitatively quite limited set of linear $V \geq 3$ orders (see Section 3.3), while other varieties like Old Neapolitan (Ledgeway 2009), Sicilian, Sardinian or Occitan (Wolfe 2018) are more permissive of these verb-later orders. In this article, I will not be concerned with the proper classification of any individual variety as “relaxed” or “strict”, but rather with the relevance of the bottleneck-hypothesis for the derivation of the different types of verb-second.³

The decisive empirical fact to explain is how some varieties generate linear sequences with the verb in 3rd-or-later position. An example like (6) from Old Florentine seem to feature two arguments of the verb in preverbal position, while a V4 order like (7) potentially feature an initial scene-setting adverbial followed by a topic corresponding to the subject of the clause and then a focalised constituent (‘by divine virtue’):

³It is also worth pointing out that the quite frequent linear $V \geq 3$ -orders of Old Romance have led some researchers to reject the label “verb-second” for these languages altogether (Kaiser 2002, Rinke & Meisel 2009, Sitaridou 2012, Martins 2019). This debate is partially a matter of definition, since it raises the question whether V-to-C movement is the sole criterion for calling a language “verb-second” or whether the linear position of the verb should also matter, and partially a matter of analysis, since it raises the question whether all Romance languages did indeed feature consistent V-to-C movement at all. For discussion, see Klævik-Pettersen (2019).

- (6) (Old Florentine, *Novellino* (40). Adapted from Benincà 2004: 276.)
 [Ad ogni matto] [i savi] **paiono** matti...
 To each mad.person the wise.persons seem.3PL mad
 ‘To every crazy person, the wise seem crazy...’
- (7) (Old Sicilian, *Sanctu Gregoriu* (262). Taken from Wolfe 2015: 26)
 [tamen poy di la morti loru], [li ossa loru] [pir virtuti divina]
 Then after of the death their the bones their by virtue divine
operannu miraculi.
 perform.3PL miracles
 ‘Then after their death, their bones perform miracles through divine virtue.’

An articulated left-periphery with distinct positions for topics and foci provides a better tool for describing such sequences than a unitary CP, but what role does the “bottleneck” play in the derivation of these clauses? If only one constituent can be moved from the clause into the C-layer before the copy in Spec-Fin blocks all subsequent fronting operations, then it must necessarily be the constituent to the immediate left of the finite verb, in other words *i savi* in (6) and *pir virtuta divina* in (7). This would in turn mean that the preceding constituents in both cases have been first-merged in the left-periphery. This is a theoretically unattractive assumption, since *ad ogni matto* and *li ossa loru*, while potentially interpretable as topics, are both also arguments of the verb and as such equipped with features that need to be checked inside the core clause; as a minimum, theta-roles that should be checked in the vP/VP, and possibly also case features. If the arguments are merged directly in the left-periphery, we would have to countenance the possibility of “Upward Agree” from the relevant heads inside the clause, and presumably across several phase heads (Gallego 2012), an *ad-hoc* solution that should be avoided on grounds of principle. But more importantly, even if one accepts this solution, it is highly unclear what predictive power the “bottleneck” has in these varieties. The reason is that there is no principled way of telling whether the constituents to the left of the immediately preverbal constituent have been moved – which would mean there is no “bottleneck” – or whether they have been first-merged. As a proposed principle of locality, the bottleneck hypothesis is supposed to predict what is *not* grammatical or what is *not* encountered in corpora, but in the absence of principled constraints on what can be first-merged directly in the left-periphery, no empirical predictions arise.

3.2 “Strict” V2-languages: Evidence against the bottleneck

The strict V2-languages are the varieties that allow only a highly limited set of linear $V \geq 3$ -positions of the verb, most notably in the CLD-construction. These are the Modern Germanic languages (except for English) which gave the phenomenon its name and for which the “classical analysis” was developed in the first place. In the previous section it was argued that the bottleneck-hypothesis does not really achieve anything for the “relaxed” V2 varieties, but the empirical situation is different in the Modern Germanic V2 languages. These do not allow topic-focus combinations in the prefield of the verb, or for that matter most imaginable combinations of left peripheral elements, and the idea of a bottleneck accordingly has a lot stronger intuitive appeal here. They do, however, allow two different dislocation structures, namely the CLD and the closely related “Hanging Topic left-dislocation (HTLD)” (Catasso 2022). The surface structures of these constructions are very similar, making it hard to tease them apart. Both CLD and HTLD consist of a dislocated constituent in the initial position of the clause and a co-referential resumptive inside the clause. At least for Continental Germanic, research has revealed a battery of diagnostics that together help identify the construction. Unfortunately, many of these diagnostics are not exclusive to the one or the other construction, but rather preferentially associated with one of them. For example, in CLD, the form of the resumptive is “typically a D-pronoun, preferably (but not necessarily) placed in the left periphery”, while in HTLD “it is always a personal pronoun, often (but again not invariably) placed in the middle field” (den Dikken & Surányi 2017: 544). An very important diagnostic is that the dislocated topic and the resumptive always match for case in CLD, while in HTLD, the dislocated topic may carry default case, in other words nominative. Additionally, it is often possible to distinguish the HTLD and CLD on the basis of prosody (Shaer & Frey 2004).⁴

If we consider an example like (8), the form and placement of the resumptive in the left-periphery as well as case agreement between the dislocated topic and the resumptive all point towards the CLD-construction:

- (8) [Den Wagen_i], [den_i] **habe** ich letzte Woche verkauft.
the.ACC car that.ACC have I last week sold
‘The car, I sold it last week.’

According to the “bottleneck”-hypothesis, only one constituent can be moved from the clause into the left periphery, since a copy of this constituent in Spec-

⁴I thank an anonymous reviewer for calling this publication to my attention.

FinP will block subsequent movement. After this derivational move, the left periphery is only accessible through direct external merge. The question is thus if *Den Wagen* in (8) can plausibly be assumed to be externally merged directly in its initial position in the left periphery. This is the same question that was raised and answered in the negative for some of the left-peripheral constituents attested in the “relaxed varieties” of Old Romance (see Section 3.1). Unlike the latter, however, example (8) features a resumptive pronoun inside the clause which could have checked the θ -features of the verb and saturated its argument structure before moving to the left periphery and sealing off the bottleneck. The initial topic *Den Wagen* could therefore potentially be merged just to check a topic feature. However, the fact remains that the left-dislocated topic carries overt case morphology, a strong indicator of a clause-internal first-merge position. Moreover, topics in CLD also show other hallmarks of connectivity into the clause, such as the binding of anaphora, which the HTLD construction fails to exhibit (den Dikken & Surányi 2017: 545). While HTLD, due to lack of case agreement and other signs of connectivity, seems like a very plausible candidate for an analysis based on late external merge, the CLD is a priori to be analysed as a movement dependency.

At first sight, this seems like counterevidence to the bottleneck hypothesis, since both the topic and the resumptive would have moved to the C-domain. At least two different movement-analyses have been proposed in the literature. According to the first, CLDs are moved to the specifier of a low left peripheral projection before eventually moving on to a higher left peripheral projection. The lower copy is spelled out as a resumptive. This is the analysis in Grohmann (2003), which could potentially be incorporated into the “bottleneck hypothesis” by assuming that the lower C-projection in question is FinP, while the higher is a dedicated Topic-projection (Catasso 2021). On this analysis, the CLD-construction does not involve two individual movement operations to the left periphery, but a single movement chain with spell-out of the head (the topic) and the intermediate copy (the resumptive).

The other movement-analysis of CLD is the one proposed by Ott (2014), who argues for an asyndetic, bi-clausal coordination structure with sluicing-like ellipsis of the entire TP of the first conjunct under conditions of identity. The ellipsis-analysis of Ott only superficially involves a linear V3 order, since both the dislocated topic and the resumptive are in fact underlyingly the initial element of their own, perfectly well-behaved V2 clause. On this analysis, the need for additional external merge disappears completely for the CLD-construction.

- (8) [Den Wagen_i], [den_i] **habe** ich letzte Woche verkauft.
the.ACC car that.ACC have I last week sold
‘The car, I sold it last week.’
- (9) [CP1 Den Wagen_i [C⁰ ~~habe ich letzte Woche t_i verkauft~~]], [CP den_i
CP1 the.ACC car C⁰ have I last
[C⁰ **habe** ich t_i letzte Woche verkauft]]
week (t) sold CP the.ACC have I last week sold
‘The car, I sold it last week.’

Discussing at length the two competing analyses, den Dikken & Surányi (2017) highlight several theoretical and empirical problems for Ott’s (2014) analysis. Theoretically, they argue that the sluicing-like operation is *sui generis* and does not assimilate to otherwise attested cases of ellipsis. On the empirical side, the analysis fails to account for cases of P-stranding and “floated” arguments. Furthermore, it does not extend to cover the HTLD construction, which cannot be derived through clausal ellipsis and which is therefore demonstrably a bona fide linear V3-construction. In fact, the authors argue that the most sensible way to derive the differences between the CLD and HTLD is precisely to assume that the former is a movement dependency while that latter involves base-generation of the topic directly in the left periphery. I refer the reader to den Dikken and Surányi’s paper for the details; I will hereafter assume that a movement analysis of CLD is correct.⁵

As was already mentioned, “vanilla”-style CLD with a resumptive in the left-periphery (*Den Wagen, den...*) is not incompatible with the bottleneck-hypothesis, since we could in fact potentially be dealing with a single movement chain. However, there is more empirical variation within the CLD-construction than this standard scenario. As den Dikken and Surányi point out, the resumptive can sometimes be located in the middle field rather than the prefield, and gives (10) as an example from Dutch:⁶

⁵It is worth pointing out that, even if Ott’s (2014) analysis of CLD turned out to be correct (and if it turned out to extend to HTLD), it would be unclear what this would involve, if anything, for the “bottleneck hypothesis” of V2. On Ott’s analysis, there is no need at all for external merge “on top” of the V2 construction, since CLD just conceals two normal V2 constructions that are juxtaposed. Linear V2 would be without exception, which suggests that if there is a bottleneck at play, it does not only block movement, but even external merge. Such a principle of locality is to my knowledge unattested.

⁶A reviewer asks why example (10) cannot be analysed as a HTLD-construction rather than a CLD. According to den Dikken and Surányi, the resumptive in HTLD is “always as a personal pronoun” in Dutch. In other words, the presence of the resumptive D-pronoun in (10) is a reliable diagnostic of CLD.

- (10) (den Dikken & Surányi 2017: 554)
 [Die man], [ik] **ken** die niet.
 the man I know *d-pronoun* not
 ‘That man, I don’t know him.’

The authors argue that such examples do not compromise Grohmann’s (2003) analysis of CLD, since the sequence could involve several left peripheral positions, with the topic and its resumptive still being part of the same movement chain. Be that as it may, this derivation clearly violates the bottleneck-hypothesis, since the intervening subject *ik* simply must have been moved to the left-periphery from the clause, meaning (10) involves at least two movement operations to the left periphery. The only possible solution out of the problem would be to suggest that since there is no subject-verb inversion, such examples exceptionally do not involve V-to-C movement of the verb at all, and that only the initial topic is in the left periphery, giving Figure 4.

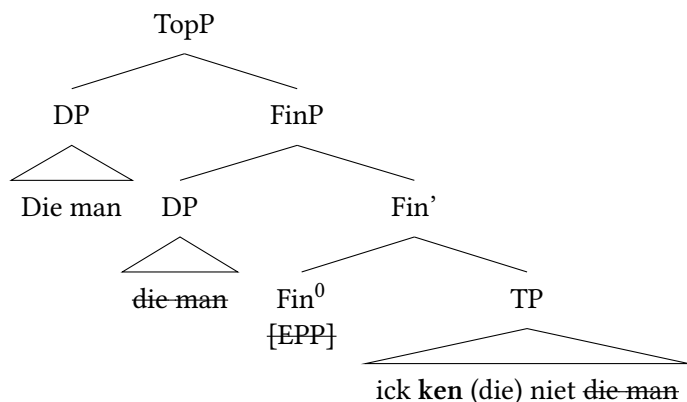


Figure 4: Multiple left-peripheral constituents in Dutch

This would salvage the bottleneck hypothesis, since there is only one movement to the left-periphery. However, it would be highly questionable for Continental Germanic, where the standard assumption is that the finite verb always moves to a C-head, and by corollary that all constituents in the prefield are always left-peripheral. Furthermore, it is possible to come across examples where a CLD-topic is followed by: an inversion structure with the resumptive in the middle field (11), a constituent marked prosodically and with a particle as a focus (12), or even a wh-phrase (13):

- (11) (den Dikken & Surányi 2017: 551)
 [Die man], [aan Marie] **zou** ik {die/hem} nooit voorstellen.
 the man to Marie should I *d-pronoun*/him never introduce
 ‘That man, I would never introduce to Marie.’
- (12) [Den Wagen], [selbst *Hans*] **würde** den nicht verkaufen.
 the.ACC car even Hans would that.ACC not sell
 ‘The car, even *Hans* wouldn’t sell it.’
- (13) (Abels 2019: 1212)
 [Den Jungen], [wer] **hat** den zuletzt gesehen?
 the.ACC boy who has him.ACC last seen
 ‘The boy, who saw him last?’

It does not seem possible to escape the conclusion that some cases of CLD involve multiple movement operations to the left periphery, which in turn entails that the “bottleneck hypothesis” of verb-second, at least in its current form, cannot be maintained. Considering that the analysis suffers from a dubious interpretation of Relativized Minimality (see Section 2.1) and that it produces no relevant predictions for so-called “relaxed” V2 varieties (see Section 3.1), other explanations for the surface linearization patterns involved in verb-second should be sought. Before turning to this matter, however, I will briefly consider a subgroup of V2 languages that merit to be kept apart from both “relaxed” and “strict V2” languages.

3.3 “Semi-strict” V2 languages

It has sometimes been claimed (see for instance Wolfe 2018) that certain Old Romance varieties were also “strict”, like Old French, Old Northern Italian and possibly Old Spanish. While it is true that these languages do not tend to accept linear V4 orders (see 7) or topic-focus combinations in the prefield, they do not strictly speaking pattern together with the Modern Germanic V2 languages empirically (as pointed out in Kaiser 2002 and many others since), since they allow the sequence “adjunct-subject-verb”:

- (14) (*La Vie d’Eustace*, VI.3–4; Murray 1929: 8)
 [Quant il li ot tot conté], [sa feme] s’ **escria** e li dist...
 when he her.CL had all told his wife REFL cried and him said...
 ‘When he had told her everything, his wife cried out and said to him...’

3 On the probable non-existence of “bottlenecks” in V2-languages

Interestingly, this pattern mirrors with astonishing precision the V3 orders found in certain Modern Germanic dialects that could be described as “contact varieties”, like Flemish spoken in bilingual communities on both sides of the Belgian-French border (Haegeman & Greco 2018) or in the “Germanic Urban Vernaculars” that are characteristic of immigrant communities in urban areas and that have been attested widely across the Germanic family (Kotsinas 1998, Nistov & Opsahl 2014, Quist 2008, Walkden 2017a, Cournane & Klævik-Pettersen 2023). Empirically speaking, then, we have a group of languages that could be described as “semi-strict” since they are stricter than the “relaxed varieties” in not allowing topic-focus combinations in the prefield, yet not as strict as the Modern Germanic V2 languages in allowing (14–16):

- (15) (Oostkerke West Flemish dialect; from Haegeman & Greco 2018)
[Vroeger] [de Siphon] was een gekende restaurant.
previously the Siphon was a well-known restaurant
‘In the old days, the Siphon used to be a famous restaurant.’
- (16) (Swedish Urban Vernacular; From Ganuza 2008: 53)
[då] [alle] började hata henne.
then everyone started hate._{INF} her
‘Then everyone started hating her.’

The important thing to observe about these varieties is that they pattern with the “strict” V2 varieties in showing the same linear V2 order of the verb and its exceptions, in other words: the CLD construction. They are accordingly to be considered a sub-group of the strict languages, from which they indeed evolve, and the same arguments that were adduced against the bottleneck hypothesis in the previous section apply with equal force; nothing new needs to be added. Nonetheless, the question of the proper analysis of the “adjunct-subject-verb” sequence is not yet agreed upon. The fundamental question is whether these sequences feature V-to-C movement at all. For an analysis based on V-to-C, see Walkden (2017b), and for an analysis with only V-to-T, see Cournane & Klævik-Pettersen (2023).⁷

⁷A reviewer asks what the arguments are in favour of a V-to-C or V-to-T analysis of such strings. In favour of V-to-C, Walkden (2017b) points out that only V-to-C is consistent with the global word order facts of Continental Germanic, since it accounts for main-embedded asymmetries naturally (V2 vs. verb-final), assuming competition between the verb and the complementiser for the C-head. There is no independent evidence for V-to-T, and the V-to-C parse is needed anyway for inverted V2, which is found in the Germanic Urban Vernaculars, too. Cournane & Klævik-Pettersen (2023) argue in favour of V-to-T on the basis of the empirical observation

4 Two other approaches to (“strict”) verb-second

As was pointed out in Section 1.2 of the Introduction, the advent of cartography produced paradoxical effects for research on the verb-second phenomenon. The “relaxed V2 varieties” of Old Romance, which could not be made to fit the “classical” analysis of V2 and its unitary CP projection, were suddenly amenable to description and explanation by the new tool of CP-cartography (Benincà 2006, Ledgeway 2009, Poletto 2014, Wolfe 2018). At the same time, the Germanic V2 languages with their highly restricted left-peripheries again appeared like a puzzle in need of fresh answers. One prominent answer, the locality-principle known as the “bottleneck” (Haegeman 1996, Roberts 2004) has been critically reviewed and rejected in the preceding sections. In this section, I will briefly review two further approaches in recent literature that propose different ways of capturing the facts of V2, although I must refer the reader to the relevant papers for full coverage of the relevant theories.

4.1 A phase-based locality account of V2

The first approach, presented in Klævik-Pettersen (2022), is compatible with an articulated, cartographic C-domain which at least contains distinct positions for topics and foci. The idea is that locality restricts lexicalisation of C-projections, not in terms of a bottleneck in Spec-FinP that limits access to the left-periphery, but rather through the way topics, foci and phase heads (Gallego 2012) interact. In a nutshell, the hypothesis is that locality constraints are checked at the interfaces. A constituent that has been moved to the left periphery blocks fronting of another constituent *within the same phase domain*. The relevant phase heads in the left periphery are assumed to be Fin^0 and Force^0 , in line with Rizzi’s (1997) original idea that the left periphery is essentially an interface between the propositional content expressed by the TP and the articulation of discourse. Suppose that the roles of Fin^0 and Force^0 are to introduce and terminate, respectively, this final phase of derivation. The intermediate projections host focal and topical information, the latter possibly recursive or consisting of a field of different topic projections (Benincà & Poletto 2004, Grewendorf 2009).

The question is how this system could make any distinction between non-V2 languages with multiply accessible left peripheries like, say, Modern Italian, and

that the constituent that follows the initial adjunct is virtually without exception the subject. These V3 strings are thus always non-inverted, and this is completely surprising on a V-to-C parse, since we know that any constituent can read Spec-CP in a string featuring V-to-C. On a V-to-T parse, it follows naturally, since Spec-TP is a canonical subject position. The authors also invoke derivational economy and present arguments from bilingual L1 acquisition.

the Modern Germanic V2 languages. The obvious difference being precisely V2 itself, the hypothesis developed by Klævik-Pettersen (2022) is that the movement of the verb to Fin^0 has the effect of *deactivating* this phase head. This builds on the cue that phases are driven by the presence of uninterpretable features on the phase heads (Chomsky 2000), since the $\text{AGR}/\text{Fin}/\phi$ -feature assumed to attract the verb to Fin^0 is precisely of this kind. In a more general vein, the verb is the axis of the extended projection of the clause, so if the verb moves higher, the core clause extends, too.

For concreteness, the ungrammaticality of a topic-focus-verb sequence (17) in Modern Germanic V2 is thus explained by the obligatory movement of the verb to Fin^0 and the immediate deactivation of this phase head (Figure 5). This in turn means that when the final phase head Force^0 is merged and its complement is sent to the interfaces, the movement of the topic across the focus is detected and ruled out:

- (17) * Den Wagen meinem VATER habe ich verkauft, (nicht meiner
 The.ACC car my.DAT father have I sold not my.DAT
 MUTTER).
 mother
 ‘The car I sold to my FATHER (not to my mother).’

In Klævik-Pettersen (2022), this derivation is argued to also explain differences in topicalization between V2 languages and non-V2 languages with respect to phenomena like resumption and Weak Cross-Over effects. It derives the “linear V2-constraint” without appealing to a bottleneck induced by a blind EPP-feature, but rather by a more standard phrase-phrase locality effect which rises exceptionally in the V2 languages due to V-to-C movement. However, the model also has to assume (i) that focus has no dedicated position in the clause (in line with the conclusions in Samek-Lodovici 2015 but against much work in cartography) and (ii) that it in fact does not even reach the C-domain at all in non-V2 languages. This is requested to explain why left peripheral topic-focus sequences are possible in the latter.⁸

⁸ Another question is what happens in relaxed V2 languages (see Section 3.1), where topic-focus are also permitted in spite of the assumption that there is V-to-C movement in these languages. It must be emphasized, however, that the deactivation of the universal phase head Fin^0 does not happen automatically in a language that features V-to-C movement, but only when V-to-Fin movement actually takes place. Since the vast majority of topic-focus sequences that are reported in the literature are *uninverted* (like example (7)), it is quite plausible that V-to-C movement has not taken place at all in these cases. In the absence of V-to-C in the derivation of any given clause, we expect the left periphery to behave as in the Modern Romance languages, since Fin^0 remains an active phase head.

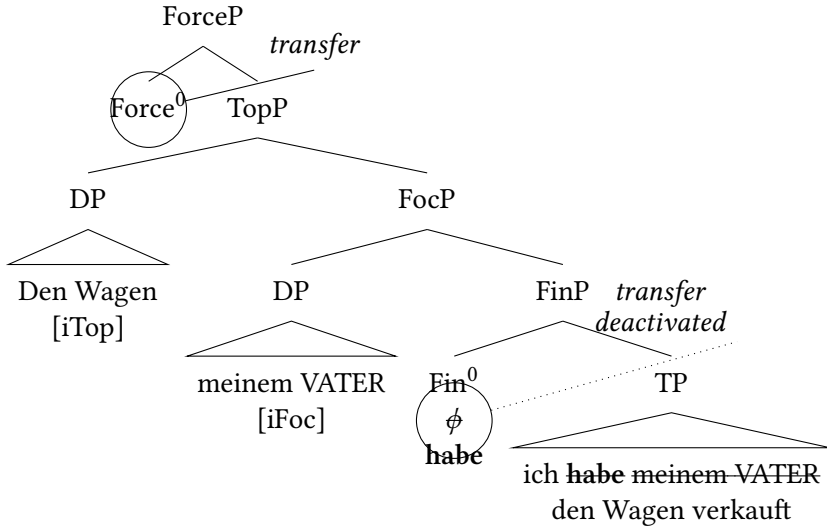


Figure 5: A phase-based locality explanation of “the linear V2 constraint”

4.2 The left periphery as a feature bundle

Another recent proposal on verb-second departs more radically from all approaches discussed previously in this paper by explicitly rejecting the existence of dedicated topic and focus projections in the left periphery of V2 languages (Cournane & Klævik-Pettersen 2023). This also amounts to dismissing cartographic claims to universality of the functional sequence of the C-domain. It does not, however, entail a repudiation of the findings of cartography nor a return to the “traditional” analysis of verb-second outlined in the Introduction. What is rejected is the particular cartographic hypothesis of “One-Feature-One-Head” (Kayne 2005) which takes every feature with interpretable effect to be associated with a dedicated head that projects a specifier. Building on ideas proposed by Giorgi & Pianesi (1997) and developed in Hsu (2017), the authors suggest that children acquiring a language dissociate the task of detecting what features are active in the language from the structure building process, in other words the postulation of projections in syntax. The latter process is assumed to be guided by a conservative approach, where children try to make do with what is already known. This leads children to “bundle”, in other words to assign several feature to the same head and to exploit the corresponding specifier for multiple purposes. If confronted with sufficient evidence, in the form of co-occurrence of phrases, that different features are carried by different heads, children will eventually “unbundle” (“unravel” in Pannemann 2007) and assign the relevant features to distinct

projections, thereby expanding the phrase marker. Concretely, the absence of topic-focus sequences (and several other V3 combinations) in verb-second languages means no “unbundling” and feature reassignment takes place, such that the syncretic C-domain matures into a stable, adult I-grammar (Figure 6).

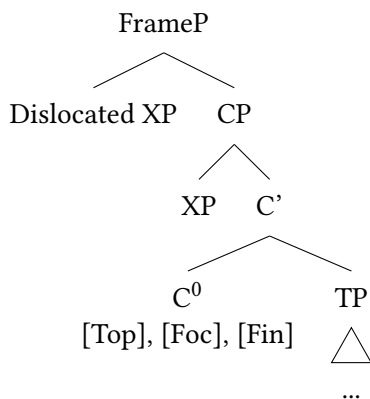


Figure 6: The feature bundle-approach of Cournane & Klævik-Pettersen 2023

In this phrase marker, the role of the “FrameP” is to host constituents like the initial topic in the CLD and the HTLD-constructions (see Section 3.2), the former through movement, the latter presumably through base-generation. It could of course also be the case that this is precisely the projection that hosts the initial adjunct in the “semi-strict” varieties reviewed in Section 3.3. The syncretic position, for simplicity called CP rather than something cumbersome like “TopP/FocP/FinP”, is the highly diverse prefield of V2 languages, always filled through movement from the core clause.⁹

⁹There is evidence that ForceP is also a distinct position in the left periphery of at least some Germanic V2 languages. The reason is that embedded V2 is perfectly possible in all V2 languages in a subset of complement clauses and certain adverbial clauses. While languages like German need to omit the complementiser in complement clauses for verb raising to be acceptable, the Mainland Scandinavian languages display verb-second inversion even in the presence of a complementiser (Vikner 1995, Holmberg & Platzack 1995, Klævik-Pettersen 2019). This clearly suggests that the complementiser in question is Force⁰, since Fin⁰ is lexicalised by the finite verb. In other words, ForceP dominates FinP, as is well-known from the cartographic literature, but there is in fact evidence that it also dominates FrameP, since it seems possible to embed the CLD-construction in a language like Norwegian. Furthermore, the initial adjunct in “adjunct-subject-verb” sequences (Section 3.3) is clearly embeddable in Old French (see Klævik-Pettersen 2019; chapter 3). Since this has no bearing on the bottleneck hypothesis or the question of the linearization of the verb, I leave it out of the representation in (6).

5 Summary

In this paper, I have presented arguments against the bottleneck hypothesis that is often invoked in the literature to account for the restricted left-periphery of verb-second languages. On the theoretical side, the bottleneck hypothesis does not follow naturally from the theory of locality on which it essentially hinges, Relativised Minimality. Purely formal, EPP-induced movement should not block more motivated movement like topicalization and focalization.

On the empirical side, I have shown that the bottleneck hypothesis does not really yield interesting predictions for the so-called “relaxed V2” languages. Furthermore, there exists direct counterevidence against the bottleneck in the “strict V2 languages” of the Modern Germanic kind, since at least some cases of the Contrastive Left Dislocation construction very plausibly involve more than one instance of internal merge from the core clause to the left-periphery.

The fact remains, obviously, that the grammar of the Modern Germanic V2 languages somehow imposes restrictions on the combinations of constituents in the prefield. In this paper, I have also drawn attention to other possible approaches to this problem. These include the hypothesis of a “feature bundle” in the C-domain that syncretises several features into a single projection, or a phase-based derivation within an articulated left-periphery, where V-to-C movement interferes with the phase head Fin^0 , with concomitant effects on locality. More research is needed to see if these approaches, or others, can account for the linearization patterns of verb-second languages. Given the important arguments against the bottleneck hypothesis, the endeavour is certainly worthwhile.

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Chapter 4

“No cracks in the bottleneck!”: A cartographic model for the derivation of non-V2 in German

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This paper discusses the derivation of syntactic patterns of present-day German that appear to linearly violate the V2 constraint within the cartographic model and draws insights into the inner structure of the left periphery in this language. It is proposed that these apparent non-V2 arrangements are derivable by means of a limited number of syntactic operations (combining Merge and Move) that do not put into question the classical account of German as a structural V2 language. In particular, the article makes the following claims: (i) the attested V3 and other Verb-Later orders are to be categorized as variants of V2 that are derived according to principles that are compatible with the a/m operations; (ii) German also exhibits a Split CP that is similar – *mutatis mutandis* – to that of Modern Romance, but makes use of different derivational strategies to achieve the relevant linearization(s); (iii) this insight can only be gained if (at least) comparable methods and (at least) comparable theoretical assumptions about the syntax of German are used to interpret the data.

1 Introduction

German is a so-called “asymmetric Verb-Second (V2) language” in which (declarative) main clauses exhibit leftward verb movement from their base-generation site in the VP to some C-head and – typically – raising of a further constituent into a left-peripheral specifier (1).¹ The latter operation is related to the satisfac-

¹I would like to thank two anonymous reviewers for very insightful comments on a previous version of this paper.



tion of an EPP(-like) feature (Chomsky 2000, 2001), which, in its most general formulation, corresponds to a formal mechanism requiring that the specifier of the C-domain (in languages like German) be filled by a maximal projection.² Meanwhile, in embedded clauses introduced by an overt subordinating element, instead, the finite verb remains in I° and no XP base-generated in the middle field is moved into the left periphery (2a). This is generally captured in terms of a complementary distribution between the finite verb and a subordinator in C°: if the head of the CP is lexicalized by a complementizer, the presence of this element blocks V-movement into the same position (Höhle 1986) (2b):

- (1) Hans hat gestern Maria geküsst.
 Hans AUX.PRS.3SG yesterday Mary PTCP-kiss-PTCP
 ‘Hans kissed Mary yesterday.’
- (2) a. ...dass Hans gestern Maria geküsst hat.
 that Hans yesterday Mary PTCP-kiss-PTCP AUX.PRS.3SG
- b. * ...dass Hans hat gestern Maria geküsst.
 that Hans AUX.PRS.3SG yesterday Mary PTCP-kiss-PTCP
 (int.): ‘...that Hans kissed Mary yesterday.’

While the V2 status of present-day German is basically uncontroversial, this is not the case for the internal makeup of the left periphery in this language assumed to accommodate the corresponding structures. In the generative literature, a number of proposals have been put forward that seek to combine the above-mentioned generalization and the general principles of transformational grammar in order to answer the question of how complex this clausal domain can be assumed to be in German. Sticking to the key facts sketched in (1) and (2), three of these models are presented in Section 2 before addressing some problematic data and spelling out a theoretical proposal for their derivation in the following sections.

²The exact formulation of the EPP and its structural locus in German are still a matter of controversy in the literature. Here, I follow, e.g., Grewendorf (2002b), Fanselow (2004), Frey (2006), Holmberg (2015) in assuming that movement to Spec,CP (or to one of the CP-specifiers) is brought about by a feature of C° that is saturated by lexicalizing the corresponding specification in declarative main clauses by means of a movement operation or external merge.

2 How to derive V2?

2.1 Three models for the derivation of German main clauses

As mentioned above, over the past decades, three models have been particularly successful in the generative literature as possible theoretical models for the derivation of the word orders shown in (1) and (2) for present-day German (in what follows: M1, M2, and M3). These approaches yield different implications that correspond to different ways of conceiving of the structure of the left periphery in general, as well as the mechanisms leading to surface arrangements in specific languages.

M1 is the classic generative model advocated (in this form) at least since Government & Binding and still fairly popular in the treatment of bona fide V2 languages (cf., e.g., Haider 1993, Lohnstein 2000, Frey 2000, Fuß 2008, Walkden 2017: 165f.). In M1, the left periphery of German consists of only one projection, i.e. one head and one specifier. This representation implies that the CP is understood as an unspecified domain that is compatible with different grammatical and information-structural features. At the same time, the idea of a one-projection CP is in line with the fact that a well-behaved V2 language by definition does not allow for “exceptions to the rule”, that is, arrangements in which the preverbal position is occupied by more than one constituent. In a non-Kaynian (1994) approach to linearization, the verb is base-generated in V^0 , moved to the sentence-final head of the IP to acquire its inflectional features and then moved to C^0 .³ Any type of constituent – bearing e.g. a topic (α), a focus (β), a *wh* (γ) feature, etc.) appearing to the left of the finite verb in the surface syntax is first-merged in the middle field and raised to Spec,CP, as illustrated in Figure 1.

M2 is the one developed within the cartographic model (Rizzi 1997, 2001, 2004, and much subsequent work) (Figure 2). While this paradigm was originally proposed for the representation of the left edge of languages like present-day Italian, it has also been adopted for many other languages and language stages (cf., inter alia, Axel 2007, Axel-Tober 2018, Speyer 2008, Bidese et al. 2012, Petrova 2012, Cognola 2013, Wolfe 2016, 2018, Haegeman & Greco 2018, Hinterhölzl 2017, Speyer & Weiß 2018, De Clercq & Haegeman 2018, Samo 2019, Eska 2020, Greco & Haegeman 2020, Catasso 2021a,c,b). In this model, the left edge of the clause is

³As pointed out by an anonymous reviewer, it should be acknowledged that for German, the very existence of the IP layer has been called into question in the literature, since v-to-T movement in a verb-final clause could be deemed string-vacuous. The reader is referred to Haider (e.g., Haider 1993, 2010) for discussion. In what follows, I adopt a cartographic approach and label the clausal domain below the CP “IP”. However, this detail is not central to the focus of the present study, which primarily centers on the makeup of the left periphery.

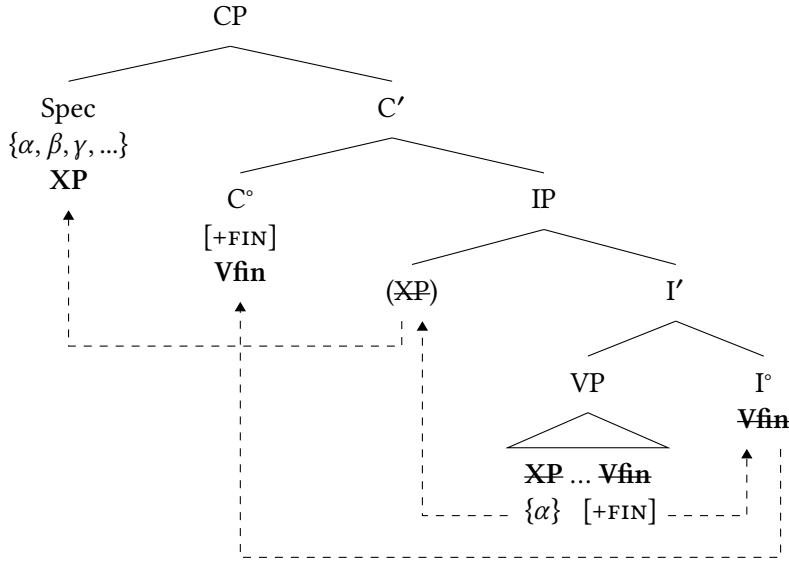


Figure 1: M1: One-projection model for the representation of V2

made up of a cascade of functional projections, each encoding a particular pragmatic, grammatical or information-structural feature. In a nutshell, each projection postulated in Rizzi’s Split CP corresponds to one of the functional traits licensed by the underspecified Spec,CP in the model addressed above. A relevant innovation introduced by the idea of a multi-projectional left periphery is that elements carrying these features occur in a fixed word order in the clause and that the corresponding regularities are cross-linguistically observable (all necessary changes having been made). In the original version given below, ForceP is responsible for clause typing and the interface between sentence and discourse, the two TopPs host (different types of) topics, FocP encodes focus and *wh*-interrogativity, and FinP regulates the relation between the left periphery and the inflectional domain of the clause.

Based on this model, the recent literature has increasingly supported the proposal of a so-called “ForceP V2” in asymmetric V2 languages (cf., inter alia, Polletto 2013, Wolfe 2016, Biberauer & Roberts 2015, 2016, Hinterhölzl 2017). This implementation of main-clause syntax implies obligatory cyclic movement of the finite verb to Fin° and to Force° and raising of *minimally* and *maximally* one constituent to the left periphery via Spec,FinP – in order to derive the so-called “bottleneck effect” (Haegeman 1996) that blocks further movement into the CP domain from the middle-field – followed by movement operations to some higher

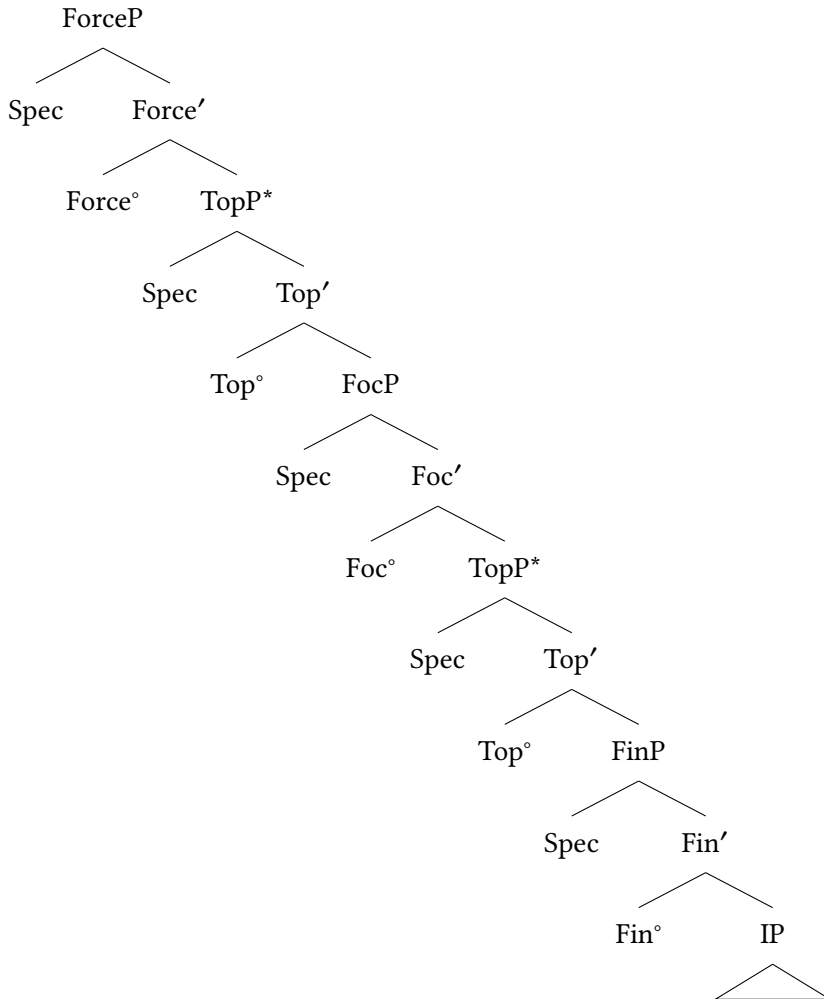


Figure 2: M2: Cartographic model for the CP domain (Rizzi 1997)

specifier and eventually to Spec,ForceP, as illustrated in Figure 3. This analysis represents an elegant attempt to combine the idea that, even in strict V2 languages, the CP layer has a complex inner makeup and the fact that the preverbal specifier can only be targeted by one maximal projection in these systems.

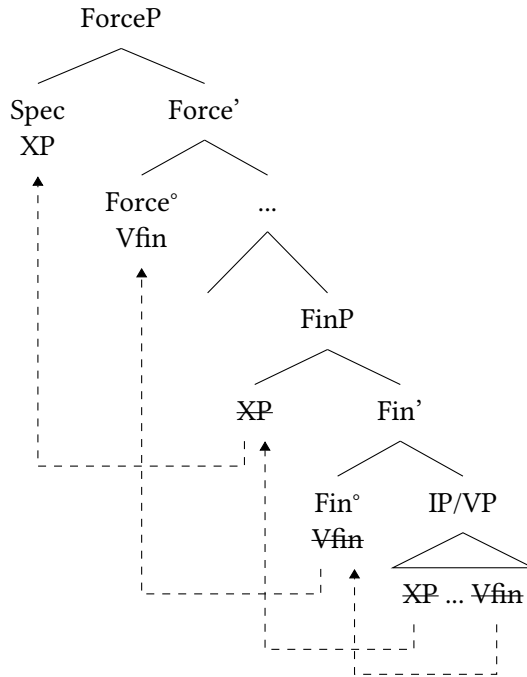


Figure 3: Derivation of ForceP V2

A third option for a formalization of the left periphery (of German) is M3 in Figure 4. This approach results from a revision of the original one-projection model (Figure 1) and has been very successful at least since Chomsky's (1995) minimalist turn (also cf. Bobaljik 1999, Chomsky 2000, Richards 2001; for German, Grewendorf 2002b,a, Rezac 2004, Lahne 2009, G. Müller 2010; for a similar implementation with respect to historical stages and urban varieties of German, Fuß 2008, Walkden 2014, 2017; for a similar idea within a theory of CP recursion, also cf. Iatridou & Kroch 1992, Vikner 2017, etc.).

M3 is based on the idea that the CP layer can be recursively expanded to make room for additional material, but that this operation only involves the Spec position, so that the left edge of a clause consists of *one* projection, viz. one head, and as many specifiers as are needed. An important implication of this model is that each non-head position within the CP resulting from recursive applications of

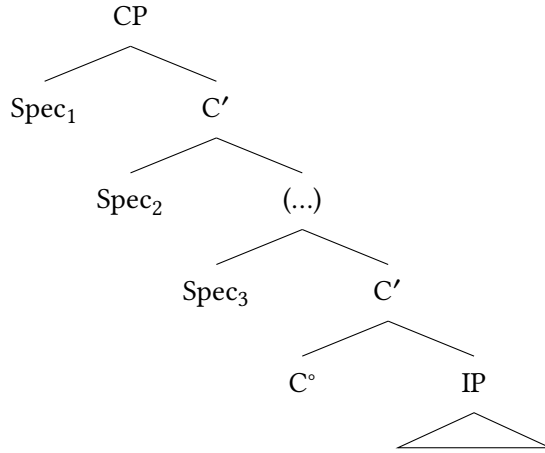


Figure 4: M3: CP-recursion model of the left periphery

Merge, is specialized in the encoding of one specific feature (say, α = Frame, β = Familiar Topic), which ensures that only some linearizations are possible, while others are excluded, and that the finite verb is attracted to the head position C° .⁴ This is schematically illustrated in Figure 5.

M1, M2 and M3 originate from divergent conceptions of the internal makeup of the left periphery and the derivation of syntactic structures, but are in principle all perfectly compatible with the simple asymmetric-V2 system illustrated for present-day German in (1).

What seems to be problematic in relation to the derivation of syntactic structures in this language is the fact that it allows for a number of linear phenomena that seem to challenge each of the models presented in this section. In order to account for every possible canonical and non-canonical word order, it is therefore necessary to consider how maximally complex (and still grammatical) structures can be derived in German without violating the V2 constraint.

⁴It is to be noted, however, that not all proposals based on the idea of CP recursion treat feature encoding in the same way: in Walkden's (2017) model, which includes two C-layers, each CP has its own head and the lower CP roughly corresponds to FinP, while the higher one includes all features from FocP upwards.

3 V3 as a window into the structure of the left periphery

As mentioned in Section 2, German exhibits a number of main-clause phenomena which – at least from a linear perspective – deviate from the V2 constraint. In particular, there exist constructions in which the prefield, namely the intrasentential portion of the clause preceding the finite verb, is occupied by more than one element, as has been noticed in a considerable amount of literature in the last decades (cf., among many others, Lee 1975, van de Velde 1978, Lühr 1985, Cardinaletti 1989, Auer 1996, 1997, St. Müller 2003, 2005, 2023 Frey 2004, Eggs 2004, Speyer 2008, Breindl 2011, Müller et al. 2012, Schalowski 2015, Speyer & Weiß 2018, S. Müller 2019, Bunk 2020, Wiese et al. 2020, Catasso 2021a, Breitbarth 2022, 2023, Axel-Tober 2023). This does not seem to be in line with the very nature of V2 itself, which imposes a limit of one (moved or merged) full XP per CP domain.

As the examples in (3) and (4) show, V3 is attested in different configurations. The sentences in (3) instantiate correlative Verb-Late(r) constructions, i.e. sequences in which the finite component of the verbal predicate formally surfaces in third position and the two elements in the prefield are co-referential. The structure in (3a) is a left dislocation: a fronted DP is taken up by a pronominal resumptive (glossed as *P.RES* here and in what follows) in preverbal position replicating its φ -features. (3b) illustrates adverbial resumption: similarly to DP left dislocation, an adjunct occurs in first clause position and is resumed by an adverbial element (*A.RES*) to the left of the finite verb in C. Both patterns raise the question as to how it is possible to accommodate the left-dislocated phrase and the resumptive in the preverbal area:

- (3) a. Den Hans, den kenne ich seit langem.
the-ACC.SG Hans P.RES.ACC.SG know.PRS.1SG I-NOM.SG since long
‘I have known Hans for a long time.’ (Cardinaletti 1989: 9)
- b. Wenn Sie den Job haben wollen, dann
if you-NOM.SG.POL the-ACC.SG job have-INF want-PRS.3PL A.RES
müssen Sie ein bisschen auf den Punkt
must.PRS.3PL you-NOM.SG.POL a little to the-ACC.SG point
kommen.
come-INF
‘If you want the job, you need to get to the point.’ (adapted from: Auer 2000: 5)

A further group of V3 phenomena includes different non-correlative patterns, like the ones exemplified in (4). In (4a), a clausal (here: conditional) adjunct precedes the *wh*-interrogative *warum* ('why') in preverbal position. (4b) features an argument to the left of a so-called "post-initial particle" marking the fronted constituent – depending on the information-structural context – as an aboutness or contrastive topic. In (4c) and (4d), two variants of what seems to be the same pattern are illustrated: in (4c) a frame(-like) adjunct⁵ appears before an argument (the subject of the sentence), in (4d) the argument surfaces in a higher position than the adjunct (here: a temporal adverbial clause). In (4e), two distinct adverbials, the temporally-interpreted PP *am Nachmittag* ('in the afternoon') and the locative PP *in einem Gang...* ('in an alley...'), which clearly have different references, both occur in preverbal position:

- (4) a. (Eggs 2004: 346)
 [Wenn sie schon so ... viel Geld gewonnen
 if they-NOM already so much money PTCF-win-PTCF
 haben,] [warum] spendieren sie nicht wenigstens
 AUX.PRS.3PL why pay-PRS.3PL they-NOM NEG at-least
 eine Runde?
 one-ACC.SG round
 'If they have won so much money, why don't they at least pay for a round?'
- b. (Breindl 2011: 18)
 [Dieses Raster] [nun] entspricht in einer
 this-NOM.SG grid now correspond-PRS.3SG in a-DAT.SG
 gewissen Weise einem Enzym.
 certain-DAT.SG way a-DAT.SG enzyme
 'In a way, this grid corresponds to an enzyme.'

⁵Frame setters are expressions that provide the setting within which the predicate of the clause is to be interpreted (Chafe 1976, Krifka 2006, Jacobs 2001). This notion can be understood in different ways. In the present discussion, I will refer to frame setters as to any type of adjunct (i.e., phrase that is not part of the verb's argument structure) occurring in the CP domain that introduces a background. This background can be realized by a prototypical local or temporal adverbial, but also by a more abstract category (conditionality, concessiveness, causality, finality, etc.). A conditional clause, for instance, does not introduce a deixis localized in the actual world, but it projects the content of the clause into a parallel world, thus providing an abstract local/temporal reference for the sentence. Similarly, a fronted causal adjunct encloses the action or condition described by the predicate in a certain (presupposed) state of affairs resulting from a cause-and-effect relation, and so on.

- c. (Breitbarth 2022: 8)
 [Heute,] [die Goethe-Institute in Indien]
 today the-NOM.PL Goethe-institute-NOM.PL in India
 heißen alle Max Müller Bhavan.
 be-called-PRS.3PL all-NOM-PL Max Müller Bhavan
 ‘Today, all Goethe Institutes in India are called “Max Müller Bhavan”.’
- d. (Lee 1975: 120)
 [Piachi,] [als ihm der Stab gebrochen
 Piachi when he-DAT.SG the-NOM.SG staff PTCP-break-PTCP
 war,] verweigerte sich hartnäckig der
 AUX.PST.3SG refuse-PST.3SG REFL.ACC.3SG stubbornly the-DAT.SG
 Absolution.
 absolution
 ‘Piachi, when the staff was broken over him, stubbornly refused
 absolution.’
- e. (Müller 2003: 38, quoted from: van de Velde 1978: 35)
 [Am Nachmittag] [in einem Gang zwischen
 in-the-DAT.SG afternoon in a-DAT.SG alley between
 Ladenhäusern] ließ B sich das
 shop-house-DAT.PL let-PST.3SG B REFL.DAT.3SG the-ACC.SG
 Flugticket geben.
 flight-ticket give-INF
 ‘In the afternoon, in an alley between buildings, he received the flight
 ticket.’

In light of the current debate, both the correlative and the non-correlative patterns exemplified above are problematic for a number of reasons. From a theoretical point of view, not only is the internal makeup of the left periphery of German a hotly debated subject (see Section 2.1); there does also not seem to be consensus on the syntactic and semantic status of the elements occupying the prefield in these sentences – for instance, on how to derive resumptive structures like (3a–3b), on whether adverbials like those in (4a–4c) occur in an intra- or extrasentential projection and whether they are moved or merged into their surface position, and on which criteria should be considered in order to determine if element like post-initial *nun* in (4b) are maximal projections or heads.

Moreover, most studies investigating V3 in German include analyses of single patterns – e.g., only the derivation of left dislocation, or only the derivation of

contrastive topics marked by a post-initial element – and do not consider their interaction within the left periphery. Given that in the majority of cases neither the derivational mechanisms leading to the relevant linearizations nor the individual analyses are shared by the linguists' community, it follows that the theoretical results are not necessarily comparable.

In Section 4, the attempt will be made to derive the different phenomena considered in (3) and (4) within the same theoretical model and to propose a comprehensive model for the formalization of all observable V2 and Verb-Late(r) data in German, including those involving multiple V3 phenomena simultaneously. This proceeds from the idea that only an approach that makes use of the same assumptions and tools of analysis to account for the relevant facts can reduce all linear instances of V2, V3, V4, etc. to the same common denominator.

4 A cartographic model for the left periphery of German

In this section, a theoretical model will be presented that aims to allow for an exhaustive treatment of unmarked V2 linearizations, as well as of non-V2 patterns. It will be proposed that the only sensible way of dealing with this kind of variability is to assume a Split CP à la Rizzi (1997) (the cartographic M2 in Section 2) and to adapt this to the observable regularities of German.

The following technical details will be assumed in what follows for reasons to become apparent below:

- in present-day German, V2 is basically an instantiation of V-to-C movement. There is no IP V2 (pace Travis 1984);
- it is FinP that carries the EPP(-like) feature, thus attracting the finite verb from its base-generation site in V°;
- V2 in well-behaved V2 languages is subject to a bottleneck effect (Section 2.1 and (5–6)): only one XP can move into the left periphery, and this operation is mediated by FinP, whose specifier is *always* filled by a trace in declarative main clauses (5a–5b). If it is the case that the preverbal position is occupied by an expletive (6a), this element is first-merged into Spec,FinP (6b). For ease of representation, in (5) and (6) only the derivation of the preverbal phrase is considered.

- (5) a. Den Keks hat Peter schon gegessen.
 the-ACC.SG biscuit AUX.PRS.3SG Peter already PTCP-eat-PTCP
 'Peter has already eaten the biscuit.'
- b. [_{YP} *den Keks*_i [_{FinP} *t_i* [_{IP/VP} *t_i*]]]]

- (6) a. Es regnet.
EXPL rain-PRS.3SG
'It's raining.'
b. [_{FinP} es [_{IP/VP}]]

Before going into the details of the interplay between the non-V2 patterns illustrated in the previous section, the derivation of left dislocation and constructions involving post-initial markers will be addressed in Section 4.1.

4.1 Derivation of left dislocation and post-initial particles

Two linear non-V2 phenomena that provide crucial evidence for identifying the positions in which information structure is mapped onto the syntactic representation in the CP domain are left dislocation and post-initial markers.

4.1.1 Pronominal and adverbial left dislocation

With respect to the former, it can be assumed that resumptive constructions with a fronted DP (7a) and a fronted adverbial (7b) have the same underlying derivation, since these two patterns are united by a number of common properties: they both realize a strategy to introduce a topic in the discourse (an aboutness or contrastive topic in nominal left dislocation, a frame-setting topic in adverbial resumption), the construction includes a left-peripheral resumptive in preverbal position that is only possible in main clauses and in embedded clauses with root-like properties,⁶ and this element is fully optional. In the case of *d*-resumptives (7a), which take up the reference of a preposed nominal expression, and of the specialized resumptive *da* (7b) (Meklenborg 2020, Meklenborg & Lohn-dal 2023), which is compatible with local and temporal antecedents, this optionality is purely register-based: the variant with the resumptive is typically produced in spoken/colloquial German, while the resumptiveless one characterizes

⁶As for unintroduced embedded clauses, Bayer (2001) provides the following example in which the left-dislocated constituent tops an object clause that is not selected by a complementizer. Such a structure can be assumed to be "root-like" for at least two reasons: (i) from a semantic point of view, it complements a doxastic predicate (*glauben* 'believe') compatible with a semi-assertive reading of the subordinate clause (cf., e.g., Reis 1997, Auer 1998, Meinunger 2004, Truckenbrodt 2006, Freywald 2013, Petrova 2020); (ii) syntactically, it does not contain a lexicalized complementizer; if that were the case, the conjunction would block any movement or merge into the left periphery of the clause:

(i) (Bayer 2001: 24)
Ich glaube, den Hans, den kennt er kaum.
I-NOM believe-PRS.1SG the-ACC.SG Hans P.RES.ACC.SG know-PRS.3SG he-NOM barely
'I think he barely knows Hans.'

the standard language. There is no interpretive difference between the two structures:

- (7) a. Den Hans(, den) kann ich nicht leiden.
 the-ACC.SG Hans P.RES.ACC.SG can-PRS.1SG I-NOM NEG suffer-INF
 ‘I can’t stand Hans.’
 b. Damals(, da) hatten wir Wichtigeres zu
 back-then A.RES have-PST.1PL we-NOM important-COMP.ACC.SG to
 tun.
 do-INF
 ‘Back then, we had more important things to do.’

It is reasonable to assume the following derivation for these patterns (in the spirit of Ross 1967, Cinque 1977, Grohmann 1997, 2000, 2003, Grewendorf 2002b,a, Speyer & Weiß 2018, Catasso 2021a): the phrase surfacing on top of the syntactic tree is base-generated in the relevant middle-field position and cyclically moved to Spec,FinP, where it derives the bottleneck effect, and to some higher specifier, in which it is pronounced, at the end of the process. The latter phase of the derivation will be addressed in more detail in the next paragraphs. What is crucial here is that the resumptive that the moved constituent leaves in Spec,FinP is treated as a trace spell-out, viz. as a trace whose phonetic realization is optional and which replicates the same referential features as the fronted XP. Whether it is pronounced or not, the trace blocks any further movement operation from a lower position and prevents merge of lexical material in the left periphery. The finite verb is moved to Fin.⁷ In this sense, the linear V3 sequence resulting from these operations does not violate the V2 constraint *structurally*, since it involves

⁷As is the case for V3 phenomena in general, a number of alternative implementations have been proposed in the literature for left dislocation. Ott (2014), for instance, assumes left dislocation to derive from a biclausal structure with two juxtaposed CPs in which the higher one is deleted at PF (i). Haider (2010), instead, makes the case that the left-dislocated phrase is pre-adjoined to the clause, i.e., base-generated to the left of the CP (ii):

- (i) (adapted from Ott 2014: 270)
 [_{CP1} [XP]_i [... t_i ...]] [_{CP2} RES_k ... t_k ...]
 (ii) (adapted from Haider 2010: 3)
 [_{FP} XP_j [_{FP} RES_i_j [Vfin [... t_i ...]]]]]

In the present discussion, I will stick to a movement analysis, which I think does better justice both to the parallelism between topicalization without resumption and left dislocation and to the interaction between left-dislocation constructions and other V3 patterns simultaneously occurring in the left periphery (see below).

movement of only one constituent into the prefield. A sketchy representation is given in (8):

- (8) [ForceP [YP [XP]_i ... [FinP [RES]_i [Fin° Vfin_j] [IP/VP t_i ... t_j]]]]

4.1.2 Particles in post-initial position

As far as markers in post-initial position are concerned, it is to be noticed that elements like *aber* ('however'), *hingegen* ('instead'), *beispielsweise* ('for instance'), etc. typically mark fronted contrastive topics (Breindl 2011). In (9), *Maria* and *Hans* are two referents that are selected from a set of alternatives, but are not part of the focus domain of the respective sentences. In this utterance, the contrastive topic in the second conjunct is disambiguated by means of the marker *aber*:

- (9) (Die) Maria war auf der Party. (Den) Hans
 die-NOM.SG Maria be-PST.3SG at the-DAT.SG party the-ACC.SG Hans
 aber habe ich nicht gesehen.
 however AUX.PRS.1SG I-NOM NEG PTCP-see-PTCP
 'Maria was at the party. However, I didn't set eyes on Hans.'

There is unbiased evidence that contrastive topics are moved constituents in German (cf., e.g., Catasso 2021a: 786–787). For instance, in some (western and northern) varieties of the language, prepositional adverbs of the *da*+PREP type (*dafür* 'for that', *dagegen* 'against that', *damit* 'with that', etc.) can optionally be split. Therefore, in contexts like (10), which imply a contrastive reading of the preposed constituent (*da* anaphorically refers back to renting an apartment in Valletta in the pre-context), the referential component of the adverb can surface in the prefield either independently (10a) or together with the preposition (10b):

- (10) *Context*: For our holiday in Malta, Maria has proposed that we could rent an apartment together in the city center of Valletta.
- a. Da habe ich nichts gegen (...aber ich möchte
da have-PRS.1SG I-NOM nothing against but I-NOM want-SBJ.1SG
 mein eigenes Schlafzimmer haben)
 my own-ACC.SG bedroom have-INF
- b. Dagegen habe ich nichts (...aber ich möchte
da-against have-PRS.1SG I-NOM nothing against but I-NOM want-SBJ.1SG
 mein eigenes Schlafzimmer haben)
 my own-ACC.SG bedroom have-INF
 'I have no problem with that (...but I would like to have my own bedroom).'

In sentences like (9) and (10), the fronted phrase arguably moves into the specifier of a left-peripheral projection in which contrastiveness is encoded (a position that has already been independently proposed for German by Frey 2004, who calls the corresponding projection “KontrP”). It is suggested here, following Catasso (2015, 2021a), that the post-initial marker (*aber* in the second conjunct in (9)) is not an XP, but a lexicalization of the head position of this projection, in whose specifier the contrastive topic surfaces at PF. This means that it is base-generated in the position in which it is pronounced. Note that the post-initial particle is fully optional, cannot occupy the left periphery independently⁸ and is only licensed by the presence of a maximal projection to its left. A provisional derivation for a structure like (9) is given in (11). The contrastive projection in the left periphery is neutrally labeled “YP” here:

- (11) [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [_{den} *Hans*]_j [_{Y°} *aber* ... [_{FinP} *t_j* [_{Fin°} *habe_i* [_{IP/VP} *t_j* *ich nicht gesehen t_i*]]]]]]

Also in this case, the base generation of the marker in the left periphery prevents a violation of the structural V2 constraint.⁹

⁸This can be taken to show that “this” *aber* is not to be categorized as the head of an AdvP. This would imply not only that this element could appear in the left periphery independently of a fully-fledged phrase, but also that it could be the constituent triggering V2 in a main clause. However, this is not the case:

- (i) * ... aber habe ich den Hans nicht gesehen.
 but AUX.PRS.1SG I-NOM the-ACC.SG Hans NEG PTCP-see-PTCP
 (int.): ‘...but I did not see Hans.’”

In some approaches (e.g. Weisser 2022), it is proposed that items like *aber* in (9) are coordinating conjunctions surfacing in second position as a result of the application of a prosodic displacement rule. However, while this would in principle be possible for *aber* (which can also be an adversative coordinator meaning ‘but’), the class of elements that can perform this function in post-initial position includes words such as – among many others – *hingegen* ‘instead’ and *freilich* ‘indeed’, which cannot be coordinating conjunctions.

⁹The syntactic derivation of sentence structures featuring post-initial particles has remained a contentious topic and continues to ignite passionate debate within the syntactic community to this day. Some works (e.g. Volodina & Weiß 2010) propose a derivation in which the post-initial marker is base-generated in the middle field and raised to Spec,CP together with the fronted phrase. The approach advocated here seems to be preferable for a number of reasons. One of the problems related to merging an element like *aber* in (9) in the middle field concerns the categorial status of the constituent in first clause position. In Chomsky’s (2013) theory of labeling, when a head and a phrase merge, the head projects, i.e., provides the label for the resulting object. In order to achieve the relevant word order (XP > *aber*; **aber* > XP), the phrase interpreted contrastively is assumed to move into the specifier of *aber*, the latter lexicalizing a

4.1.3 Co-occurrence of dislocation and post-initial particles

The two non-V2 patterns illustrated in Section 4.1 can co-occur in the same sentence. Given the existence of a bottleneck effect and the derivational mechanisms proposed above, the corresponding operations do not violate the structural V2 constraint preventing more than one XP from entering the CP domain. In a structure like (12a), the direct object *den Hans* is first-merged in the relevant middle-field position and cyclically moved to Spec,FinP, where it leaves a trace spelled out as the pronominal correlate, to derive the bottleneck effect and – at the end of the derivation – to Spec,YP (YP being the contrastive projection discussed above), in whose head the post-initial particle is generated.

- (12) a. Den Hans aber, den habe ich nicht
the-ACC.SG Hans however P.RES.ACC.SG AUX.PRS.1SG I-NOM NEG
gesehen.
PTCP-see-PTCP
- b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*den Hans*]_j [_{Y°} *aber* ... [_{FinP} [*den*]_j [_{Fin°} *habe* [_{IP/VP} *ich* *t_j*
nicht gesehen *t_j*]]]]]]

At this point, a further observation should be made. So far, in the discussion of the derivation of left dislocation and post-initial particles, it has been remarked that contrastively interpreted constituents target Spec,YP as their landing site, i.e. that they occur in that position at PF. A closer look at possible constructions featuring such elements, however, suggests that FinP and YP are not the only left-peripheral projections involved in the derivation. Consider, for instance, the following sentence:

- (13) Context: Der Traum, dass Gott auf die Erde komme, ist wahr geworden in Jesus von Nazareth, dem Kind in der Krippe, dem Wanderprediger, Heiler und Helfer. ('The dream of God coming unto the Earth came true in Jesus of Nazareth, the child in the crib, the evangelist, healer and helper.')
- Das Ende aber dieser Geschichte war kein
the-NOM.SG end however this-GEN.SG story be-PST.3SG no-NOM.SG
Traum mehr. Das Ende war am Kreuz.
dream more the-NOM.SG end be-PST.3SG at-the-DAT.SG cross
'The end of this story, however, was not a dream anymore. The end was
on the cross.' (*johanniter.de*, March 09th, 2021)

PrtP (Particle Phrase). This would entail that the pronounced linearization would result from movement of a deficient phrase into the left periphery, which is not a licit operation in German. For further arguments in favor of a base generation of the post-initial particle within the CP, cf. Catasso (2015).

In (13), two phases of a story (the beginning, which is presented in the context, and the end in the relevant clause) are contrasted to each other. The contrastive topic opening the second conjunct (*das Ende dieser Geschichte* ‘the end of this story’) appears in a split configuration in which the post-initial particle *aber* intervenes between the DP and its genitival modifier.¹⁰ Since this sequence occurs preverbally and along the lines of what has been said above, it is proposed that the constituent realizing the contrastive topic moves through a further CP-specifier before reaching its landing site in Spec,YP. The corresponding projection is the one in which the constituent acquires a [+TOP] feature qualifying it as an aboutness topic. Further movement into the higher specifier of YP ensures that the constituent checks an additional [+CONTR] feature that enables its reading as a contrastive topic. From this, it follows that contrastive topics are not information-structural simplexes, but result from the addition of two features cyclically acquired in the syntax. The projection encoding the [+TOP] feature is the position in which aboutness topics (i.e., constituents that refer to “what the sentence is about” and are not interpreted contrastively (Reinhart 1981, Frey 2000, 2007, Krifka 2006, Frascarelli & Hinterhölzl 2007)) appear at PF, that is, their landing site in a sentence like (14a) (assuming the relevant pragmatic reading). It corresponds to one of the TopPs assumed by Rizzi (1997) in the clausal left periphery. Of course, since genuine V2 languages only allow for one XP to enter the CP area, (some of) the different TopPs that are simultaneously activatable in

¹⁰Note that the same configuration can be obtained with any other NP/DP modifier or complement, as exemplarily illustrated in the following examples:

- (i) (PP modifier)
 Die Mutter aber von Hans war nicht damit einverstanden.
 the-NOM.SG mother however of Hans be-PST.3SG NEG with-that happy
 ‘Hans’ mother, however, was not happy with that.’
- (ii) (CP modifier)
 Die Frau aber, die Hans am meisten
 the-NOM.SG woman however REL.ACC.SG Hans at-the-DAT.SG more-SUP.DAT.SG
 liebte, war nicht damit einverstanden.
 love-PST.3SG be-PST.3SG NEG with-that happy
 ‘The woman whom Hans loved most, however, was not happy with that.’
- (iii) (CP complement)
 Die Tatsache aber, dass Hans nicht damit einverstanden war,
 the-NOM.SG fact however that Hans NEG with-that happy be-PST.3SG
 gab uns Hoffnung.
 give-PST.3SG we-DAT hope
 ‘The fact that Hans was not happy with that, however, gave us hope.’

languages like Italian are conflated into one projection in German.¹¹ A simplified representation of the corresponding derivation, in which the intermediate CP projection encoding aboutness topichood is neutrally labeled “ZP”, is given in (14b):

- (14) a. *Context:* The interlocutor wants to know something about Hans.
Hans hat letztes Jahr seinen ersten Roman
Hans AUX.PRS.3SG last-ACC.SG year his-ACC.SG first-ACC.SG novel
veröffentlicht.
publish-PTCP
‘Hans published his first novel last year.’
b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [_{Y°}] [_{ZP} Hans_j [_{Z°}] [_{FinP} [_{Fin°} hat_i [_{IP/VP} letztes Jahr t_j seinen
ersten Roman veröffentlicht t_i]]]]]]]

With respect to more complex structures like (13), the relevant assumption made here is that, given a modified or complemented XP moved to Spec,ZP, if this constituent is interpreted contrastively in its entirety, it can further move to Spec,YP (15a–16a);¹² if, instead, only one part of it (systematically corresponding

¹¹This very assumption derives from the premise that in languages like Italian, the same type of topic can apparently be realized in more than one left-peripheral position. This arguably correlates with the fact that Italian allows for multiple movement from the IP/VP area, and the instantiations of the possible configurations exhibiting more than one, say, aboutness topic in the CP domain depend on a conspiracy of intricate principles at the interface between syntax and information structure that I will not go into here for reasons of space (for an overview, see Rizzi & Bocci 2017). Cf., e.g., the following examples, which represent syntactic minimal pairs of the same sentence (the capitalization of one segment of the non-finite verb signals focus stress):

- (i) [A Gianni,] perché, [la macchina] gliela volete regalaAre?
to Gianni why the car CL.DAT.3SG.M-CL.ACC.3SG.F want-PRS.2PL give-INF
(ii) Perché [a Gianni,] [la macchina] gliela volete regalaAre?
why to Gianni the car CL.DAT.3SG.M-CL.ACC.3SG.F want-PRS.2PL give-INF
(iii) Perché [la macchina,] [a Gianni,] gliela volete regalaAre?
why the car to Gianni CL.DAT.3SG.M-CL.ACC.3SG.F want-PRS.2PL give-INF
‘Why do you want to give the car to Gianni as a gift (and not, for instance, sell it to him)?’

(adapted from: Rizzi & Bocci 2017: 5). This type of configuration is not present in German, which seems to feature only one genuine aboutness-topic projection in its left periphery.

¹²Note that this configuration does not instantiate a violation of Criterial in the strict sense (Rizzi 2006, 2010), since the further leftward movement of the XP is driven by its need to check a (contrastive) feature that is different from the (topical) one that has already been acquired in Spec,ZP. Indeed, this movement operation only takes place if a topic features an additional contrastive feature.

to the left edge in German) receives a contrastive reading, this segment can move to Spec,YP independently of its modifier/complement, which can be left behind in Spec,ZP (15b–16b). If the latter is the case, the corresponding linearization can be obtained by extraposing the modifier/complement, which is obligatorily non-stressed, DP-internally. As expected, post-initial particles can only be spelled out in one position, namely the head of YP:

- (15) a. Das Ende dieser Geschichte aber war
the-NOM.SG end this-GEN.SG story however be-PST.3SG
kein Traum mehr.
no-NOM.SG dream more
- b. Das Ende aber dieser Geschichte war
the-NOM.SG end however this-GEN.SG story be-PST.3SG
kein Traum mehr.
no-NOM.SG dream more
‘The end of this story, however, was not a dream anymore.’
- (16) a. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*Das Ende dieser Geschichte*]_j [_{Y°} *aber*] [_{ZP} *t_j* [_{Z°}] [_{FinP} *t_j*
[_{Fin°} *war_i* [_{IP/VP} *t_j kein Traum mehr t_i*]]]]]]
- b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*Das Ende*]_x [_{Y°} *aber*] [_{ZP} [[_{t_x}] *dieser Geschichte*]_j [_{Z°}] [_{FinP}
t_j [_{Fin°} *war_i* [_{IP/VP} *t_j kein Traum mehr t_i*]]]]]]

Also in this case, the trace left in Spec,FinP by the constituent *das Ende dieser Geschichte* on its way to Spec,YP can optionally have a phonetic form, thereby generating the structure in (17a), whose syntactic representation is given in (17b). For the purposes of the present discussion, in (17) only the version of the sentence with the split nominal expression is given. It is tacitly understood that the more unmarked structure with an unsplit DP like in (15a) is always possible:

- (17) a. Das Ende aber dieser Geschichte, das war kein Traum mehr.
- b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*Das Ende*]_x [_{Y°} *aber*] [_{ZP} [[_{t_x}] *dieser Geschichte*]_j [_{Z°}] [_{FinP}
[das]_j [_{Fin°} *war_i* [_{IP/VP} *t_j kein Traum mehr t_i*]]]]]]

Although the resulting linearization is rather complex, it does not involve any violation of the V2 constraint as it was characterized above. The analysis advocated here is not only that the syntactic acquisition of the information-structural feature of contrastiveness is independent of topichood (an idea which is already found in Frey 2004, although with quite a different implementation), but also that the representation of the left periphery in German is necessarily bound to the technicalities of the cartographic model: different information-structural features such as [+TOP] and [+CONTR] are checked in different Split-CP positions

(18), and the inner complexity of the left periphery of German is both confirmed by the empirical data and compatible with the notion of a well-behaved V2 language:

- (18) [ForceP [YP ... [ZP ... [FinP [IP/VP]]]]] [+CONTR] [+TOP]

This featural split of contrastiveness and other grammatical or information-structural attributes is also visible if the fronted constituent belongs to a non-aboutness-topical category, that is, if it is, for instance, a frame-setter (19a), an interrogative phrase (19b) or a non-topic (here: a negated expression) (19c). Note that in all three examples, the fronted constituents consists of an XP (a PP in (19a–19b), a pronoun in (19c)) modified by an attribute (a relative clause in (19a), a genitival phrase in (19b), a PP in (19c)) and that the post-initial particle intervenes between these two components. This gives rise to the very same configuration as those addressed above.

- (19) a. (*lr-online.de* (news portal), Jun. 17th, 2005)
 Am ersten Tag aber, an dem die
 on-the-DAT.SG first-DAT.SG day however on REL.DAT.SG the-NOM.SG
 „Hängematte“ geschlossen war, standen sie
Hängematte PTCP-close-PTCP be-PST.3SG stand-PST.3PL
 wieder vor der Tür.
 they-NOM again in-front-of the-DAT.SG door
 ‘However, on the first day that the *Hängematte* was closed, they were
 already back in front of the door.’
 b. Context: Das Urteil: Schavan hat getäuscht. (‘The verdict: Schavan
 has cheated (in her PhD).’)
 In welchem Kapitel aber ihrer Dissertation hat
 in which chapter however her.GEN.FEM dissertation AUX.PRS.3SG
 Schavan nun eindeutig plagiiert?
 Schavan now clearly plagiarize-PTCP
 ‘But which parts of her PhD dissertation are unequivocally
 plagiarized?’ (adapted from: *handelsblatt.com* (news portal), Oct. 15th,
 2012)¹³

¹³The original text features a simple interrogative adverb: *Wo aber hat Schavan nun eindeutig plagiiert?* (lit. ‘where however has Schavan now unequivocally plagiarized?’). Irrespective of whether the wh-constituent is split, one may wonder how an interrogative element can receive a contrastive interpretation and how this reading differs from its standard interpretation. For contexts like (19b), it can be assumed that the question of the “where” (‘in which chapter of her dissertation?’) is extracted out of a set of alternatives that are potentially exhausted by all possible wh-elements questioning different aspects of the content introduced in the utterance. In this case, the pre-context provides one further piece of information that is contrasted to the “where” in the second clause, namely the “what” (‘Schavan has plagiarized’).

- c. Context: Wir kennen wohl die Psychologie des Kindes aus Büchern und haben seine Sprache belauschen gelernt, ... ('We arguably know the child's psychology from books, and we have learnt how to eavesdrop on their language...')
- ...keiner aber von uns kennt die
 none-NOM.SG however of we-DAT know-PRS.3SG the-ACC.SG
 Physiognomie des Kindes.
 physiognomy the-GEN.SG child-GEN.SG
 '...none of us, however, knows the child's physiognomy.' (Oskar Kalbus 1935: 130, scientific monograph)

If the analysis proposed for aboutness and contrastive topics is on the right track and in light of the fact that other categories can appear in very similar constructions, it is compelling to assume that the derivation of the patterns in (19) occurs cyclically, i.e., that the left periphery of the clause contains dedicated projections in which the corresponding features are acquired. For a sentence like (19a), for instance, the analysis in (20) follows: the frame is base-generated in the middle field, then moved to Spec,FinP (bottleneck effect) and to Spec,WP (here: the clause-internal projection assumed to encode frame-setting features). This projection is similar to (or, *mutatis mutandis*, the same as) the ModP assumed in Rizzi (2004) (also cf. Samo 2022a, and in particular the discussion in Samo 2022b, where a FrameP and a ModP are considered separately). In the final phase of the derivation, only the segment *am ersten Tag*, which is the contrastively interpreted part of the constituent, is raised to Spec,YP. The particle *aber* is merged in the head of YP:

- (20) [_{ForceP} [_{YP}[+CONTR] [*Am ersten Tag*]_x [_{Y°} *aber*] ... [_{WP}[+FRAME] [[_{t_x}] *an dem die „Hängematte“ geschlossen war*]_j... [_{FinP} _{t_j} [_{Fin°} *standen*]_i] [_{IP/VP} _{t_j} *sie wieder vor der Tür* _{t_i}]]]]]

It comes as little surprise that, just as in (17), the trace left by the frame setter in Spec,FinP can optionally be pronounced as an adverbial resumptive even in the complex construction in (19a) and (20):

- (21) Am ersten Tag aber, an dem die
 on-the-DAT.SG first-DAT.SG day however on REL.DAT.SG the-NOM.SG
 „Hängematte“ geschlossen war, da standen sie
Hängematte PTCP-close-PTCP be-PST.3SG A.RES stand-PST.3PL they-NOM
 wieder vor der Tür.
 again in-front-of the-DAT.SG door
 'However, on the first day that the *Hängematte* was closed, they were already back in front of the door.'

At this point, at least two questions arise: (i) in which relative order do the projections encoding the different grammatical and information-structural features (contrastiveness, topichood, interrogativity) occur in the extended left periphery?; and (ii) which position do non-topics target in the left periphery? These two issues are addressed in the following sections.

4.2 Derivation of non-dislocated frames

In the previous section, it was argued that frame(-like) phrases surfacing in a left-peripheral specifier that can be resumed by a preverbal adverbial element are base-generated in the middle field and cyclically moved into the left edge of the clause and that there is a dedicated position in which the feature [+FRAME] is acquired. The facts presented above entail that the canonical frame-setter position (i.e., the site in which non-contrastively interpreted frames are pronounced, as in (22)) must be positioned in a lower specifier than the one encoding contrastiveness, since WP-to-YP movement is supposed to be implemented only if the frame setter receives a contrastive reading:

- (22) a. Gestern_[NON-CONTR] habe ich Hans getroffen.
yesterday AUX.PRS.1SG I-NOM Hans PTCP-meet-PTCP
‘Yesterday I met Hans.’
b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} ... [_{WP} *gestern*_j [_{FinP} *t_j* [_{IP/VP} ... *t_j*]]]]]

However, it still has to be clarified where this projection exactly occurs, viz., how it interacts with the other categories addressed above.

4.2.1 Topics and frames

As shown below, moving a frame-setting constituent into the left periphery from its base-generation site in the IP/VP area is not the only possible option. In cases like (4a), (4c) and (4d) (replicated in (23) for the reader’s convenience), this XP seems to be base-generated in the CP area.

- (23) a. Wenn sie schon so ... viel Geld gewonnen
if they-NOM already so much money PTCP-win-PTCP
haben, warum spendieren sie nicht wenigstens
AUX.PRS.3PL why pay-PRS.3PL they-NOM NEG at-least
eine Runde?
one-ACC.SG round
‘If they have won so much money, why don’t they at least pay for a round?’

- b. Heute, die Goethe-Institute in Indien
 today the-NOM.PL Goethe-institute-NOM.PL in India
 heißen alle Max Müller Bhavan.
 be-called-PRS.3PL all-NOM-PL Max Müller Bhavan
 ‘Today, the Goethe institutes in India are all called “Max Müller Bhavan”.’
- c. Piachi, als ihm der Stab gebrochen
 Piachi when he-DAT.SG the-NOM.SG staff PTCB-break-PTCP
 war, verweigerte sich hartnäckig der
 AUX.PST.3SG refuse-PST.3SG REFL.ACC.3SG stubbornly the-DAT.SG
 Absolution.
 absolution
 ‘Piachi, when the staff was broken over him, stubbornly refused absolution.’

In (23a) and (23b) (respectively (4a) and (4c) in Section 3), the frame linearly precedes a *wh*-interrogative (*warum*) or an aboutness topic (*die Goethe-Institute*). These two examples feature different interpretations of the constituent in first clause position: in (23a), the *wenn*-clause introduces a fully presupposed content (“they have won a lot of money”), while *heute* in (23b) has a temporal reference that modifies the predicate BE CALLED and seems to imply a contrastive meaning. Since it is intuitively clear that in these two sentences it is not the frame but the XP in second position that interacts with the V2 syntax of the clause, it is compelling to postulate that the *wenn*-clause and the adverb *heute* are first-merged in their surface position.¹⁴ This is also corroborated by the fact that an obligatory

¹⁴ An anonymous reviewer raises the point about how one can justify not treating both the utterance-initial topic and the *wh*-phrase in structures like (i) (discussed in the literature, e.g., by Boeckx & Grohmann 2005, Ott 2014, Samo 2019) as both moved to the CP layer, given that the former is case-marked:

- (i) (Adapted from Samo 2019: 153, reported as “Hubert Haider, p.c.”)
 Seinen neuen Aufsatz, wann sollen wir den / ihn
 his-ACC.SG new-ACC.SG article when shall.PRS.3SG we-NOM P.RES.ACC.SG / he-ACC
 lesen?
 read-INF
 ‘His new article, when shall we read it?’

It should be considered that the assumption that two XPs can be independently raised to the left periphery in a given structure would amount to the undesirable implication that this should also be the case in other configurations, which clearly does not align with the empirical

prosodic pause intervenes between them and the constituent that linearly follows them in preverbal position. Given the different interpretations of the relevant constituents, a reasonable assumption would be that the *wenn*-clause and *heute* are base-generated in different specialized projections either extra-sententially (KP and JP in (24)) or very high CP-internal positions (GP and HP in (24)).¹⁵ This assumption is in line with Breitbarth's (2022) analysis, which is grounded, *inter alia*, on the empirically observable absence of reconstruction effects and deep embedding in the sentence structure.¹⁶ For reasons of space, I leave the technical details of this intricate differentiation and the corresponding typology for future research, thereby placing the stress on the idea that the surface position of both types of XPs does not result from movement:

- (24) [KP (*wenn*-clause) [JP (*heute*) [ForceP [GP (*wenn*-clause) [HP (*heute*) [...]
[FinP [IP/VP]]]]]]]

In the pattern illustrated in (23c), instead, the frame in second position modifies the predicate by providing a temporal reference for its interpretation and can *under no circumstances* be interpreted contrastively. This aspect is crucial in our discussion, since it excludes that the temporal clause might be positioned in Spec,YP in this sentence (whether its position is supposed to result from movement or not). I propose that in this case, the frame setter is directly base-generated in the specifier that may otherwise host either a moved frame interpreted

observations generally made for present-day German. For structures like (i), I adopt Samo's (2019) idea of what he calls "Case Hanging Topics", namely hanging vPs first-merged above ForceP and replicating the structure of the clause-internal vP that exhibit a portion deleted at PF. For (i) above, Samo assumes the presence of a partially elliptical vP in the outer left periphery interpreted as 'as for reading his new article' and proposes the analysis in (ii). The interested reader is referred to Samo (2019: 146ff.) for the technical details of the derivation:

- (ii) (Samo 2019: 156)
- | | | | | |
|----------------|--------------|------------|------------------|-------------------------|
| [Hanging Topic | Seinen | neuen | Aufsatz lesen, | [ForceP ... wann sollen |
| | his-ACC.SG | new-ACC.SG | article read-INF | when shall.PRS.3SG |
| wir | den | / ihn | lesen]]? | |
| we-NOM | P.RES.ACC.SG | / he-ACC | read-INF | |

¹⁵Note that post-syntactic merger is starkly dispreferred, which is why this construction occurs less frequently than other non-V2 patterns. It is to be noted, however, that the sequence Adverbial > Argument > Vfin is not limited to varieties like Kiezdeutsch (Wiese 2012), but is also present in standard spoken German, as shown, e.g., in the empirical studies by Breitbarth (2022, 2023).

¹⁶Cf. Breitbarth (2022: 21): "The absence of reconstruction and deep embedding indicates that there is no trace in the subsequent clause from which the prepositioning could have originated, which... only allows for the possibility that the clause-initial adverbial modification must have been base-generated outside the subsequent clause," (translation mine).

non-contrastively or the trace of a frame further raised to Spec,YP to receive a contrastive reading. The two assumptions that (i) the position of this XP must be lower than that of topics; and that (ii) this constituent must be base-generated can be tested. In fact, such frames can occur to the right of a contrastive topic ((25a), where the context and the particle in post-initial position concur to disambiguate the interpretation of the DP in first position) or of an aboutness topic ((25b), in this case assuming a corresponding context). What is more, in a complex non-V2 structure like this, the immediate preverbal position (in the present approach: Spec,FinP) can host a pronominal resumptive replicating the features of the DP (here: *der* ‘he.NOM.SG’), but not an adverbial resumptive (here: *dann* ‘then’) taking up the reference of the temporal CP (25c) – irrespective of whether the DP in first position has a contrastive reading. This can be taken to show that the moved element in this linearization must be the DP and cannot be the adverbial clause:

- (25) a. Context: Im Märchen kommt der unbeschwerte Jüngstgeborene, der von den Älteren nicht ganz voll genommen wird und in der Familie leer ausgeht, durch sein gutes Herz draußen in der Welt zum Erfolg. (‘In fairytales, the lighthearted youngest born, who is not taken seriously by their older siblings and is left out in the cold by their family, is successful in the external world by means of his good behavior.’)

Der Erstgeborene hingegen, wenn er den
the-NOM.SG first-born-NOM.SG instead if he-NOM the-ACC.SG
Weg des Glücklichen in krampfhaftem Ehrgeiz
way the-GEN.SG happy-GEN.SG in frantic-DAT.SG eagerness
nachzuahmen versucht, erreicht das gerade
to-emulate-INF try-PRS.3SG reach-PRS.3SG the-ACC.SG exact-ACC.SG
Gegenteil.
opposite

‘When the firstborn instead tries to emulate the path of the happy one with frantic eagerness, he gets the exact opposite.’ (DeReKo, N95/MAI.19855)

- b. ...aber Kinder_[+aboutness], wenn sie es von ihren
but kid-NOM.PL if they-NOM it-ACC from their-DAT.PL
Eltern anders vorgelebt bekommen,
parent-DAT.PL differently V.PRT-PTCP-live-PTCP receive-PRS.3PL

können da sehr grausam untereinander sein.
can-PRS.3PL there very cruel among-each-other be-INF

‘...but children can be cruel to each other if their parents set a different example for them.’ (baby.gofeminin.de (online forum), Feb. 23rd, 2023)

- c. Der Erstgeborene (hingegen), wenn er ... nachzuahmen versucht,
OK_{der}/*dann erreicht das gerade Gegenteil.

‘When the firstborn (instead) tries to emulate the path of the happy one with frantic eagerness, he gets the exact opposite.’

The data suggest that the projection labeled “WP” or “canonical frame position” above and exemplified in (20–22) and (25) must be positioned to the right of both YP and ZP. This projection serves different functions, all linked to framing: run-of-the-mill frames are generated in the middle field and moved to Spec,WP, where they appear at PF unless they are contrastive, in which case they are further moved to Spec,YP. Other types of frames are extrasentential or merged post-syntactically in a very high left-peripheral position. A third strategy consists in generating a frame directly in Spec,WP. In the latter two cases, an adverbial resumptive taking up the reference of the frame cannot be spelled out in Spec,FinP. The derivation of (25c) is sketched in (26):

- (26) [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [_{Der Erstgeborene}]_j [_{Y°} *hingegen*, [_{ZP} _{t_j} [_{WP} *wenn er ... nachzuahmen versucht*, [_{FinP} [_{der}]_j [_{Fin°} *erreicht*_i [_{IP/VP} _{t_j} *das gerade Gegenteil* _{t_i}]]]]]]]]]

In the discussion so far, only contrastive and aboutness topics have been mentioned. Familiar topics, i.e., given, unstressed, often pronominally realized constituents expressing topic continuity (Pesetsky 1987, Givón 1983, Frascarelli & Hinterhölzl 2007), occupy a lower CP position. It is proposed here that familiar topics, unlike contrastive topics, do not need to acquire an aboutness-topical feature before moving to a dedicated specifier encoding a putative [+FAMILIAR] feature. After all, familiar topics are nothing but the spell-out of topic continuity. In non-pro-drop languages like German, such topics are bundles of features phonetically spelled out as weak copies of a topic present in the discourse (viz., in the pre-context). In pro-drop languages, they are generally realized as *pros*. Therefore, they can be reasonably assumed to move from the middle field to Spec,FinP to derive the bottleneck effect and not to undergo any further leftward movement operations. This is independent of the status of the XPs positioned to their left in the CP area. What is crucial with respect to the present discussion, however, is that the sequence “familiar topic > (non-contrastive) frame setter” is not possible.

If a (pronominally realized) topic appears to the left of a frame, it is obligatorily interpreted as a non-familiar, preferably as a contrastive topic, as in (27). This is arguably due to the fact that contrastive, unlike aboutness topics, are associated with a recognizable prosodic contour that disambiguates their reading. Of course, the left-peripheral frame in second position need not be an adverbial clause, but can be also realized by other phrasal categories (for instance by a PP, as in (27b)):

- (27) a. Context: Auf Sam wird in diesem Buch herumgetreten bis zum Gehtnichtmehr, sei dies von den Vampiren, vom Rudel oder Alan.
(‘Sam is heavily trampled on in this book – by the vampires, by the troop, and by Alan.’)
Aber sie, sobald man wieder nett zu ihr
but she-NOM as-soon-as one-NOM again nice to she-DAT
ist, vergisst dies alles ...
be-PRS.3SG forget-PRS.3SG that-ACC all
‘But when she is treated decently again, she forgets that all...’
(amazon.de, Sept. 17th, 2014 (book review))
- b. Und ich, trotz der vier Beine, stürze,
and I-NOM despite the-GEN.PL four leg-GEN.PL tumble-PRS.1SG
falle, fliege durch Raum und Zeit zurück schnurstracks
fall-PRS.1SG fly-PRS.1SG through space and time back directly
zu der Expertin hin.
to the-DAT.SG expert up-to
‘And despite walking with four legs, I tumble, fall, fly through space
and time directly back to the expert.’ (DWDS, WK_1995_2020,
und_ich_’,_trotz_15, aus: Coaching-Blogger, Jul. 05th, 2012)

4.2.2 Interrogatives and frames

Similar observations can be made with respect to the interplay between interrogative pronouns/adverbs and frame setters.

A frame-setting constituent co-occurring left-peripherally with a *wh*-element can surface to the left or to the right of it. In both cases, the presence of an adverbial resumptive in preverbal position is excluded (28a–28b), which suggests that the adjuncts have not been moved into the CP area from a middle-field position. Along the lines of what has been proposed in relation to the interaction between topics and frames, non-dislocated frames can be first-merged either clause-externally/in a very high CP-internal position or in a specifier to the right of the sites encoding topichood and interrogativity. Note that for independent reasons,

the trace left by the interrogative element in Spec,FinP cannot be pronounced in languages like German: this possibility is limited to non-focused referential elements (contrastive, aboutness and frame-setting topics moving through Spec, FinP). It is assumed, however, that run-of-the-mill *wh*-elements are not base-generated in German:

- (28) a. Als du hier an der Kilbi angekommen
 when you-NOM here at the-DAT.SG Kilbi V.PRT-PTCP-come-PTCP
 bist, was (*da) war das Erste,
 AUX.PRS.2SG what A.RES be-PST.3SG the-NOM.SG first-NOM.SG
 das dich begeisterte?
 REL.NOM.SG you-ACC.SG thrill-PST.3SG
 ‘What was the first thing that thrilled you when you arrived at Kilbi
 [= name of a music festival]?’ (wavebuzz.ch (blog), May 31st, 2015)
- b. Warum, wenn der Ofen nicht benutzt wird, (*dann)
 why when the-NOM.SG oven NEG use-PTCP AUX.PRS.3SG A.RES
 ist der Luftstrom oben?
 be-PRS.3SG the-NOM.SG airflow above
 ‘Why is the airflow of the oven even on when it is not used?’
 (manuall.de, Aug. 08th, 2020)

If the interrogative element is contrastive, it can be adjacent to a post-initial particle even when the constituent in second position is a frame setter, as in (29):

- (29) Warum aber, wenn doch das Anliegen aller ein
 why however if PRT the-NOM.SG concern all-GEN.PL a-NOM
 wirksamer Kampf gegen Antisemitismus sein sollte,
 effective-NOM.SG fight against antisemitism be-INF shall-SBJ.3SG
 wird dem Phänomen des BDS hier überhaupt so
 AUX.PRS.3SG the-DAT.SG phenomenon the-GEN.SG BDS here at-all so
 viel Aufmerksamkeit eingeräumt?
 much attention V.PRT-PTCP-concede-PTCP
 ‘But why, if everybody’s concern should be the fight against antisemitism,
 does the BDS phenomenon receive so much attention?’ (*Frankfurter
 Rundschau*, May 13th, 2021)

This is in line with the derivational mechanisms assumed so far: the *wh*-element is merged in the IP/VP domain and moved to Spec,FinP, where its trace blocks any further movement from the lower area, then to a dedicated specifier

in which interrogativity is encoded (FocP in Rizzi's 1997, 2001 model for main clauses; LP in (30) below) and eventually to Spec,YP, in whose head the particle *aber* is spelled out. The *wenn*-clause is base-generated in the lower Spec,WP:

- (30) [_{ForceP} [_{YP} *Warum*_j [_{Y°} *aber*_j [_{LP[+FOC/INT]} *t_j* [_{WP} *wenn doch ... sein sollte*,
[_{FinP} *t_j* [_{Fin°} *wird*_i [_{IP/VP} *dem Phänomen ... t_j* *so viel Aufmerksamkeit*
eingeräumt t_i]]]]]]]]]]]

Although clause-internal (i.e., moved) topics and foci/*wh*-elements can never co-occur in the same sentence in German given that only one constituent can enter the left periphery, for formal reasons I assume two distinct projections for these features (neutrally labeled “ZP_[+TOP]” and “LP_[+WH/INT]”) which both occur to the left of WP_[+FRAME] and match the serialization in Rizzi's model of the Split CP:

- (31) [_{ForceP} [_{YP[+CONTR]} [_{ZP[+TOP]} [_{LP[+WH/INT]} [_{WP[+FRAME]} [_{FinP} [_{IP/VP}]]]]]]]]]

In the non-V2 structures addressed in this section so far, the featural distinction between the two phrases simultaneously occupying the CP area is evident. It is undeniable that, say, an aboutness topic and a frame-setting constituent must be attracted to the left periphery by different features. In the next section, it is shown that some non-V2 patterns including a frame are more ambiguous with respect to their syntactic interpretation.

4.2.3 Potentially ambiguous patterns

In some cases, the structural relation between two (frame-like) adjuncts both positioned in the prefield and thus generating a linear non-V2 configuration is syntactically ambiguous.

To clarify this, let us firstly consider a linear non-V2 pattern in which the derivation is *not* inherently ambiguous. Often, two or more frames occupying the CP area belong to the same or to an analogous semantic cline, like in (32), where temporality (*gestern Abend* ‘yesterday evening’) and locality (*auf dem Weg* ... ‘on my way to ...’) concur to localize the general time-space coordinates of the daring described in the sentence.

- (32) Gestern Abend auf dem Weg zum Sport habe
yesterday evening on the-DAT.SG way to-the-DAT.SG sport AUX.PRS.1SG
ich es gewagt, am Sahlkamp in Hannover auf
I-NOM it-ACC PTCP-dare-PTCP at-the-DAT.SG Sahlkamp in Hanover on

der Fahrbahn zu fahren.
the-DAT.SG road to go-INF

‘Last night, on my way to sports practice, I decided to travel on the road at Sahlkamp (= name of a city district) in Hanover.’ (X, LaSuze, Jun. 27th, 2023)

It is compelling to assume that the two phrases build a “frame-setting complex” generated in the middle field and assembled there (or in a separate workspace) at some point of the derivation. This sentence can be modeled in different ways to demonstrate that the “big frame” resulting from this operation can appear as a block in Spec,YP (33a), in a split configuration within the CP with the temporal XP being raised to Spec,YP and the local one left behind in Spec,WP (33b), as two distinct constituents surfacing respectively in the left periphery and in the IP/VP area (33c) or a complex in the middle field (33d). Moreover, in examples in (33a–33c) it is shown that if at least one of the two phrases is moved into the CP domain, it can optionally be taken up by an adverbial resumptive. If it is true that the two XPs form a big frame when surfacing together in the prefield, it can be assumed that this is a standard case of adverbial dislocation (Section 4.1.1) and that the resumptive has the entire frame as an antecedent (cf. the arguments in Catasso 2021a):

- (33) a. Gestern Abend auf dem Weg zum Sport aber, (da) habe ich es gewagt, am Sahlkamp in Hannover auf der Fahrbahn zu fahren.
b. Gestern Abend aber auf dem Weg zum Sport (da) habe ich es gewagt, am Sahlkamp in Hannover auf der Fahrbahn zu fahren.
c. Gestern Abend (aber) (,) (da) habe ich es auf dem Weg zum Sport gewagt, am Sahlkamp in Hannover auf der Fahrbahn zu fahren.
d. Ich habe es gestern Abend auf dem Weg zum Sport gewagt, am Sahlkamp in Hannover auf der Fahrbahn zu fahren.
‘Last night, on my way to sports practice, I decided to travel on the road at Sahlkamp (= name of a city district) in Hanover.’

In other cases, however, the relation between the two phrases is not as clear, as already pointed out in several works by St. Müller (2003, 2005, 2018). In (34), six sentences are presented that exemplarily illustrate some possible combinations (and serializations) of adverbials in this pattern: modal > temporal (34a), explicative/subject-oriented > concessive (34b), temporal > causal (34c), local > concessive (34d), temporal > final (34e), temporal > concessive (34f):

- (34) a. Aber plötzlich, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf, gab
 but suddenly in-the-DAT.SG 1812 give-PST.3SG EXPL
 es eine große Überraschung.
 a-ACC.SG big-ACC.SG surprise
 ‘But suddenly, in 1812, there was a big surprise.’ (M. Leblanc. 2022.
Arsène Lupin heiratet (novel), p. 66)
- b. Schließlich, trotz allem, was dein Abschlussball-Date
 after-all despite all-DAT.SG REL.ACC.SG your prom-date
 dir sagt, zählen die ersten
 you-DAT.SG tell-PRS.3SG count-PRS.3PL the-NOM.PL first-NOM-PL
 Eindrücke.
 impression-NOM.PL
 ‘After all, despite what your prom date will tell you, it is the first
 impressions that count.’ (demodia.com, 2023, company website)
- c. am Ende aufgrund der Mehrzahl an klaren
 at-the-DAT.SG end because-of the-GEN.SG multitude at clear-DAT.PL
 Torchancen gewinnen wir das ... Viertelfinale ...
 goal-chance-DAT.PL win-PRS.1PL we-NOM the-ACC.SG quarterfinal
 ‘In the end, thanks to a number of goal-scoring opportunities, we
 won [lit. ‘win’] the quarterfinal ...’ (Facebook, ASC GW 49 - 1. Herren,
 Oct. 31st, 2019)
- d. Aber hier, obwohl Verkehrssicherheit ja angeblich so wichtig
 but here although road-safety PRT allegedly so important
 ist, sieht man die Herren
 be-PRS.3SG see-PRS.3SG one-NOM the-ACC.PL gentleman-ACC.PL
 der Ordnungspolizei nicht in Aktion.
 the-GEN.SG Ordnungspolizei NEG in action
 ‘But although road safety is supposed to be very important, you don’t
 get to see the *Ordnungspolizei* gentlemen here.’ (op-online.de, May
 16th, 2022 (online newspaper))
- e. Und heute damit der tag nicht langweilig ist
 and today so-that the-NOM.SG day NEG boring be-PRS.3SG
 spielen wir „HOT OR NOT“.
 play-PRS.1PL we-NOM hot or not
 ‘And today, we will play “HOT OR NOT”, so the day will not get
 boring.’ (Facebook, Frankfurter Twins, May 24th, 2014 [orthography
 and punctuation unmodified])

- f. *damals, trotz 68er-Elan, durfte man beide*
back-then despite 1968 vigor can-PST.3SG one-NOM
als nichtheterosexuell nicht denken oder
both-ACC.PL as non-heterosexual NEG think-INF
wenigstens nur heimlich.
or at-least only secretly
 ‘Back then, despite the 1968 spirit, one was not allowed to think of them as non-heterosexual men, at least not publicly.’ (taz.de, January 07th, 2011 (online newspaper))¹⁷

The derivation of structures like those in (34) is apparently ambiguous in the sense that the fact that the two adjuncts belong to distinct semantic clines, i.e., modify the predicate in different ways, makes the idea of a “big frame” assembled in the middle field intuitively less plausible (but, at least in principle, not impossible). If the analysis developed above is on the right track, sentences like these (in particular, their left-peripheral serializations) can possibly be derived in different ways. Let us exemplarily consider (34a) and (34f). These sentences can be modeled such that one (e.g., 35a–36a, 35d–36d), or both XPs (e.g., 35b–36b, 35e–36e) in the CP domain is/are clearly positioned in Spec,YP and that one or both is/are taken up by a preverbal resumptive:

- (35) a. *plötzlich aber, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf gab es ...*
 b. *plötzlich, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf aber gab es ...*

¹⁷An anonymous reviewer notes that YP, ZP, LP and WP refer to positions that could be identified, respectively, as a ContrP, an AboutTopP, a WhP, and a FrameP. To be sure, the use of letters for labeling these projections is an act of prudence. With respect to the projection called “WP” here, for instance, the examples in (34) show that the adverbial in second position in this pattern need not be a frame-setting topic (at least in the mainstream sense). In the following sentence, WP hosts a modal XP:

- (i) *[Ihr Anwalt,] [mit umständlicher Begründung, dringlich und in aller*
their lawyer with sophisticated-DAT.SG motivation pressingly] and in all-DAT.SG
Form beantragte Wahrheitsbeweis
form request.PST.3SG truth-proof
 ‘With a sophisticated argumentation, pressingly and in due form, their lawyer requested a proof of the truth.’ (Lühr 1985: 18)

The question of whether German also exhibits an independent ModP or the projection that is labeled WP here can be assumed to incorporate the functions of a FrameP and a ModP is not addressed in the present paper (cf. the discussion of ex. (20) above) and is left to future research. Thus, for the time being, a rather neutral labeling is chosen over a more descriptive one.

- c. plötzlich, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf, da gab es ...
 - d. plötzlich aber, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf, da gab es ...
 - e. plötzlich, im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf aber, da gab es ...
- (36)
- a. damals aber, trotz 68er Elan durfte man beide ...
 - b. ? damals, trotz 68er-Elan aber durfte man beide ...
 - c. damals, trotz 68er Elan, da durfte man beide ...
 - d. damals aber, trotz 68er Elan, da durfte man beide ...
 - e. ?? damals, trotz 68er-Elan aber, da durfte man beide ...

If one considers these two combinations of adverbials, it seems that the resulting variants are not all grammatically acceptable in the same way. In particular, the simultaneous raising of both XPs to Spec,YP produces a less-than-optimal result in (36), while it is unproblematic with the sequence modal > temporal. This suggests that *plötzlich* and *im Jahre achtzehnhundertzwölf* plausibly do build a big frame here and can appear either in the same clausal domain or in different positions. This is probably due to the fact that although *plötzlich* is a modal adverb, its proximity to a time-related meaning implying perfectivity makes it cognitively relatable to – viz. readily interpretable as – a temporal element. This does not seem to be the case instead for *damals* and *trotz 68er Elan*: in (36), the temporal phrase is arguably the one which is first-merged in the middle field and undergoes cyclical movement to the CP area (via Spec,FinP, Spec,WP and – if a contrastive reading occurs – to Spec,YP) and is optionally resumed by an overt trace spell-out (*da*) in preverbal position. Indeed, concessive antecedents are generally not compatible with adverbial resumption. The phrase *trotz 60er Elan* is better analyzed as a segment base-generated in Spec,WP.

In light of this insight, which is not at all self-evident, all the other patterns are easily derivable by means of the mechanisms illustrated in the previous sections. The proposed derivations of (35d) and (36d) (the most complex variants among the examples discussed here) are given in (37) (where the intermediate middle-field operations are not considered for ease of exposition):

- (37)
- a. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} *Plötzlich*_x [_{Y°} *aber* [_{WP} [[_{t_x}] *im Jahre 1812*]_j, [_{FinP} [_{da}]_j [_{Fin°} *gab*_i [_{IP/VP} _{t_j} *es eine große Überraschung* _{t_i}]]]]]]]]]
 - b. [_{ForceP} [_{YP} *Damals*_j [_{Y°} *aber* [_{WP} *trotz 68er Elan*, [_{FinP} [_{da}]_j [_{Fin°} *durfte*_i [_{IP/VP} _{t_j} *man beide als nichtheterosexuell nicht denken* _{t_i}]]]]]]]]]

The general idea conveyed here is that if it is the case that in a given linear non-V2 pattern two adjuncts simultaneously surface in the prefield and these two

phrases are semantically divergent, it cannot be established a-priorily whether they constitute a big frame (i.e., they belong to the class of topicalized XPs addressed in Section 4.1) or only one of them is a moved element, while the other is better analyzed as a non-dislocated adjunct generated in Spec,WP. In order to determine this, factors such as the ones considered with respect to (35) and (36) are to be tested.

4.3 Non-topics

The last category to be reviewed is that of what will be referred to as “non-topics”. This class includes constituents that: (i) are not interrogative/focused, and; (ii) can under no conditions function as sentence topics (in the widest sense), i.e., can be neither frame-setting nor familiar, aboutness or contrastive topics. In (19c) above, an example belonging to this category was illustrated that contains a negated phrase (*keiner von uns* ‘none of us’). Besides negatives (38a), further representatives of this group are quantified (38b) and non-specific indefinite (38c) expressions.

Let us now consider two peculiar characteristics of non-topics. In the first place, as all examples in (38) show, a non-topic appearing in the left periphery cannot be adverbially or pronominally resumed in preverbal position:

- (38) a. An keinem Ort (*, da) konnte man sich
at no-DAT.SG place A.RES can-PST.3SG one-NOM REFL.ACC.SG
verstecken.
hide-INF
‘We could not hide anywhere.’
- b. Alle Studierenden (*, die) haben die
all-NOM.PL student-NOM.PL P.RES.NOM.PL AUX.PRS.3PL the-ACC.SG
Klausur bestanden.
exam pass-PTCP
‘All students passed the exam.’
- c. Einem Hund (*, dem) würde ich so etwas nicht
a-DAT.SG dog P.RES.DAT.SG AUX.SBJ.1SG I-NOM so something NEG
zumuten.
demand-INF
‘I would never demand something like this from a dog.’

Secondly, we have already seen that the corresponding constituents can appear in the specifier of the left-peripheral projection encoding contrastiveness. If

the non-topic is a complex XP (including, for instance, a modifier), the two parts of the phrase can appear in a split configuration in the CP area:

- (39) Einem Menschen aber, der so etwas tut,
 a-DAT.SG person-DAT.SG however REL.NOM.SG so something do-PRS.3SG
 würde ich nicht vertrauen.
 AUX.SBJ.1SG I-NOM NEG trust-INF
 ‘I could not trust someone who says something like that.’

Superficially, non-topics might be thought to have these two properties in common e.g., with *wh*-phrases surfacing in the C-domain. However, a crucial difference between these two categories is that a non-topic cannot plausibly be assumed to acquire a [+NON-TOP] feature in a left-peripheral projection, since this would amount to the absurd assumption that the CP layer hosts a position in which *non-features* are checked. What is more, the semantics of non-topics is too various to allow for a characterization of a putative projection in this sense.

Therefore, I will propose that non-topics, differently from *wh*-interrogatives, undergo Formal Movement to Spec,FinP (and appear there) in the standard case and are further raised to Spec,YP only if the constituent (or a part of it) is interpreted contrastively. In other words, while interrogatives derive the bottleneck effect in Spec,FinP (leaving a non-pronounceable trace) and are then attracted to Spec,LP (cf. 30) and – if the relevant conditions apply – to Spec,YP, non-topics surface in Spec,FinP unless they are attracted by some higher head in order to check an information-structurally-driven feature. Non-topics have this position in common with familiar topics (which are moved there) and expletives (which are base-generated), but the latter two can never be raised to Spec,YP (or to another position to the left of Spec,FinP) since they are not compatible with a contrastive (or some other) reading. Of course, if the left segment of a complex non-topic moves to Spec,YP, the unstressed modifier remains in Spec,FinP and is spelled out in that position. The derivation of (39) is given in (40):

- (40) [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*Einem Menschen*]_x [_{Y°} *aber* [_{FinP} [[_t]_x *der so etwas tut*]_j [_{Fin°} *würde*_i [_{IP/VP} *ich t_j nicht vertrauen t_i*]]]]]]]]

As a gate into the left periphery, FinP is thus the most crucial of all left-peripheral projections in the present analysis: its specifier serves the derivation of the bottleneck effect, carries the EPP-like feature, hosts some types of constituents first-merged there or raised to that position by Formal Movement; its head attracts the finite verb.

4.4 The spatial limits of the German left periphery

If one tries to realize most of the left-peripheral categories addressed above in one and the same sentence simultaneously, thereby defying the limits of the occupability of the German C-domain, one may produce a structure like the following:

- (41) Dem Kellner aber, der da arbeitet, als
the-DAT.SG waiter however REL.NOM.SG there work-PRS.3SG when
wir angekommen sind, dem habe
we-NOM V.PRT-PTCP-COME-PTCP AUX.PRS.1PL P.RES.DAT.SG AUX.PRS.1SG
ich's gezeigt!
I-NOM-it-ACC PTCP-show-PTCP
‘But the waiter who works there, when we arrived... I owned him!’

Constructions like (41) are of course marked, but still possible, especially in spoken interaction. This sentence makes the lexicalization of the specifier and head positions discussed in this paper visible, as illustrated in the derivation in (42):

- (42) [_{ForceP} [_{YP} [*Dem Kellner*]_x [_{Y°} *aber*, [_{ZP} [[_t]_x *der da arbeitet*]_j [_{WP} *als wir
angekommen sind* [_{FinP} [*dem*]_j [_{Fin°} *habe*_i [_{IP/VP} *ich's t_j gezeigt t_i]]]]]]]]]]]*

In this structure, the finite verb is attracted to *Fin°* and the indirect object *dem Kellner, der da arbeitet* (‘the waiter who works there’) is base-generated in the middle field and cyclically moved to Spec,FinP (bottleneck) and then to ZP to acquire a [+TOP] feature. In Spec,FinP, the spell-out of its trace is pronounced as a pronominal resumptive matching the φ -features of the dislocate (but – crucially – could also be silent). Subsequently, *dem Kellner* is further raised to Spec,YP, where it checks a [+CONTR] feature. In doing this, it leaves its unstressed (DP-internally extraposed) modifier in Spec,ZP. Note that this modifier is a restrictive relative clause, which excludes the assumption that this constituent could have a parenthetical status. The head position of the projection in whose specifier *dem Kellner* surfaces spells out the post-initial particle *aber*. The frame-like *als*-clause is base-generated in Spec,WP.

5 Conclusions

In this paper, a cartographically-oriented model of the left periphery of German has been proposed that allows the syntactic derivation of a number of complex

prefield serializations. In order to test the hypotheses formulated throughout the discussion, non-V2 patterns – linear V3, V4, V5, etc. – have been considered.

It has been argued that V2 is primarily a *structural*, not (only) a *linear* constraint, and Verb-Late(r) – when it is possible – is a (superficial) variant of this pattern. In other words, the linear component of V2 can be violated, but its structural core is inescapable.

The existence (and the formal investigation) of complex prefields shows that even the left periphery of a well-behaved V2 language may contain multiple projections encoding different features. A combination of Move and Merge warrants the derivability of all possible word orders. German can thus be assumed to have a Split CP à la Rizzi (1997) (with the respective differences having been considered), but its occupation is regulated by stricter rules than in languages like Italian: for instance, it exhibits obligatory V-to-C movement in all run-of-the-mill main clauses and its CP layer shows a so-called “bottleneck effect” and an EPP-like feature which is arguably positioned in a lower position in systems like English and Romance.

What is more, it has been suggested on the basis of data featuring Verb-Late(r) orders that the finite verb moves to Fin, not to Force in German declarative main clauses.

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Part III

Verb-third and adverbial resumption in diachrony and synchrony

Chapter 5

Verb-third with initial *þa/thô* in Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German verse

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This paper is an empirical study of instances of V3 in clauses with the marker *þa/thô* in initial position in Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German verse. It examines whether such instances can be considered variants of V2 licensed when the second element is a subject pronoun and/or a given element. It concludes that such is not the case. In the corpus assembled for the sake of our study, V3 tends to share more affinities with V-late than with V2, while in the Old English section of the corpus V2 cannot be said to be the standard word order for independent clauses starting with *þa*.

1 Introduction

The marker *þa/thô* is extremely common in Old Germanic languages, where it is often found at the beginning of a clause. When the verb is in late or final position, *þa/thô* is usually interpreted as a subordinating conjunction (“when”), whereas when the verb is in second position, initial *þa/thô* is usually interpreted as a discourse marker (derived from the temporal adverb “then” or “at that time”), marking a new step in a narrative and foregrounding action (Breivik 2003, Enkvist 1972, 1986, Enkvist & Wårvik 1987, Foster 1975, Schulz 2014, Wårvik 1995, 2011, 2013).



According to Walkden, when *þa* occurs in initial position in Old English, V3 does not occur:

A first glance at the syntax of OE main clauses “suggests a strong parallelism” between OE and modern Germanic V2 languages such as Dutch and German (...) In all of these examples the verb follows the first constituent; in *wh*-questions (...) and where an adverb such as *þa* or *þonne* is initial, this pattern is essentially exceptionless (Eythórsson 1995: 293), and it is the majority pattern in main clauses in general. (Walkden 2015)

It is worth noting, however, that Eythórsson’s actual words are somewhat more measured than Walkden’s:

In *wh*-questions the verb occurs in second position between the *wh*-word and a subject pronoun (...). There are virtually no exceptions to this in Old English prose (Mitchell 1985). The same pattern is also regularly found with fronted negations (...), and frequently with fronted adverbs such as *þa*, *þonne* ‘then’, and *nu* ‘now’ as well (...). (Eythórsson 1995: 293)

Eythórsson makes no claim for when the subject is not a pronoun or when the sentence is in verse rather than prose, while “frequently” is not quite the same as “essentially exceptionless”.

In fact, in the verse corpus examined here, cooccurrences of V3 with initial *þa*/*thô* can be found in Old English, but also Old Saxon and Old High German, though the phenomenon is much rarer in the latter two languages.

Two main hypotheses have been put forward to explain V3 in Old Germanic languages. The first hypothesis is the so-called clitic hypothesis, whereby it is assumed that apparent V3 clauses are typically made up of a fronted constituent, a subject pronoun and a finite verb (which may then be followed by other constituents) and that the subject pronoun is actually cliticized to the verb and should therefore not be regarded as occupying a separate position. The argument has been made for Old English by van Kemenade (1987) and Pintzuk (1996, 1999) and for Old High German by Tomaselli (1995: 356–357). In 1995, Eythórsson could claim that there was a consensus on the issue (1995: 295).

However, objections have been put forward since. Bech (2001), in particular, shows that interpreting the data according to the clitic hypothesis increases the proportion of Old English clauses which can be considered V2, but cannot explain away many remaining instances of V3, and tends to obscure some aspects of the evolution from a heterogeneous word order in Old English to a more homogeneous one in Late Middle English.

Accordingly, Bech (2001) offers a new hypothesis: that V3 is not the result of exclusively syntactic factors, but also of pragmatic ones, and in particular that it is influenced by information structure. This hypothesis has been taken up and explored further, in Old and Middle English (van Kemenade & Los 2006), but also in other Old Germanic languages (Walkden 2009, 2015, Hinterhölzl & Petrova 2009, 2011). These studies concur in suggesting that, in the *þa/thô X V* pattern which interests us here, the X position is most likely to be available for discourse-given elements. This hypothesis would explain the high number of pronoun subjects found in this position (which prompted the clitic hypothesis in the first place), as well as the relatively high number of subjects in that position, whether pronominal or not (Allen 1990, Haeberli 2002).

The aim of the present paper is to test these hypotheses on a verse corpus comprising Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German. While many studies of V3 and of the syntax of early Germanic languages have been conducted within the generative framework, such is not the case of this paper, whose approach is deliberately empirical.

The second section of this article introduces our corpus, the third explains our methodology, and the fourth presents our results, which are analysed in more detail in the fifth section.

2 Corpus

2.1 Why Old English, Old Saxon and Old High German poetry?

Very little has been written about the marker *þa/thô* in a V3 context, except to claim that it never happens (see above). V3 and *þa/thô* (considered separately) have been studied extensively, but with a clear imbalance: Old English has received much more attention than other Old Germanic languages and has mainly been considered in isolation.¹

However, the marker *þa/thô* is widely used in all West Germanic ancient languages and V3 does occur in all of them as well (albeit less frequently in other languages than in Old English), so it seems worthwhile to examine the interaction of *þa/thô* and V3 in a wider linguistic context.

Our choice to focus on poetry for such a study may surprise some readers. As aptly summarized by Somers & Dubenion-Smith (2014: 84):

¹Which is not to say that neither issue has been examined in other Germanic languages (on the contrary, see the introduction to this paper). However, the three languages have not received equal attention and very few studies compare all three West Germanic languages.

The received wisdom regarding the use of poetry for a syntactic analysis is, of course, that one should not do it.²

While West Germanic narrative poetry does not mistreat syntax as enthusiastically as skaldic poetry often does, it is nevertheless true that metrical requirements are likely to interfere with syntax to some extent, which is why poetry is avoided in many syntactic studies (e.g. Bech 2001: 6). However, as noted by Somers & Dubenion-Smith (2014), studying prose instead is hardly better: Old Germanic prose texts are mostly translations and therefore likely to be affected by interferences from Latin, even if they do not mimic Latin word order slavishly (not to mention that for Old Saxon, no prose text of any significant length exists anyway). Some scholars actually find poetry a more reliable guide for that very reason. After an extensive study of word order in prose and poetic texts in Old English and Old High German, Cichosz (2010: 207) concludes:³

Poetry (...) is the only truly native text type without any foreign influences, with traditionally Germanic structures relatively undisturbed by external factors.

Likewise, Schulz (2014: 40) rejects the notion that poetry is inherently less reliable because it must obey metrical constraints:

[Such a view] implies that the metrical structure exists outside and independently of OE poetry forcing the language into a particular form. Instead, it is the metrical patterns that are based on the natural structure of the language.

However, it is worth asking what a completely “reliable” text devoid of any kind of interference would be anyway. It is well known that medium and genre both have a significant impact on grammar (see e.g. Halliday 1985). Even if we had original prose texts in Old High German or Old Saxon, they would not give us a true reflection of how people spoke those languages in the 9th century – they would only give a reflection of how people in a certain professional milieu wrote a specific type of texts.

For this reason, it seems important to keep in mind what we can and what we cannot do. Comparing a text translated from Latin with its Latin source and with

²A typical representative of that approach is provided in the following statement: “Word order in poetry is very different from that in prose. Therefore, poetry cannot be considered a reliable source of information on the standard of O[ld] E[nglish]” (van Kemenade 1987: 4).

³Likewise, Somers argues (about the *Evangelienbuch* in comparison with other extant Old High German texts) that “in some respects, Otfrid might even be considered one of the better texts on which to base syntactic analyses” (Somers 2018: 57).

original texts can help us isolate some aspects of Latin influence, but they cannot give us access to a “pure” text devoid of any Latin influence, given that anyone with access to writing in the early medieval period would likely have been living in a multilingual community and exposed to Latin influence in various ways. In other words, religious prose is unlikely to be entirely devoid of Latin influence, even when it is not directly translated from the Latin. Likewise, examining how metre can constrain syntax is useful so that a constraint emerging from metre is not mistaken for a strictly syntactic one. However, reconstructing a syntax free from metrical influence cannot be the aim: the poets write in the conventional style appropriate to their medium and the constructions they favour are influenced by those conventions in multiple ways that go beyond strictly metrical concerns. The language of poetry is different from the language of prose, and both are different from the language of spontaneous speech in their own ways. This does not mean that either of them should be disqualified as linguistic evidence.

Cumulative evidence from studies attempting different methodologies on different corpora can help us extrapolate credible hypotheses regarding the features of early Germanic syntax more broadly, but a single corpus-based study will necessarily shed light primarily on the corpus considered rather than on the whole language(s).

The aim of this study, therefore, is to examine the contexts in which V3 appears in a set of comparable texts which have much in common (so that differences attributable to medium or subject matter will only have a limited impact), but which may very well display features that would set them apart from other language productions in the same languages.

2.2 Why these poems in particular?

The texts chosen for this study are the *Heliand* (Old Saxon), Otfrid’s *Evangelienbuch* (Old High German) and a selection of Old English poems: *Genesis A*; *Elene*, *Fates of the Apostles*, *Juliana* and *Christ II*; the *Paris Psalter*. Our objective was to examine three comparable poems of sufficient length, one for each language, and this is the closest approximation we were able to attain. In the following paragraphs, we explain the reasons for this choice (and for discarding other options).

A common strategy, when compiling a corpus, is to gather a sample of (usually shorter) texts from multiple sources.⁴ The use of multiple sources diminishes

⁴For instance, Cichosz (2010) uses excerpts from Ælfric and Wulfstan’s homilies as well as the *Anglo-Saxon Chronicle* and the Laws of Alfred to yield a total of 774 clauses in her original Old English prose category, and similar samples of various texts for the other categories; Bech (2001) uses excerpts from four or five different texts to yield 1,250 clauses for each of the period she studies (with a total of 19 texts for four periods).

the risk that the personal preferences of an individual author get mistaken for a more general trend in the language examined. However, this strategy has its own pitfalls: it is simply impossible for Old Saxon (only two poems, and indeed only two continuous texts of any significant length survive) and quite difficult for Old High German, where the extant texts are extremely different from each other in terms of style, medium (prose, verse or something in between),⁵ dialect, and relationship to a Latin source, so that lumping them together is not very satisfactory.

We have opted for the opposite strategy: choosing only three comparable texts, one for each language. Strictly speaking, such a strategy only allows for the comparison of three texts, not of three languages. However, in doing so we compare three authentic linguistic objects (however limited they might be) rather than three artificial linguistic constructs.

Unfortunately, only an imperfect version of such a strategy can be implemented for the languages considered. For Old Saxon, the choice naturally falls on *Heliand*, which is the only long text available (5983 lines). Adding the *Saxon Genesis* (only 337 lines) would make the Old Saxon corpus slightly unbalanced, while not contributing much additional data. The poem uses the alliterative style typical of Old Germanic poetry and was composed by an anonymous author in the first half of the 9th century. It is the transposition of the life of Jesus Christ in a Germanic context, based on (a presumably Latin version of) the *Diatessaron*, a Harmony of the Gospels.⁶

No alliterative poem of any significant length survives for Old High German, so we have chosen to use Otfrid's *Evangelienbuch* instead. Like *Heliand*, it is a kind of Harmony of the Gospels and therefore contains much of the same narrative material. It was written around 870, in a newly-minted poetic style using both internal and final rhymes, apparently devised by Otfrid himself. The poem therefore obeys metrical rules quite different from those of *Heliand*,⁷ but, like

⁵ Among major Old High German texts, the translation of Isidore's *De Fide Catholica* is in prose, whereas the translation of Tatian's *Diatessaron* is an intermediate form between prose and verse.

⁶ *Heliand* should more accurately be considered a paraphrase than a translation: "A poetic paraphrase is quite a different thing from a prose translation, for reasons which go beyond merely formal considerations. In both Old and New Testament poetry in Old English the biblical text is mediated not only by the voice of the poet and the style of the poem but also by the logic of interpretation – the work is no substitute for the original, but an aesthetic response to it, a form of commentary." (Liuzza 1998: 8–9). Liuzza comments on the Old English corpus, but his remarks are equally applicable to *Heliand* and the *Saxon Genesis*.

⁷ In his preface, Otfrid explains that his aim was to write a work in Frankish that would be as good as those in Latin (Robin 2013). It is the only Old High German text that refers to its own use of the vernacular language and it is considered the first German poetic text (distinctive for its use of rhymes, in particular). Its original poetic style is influenced by Latin poetry, but it is not wholly exempt from influence from Germanic alliterative poetry.

Heliand, it is narrative poetry composed by a native speaker relatively independently from its source material. Additionally, it is a very long text, which is convenient for our purpose (7104 lines).⁸

The Old High German *Tatian* – a text based on the same Latin source as the *Heliand* – might also have been an option, but its status as a poem and indeed as an independent text is rather more ambiguous.⁹

Since both *Heliand* and the *Evangelienbuch* can be dated to the 9th century, choosing an Old English alliterative poem loosely based on the Gospels and composed in the same period would have been ideal, but no such poem exists. Old English poetry is notoriously hard to date and most poems are considerably shorter than those selected for Old Saxon and Old High German. The closest approximation we managed was to pick three large homogeneous bodies of religious texts likely centred around the 9th century: *Genesis A* (2319 lines), an anonymous translation of Genesis presumed early by most and sometimes dated to the 8th century; all four signed poems by Cynewulf (*Elene*, *Fates of the Apostles*, *Juliana* and *Christ II*: three hagiographical texts and a narrative of the Ascension, totalling 2601 lines), usually presumed later than *Genesis A*, and sometimes ascribed to the 9th century; and the *Paris Psalter* (a verse translation of Psalms 51 to 150, totalling 5085 lines), known to be late, probably composed in the 10th century.

This selection may seem skewed in favour of Old English, but a larger quantity of text was necessary to yield a comparable number of instances: our corpus contains 699 instances of *þa/thô* in Old Saxon, 700 in Old High German and only 559 in Old English.¹⁰

While this corpus is unavoidably imperfect, it has an interesting property in that its three subsets group differently depending on which criterion is considered. Syntactically, Old Saxon and Old High German group together because they are considered relatively straightforward V2 languages, whereas Old English is only “verb-second-ish” (Bruening 2016). Metrically, on the other hand, Old English and Old Saxon group together, as our poems are written in an alliterative style obeying very similar traditional constraints, whereas Otfrid’s innovative verse form is the odd one out. This should help us assess the respective impact of metrical and syntactic constraints on our corpus.

⁸The *Evangelienbuch* has many sources in Latin (the Gospels, obviously, but also a great deal of commentary on the Gospels), but it is a new text rather than a close translation of an existing one.

⁹The Old High German text of the *Tatian* was composed by multiple translators and it seems to have been meant to be read alongside the Latin source. For Franz Simmler (2008, 2015), the work should be regarded as a bilingual Latin-Old High German text and not as an independent Old High German text.

¹⁰The *Paris Psalter*, which is the only Old English poem comparable in length with *Heliand*, contains very few instances of *þa*.

3 Methodology

V3 can co-occur with *þa/thô* in a position other than the initial one:¹¹

- (1) a. (*Genesis A* 2632b–2633a)
Him þær fylste þa / ece drihten,
pron.DAT.SG there help-PST.SG þa eternal-NOM.SG lord-NOM.SG
‘In that situation, the eternal lord helped him then’
- b. (*Heliand* 3136b–3137a)
Petrus thô gimahalde, / helið
Peter-NOM.SG thô speak-PST.SG, hero-NOM.SG
hardmôdig
strong-minded-NOM.SG
‘Peter then spoke, a strong-minded hero’
- c. (*Evangelienbuch* V, 4: 36)
ther éngil bi einen líbon \ spráh tho sar
DEM angel-NOM.SG about one-DAT.SG live-PRS.PTCP
zen wíbon
‘the angel spoke then at once to the women’

However, such instances are comparatively rare in our corpus (12 instances in Old English, 6 in Old Saxon and 19 in Old High German). Even more importantly, those instances seem to correspond to very different patterns (with *þa/thô* either before or after the verb and different kinds of phrases before the verb), so we have chosen to exclude them from the scope of this study and to focus exclusively on cooccurrences where *þa/thô* is found in initial position.¹²

At first glance, it would seem that subordinate clauses are naturally excluded from a study of V3, since subordinate clauses are supposed to be V-final (or V-late) in Old Germanic language and since V3 is usually seen as an alternative to V2 (i.e. with verb fronting or, from the perspective of the topological field model, with the verb in the left bracket) which is quite distinct from V-final (without fronting, i.e. with the verb in the right bracket, see e.g. Walkden 2015).

However, telling main and subordinate clauses apart in early Germanic languages is not nearly as straightforward as it is for Present-Day Dutch or German, whether in verse or in prose. As noted for instance by Jolivet and Mossé:

¹¹All translations are our own.

¹²For a discussion of V3 clauses in Old High German with particles such as *thô* in second position, see Catasso & Bastiani (2024: 22–23).

V-final in Old High German is often actually V-late (with some further elements found after the verb, see also Catasso 2021: 6); V-final is rare in main or independent clauses but can occur; V1 or V2 can occasionally be found in its stead in what is clearly a subordinate clause (Jolivet & Mossé 1965: 206–207; see also Behaghel 1932: 12–16).¹³ According to Catasso (2021: 3), “the formal differentiation between main and embedded clauses in terms of asymmetric Verb-Second (henceforth: V2) is still not complete and becomes systemic, i.e. *obligatory*, only from the 12th century onwards”.

Likewise, for Old English prose, Mitchell regards the idea that a clause starting with *þa* and ending with the verb is likely to be a subordinate clause a good “rule of thumb” (Mitchell 1985: §3922), but he notes many possible exceptions, which do not necessarily impede interpretation, once context is considered, but which certainly prevent any automatic handling of the clauses. Elsewhere, he goes even further in suggesting “that there may have been an intermediate stage between ‘Then’ and ‘When’” (Mitchell 1985: §2536; see also Mitchell 1978: 390–394, 1980: 395–412) so that some clauses should best be regarded as somewhat subordinate, but not quite.¹⁴ For Old English poetry, the matter is even more controversial, with some scholars arguing that word order is a reliable guide while others are doubtful. Schulz (2014: 41) reviews all the competing arguments in her dissertation and concludes:

At any rate, it has been demonstrated that the position of finite verbs within the metrical line is indeed dependent on various factors, i.e. lexicality of the verb, syllable count and clause structure. These influences hardly leave room for the verb position to carry any grammatical information about the

¹³Fourquet (1938) carried out one of the first in-depth comparative analyses of word order in Old Germanic languages (which includes a review of much of the scholarship already published at that time). His driving thesis is that much of the difficulty that arises in the study of syntax in Old Germanic languages comes from the use of anachronistic categories, such as the opposition between initial, second and final position for the verb, which applies to Present-Day German, but is not necessarily relevant for earlier stages of the language (Fourquet posits several successive stages for Old Germanic languages, where the rules governing word order differ significantly, not just in what each position signifies, but also in what kind of positioning is meaningful: at some stage what matters may be the absolute position of the verb in the clause, but at another it may be its position relative to another element for instance).

¹⁴The case for an intermediate stage has also been made from a different perspective by Jean Haudry (1973): Haudry examines the phenomenon of correlation in Latin and concludes that it lies between parataxis and hypotaxis, and that it is not peculiar to Latin, but something that likely existed in other Indo-European languages as well, including Germanic languages. This type of structure (some of them using *thô*) is well-attested in *Heliand*, for instance.

clause and the warning that any attempt on disambiguating clauses introduced by *þa* on the basis of word order cannot but fail is conclusively justified.

Since in some cases a clause may equally be regarded as independent or subordinate on the basis of its meaning and since there is no reliable syntactic feature that would allow us to automatically identify subordinate clauses starting with *þa/thô*, excluding such clauses from analysis a priori is imprudent. Consequently, all clauses starting with *þa/thô* are included in this study, and their potential subordinate status is examined in the qualitative analysis and whenever an example is quoted instead of being determined a priori.

Likewise, clauses starting with a coordinating conjunction such as *ond/endi* have not been removed a priori, although they are likely to exhibit a somewhat different behaviour (see Mitchell 1985: §3889). In such clauses, the conjunction is considered to be occupying a null position (i.e. the first element after the conjunction occupies the first position).

Since negative particles are systematically placed before the verb and can be fused to the verb (e.g. *nolde* for *ne wolde*), they are treated as genuine clitics here and are therefore not counted as occupying a separate position.

Occasionally, in Old English, *þa* appears with another adverb, which seems to intensify its meaning somewhat rather than to constitute a separate constituent (the most frequent types are *þa gien* ‘then again’ and *þa gyt* ‘then still’). In such cases, the two words are interpreted as occupying one position together. There is no equivalent phenomenon in Old High German or Old Saxon, so the issue does not arise there.

4 Preliminary results

4.1 Prevalence of V3

As mentioned above, our corpus contains 699 instances of *þa/thô* in Old Saxon, 700 in Old High German and 559 in Old English. Of those, 429, 203 and 330 respectively are found in initial position (Figure 1).

Old English is therefore closest to Old Saxon, in terms of proportion of *þa/thô* in initial position, and within the Old English corpus, *Genesis A* is closest (59%) whereas *Cynewulf* is above (67%) and the *Psalter* much below (45%). In other words, it looks as if, on the basis of this single criterion at least, *Genesis A* and *Heliand* are closest stylistically, whereas the *Paris Psalter* and the *Evangelienbuch* are outliers with perhaps a more “modern” style less reliant on the repetition of

5 Verb-third with initial *þa/thô* in Old English, Old Saxon and OHG verse

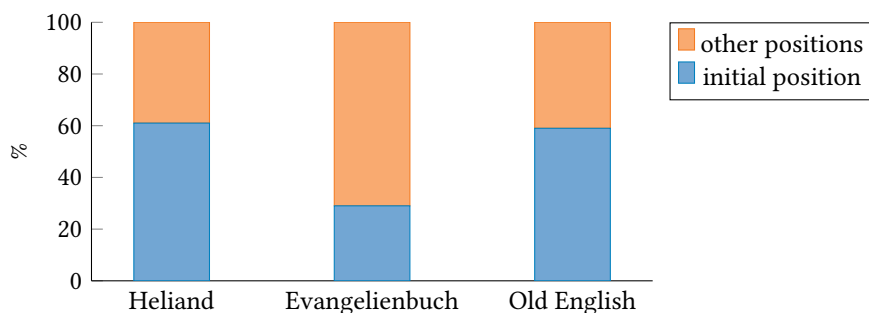


Figure 1: Prevalence of *þa/thô* in initial position

initial *þa/thô*.¹⁵ Cynewulf's tendency to use initial *þa* even more than *Genesis A* (which holds across all four poems) could be related to his taste for archaism observed elsewhere (Louviot 2016: 78). Among these clauses with initial *þa/thô*, a minority have their verbs in the third position (see Table 1).¹⁶

Table 1: Verb position in clauses with initial *þa/thô*. Percentages are rounded.

	V2	V3	V-late or final	?	Total
Old English	93 (28%)	76 (23%)	144 (44%)	17 (5%)	330
<i>Genesis A</i>	50 (30%)	36 (21%)	73 (43%)	10 (6%)	168
<i>Cynewulf</i>	38 (33%)	34 (30%)	37 (32%)	5 (4%)	114
<i>Paris Psalter</i>	5 (10%)	7 (15%)	34 (71%)	2 (4%)	48
<i>Heliand</i>	307 (72%)	23 (5%)	90 (21%)	9 (2%)	429
<i>Evangelienbuch</i>	124 (61%)	15 (7%)	63 (31%)	1 (0.5%)	203

Heliand and the *Evangelienbuch* display a clear predilection for V2 in clauses starting with *þa/thô*, but the trend is much more subdued in Old English. It would

¹⁵Furthermore, the proportion of initial *thô* is highest in book I and lowest in book III of *Evangelienbuch* (respectively the first and the last to have been composed), which aligns well with what has been observed elsewhere regarding Otfrid's style using fewer traditional features (i.e. fewer features found elsewhere in Germanic alliterative poetry) as his work progresses (Louviot 2021a).

¹⁶In the table, the question mark corresponds for the most part to instances where the third position is also the final position in the clause and occasionally to elliptic clauses without an expressed verb.

be tempting to assume that the lower proportion of V2 in our Old English corpus is directly linked to a higher proportion of V3, but the reality is more nuanced than that. V3 is more common in Old English (23% of all instances against only 5% in *Heliand* and 7% in the *Evangelienbuch*), but so is V-late/final (44% against 21% and 31% in the Old Saxon and Old High German poems), and, though it cannot be observed in Table 1, so is V1.

Indeed, in Old English, the pattern *V þa X* (e.g. *Genesis A* 144b, *Heht þa lifes weard* ‘Then, the guardian of life ordered’) is almost as common as *þa V X* (e.g. *Juliana* 66, *þa reordode rices hyrde*, ‘Then the guardian of the kingdom spoke’) and may compete with it.¹⁷ That pattern also exists in Old Saxon (25 instances, e.g. *Heliand* 3689b, *sprak thô uuordo filu*, ‘then [he] spoke many words’) and especially in Old High German (55 instances, e.g. *Evangelienbuch* IV, 7:20 *Gíang tho drúhtin thánana*, ‘Then the lord went away’), but in those languages it is much less common than *þa V X* (12 times less in Old Saxon and 2.3 in Old High German).

4.2 Prevalence of subject pronouns in second position with V3

An examination of the constituents which can be found in second position with initial *þa/tho* and V3 shows that subject personal pronouns (i.e. pronouns in the nominative case) are indeed a relatively common option, but not necessarily a dominant one in our corpus (Table 2). In the table, “intensified forms” refer to instances where the personal pronoun takes a form such as “he himself” (e.g. *Heliand* 5518b *Thuo hie selbo sprach*, ‘then he himself spoke’).

Across all three languages, the subject is the element most likely to occur in this pattern (63 out of 114 occurrences or 56%), but (nominative) personal pronouns are not dominant, so the clitic hypothesis is unlikely to account for the data in this corpus. That being said, pronouns do constitute a significant minority (31 out of 114 occurrences or 27%), suggesting that some factors pertaining to weight and lack of stress (both relevant metrically) or to information structure (since pronouns normally have recoverable referents) may be relevant.

The appearance of a few non-finite verbs (past participles or infinitives) is also interesting. The pattern $V_{non-fin.} + V_{fin.}$ normally implies a V-late or V-final pattern, which suggests the possibility that some of our occurrences (not just the 7 with non-finite verbs in second position but also others) should be seen as instances of a V-late pattern rather than instances of V3 as a variant of V2.

¹⁷ *V þa X* is 0.7 times as frequent as *þa V X*, with 69 instances against 93.

Table 2: Nature of the second element (X) in the pattern *þA* /*THO* X V

	Old English						Total
	Subtotal	Genesis	Cynewulf	Psalms	Heliand	Otfrid	
NOM personal PRON	8	4	3	1	6 ^a	5	19
ACC & DAT pronouns	8	3	3	2	1	3	12
NOM lexical NP	34	14	19	1	4	6	44
Other lexical NPs	11	7	3	1	1	1	13
Non-finite verb	6	1	5	0	1	0	7
Other	9	6	1	2	10	0	19
Total	76	35	34	7	23	15	114

^aIncluding 3 intensified forms.

5 Qualitative analysis

5.1 Old English poems

In our Old English corpus, the choice of V3 over V2 seems to be affected by several factors. One of them is obviously the choice of the verb. Some verbs, in particular the light verbs *wesan* (“to be”) and *weorþan* (“to become”) are much more likely to be found with V2 than with V3.¹⁸ This suggests that, in some cases at least, metrical factors are at play. Finite verbs are the trickiest word class in Old English metre in that (together with non-derived adverbs) they may receive primary, intermediate or no stress at all (Yakovlev 2008: 56). High-frequency verbs with a low semantic content are especially likely to be unstressed, and *wesan* more so than any other.¹⁹ According to Kuhn’s Law, such unstressed finite verbs must be placed within the first unstressed portion of the clause with other unstressed particles (such as *þa* itself), which is likely to generate a V2 pattern when *þa* is initial. This affinity of V2 with frequent monosyllabic verbs in Old English poetry, and particularly in *Beowulf*, has been noted before (Bliss 1981: 161, Getty

¹⁸ *Wesan* and *weorðan* can be considered light verbs both semantically and prosodically. Semantically, both verbs are either copulas or auxiliaries and therefore carry very little meaning if any. Prosodically, *wesan* is the only Old English verb which is more likely to be unstressed than stressed in verse (Momma 1997: 174). *Weorðan* (together with *cuman*, *cweðan*, *habban*, *hatan*, *magan*, *onginnan*, *þurfan*, *willan* and *gewitan*) is among the group of verbs which are least likely to be stressed, though they are more often stressed than not in their finite form (Momma 1997: 175).

¹⁹ See Footnote 18.

2002: 321). Tangelder & Los (2017) go as far as to suggest that in clauses starting with *þa*, V2 is only possible with such verbs:²⁰

In the absence of a full subject as the first constituent of the clause, the finite verb in second position is limited to mostly monosyllabic copulas and auxiliary verbs that appear unstressed as part of verse that leaves the [first prominent metrical] position empty, such as light verse. (Tangelder & Los 2017: 204)

It is worth looking at our own corpus in more detail, to see if it conforms to that trend or if other factors may also play a part.

5.1.1 Lexical and metrical factors

A closer look at our corpus confirms the expected affinity of V2 with light verbs, but shows a slightly more nuanced picture (Figure 2).

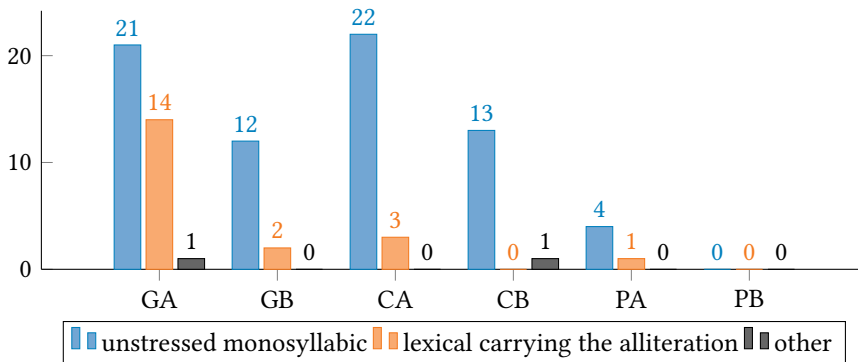


Figure 2: Verb-type in V2 clauses starting with *þa*. GA: Genesis, a-verse, GB: Genesis, b-verse, CA: Cynewulf, a-verse, CB: Cynewulf, b-verse, PA: Psalms, a-verse, PB: Psalms, b-verse.

Cynewulf almost only ever uses V2 with light verbs, especially *wesan*, *weorþan* and *cuman* (“to come”), which together account for 92% of all occurrences (Table 3). The Paris Psalter only has 5 occurrences in total, but *wesan* and *weorþan* account for 4 of them. Light verbs, especially *wesan*, *weorþan* and *cuman*, are also very common with V2 in *Genesis A*, but the *Genesis A*-poet has a broader palette: not only do they use other light verbs in similar contexts (the *verba dicendi* *cweðan* and *sprecan*, as well as *onginnan*, literally “to start”), but they also

²⁰Tangelder & Los allow for some exceptions, but they consider that they are few and limited to stock phrases.

use various full lexical verbs (typically class 2 weak verbs which can fill up the whole half-line with *þa*: *reordian*, *gebletsian*, *sceawian*, etc.), which carry the alliteration, a pattern known to Cynewulf, but which he uses much more infrequently.²¹

Light verbs are also compatible with V3. In fact, in this corpus, the verbs most frequently found with V3 are all light verbs: *onginnan* (9 occurrences), *hatan* (“to command”, “to promise”), *wesan* and *weorþan* (6 occurrences each). Other light verbs found with V3 include *gewitan* (“to depart”, 2 occurrences), *cweðan* (“to say”, 2), *habban* (“to have”) and arguably *sprecan* (“to speak”, 4 occurrences).²²

For such verbs, then, two patterns are theoretically possible (V2 and V3), but the pattern chosen has an impact on metrical stress: light verbs are almost systematically unstressed with V2 and stressed with V3 (in which case they do not carry the alliteration, even in a-verses). Additionally, while V2 would theoretically seem available to all light verbs, in practice only *wesan*, *weorðan* (and to a lesser extent *cuman*) are frequently found with that pattern. Other light verbs (i.e. *onginnan* or *hatan*) are much more likely to be found with V1 when they are unstressed (with *þa* placed immediately after the verb).

Another element worth mentioning, regarding Tangelder & Los’s assessment quoted above and how it compares with our own data, is that unstressed monosyllabic verbs are not only compatible with V2 in light verses or in anacruses (which are only licit in the a-verse). They can also occur in straightforward B or C types, which can be found in the b-verse :

- (2) a. Light verb with type B : /x x /x x x / x x /
druncon and **drymdon.** **Þa cwæð drihtlecu**
 drink-PST.PL and experience.joy-PST.PL. Þa say-PST.SG noble-NOM.SG
 mæg (Genesis A 2782)
 girl-NOM.SG
 ‘[they] drank and enjoyed themselves. Then the noble girl said’

²¹A similar pattern is also found once in the Psalms (104: 46–47a), but with a class 1 weak verb (*bebycgan*, “to sell”).

²²*Onginnan*, *hatan*, *habban*, *cweðan* and *gewitan* are all listed by Momma (1997: 175, see Footnote 18 above) as being frequently unstressed. In the third person past singular form, they are all “monosyllabic” in the sense intended by Bliss (1981: 161) in that for those with an unstressed prefix, the prefix has no impact on their metrical value (except for *habban*). They all have a relatively low semantic content (the essential information tends to be provided by the complement), but this is especially true for *onginnan*, which is known to have undergone grammaticalization by the end of the Old English period, at least when it is used with a bare infinitive, which is systematically the case in this corpus (Los 2000). *Sprecan* is not mentioned by Momma, but it is monosyllabic, it is a frequent, general *verbum dicendi* much like *cweðan*, and it does occur in unstressed position in our corpus (but not with V3).

Table 3: Distribution of verbs with V2 and V3

	<i>Genesis A</i>	<i>Cynewulf</i>	<i>Psalter</i>	Total
V2				
Verb tokens	50	38	5	93
Verb types	20	6	3	23
Type-Token Ratio	0.40	0.16	0.60	0.25
3 most common types	30/50 (60%)	35/38 (92%)	5/5 (100%)	69/93 (74%)
Alliterating verbs	16/50 (32%)	4/38 (11%)	2/5 (40%)	22/93 (24%)
V3				
Verb tokens	35	34	7	76
Verb types	26	16	7	42
Type-Token Ratio	0.74	0.47	1	0.55
3 most common types	11/35 (31%)	17/34 (50%)	3/7 (43%)	21/76 (28%)
Alliterating verbs	5/35 (14%)	4/34 (12%)	4/7 (57%)	13/76 (17%)

- b. (light verb with type C) / x / \ x x x /

þrunгон þræchearde.

press forward-PST.PL bravely. Þa be-PST.SG banner-NOM.SG

Þa wæs þuf hafon (*Elene* 123)

raise-PST.PTCP

‘[they] pressed forward bravely. Then the banner was raised’

In other words, in our corpus, V2 is more often found in the a-verse and more often with light verbs (especially *wesan*, *weorþan* and *cuman*), but it can be found in other configurations as well: the metrical constraints are real, but they are not nearly as restrictive as suggested by Tangelder & Los (2017).

In this respect, comparison with Old Saxon is interesting. Old Saxon alliterative poetry is subject to roughly the same metrical constraints as its Old English counterpart (Suzuki 2004), and indeed everything suggests that written Old Saxon poetry was heavily influenced by Old English models (Green 2003). As a consequence, Old Saxon poetry faces similar metrical constraints as regards the position of its verbs. If the metrical constraints of Old English poetry prevented V2 from occurring except in a very restricted set of circumstances, one would expect Old Saxon poetry either to have few occurrences of V2 or to violate the metrical constraints of Old English poetry. Instead, what we find is that *Heliand* overwhelmingly favours V2 and that it does so by taking advantage of patterns

that also exist in Old English poetry, but which are much less frequent there and restricted to a smaller set of verbs.

Most V2 clauses in *Heliand* use short unstressed verbs as in (3), which can easily be scanned according to Old English metrical rules:²³

- (3) (light verb with type B)
 / x x / x x x x x / x /
uuîson thes **uuerodes**. Thô gesah **uualdand**
 visit-INF DEM people-GEN.SG Thô look-PST.SG ruling-NOM.SG
 Krist (Heliand 3683)
 Christ-NOM.SG
 ‘... to visit the people. Then the Ruling Christ looked...’

What sets *Heliand* apart from Old English poetry is the great variety of verbs it will accept in such a position. Table 4 sets the data presented in Table 3 in comparison with data from *Heliand*.²⁴ Direct comparison with V3 in *Heliand* is not possible, given the paucity of occurrences. Instead, we have examined verb diversity in V-late and V-final clauses, in order to provide some perspective.²⁵

The three most common verbs in *Heliand* are only partially the same as in the Old English corpus: in V2 clauses, the two most common are *uuerðan* and *sprekan*, and the third is often (but not systematically) *uuesan*; in V-late/final clauses, *sprekan* is once again the most common verb, this time followed by *kuman* (‘come’), *gisehan* (‘see’), and *gangan* (‘go’), not necessarily in that order.

Several conclusions can be drawn from the figures in Table 4. At first sight, if we only look at the type/token ratios, it looks like verb diversity in V2 clauses is the same in *Heliand* and *Genesis A*, and that there is a similar gap between V2 clauses and clauses with the verb in a later position, although the gap is more pronounced in *Genesis A*.

If we take a closer look at the actual distribution, however, a different picture emerges. On the whole, the *Genesis A* poet uses a very rich vocabulary, seldom

²³A random sample of 50 clauses with þa V in *Heliand* showed that 47 of them were unstressed (94%) and 90% occurred in the b-verse (as most clauses starting with tho do

²⁴Figures from the *Paris Psalter* have been omitted, since occurrences are so few.

²⁵Since type variety is affected by the size of the corpus and there are many more occurrences of V2 clauses in *Heliand*, we have chosen to examine five random samples of 50 occurrences of *thô/thuo* V in Old Saxon (the same number as those found in *Genesis A*), rather than all instances. The median values for the 5 samples were then calculated and the figures provided in Table 4 are those median values. We also calculated the mean values, but it made very little difference, so we have chosen not to include them here, as it would merely make the table more unwieldy without contributing anything of note.

Table 4: Verb Diversity in *Heliand*, *Cynewulf* and *Genesis A*

	<i>Genesis A</i>	<i>Cynewulf</i>	<i>Heliand</i>
V2			
Verb tokens	50	38	50
Verb types	20	6	20
Type-Token Ratio	0.40	0.16	0.40
3 most common types (%)	30/50 (60%)	35/38 (92%)	24/50 (48%)
V3 (OE) or -late/final (OS)			
Verb tokens	35	34	32
Verb types	26	16	7
Type-Token Ratio	0.74	0.47	0.64
3 most common types (%)	11/35 (31%)	17/34 (50%)	16/50 (32%)

reusing the same verb, hence the high ratio of V3 clauses. This is true for V2 clauses as well, except for *wesan*, *weorðan* and to a lesser extent *cuman*, which are used very frequently with that pattern.

By contrast, *Heliand*'s vocabulary is less varied, with several verbs used two or three times in a 50-clause sample, but V2 clauses do not show a massive concentration of tokens on just a few verbs.

As for *Cynewulf*, its vocabulary is even less varied, and it shows a much higher concentration of tokens on the most common verbs, hence the staggering proportion of 92% of tokens for the three most common types.

The data observed in *Heliand* is compatible with a light semantic constraint on V2 clauses. If we accept that V2 clauses with initial *thô* are more likely to be independent clauses where *thô* is a discourse marker signalling a new narrative episode, whereas V-late/final clauses are more likely to be subordinate clauses (even though not all V-late/final clauses will be subordinate, see Section 3 above), then it makes perfect sense for verb diversity to be slightly reduced in V2 clauses: some actions are simply more suitable to start a new episode than others.

The kind of concentration observed in the Old English corpus is much harder to fully account for. Metrical constraints obviously play a significant part, but they cannot explain why, unlike the *Genesis A* poet, *Cynewulf* rarely ever uses V2 with any full lexical verb or with any light verb other than *wesan*, *weorðan* and *cuman*. They do not explain either why he will easily use other light verbs in initial position followed by *þa* (which *Heliand* rarely ever does), but not the other way round. Prosodic factors may very well play a part here, but not metrical

stress since the adverb and the verb are both unstressed.²⁶ From a metrical point of view, the initial dips in (a) and (b) seem equivalent in both languages:

- (4) a. x x / / x
 þa com soð metod (Genesis A 2793b)
 then come.PST.SG true.NOM.SG creator.NOM.SG
 'Then the true creator came'
- b. x x / x x /
 Com þa wigena hleo (Elene 150 b)
 then come.PST.SG fighter-GEN.PL protector-NOM.SG
 'Then the protector of fighters came'
- (5) a. x x x / x x /
 Thô hêt the hêlago Crist (Heliand 4076b)
 then order-PST-SG DEM holy-NOM.SG Christ-NOM.SG
 'Then the holy Christ commanded'
- b. x x x / x / x
 hêt thô is rinkos faran (Heliand 728b)
 order-PST-SG then POSS soldier-ACC.PL travel-INF
 'Then [he] ordered his soldiers to travel'

However, the two languages behave very differently. In *Heliand*, (b) occurs occasionally, but the preferred pattern is overwhelmingly (a), whereas in our Old English corpus, there is no such general preference: some verbs favour (a) (*wesan*, *weorþan*, *cuman*) while others favour (b) (*hatan*, *onginnan*).

Clearly then, metrical factors cannot be ignored, but they cannot be considered the sole driving factor behind the relative marginality of V2 with initial *þa* in our Old English poems.

Another interesting question here is whether a diachronic evolution might be discerned. Conventional wisdom would suggest that V2 might become more

²⁶Whether one should grant a weak stress to a light verb which does not carry the alliteration as in examples 4 and 5 is a matter of debate, since the scansion of finite verbs is one of the trickiest aspects of Old English metre, as mentioned above. Some scholars, such as Bliss (1967), would never stress a finite verb in such a position (Bliss 1967); most grant that some finite verbs can be stressed, particularly lexical verbs which carry the alliteration or which are found to carry it in some cases, but would not stress the finite verbs in examples 4 and 5 (e.g. Getty 2002: 61–62, Russom 2022); Bredehoft (2005), conversely, would grant a weak stress to all finite verbs except *wesan* and *weorðan*. However, Bredehoft's foot-based scansion system treats both *þa com* and *com þa* as acceptable kinds of "s-feet", which can be found in the same metrical positions, so the two alternatives are functionally equivalent in the examples above, even if they are scanned xs and sx respectively (Bredehoft 2005: 25).

common as time goes by, since many scholars assume that Old English prose respected a V2 constraint, but that Old English verse (in particular earlier poems such as *Beowulf*) reflected an earlier stage of the language, before that constraint became prevalent (see e.g. Stockwell 1977, van Kemenade 1987, Stockwell & Minkova 1991). Accordingly, one might expect the syntactic patterns of later poems to be more similar to prose than those of the earliest poetry.

However, the pattern *þa* V X rather seems to become less productive over time. It is beyond the scope of this paper to study the entirety of the Old English poetic corpus, but since it is impossible to make a guess regarding diachronic trends based on only two authors, a look at other texts is welcome.²⁷ Among the earliest poems, *Beowulf* uses *þa* V X predominantly with *wesan* (48 occurrences), and only occasionally with other light verbs (*cuman*, 5 occurrences, *sculan*, “shall”, 1 occurrence) or with verbs carrying the alliteration (3 occurrences).²⁸ *Daniel*, on the other hand, which is presumed to be about as early as *Beowulf* and *Genesis A* (Fulk 1992: 348), regularly uses the pattern with other light verbs.²⁹ Late poems such as *Maldon* and *Judith* show very few instances of the pattern, almost all with either *weorþan* or *wesan*.³⁰ Another noteworthy feature of those poems is that, like the Psalms, they do not seem to use *þa* in initial position very much at all.³¹

One way of accounting for this evidence is to suppose that *þa* V X was relatively productive with various verbs at an earlier period (though already showing a strong preference for light verbs), and that the most productive patterns

²⁷I do not include the author of the Psalms, since the number of occurrences is too limited to draw any conclusion.

²⁸Interestingly, Fulk et al. (2008: 334) note that in *Beowulf* it is “not out of the ordinary” for a finite verb to occur in alliterating position in the b-verse, and several of their examples show V2 after an unstressed particle, though only one of them (2980b) after *þa*. The other instances occur after *þonne* (‘then’ or ‘when’, 1327b, 2544b) and after *þæt* (‘that’, 1548b). The verbs in that pattern are naturally all full lexical verbs.

²⁹In *Daniel*, this pattern is found once each with the verbs *gan*, *habban*, *cweþan*, *gewitan* and *geseon*, as well as 7 times with *wesan* and 5 with *weorþan*. It is also found once with a full lexical verb carrying the alliteration (116a).

³⁰The Battle of Maldon related in the poem took place in 991 and the poem was likely composed relatively soon after. Judith consistently places among the latest poems in Fulk’s (1992) assessment of linguistic criteria for dating and is usually attributed to the 10th century as well. The two poems are therefore roughly contemporary with the *Psalms*.

³¹In *Maldon*, 45 clauses use *þa*. It is found in initial position in only 24 clauses and the verb is found in second position in only 4 of them (i.e. only 17% for V2): twice with *weorþan*, once with *wesan* and once with *standan*. In *Judith*, 50 clauses use *þa*. It is found in initial position in only 14 clauses, and the verb is found in second position in 8 of them (which makes for a higher proportion, but out of a much smaller number of occurrences). All occurrences use *weorþan* or *wesan* (6 and 2 respectively).

fossilized around that time. Then, productivity decreased but the fossilized patterns (with *weorþan*, *wesan* and to a lesser extent *cuman*) remained frequent for a time, before gradually falling out of use as initial *þa* became less common in Old English poetry.³² In Old Saxon, conversely, if a similar initial situation ever prevailed, it would seem that the pattern gained in productivity, accepting a much broader range of verbs.³³ Given the limited evidence available, however, such a hypothesis can only be tentative.

5.1.2 Choosing between V2 and V3

The section above has shown that some verbs were found with V2 but not with V3 (a few class 2 weak verbs), while others were found with V3, but not with V2 (many lexical verbs). However, a number of light verbs can occur with both patterns. Comparing them might help us better understand what might lead a poet to opt for V2 rather than V3 and whether non-metrical factors may also be at play.

Verbs occurring with both patterns in our corpus are *cuman*, *cweðan*, *geseon*, *onginnan*, *sprecan*, *standan*, *weorþan* and *wesan*. We will not look at *standan* since the two occurrences are found in two different subsections of our corpus, but will instead compare occurrences of the other verbs to try and determine what factors might be at play.

5.1.3 Cuman

The verb *cuman* is found only once with V3 and 4 times with V2 in Cynewulf.³⁴ In all four instances, *cuman* is used straightforwardly as a verb of movement. In this case, the main factor at play seems to be metrical: the one instance with V3 has *se æþeling* (“the prince”) as its subject and this can only yield a metrical line with *þa se æþeling cwom* (verse of type B, with the second stress falling on

³²On this typical trajectory for linguistic constructions, see for instance Bozzone (2014): 83–88.

³³Of course, there is no certainty that such a situation ever prevailed. Suzuki considers that, whether the *Heliand* poet was massively dependent on Old English models or whether he also relied on a significant native alliterative tradition, “the *Beowulf* metre would have represented the substance of a metrical knowledge that the *Heliand* poet inherited and made innovative use of for his own work” (Suzuki 2004: 7). However, as shown above, word order preferences can only partially be accounted for by metre, so if the *Heliand* poet could rely on native oral models rather than just on imported Old English poetry, they may very well have been familiar with different patterns.

³⁴V2: *Elene* 549b, *Juliana* 242b, 563b and 614b; V3: *Christ II* 449b.

cwom) or with *cwom þa se æþeling* (light type A, only used in the a-verse).³⁵ The first pattern, which can equally be found in the a-verse or the b-verse, seems to have been preferred by Old English poets (5 occurrences of *þa se æþeling V* with various verbs in the Anglo-Saxon Poetic Records, including this one, against only one with the latter).

5.1.4 Cweðan

There are 2 instances of V2 and 2 of V3 in *Genesis A* with *cweðan*.³⁶ They are potentially interesting because most of them have God as their subject, which means it would be extremely easy to use a synonym to achieve metrical conformity with a different word order. Thus we have *þa cwæð halig god* (“then spoke holy God”, *Genesis A* 2389b) which could just easily have been *þa se halga cwæð* (“then the holy one spoke”), and *ða to Noe cwæð nergend user* (“then to Noah spoke our saviour”, *Genesis A* 1327), which could easily have been *ða cwæð wuldres helm word to Noe* (“then spoke the protector of glory some words to Noe”). In such cases, the poet clearly has the choice between V2 and V3 and is not constrained by rhythm or alliteration.³⁷

Whether the element following *þa* in V3 is easily recoverable in context cannot be a factor either: in all four instances the element which could occur or does occur in that position is well-known to the reader and has been mentioned recently.

One possible difference between the two sets of occurrences might be the “shock” factor of the speech being introduced. The two V3 instances occur when God speaks to Noah at length about their covenant (before and after the Flood). There is no antagonism and no surprise here. By contrast, the two instances with V2 can be seen as displays of righteous anger. In one case, God hears Sarah laughing at his promise that she will bear a child and he denounces her error (though he admittedly does so benignly and addresses Abraham rather than Sarah herself). In the other, Sarah sees Ishmael playing in front of her husband and can no longer tolerate his presence within the household, which leads her to speak to her husband to demand his departure.

³⁵*Beowulf*, which is usually taken as the gold standard of early Old English poetry, never uses light verses of type A in the b-verse (Doane 1991: 437).

³⁶V2: 2389b, 2782b; 1327a, 1510b.

³⁷The other two relevant occurrences are *Genesis A* 2782b–2783a and 1510b–1511.

5.1.5 Geseon

There are only two instances with *geseon* in *Genesis A* (1270 and 2877b–2878). They are unlikely to reveal much because the clause with V3 is under significant syntactic constraints, so that V2 would be difficult:

- (6) þa se eadega wer geseah hlifigan hea
 þa DEM blessed-NOM.SG man-NOM.SG see-PST.SG rise-INF high-ACC.SG
 dune (Genesis A 2877b–2878)
 hill-ACC.SG
 ‘then the blessed man saw rise up a high hill’

The sentence contains two verbs, one in the past tense, the other in the infinitive. Placing *se eadega wer* before the finite verb makes it much clearer that it has nothing to do with *hlifigan*.

5.1.6 Onginnan

There is one instance of V2 with *onginnan* in *Genesis A* (217–2718a) and 3 instances of V3 (1497–1498a, 1555–1557 and 1898b–1900a). Here again, metre seems to be a factor: short subjects (*Noe* and *se halga*, ‘the holy one’) favour a V3 pattern, whereas the long name *Abimelech* can only fit with V2 (or V-late), but not V3:

- (7) a. x x x / x \ x / x x / x / x x / x
 þa ongan Abimæleh Abraham swiðan
 þa begin-PST.SG Abimelech-NOM.SG Abraham-ACC.SG enrich-INF
 woruldgestreunum (2717–2718a)
 world-treasure-DAT.PL
 ‘then Abimelech began to enrich Abraham with worldly treasures’³⁸
 b. x / x / / x / x x / / x / / \ x

³⁸The scansion of 2717 is delicate, given the fact that *Abimelech* and *Abraham* are not native names. Evidence from the rest of the poem suggests that they are treated in a way similar to compound native names, and that their secondary stress can go unstressed in some metrical contexts. As suggested above (footnote 26), most scholars would consider that *ongan* is unstressed in 2. In Bredehoft’s (2005) scansion system, *ongan* would receive a secondary stress, but both *þa ongan Abimæleh* (x xs | Ssx) and *ongan þa Abimæleh* (x sx | Ssx) would yield a licit sC type-verse according to his system.

ða Noe ongan niwan stefne mid hleomagum
 ða Noe-NOM.SG began new-DAT.SG time-DAT.SG with relative-DAT.PL
 ham staðelian (1555–1557)
 home-ACC.SG establish-INF
 ‘then Noe began to build a new home with his relatives’

If there were a strong imperative against using V2, V3 would relatively easily be achievable through the use of a shorter periphrasis instead of the proper noun (such as *se eorl*, *se æðela*, or *se æðeling*, if one wanted to retain the same alliteration, or *se beorn*, *se rinc*, *se maga*, etc. if one were to change the b-verse), but if both patterns were equally available, then choosing V2 makes sense on metrical grounds.³⁹

Semantically and pragmatically, there is nothing obvious that sets the V2 occurrence apart from the others, apart from the fact that it follows direct speech directly: all four occurrences have a subject lexical noun phrase as one of the first three elements in the clause and it refers to well-known characters in all cases.

5.1.7 Sprecan

Sprecan is similar to *onginnan* in that all occurrences but one favour the V3 pattern.⁴⁰ Most take the subject noun phrase as their second element (one takes an indirect object instead, with the subject located immediately after the verb) and in all cases the element located in second position is well-known at this stage of the narrative (God, Noah or Abraham).

However, in two instances with V3 (1483 and 1744–1745), the element in second position has not been referred to recently and is being reintroduced in the narrative.

Conversely, the only clause with V2 has its subject straight after the verb and the subject refers to a person who has just delivered a speech (the prince of Sodom) and is therefore still fresh in the audience’s memory. In other words, givenness does not seem to be a factor in privileging V3 over V2 with that verb:

³⁹The periphrases *se eorl* (“the man of rank”), *se æðela* (“the nobleman”), *se æðeling* (“the nobleman”, “the prince”), *se beorn* (“the man”, “the warrior”), *se rinc* (“the man”, “the warrior”), and *se maga* (“the man”, “the kinsman”) are all used at some point in the poem to designate a male protagonist.

⁴⁰V2 clauses: 1294b–1295a, 1483, 1744–1745, 2880. V3 clause: 2123b–2125a.

- (8) a. ... / x / x x x x / \ x
 and þæs hereteames ealles teoðan sceat Abraham
 and DEM plunder-GEN.SG all-GEN.SG tenth-ACC.SG part-ACC.SG
 sealde godes bisceope.
 Abraham-NOM.SG give-PST.SG God-GEN.SG bishop-DAT.SG
 ‘and Abraham gave a tenth part of all the plunder to God’s bishop.’
 b. þa spræc guðcýning, Sodoma
 þa speak-PST.SG battle-king-NOM.SG inhabitant.of.Sodom-GEN.PL
 aldor, secgum befyllod, to
 prince-NOM.SG, man-DAT.PL deprive-PST.PTCP to
 Abrahame (Genesis A 2121b–2125a)
 Abraham-DAT.SG
 Then spoke the battle-king, the prince of Sodom, deprived of
 warriors, to Abraham (...).’

Metrical factors likely play a part in this passage: a compound such as *guðcýning* (which provides the alliterative key) offers limited options and V3 is simply not workable metrically. If the poet was keen on using this compound to designate the prince of Sodom, then using V2 was a handy solution, whereas V3 would have required a noun phrase with only one metrical stress (e.g. *þa se gamola spræc*, ‘then the old one spoke’, cf. 1295a *þa waldend spræc* ‘then the ruler spoke’, 1483a *þa to Noe spræc*, ‘then to Noah spoke’, 1744a *ða se halga spræc* ‘then the holy one spoke’, 28880a *ða Abraham spræc* ‘then Abraham spoke’).

It is worth noting, however, that the metrical constraint is not very onerous. In all instances, both V2 and V3 are possible provided a noun phrase of appropriate length is chosen and the wealth of synonyms for male protagonists in Old English is such that this is relatively easily achievable.⁴¹

The fact that in 4 out of 5 instances the poet favoured V3 over V2 suggests that, unlike the *Heliand* poet, he felt no particular inclination toward V2. At the same time, the fact that we do have one instance of V2 with *sprecan* in an unstressed position where alternatives with V3 (or V1 or V-late, for that matter) were not very difficult to come by suggests that the poet did not consider that this pattern

⁴¹Thus, we could have *ða spræc halig god, heofonrices weard* ‘then spoke holy God, the guardian of the kingdom of heaven’ instead of *ða se halga spræc, heofonrices weard*, ‘then the holy one spoke, the guardian of the kingdom of heaven’ (1744); *þa spræc waldend god*, ‘then spoke God the ruler’ instead of *þa waldend spræc* (1294b); *ða spræc Abraham* instead of *ða Abraham spræc* (2880a cf. 2717a above, *þa ongan Abimæleh*, which displays a similar pattern). 1483a would be more difficult to replace without changing the line more substantially.

was best avoided with all verbs except *wesan* and *weorðan*. The pattern exists, but in most instances the poet simply chooses not to use it.

In terms of meaning, there is not much that sets the V2 instance apart from its V3 counterparts. If there is an odd one out here, it would rather be 2880 (which uses V3: *ða Abraham spræc to his ombihtum*, “then Abraham spoke to his servants”), which is a much simpler and straightforward speech introduction than the other three. Otherwise, all instances are very similar in terms of formality, “shock factor” or givenness of information.

5.1.8 *Weorþan*

Genesis A and the Paris Psalter only use *weorþan* with V2, never with V3, but Cynewulf uses both word orders with this verb.⁴² In 2 instances, the 2nd element in a V3 clause is a past participle (with the subject located after the verb), so the clause is probably better interpreted as V-late than V3. Three of the four other V3 clauses also have a past participle (*weorþan* being used as an auxiliary for a passive construction), but in these it is further down the clause (after the finite verb). The fourth one is used with predicative adjectives instead.

Arguably, there might be a difference in “shock factor” among those instances, though it must be granted such differences are hard to assess objectively. Instances of V3 in *Juliana* are very straightforward in that the events depicted would be shocking in real-life, but are expected and indeed necessary steps in this type of narrative (the villain grows enraged and the saint is finally killed after several bouts of torture). The instance of V3 in *Elene* depicts the joy of Constantine when he receives news that the Cross has been found: again, the event is important, but wholly expected.

One instance of V2 is likewise expected to some extent, but it is a kind of apotheosis and therefore spectacular in that sense (*Christ II* 743b–744): it is the conclusion of a passage on the Ascension and it describes the joy of the inhabitants of Heaven on this glorious occasion. Another instance of V2 describes the terror felt by the wise men after *Elene*’s threats (584b–585a), which is a logical reaction, but which brings more narrative tension, since it leads them to change tack and betray Judas, when before they had been silent. Two other instances with V2 concern miraculous apparitions (a vision of the cross for Constantine, *Elene* 69–70a and angels lifting Christ from earth to bring him to Heaven, *Christ II* 491–492a). The remaining one depicts the moment when *Juliana* reacts to her

⁴²Occurrences with V2: *Christ II* 491–492a and 743b–74, *Elene* 69–70a and 584b–585a, *Juliana* 607–608. Occurrences with V3: *Fates of the Apostles* 82b–83, *Juliana* 58–59, 684b–585a, 594b–595a and 669b–671a, *Elene* 988b–990a. Total number of occurrences with V2 in our corpus: 15; with V3: 6.

death sentence (607–608): it marks an important step in the narrative (the torture sequence is over and her execution starts) and a moment of intense reversal of emotions, underlined by the use of the *geniwad*-formula, which symbolizes the triumph of Christ over death in Cynewulfian texts (Louviot 2021b). Therefore, it is arguably more emotionally loaded than the sentence depicting her death, which is expressed rather straightforwardly and with minimum fuss (and with V3, see above).

Another thing that sets the V3 clauses apart is the nature of their second constituent. In three of the four true V3 clauses, the second element is a definite subject lexical noun phrase (with the demonstrative *se* or with a possessive adjective). In the fourth one, it is also a definite lexical noun phrase, but used as an indirect object: however, semantically that object corresponds to the experiencer of the feeling conveyed by the participle, and it is therefore extremely similar to some of the other instances where the syntactic subject has the same semantic role.

In Momma's terminology, the demonstrative and possessive adjectives are an attached unstressed elements and may be found anywhere in the clause (Momma 1997: 76). However, in our corpus, when such a determinative adjective is used, V3 is much more common than V2, not just with *weorðan*, but with other verbs as well.

To ascertain this, we have examined the first three constituents in all V2 and V3 clauses in our corpus (93 and 76 clauses, so 169 in total). By definition, one of the three constituents is *þa* and another is the verb. The third one can be any number of things (noun phrase, prepositional phrase, adverb, etc.). The first word of that constituent is a demonstrative adjective in 34 instances (20%). However, there are huge discrepancies in our corpus, among poems and especially among clause types.

Even though *Genesis A* accounts for 50% of all clauses examined, it only accounts for 32% of demonstrative adjectives (11 out of 34) whereas Cynewulf accounts for 43% of all clauses, but 68% of all demonstrative adjectives (23 out of 34).⁴³ This is likely due to the more archaic style of *Genesis A*, which represents a stage in the language where the demonstrative adjective has yet to become a genuine definite article, and is therefore comparatively rarer.

More interestingly, 27 of our 34 instances are found with V3 rather than V2 (79% overall: 91% for *Genesis A* and 74% in Cynewulf), even though V2 is slightly more common overall.

⁴³The Paris Psalter never uses the demonstrative adjective in either context, which may or may not be significant, given the small number of clauses overall (12 out of 169, so only 7% of our V2 and V3 sub-corpus).

Given that the demonstrative adjective is the ancestor of the definite article, it might be tempting to regard this as evidence of the givenness of the element in second position. However, analysis of clauses with other verbs have shown many instances where the first noun phrase in the sentence referred to given information, whether the demonstrative was used or not, and no correlation with V3 was observed.

In fact, it is much more likely that the high number of noun phrases with a demonstrative in V3 clauses owes more to metrical and prosodic factors than to information structure. Almost all of our instances (33 out of 34) are short lexical noun phrases, which carry only one metrical stress (*þære halgan, seo fæmne, se snotra, se rinc, seo cwen*, etc.). Such short noun phrases are relatively rare in Old English poetry, but can be quite convenient fillers in some metrical contexts, particularly when the finite verb occupies the second stressed position in a half-line:

- (9) x x / / x x / / x
 þa se wer **hyrde** his waldende (Genesis A 2804)
 then DEM man-NOM.SG obey-PST.SG POSS ruler-DAT.SG
 ‘then the man obeyed his ruler’
- (10) x x / x / / x / x x
 þa se dema **wearð** hreoh ond hygegrim
 then DEM judge-NOM.SG become-PST.SG savage-NOM.SG and cruel-NOM.SG
 (Juliana 594b–595a)

‘then the judge became savage and cruel’

V-late can also be achieved in a similar way (metrically speaking), for instance with the addition of a personal pronoun:

- (11) x x x / x / x / x /
 Ða he his folc **genam** swa fæle
 Then he POSS people-ACC.SG take-PST.SG like faithful-ACC.SG
 sceap (Paris Psalter 77, 145)
 sheep-ACC.SG
 ‘Then he took his people like faithful sheep’

It seems likely, then, that the affinity of V3 with this type of noun phrase stems from the fact that such noun phrases make it easier for the poet to achieve V3 or V-late within a single half-line and is not attributable to pragmatic or semantic factors.

5.1.9 Wesan

Wesan is the most frequent verb among those accepting both word orders (40 occurrences with V2 and 6 with V3). Here, V3 is used only in a minority of instances, something that is clearly connected to *wesan*'s status as a the lightest of light verbs. Not only can *wesan* occur in the same contexts where other unstressed light verbs are found, but it can also be found in additional contexts, including with definite lexical noun phrases of the type discussed above:

- (12) a. x x x / x x x x / x / x
 ða wæs sio fæmne mid hyre fæder
 then be-PST.SG DEM young.woman-NOM.SG with POSS father-GEN.SG
 willan (Juliana 32)
 approval-DAT.SG
 'then was the young woman, with her father's approval...'
- b. x x x / x / x / x x
 ða wæs se snotra sunu Lamehes
 then be-PST.SG DEM clever-NOM.SG son-NOM.SG Lamech-GEN.SG
 (Genesis A 1543)

'then was the clever son of Lamech...'

As seen above, such short noun phrases (made up of a demonstrative or a possessive adjective and a non-compound noun) are relatively uncommon and only occur in peculiar metrical contexts. With such noun phrases, other verbs will almost always be stressed and found in 3rd or later position. Only *wesan* (and to a lesser extent *weorþan*) can be found with V2 if the next constituent is such a noun phrase.⁴⁴

Conversely, *wesan*'s light status makes it more likely to be found in third position if the other constituent is a personal pronoun, but such instances are rare. In such a case, *wesan* will still be unstressed. According to Momma, pronouns may be found either before or after an unstressed finite verb, but there are marked preferences for some verbs. *Wesan* is five times more likely to be found after rather than before the pronoun (Momma 1997: 113–126). A quick survey of the Anglo-Saxon Poetic Records suggests that the trend might be even stronger in

⁴⁴There are occurrences of V2 with such a noun phrase as the third element, most of them in Cynewulf's poems. 6 of them use the verb *wesan* (Juliana 32a, 38a, 287a; Elene 894a; Genesis A 1543a) and 1 *weorþan* (Juliana 607a)

clauses starting with *þa*: we have found no instance of *þa wæs* + personal pronoun, whereas the order *þa* + personal pronoun + *wæs* is attested a few times (five in total). This happens twice in our corpus: *Genesis* A 1591a and 2237b.

When the second element is longer than such a pronoun, *wesan* is stressed, which is an infrequent occurrence (*Elene* 883b–884a, 1062b–1063, *Genesis A* 162b–163a, 1719), though by no means an extraordinary one. Three of the four instances are found in the b-verse, so that simply inverting the 2nd and the 3rd constituent, which would yield a light verse with only one stressed position, is not an option. For the instance located in the a-verse, on the other hand, such a manipulation would easily be possible:

- (13) a. x x / x / / x / x
 þa þæs mæles wæs mearc
 then DEM appointed.time-GEN.SG be-PST.SG term-NOM.SG
 agongen (*Genesis A 1719*)
 pass-PST.PTCP
 ‘Then the right time had come...’ a’
 x x x / x / x / x
 þa wæs þæs mæles mearc agongen

Wesan is unambiguously used as an auxiliary here, so it cannot have a greater semantic weight than in other instances. It seems more likely that the poet is deliberately manipulating word order to make the beginning of this new fitt in the poem more stately and ponderous.⁴⁵ The placement of the finite verb between the genitive and the noun it complements slows down the rhythm of this sentence, and delays the announcement of Abraham's marriage. The announcement of the name of Abraham's bride is itself delayed by other rhetorical devices, so that it only appears on line 1723.⁴⁶

This exception to a general trend only confirms *wesan* peculiar status: whereas other light verbs can often be promoted to a stressed position at the end of a half-line, *wesan* will very rarely appear in such a position unless it serves a specific rhetoric effect.

⁴⁵The new fitt starts on p. 83 of the Junius 11 manuscript: the previous page has been left incomplete to leave room for an illustration and a new section starts at the beginning of this page, marked with a large ornamental capital letter.

⁴⁶This can be compared with the very terse and direct account provided in the Vulgate: *Duxerunt autem Abram et Nachor uxores: nomen uxoris Abram, Sarai: et nomen uxoris Nachor, Melcha* ("Then Abram and Nahor took wives: the name of Abram's wife was Sarai and the name of Nahor's wife Milcah"). By comparison, the Old English poet avoids references to secondary characters and focuses all his attention on Abraham and Sarah, to celebrate the rightness and the solemnity of their union.

5.1.10 Conclusion on Old English

This comparison of V2 and V3 clauses shows that multiple factors are at play in our corpus. Metrical and prosodic factors are undeniably important: not only do light verbs behave differently from other verbs but, within that category, there is a gradient from very (*wesan*) to slightly light verbs (*sprecen*), showing preferences for different patterns. Since several patterns do occur with the same verb, but with different frequencies, it seems that the preference has more to do with prosody than with metre strictly speaking: several patterns may be metrically licit, but some of them apparently sound better to the poets.

Additionally, in any given context, local metrical constraints may influence the choice of the poet in either direction. That being said, metre is no straightjacket. With all the (highly frequent) verbs examined in this section, both V2 and V3 can yield perfectly legitimate metrical patterns in most contexts, provided phrases of appropriate length are selected to complete the line, something a competent poet would have had no problem doing, as demonstrated in the examples above.

In this corpus, opportunities to use V2 are limited by the metrical constraints, but they are not that rare. However, these opportunities are far from being seized every time they present themselves, which suggests that not only is V2 not the standard word order for declarative clauses in this corpus, but there is no obvious push towards V2, as one might expect if there were a conflict between the poet's sense of grammaticality and metrical constraints inherited from an earlier language stage.

While there is no doubt that information structure and discursive aims are important factors in determining the order in which constituents appear in a clause generally, there is no evidence in our corpus of givenness of the referent of the first noun phrase increasing the likelihood of V3 being used over V2.

What we observe here is a heterogeneous word order, where the preferred patterns of certain verbs, which seem largely determined by their weight, can be manipulated for effect. Thus, verbs with a preference for a later position seem more likely to appear with V2 when conveying spectacular or surprising events. Conversely, *wesan*, which has the strongest preference for V2, can appear with V3 to create a stately, ponderous effect.

5.2 Heliand

As mentioned above, in *Heliand*, *thô* followed by V2 is by far the dominant pattern, though several alternatives exist, including patterns where *thô* is not in initial position (Table 5).

Table 5: Syntactic patterns in *Heliand*

		Number of occurrences	Total
Initial <i>thô</i>	<i>Thô</i> V...V2	307	429
	<i>Thô</i> X V...V3	23	
	<i>Thô</i> X... V (...) V-final	90	
	<i>Thô</i> X V (ambiguous)	9	
Post-verbal <i>thô</i>	V <i>thô</i> ...V1	25	212
	V... <i>thô</i> ...V1	99	
	X V <i>thô</i> ...V2	40	
	X V... <i>thô</i> (...)V2	35	
	Other	13	
Non-initial, but preverbal	X <i>thô</i> V...V3	6	58
	Other	52	
Total			699

Among the 23 occurrences of V3 with initial *thô* in this corpus, 6 have the subject as their second element, and among them 3 are simple pronominal subjects (without the intensifier *selbo*), thereby corresponding in appearance to the prototypical V3 pattern identified in Old English prose, and which inspired the clitic hypothesis. However, examination of the 3 clauses quickly reveals that something very different is going on here. In all three, the clause should be interpreted as a subordinate clause and V3 as V-final, since what follows the verb is admittedly its direct object, but this direct object is in fact an infinitive clause, as in the following example:

- (14) *thuo hie gihôrda thia man sprecan* (5336b)
 when he hear-PST.SG DEM man-ACC.PL speak-INF
 ‘when he heard the men speak’

If we add to this the occurrence where the second element is a past participle and therefore indicative of a V-final word order (*Heliand* 4865b), that brings our total number of genuine V3 occurrences down to only 19.

5.2.1 Verb diversity

Given the significant differences observed in Old English regarding the syntactic patterns favoured by individual verbs, it makes sense to examine this parameter in this section of the corpus as well.

However, *Heliand* yields very different results. As shown above, for clauses with initial *thô*, the most common word order overall is V2, followed by V-late/final, with V3 occurring quite rarely. The same hierarchy can be observed for each verb considered individually and the only verbs occurring more than once with V3 are verbs which have many more occurrences with V2 (Table 6). Thus, the verbs most commonly used with V3 are *sprekan* and *uuerðan*, but the proportion of occurrences of those verbs using V3 is perfectly in line with the proportion of V3 overall in clauses with initial *thô*.⁴⁷

The only exception to that trend is the verb *gibiodan* ('to command'), which occurs 3 times with V3 and twice with V-late/final, even though it is not a common verb overall.⁴⁸

In all five instances, the verb is located at the very end of the half-line, while a lexical noun phrase denoting the speaker is found in the following half-line (or the one after, in one case):

- (15) a. *Thô he selbo gibôð, uualdand mid is*
 Then he INTENSIVE command-PST.SG, ruler-NOM.SG with POSS
uuordun (4502b–4503a)
 word-DAT.PL
 'Then he himself commanded, the ruler with his words'
- b. *Thô sô stillo gebôð mahtig barn*
 Then so quietly command-PST.SG mighty-NOM.SG child-NOM.SG
godes (2037b–2039a)
 God-GEN.SG
 'Then so quietly commanded the mighty son of God'
- c. *Thô he sô hardo gibôð, Erodes obar is*
 Then he so strictly command-PST.SG Herod-NOM.SG over POSS

⁴⁷There are 23 clauses with V3 out of 429 with initial *thô* or 5%. 4 instances of *sprekan* out of 73 amounts to 5%, and 5 occurrences out of 77 for *uuerðan* amounts to 6%.

⁴⁸Aside from the 5 occurrences with initial *thô* examined here, there is only one other instance in our corpus, where the pattern is [subject noun phrase + verb + *thô*] and where *thô* is directly followed by a noun clause reporting a speech indirectly (l. 520).

Table 6: Patterns favoured by verbs with at least 5 occurrences in clauses with initial *thô*

	V2	V3	V-late/ final	Total
<i>uuerðan</i>	70	5	2	77
<i>sprekan</i>	55	4	14	73
<i>gangan</i>	19	0	9	28
<i>uuesan</i>	21	1	3	25
<i>giuuîtan</i>	21	0	3	24
<i>kuman</i>	8	2	7	17
<i>hebbian</i>	13	1	2	16
<i>biginnan</i>	14	0	0	14
<i>hêtan</i>	8	0	4	12
<i>gisehan</i>	6	0	6	11
<i>faran</i>	4	1	3	8
<i>gifregnan</i>	7	0	0	7
<i>uuillian</i>	6	0	1	7
<i>gihôrian</i>	2	1	2	5
<i>môtan</i>	6	0	0	6
<i>gibiodan</i>	0	3	2	5
<i>niman</i>	4	0	1	5
<i>sehan</i>	4	0	1	5
<i>skulan</i>	4	0	1	5

riki (727b–728a)

kingdom-ACC.SG

‘Then he very strictly commanded, Herod throughout his kingdom’

It seems that what we have here is a conventional formula to report a command, and that it requires placing the verb beyond the second position, either in third or fourth position, depending on the weight of the intervening elements.

That this formula was conventional is all the more likely that it can also be found in the *Evangelienbuch*, even though the poem uses a style usually quite different from the traditional formulaic style of alliterative poetry. In the *Evangelienbuch*, the formula typically uses *so* instead of *thô* and the subject is placed in second position (without any additional subject noun phrase located after the verb), but the verb is also usually in third position. The most common form is *so*

druhtin sélbo gibót (“as the lord himself ordered”: first dedicatory letter, line 71; book II, 9, l. 50; II, 12, l. 64), but other close variants can be found, such as *so ther wízzod gibot* (“as the commandment required”, book III, 15, l. 6 and III, 16, l. 42) or *Er in sélbo gibot* (“he in person ordered”, III, 13, l. 57).

In itself, this formula is interesting because it requires a form of V-late (V3 or later) and in *Heliand*, it is never used in a way suggesting it could be interpreted as a subordinate clause (as opposed to the way it is used in the *Evangelienbuch*). This implies that V3 was likely a legitimate word order for independent clauses starting with *thô* at some point in Old Saxon, though it may have become less productive and started to become fossilized by the time *Heliand* was composed. However, it is important to bear in mind that V3 appears to be a kind of V-late in this pattern (since V4 also occurs), so this is quite different from the V3 patterns identified in Modern Germanic languages.

The way the formula is used in *Heliand* also provides us with important clues which may help us account for most remaining instances. The point of the formula seems to be the emphatic representation of a speech act by a powerful speaker. In all instances, the subject is either split or delayed, with the result that a noun phrase denoting the speaker appears in a marked position.

5.2.2 Subject in marked position

Something very similar occurs with most other instances of V3 in our corpus. In 15 of our 19 instances, V3 is immediately followed by a subject lexical noun phrase (the second position being occupied by an adjunct in most cases); in one more instance, V3 is followed by the direct object, but a subject lexical noun phrase is used in fifth position; and in one more instance a genitive noun referring to the subject is used in fourth position instead, so that we have a split subject once again:

- (16) *thuo thiú seola quam / Iudases an grund*
when DEM soul-NOM.SG come-PST.SG Judas-GEN.SG on bottom-ACC.SG
grimmáro helliun
bitter-GEN.SG hell-GEN.SG
‘when the soul of Judas came to the bottom of bitter Hell’ (5428b–5429)

Whatever the nature of the second constituent (either a subject noun phrase itself or a prepositional phrase), the overall effect of the pattern is the same: the subject noun phrase located after the verb receives maximum focus, which can be reinforced by various rhetorical devices, as in this instance:

- (17) Thô te thes uuatares staðe samnodun thea
 Then to DEM water-GEN.SG place-DAT.SG gather-PST.PL DEM
 gesiðos Cristes, the he imu habde selbo
 companion-NOM.PL Christ-GEN.SG REL he REFL have-PST-SG INTS
 gicorane, sie tuelibi thurh iro treuua
 choose-PST.PTCP, DEM twelve-ACC.PL through POSS true-ACC.SG
 gôda (2902–2903)
 faith-ACC.SG
 ‘Then to the riverside the companions of God came together, those that
 he had chosen in person, the twelve for their good faith’

The alliterating *th*-sound in *thô*, *thes*, *thea*, the rhythmical interplay of light and heavy elements line 2902, the relative clause highlighting the elect status of the apostles and the two noun phrases placed in late (and thus marked) position (*thea gesiðos Cristes* after V3, and *sie tuelibi thurh iro treuua gôda* after the relative clause) all contribute to the same rhetorical strategy which puts maximum focus on the apostles.

5.2.3 Conclusion on Heliand

In *Heliand*, V2 is extremely dominant, but word order is flexible enough that other options can occasionally be chosen. In clauses starting with *thô*, the poet has the option of delaying the verb until the third or a later position and of placing a subject noun phrase after the verb. The effect of that marked word order is to place maximum focus on the subject, whereas the pattern *thô V subject* would be unmarked and therefore much less emphatic. The verb *gibiodan*, which denotes an emphatic speech act, is almost systematically found with that pattern, but otherwise it does not seem to be associated with or restricted to any particular verb.

5.3 Evangelienbuch

In the *Evangelienbuch* as in *Heliand*, V2 is very much dominant with initial *thô*, though once again competing with other patterns, including patterns where *thô* is not initial (Table 7).

5.3.1 Verb diversity

As in *Heliand*, there seems to be very little restriction as regards verb diversity with V2. Comparison of random sets comprised of 50 verbs shows that verb diver-

5 Verb-third with initial *þa*/*thô* in Old English, Old Saxon and OHG verse

Table 7: Syntactic patterns in the *Evangelienbuch*. Percentages are rounded and may add up to more than 100%.

	<i>n</i>	%
Initial <i>thô</i>	203	
<i>Thô</i> V... V2	124	61%
<i>Thô</i> X V... V3	15	7%
<i>Thô</i> X... V (...) V-late/final	63	31%
No verb	1	<1%
Post-verbal <i>thô</i>	312	
V <i>thô</i> ... V1	55	18%
V... <i>thô</i> ... V1	142	46%
X V <i>thô</i> ... V2	33	11%
X V... <i>thô</i> (...) V2	65	21%
Other	17	5%
Non-initial, but preverbal	179	
X <i>thô</i> V... V3	9	5%
Other	170	95%
Non-initial, other	6	
No explicit verb	6	
Total	700	

sity is slightly higher in V-late/final clauses than in V2 clauses, but not hugely so.⁴⁹ Again, this is consistent with a slight semantic restriction with *thô* more likely to be used as a discourse marker signalling a new stage in the narrative with V2, but not with a limitation on V2's productivity as observed in Old English.

An examination of verbs totalling at least 5 occurrences in clauses starting with *thô* shows that most verbs favour V2, with the exception of *biginnan* (which favours V-late/final) and *willon*, which favours both V3 and V-late/final over V2,

⁴⁹The median type/token ratio of the samples tested was 0.62 for V2, against 0.76 for V-late/final, to be compared with *Heliand*'s 0.40 for V2 and 0.64 for V-late/final and *Genesis A*'s 0.40 for V2 and 0.74 for V3. This means that the *Evangelienbuch* is both the text with the greatest lexical variety (at least where verbs are concerned) and the text where V2 shows the least restriction. Likewise, the 3 most common verbs in samples from the *Evangelienbuch* only accounted for 34% of all tokens in V2 clauses (against 48% in *Heliand* and 60% in *Genesis A*).

which is all the more surprising that V3 is quite rare overall.⁵⁰

One thing that these two verbs have in common is that they typically take an infinitive verb or a full infinitive clause as their object. We have already seen instances above, when V3 or V-late/final was favoured over V2 in such contexts, so as to avoid confusion regarding which clause a noun phrase belongs to.

The occurrences of *wellen* in our corpus are quite short and straightforward, so such confusion is unlikely here. They are also strikingly similar, suggesting the influence of a potential conventional formula (*tho drúhtin wolta* *INFINITIVE*), though it has proved impossible to find further evidence of such a formula:

- (18) a. *tho drúhtin wolt es wáltan, fon themo*
 tho lord-NOM.SG want-PST.SG PRON-GEN.SG wield-INF, from DEM
 grábe irstántan; (III, 7, l. 6)
 grave-DAT.SG rise-INF
 ‘Then/when the lord **decided to take control** of it, **to rise** from the
 grave’
- b. *Thaz ward állaz so gidán, tho selbo drúhtin*
 DEM AUX-PST.SG all-NOM.SG so do-PST.PTCP, tho DEM INTS
 wolta irstán (IV, 34, l. 11)
 lord-NOM.SG want-PST.SG resurrect-INF
 ‘It was all done so, when the lord himself **decided to resurrect**’
- c. *Tho drúhtin wolta réison, sin selbes*
 Tho lord-NOM.SG want-PST.SG travel-INF, POSS INTS
 riches wison (V, 16, l. 1)
 kingdom-GEN.SG visit-INF
 ‘Then the lord **wanted to travel, to visit** his own kingdom’

Another reason why clauses using *willon* might be overrepresented with V3 is simply that such clauses tend to contain very few constituents outside the subordinate infinitive clause. Whenever a V-final clause using *willon* appears, it is likely to *look like* a V3 clause, simply because it contains so few constituents. However, this does not explain why *biginnan* and *willon* are often found with V-late/final in the first place.

⁵⁰3 instances of *biginnan* with V-late/final against 2 with V2 and 0 with V3; 3 instances of *willon* with V3, against 1 with V2 and 2 with V-late/final.

5.3.2 Second element in *thô X V*

Our first findings suggest that *thô X V* is a very marginal pattern in the *Evangelienbuch*, which may be triggered in certain peculiar contexts.

Still, it is worth taking a closer look to the second constituent in this pattern, because it tends to match the prototypical features identified in prose corpora much more closely than in *Heliand* or in the Old English section of our corpus.

In our 15 relevant clauses, the second constituent is often a pronoun (8 occurrences) or a subject noun phrase (11 occurrences), and sometimes both (5).

By nature, pronouns point to a referent that is recoverable, as in this example where the pronoun *sie* (“they”) clearly refers anaphorically to *thie mán* (“the people”).

- (19) **Thie mán** thoh thie thar scanktun, iz fílu
 DEM person-NOM.PL however REL there pour-PST.SG pron-ACC.SG very
 wola irkántun, theiz wazzar lútaraz
 completely recognize-PST.PL, REL-DEM water-NOM.SG clear-NOM.SG
 was, tho **sie** fúltun thiu vaz. (II, 8, l. 41–42)
 be-PST.SG, tho they fill-PST.SG DEM barrel-ACC.SG
 ‘**The people**, however, who poured (the drinks) there wholly recognized
 this, / that this was clear water when **they** filled up the barrel.’

The noun phrases used in the same position also mostly refer to elements known to the audience: “the lord” (three occurrences), “the week” (referring to the Feast of Tabernacles, already referred to in the text), “all this world”.⁵¹ The only new element is “the seventh hour of the (previous) day”, which introduces a new time setting at the beginning of a speech (III, 2, l. 31).

However, the example quoted above (II, 8, l. 41–42) reveals another important feature of those clauses: most often, they are best interpreted as subordinate clauses. Out of the 15 clauses considered, at least 10 make most sense if the clause is interpreted as subordinate and only 3 would make no sense if interpreted as subordinate:

- (20) a. Tho drúhtin wolta réison, sin selbes
 Tho lord-NOM.SG want-PST.SG travel-INF, POSS INTS
 ríches wison (V, 16, l. 1)
 kingdom-GEN.SG visit-INF
 ‘Then the lord wanted to travel, to visit his own kingdom’

⁵¹Respectively, III, 7, l. 6; IV, 34, l. 11; V, 16, l. 1; III, 16, l. 1; I, 23, l. 1.

- b. Tho er déta thaz sih zárpta ther hímil sus io
 Tho he do-PST.SG CONJ REFL turn-PST.SG DEM sky-NOM.SG thus so
 wárpta (II, 1, l. 21)
 twist-PST.SG
 ‘Then he did (so) that on itself turned the sky (and) thus twisted’
- c. Tho thisu wórolt ellu quám zi theru stúllu, ouh
 Tho DEM world-NOM.SG all come-PST.SG to DEM hour-DAT.SG, also
 zi theru zíti, thaz Kríst sih iru
 to DEM time-DAT.SG, CONJ Christ-NOM.SG REFL PRON-DAT.SG
 iróugti (I, 23, l. 1–2)
 reveal-PST.SG
 ‘Then all this world came to this hour and this time when Christ
 revealed himself to it (= to this world)’

The first instance has already been briefly commented above. The second presents a similar pattern in that the verb is immediately followed by a subordinate clause which is the complement of the verb. As noted above, it is not impossible for such structures to show greater tolerance for V-late as a way to clarify both where the subordinate clause starts and what the connection between the two clauses is, through keeping the verb and its complement together. Either way, the clauses are V-final as much as they are V3. There is no obvious explanation for the third instance, except poetic license: the placement of the verb in third position, the use of a very heavy prepositional phrase (*zi theru stullu ouh zi theru zíti, thaz Kríst sih iru iróugti*) and the placement of the verb denoting the main action inside the relative clause (in final position) all contribute to a very ponderous and solemn opening.

5.3.3 Conclusion on the *Evangelienbuch*

A superficial survey of the *Evangelienbuch* might lead us to believe that *thô X V* as an alternative to *thô V X* exists in that text, particularly when X is a subject noun phrase. However, careful examination of all occurrences suggests that such is not the case. Rather, V-late/final clauses with a subordinate meaning may occasionally take the form V3 rather than V4 or beyond. Additionally, some independent clauses starting with *thô* may also have their verb beyond the second position (third or later) in some contexts (for instance when the verb takes a subordinate clause as a complement or when the poet is striving for a particular rhetorical effect). Nothing in this corpus suggests the existence of a specific V3 pattern distinct from V-late.

6 General Conclusion

This comparative study largely confirms that V3 is significantly more common in Old English than in Old Saxon or Old High German. This is hardly surprising in itself, but it does show that metrical constraints only have a limited impact on word order: they exert some influence, but they do not impose an alien word order on a given language. Old English poetry, and *Genesis A* in particular, may be extremely close to *Heliand* in terms of metre and poetic style, but when it comes to word order they behave very differently. Conversely, the *Evangelienbuch* uses a kind of verse very different from *Heliand*, but it shares a marked preference for V2 across (almost) all verbs. This confirms that poetic texts do not behave randomly or according to idiosyncratic rules independent from the syntactic system of the language in which they operate. Like any textual genre, poetic texts have their own specificities, but they provide valuable material for syntactic analysis.

Another important conclusion of this work is that the existence of V3 as an alternative to V2 in Old Germanic languages is a thorny issue, which cannot ignore the fact that those languages show much more variety and flexibility than present-day languages where word order is concerned. Even in the texts where V2 is most dominant, it competes with V3, but also with V1, V-late and V-final, including in independent clauses, and in some cases it is far from obvious that V3 should be considered alongside V2 rather than V-late.

In *Heliand* and in the *Evangelienbuch*, there is significant evidence that V3 should be regarded as one possible form taken by V-late rather than as a variant of V2. In our Old English corpus, the likelihood of V3 as a (slight) deviation from V2 is even smaller, because V2 is not the default pattern with initial *þa*.

Of course, the significance of the evidence provided here should not be overstated. Our study concerns clauses with initial *þa/thô* exclusively, in which it has been claimed that V3 does not exist, so in a sense this paper confirms that claim: although clauses with the verb in third position do occur with initial *þa/thô* in our corpus, they do not seem to be V3 clauses in the sense meant by Walkden, Eythórsson, van Kemenade and others.

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Chapter 6

Tracing the origins of resumption in Swedish

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This paper examines the changes in the resumption system that take place in Swedish from the 13th to the 18th centuries. The basis of the analysis is a data set of 6,052 clauses drawn from different kinds of texts. The analysis shows that while *DÅ* was the dominating resumptive in the earliest texts, *SÅ* takes over as the generalized resumptive in the 16th century. The paper argues that *DÅ* resumption undergoes semantic restriction while *SÅ* resumption shows an instance of semantic expansion. This is a reflection of a deeper underlying process, where the antecedent gets fully integrated into the V2 clause.

1 Introduction

Swedish is a Verb-Second language (henceforth V2), which is shorthand for the observation that the finite verb comes in second position in main declarative clauses regardless of what element precedes it. If any other XP than the subject is preverbal, the subject occurs after the finite verb. In (1), the PP *på måndag* ‘on Monday’ precedes the finite verb *ska* ‘shall’, and the subject *vi* ‘we’ is post-verbal.

- (1) På måndag ska vi äta soppa.
on Monday shall we eat soup
‘On Monday, we will have soup.’ (Swedish)

This V2 word order is often challenged by the insertion of a so-called resumptive element that triggers a surface Verb-Third (V3) word order. In (2) the resumptive *SÅ* occurs between *på måndag* ‘on Monday’ and the finite verb.



- (2) På måndag **så** ska vi äta soppa.
 on Monday **så** shall we eat soup
 ‘On Monday, we will have soup.’

These resumptive structures are extremely common, especially in the spoken language (Elmqvist 1945, Ekerot 1998, Nordström 2010). However, this construction is by no means an innovation of the Modern Swedish language. In the earliest sources, from the 13th century, there are numerous constructions with a resumptive element (3).

- (3) Nw æn man slar . præst . ællir vighdan . **tha** bōte biscope nyo
 NU a man kills . priest . or consecrated . DÅ pay bishop.DAT nine
 marker
 marks
 ‘If a man kills a priest or another consecrated person, then he should pay
 the bishop marks.’ (EOS, ÖGL, 1350–1400)¹

There is, nonetheless, a major difference between resumption in the old and the modern languages. As we can see in examples (2) and (3), the resumptive element is not the same. In the modern example in (2), the resumptive is **så**, while in (3) it is **THA**. Resumption with **DÅ**, the modern descendent of **THA** is still possible, but its use is quite restricted. In the example we have already seen, we may, however, substitute **så** by **DÅ** (4).

- (4) På måndag **då** ska vi äta soppa.
 on Monday **DÅ** shall we eat soup
 ‘On Monday, we will have soup.’

Similarly, resumption with **så** is attested in the oldest sources, but its use is marginal. We may thus note that there has been a significant diachronic development, in which the use of the two resumptives has changed radically.

There have been numerous studies on the modern **så** construction (Elmqvist 1945, Ekerot 1998, Nordström 2010, Holmberg 2019, 2023), but fewer have worked on the historical resumptive structure. To my knowledge, the only one addressing **DÅ** resumption in the old language is Bergqvist (1884). In this paper, I will examine the changes that take place in Swedish before 1750 by tracing the evolution of the two resumptives **THA** → **DÅ** and **SWA** → **så**.

¹References should be read in the following way: EOS refers to Early Old Swedish, ÖGL to Östgötalagen, and the numbers refers to the date of the text in question. The different periods in the Swedish language are described in Table 1. For a full list of sources and their abbreviations, see page 212.

1.1 Clines

Central to this paper is the notion of clines. In a diachronic perspective, Meklenborg (2020: 115) sees the evolution of resumptive structures as some kind of grammaticalization process. She distinguishes between two clines, one for adverbial elements and one for thematic constituents. Both are implicational hierarchies that describe the temporal evolution of the resumptive structure.

Meklenborg suggests that in the earliest stages, any nominal element containing a relative clause may be followed by a resumptive element. In the later stages, the presence of a relative clause is not necessary, and bare thematic DPs may be followed by a resumptive element. The cline will thus be as in (5).

- (5) $DP_{REL} > DP_{\theta}$

With respect to the adverbial cline, Meklenborg argues that resumption first occurs after fronted adverbial clauses, and that the structure later expands to fronted PPs and AdvPs. With respect to AdvP, first temporal adverbials may serve as antecedents, then general adverbials, and finally so-called *nynégocentrique* adverbials, e.g. speaker-oriented deictic adverbials expressing the ‘me–here–now’. This gives us the cline in (6).

- (6) Adverbial use: $CP_{adv} > PP > AdvP_{temp.} > AdvP_{gen.} > AdvP_{nyn.}$

It should be noted that it is only generalized resumptives that may follow generalized or nynegocentric adverbials. Even in the case of the temporal *nu* ‘now’, the temporal resumptive *DÅ* is not accessible.

- (7) Nu *så* / ?*då* säger han något annat.
 now *SÅ* / *DÅ* says he something else
 ‘Now he says something else.’

However appealing, Meklenborg’s adverbial cline is unfortunate in the sense that it lumps together semantic and syntactic properties. I would therefore suggest that the cline be divided in two different clines, that interact. One is a *syntactic cline*, observing the different syntactic properties of the antecedent. The other is the *semantic cline*, where only the semantics of the antecedent are taken into consideration. Thus, Meklenborg’s cline corresponds to the two following clines, (8) and (9).

- (8) SYNTACTIC CLINE: $CP > PP > AdvP$
 (9) SEMANTIC CLINE: specific semantics > general semantics > complete semantic bleaching (= nynegocentric use)

1.2 Outline

The paper is organized as follows: Section 2 presents the methodological choices that I have made as well as the data set. Section 3 gives an overview of the theoretical backdrop and also provides data about the resumptive construction in Modern Swedish. In Section 5, I will present the syntactic status of the antecedent, while I will examine its semantics in Section 6. Section 7 discusses the implications the data have for the notion of clines, while Section 8 suggests a link between the observed changes and underlying structural changes. Section 9 concludes the paper.

2 Method

This paper is devoted to exploring the origins of the resumptive elements *DÅ* and *SÅ* in the history of Swedish. *DÅ* is the descendant of the temporal adverb and conjunction *pā*, which evolves into *tha* before it becomes *då* in the early 16th century. *pā* in its turn goes back to Proto-Germanic **pan*. As such, *DÅ* is the sibling of Old High German *tho* and Old English *pa* and *þonne*, while it is the aunt of Modern German *da* and *dann* and Modern English *than*.

Så goes back to Proto-Germanic **swā*, and is essentially an manner adverb denoting comparison (‘so’, ‘this way’). The word is the origin of a series of quite similar words in the Modern Germanic languages: *so* (German, English), *så* (Swedish, Norwegian, Danish), *svo* (Icelandic). In Old Swedish, the form was *swa* or *sva*.

The descendents of both **pan* and **swō* are prone to appearing in resumptive structures in the Germanic languages (see among numerous others Links et al. 2017, Links 2018a,b, Haeberli & Pintzuk 2023, Thim-Mabrey 1987, Catasso 2021, Donhauser & Petrova 2009, Axel 2007, Axel-Tober 2023).

In the following, I will use the forms *DÅ* and *SÅ* regardless of the form used in the examples.

2.1 Selecting the data

In order to establish the corpus, I have searched the Swedish language bank for all historically attested varieties of *SÅ* and *DÅ*, according to the online dictionary of the Swedish Academy (*Svenska Akademiens ordbok* – SAOB²).³ Both words create a lot of noise in the material as they may have several different functions;

²<http://g3.spraakdata.gu.se/saob/>

³For *så* I searched for the varieties *sva*, *svo*, *saa*, *so*, *soo*, *swa*, *swaa*, *swā*, and *så*; for *då* I searched for *pa*, *tha*, *thaa*, *thā*, *tho*, *taa*, *tā*, *dhā*, *daa*, *dā*, and *dåå*.

så may for instance be a adverb of degree, and *tha* may be the definite determinative. These uses have been eliminated from my corpus.

In the database I chose a subset of the available texts in the historical corpus. The documents from Early Old Swedish consist of more than 1,000,000 words, where the subset of legal texts contain the oldest data. I therefore included those at the expense of religious prose. For Late Old Swedish, I looked at both laws and other records. The legal text from this period is *Kristoffers Landslag* (1442), which contains sections that have been copied from *Magnus Erikssons Landslag* (ca 1350). I have manually deleted the passages that have been copied from the earlier text as these cannot be seen as representatives of Late Old Swedish. The database also includes the legal texts *Skånelagen* and *Gutalagen*, which I have removed as they were written in Old Danish and Old Gutnish, respectively.⁴

For the two periods of Modern Swedish, I chose two texts, both the first text in their respective periods. For Early Modern Swedish, this is Gustav Vasa's Bible translation (The New Testament) from 1526, a translation of Luther's Bible. For Late Modern Swedish, I chose Dalin's *Then Swenska Argus* (1732–1743), a popular newspaper, which is considered to reflect the spoken language of the time. There is a 200-year window between the two texts, which means that there is a risk that gradual changes in the language will appear abrupt. Therefore, I have also consulted the database *Ekeblads brev*, which contains letters written by Johan Ekeblad to his brother in the period 1639–1655, but these texts have not been systematically examined and do not appear in the statistics. Since the two earliest periods contain legal texts, I have also searched the law *Ridderskapets och adelns privilegier*⁵ from 1723. The intention was to compare the legal language of the 18th century to the language of other prose texts in order to see if changes we explore could be seen as the reflection of the differences between genres.

In addition to these data taken from the portal KORP, I have used the *Fornsvensk lexikalisk databas*⁶, which is the digitalized version of Söderwall's dictionaries of Medieval Swedish (tomes I–V) and Schlyter's dictionary of Swedish legal texts.⁷ Further, I have used Heggstad (2015), Haugen (2006), and Noreen (1904) as reference tools. The first two deal with Old Norse, the sibling of Early Old Swedish

⁴For a presentation of the Old Swedish texts, the reader is referred to Fornsvenska Textbanken, <https://www.nordlund.lu.se>.

⁵https://lagen.nu/1723:1016_1

⁶<https://spraakbanken.gu.se/fsvldb/>

⁷Söderwall, K.F. *Ordbok Öfver svenska medeltids-språket* Vol I–III. (Lund 1884–1918).

Söderwall, K.F. *Ordbok Öfver svenska medeltids-språket* Supplement. Vol IV–V. (Lund 1953–1973)

Schlyter, C.J. *Ordbok till Samlingen af Sweriges Gamla Lagar*. (Saml. af Sweriges Gamla Lagar 13.) Lund 1877.

(Berg 2016), whereas the last one is a detailed presentation of the old Swedish language. Further, I have used the *Karp* base (Borin et al. 2012).

2.2 The data

Using the method described above, I established a corpus consisting of 6,052 clauses spanning six centuries, from the 13th to the 18th (Table 1). As two texts have been removed from the Early Old Swedish period, I have not been able to calculate the relative distribution of resumption in this period. It should however be noted that the dimension of this section before the removal of the two texts is 532,192 words and 29,042 sentences.

Table 1: The relative distribution of resumption

Period	Words	Sentences	Examples	ex/stc	ex/wrd
EOS (1225–1375)	?	?	4,149	?	?
LOS (1375–1525)	278,604	11,648	1,137	9.0%	0.41%
EMS (1526–1731)	469,706	43,323	202	0.5%	0.04%
LMS (1731–1900)	260,093	10,747	564	5.3%	0.33%

A first glance at the data reveals that the resumptive structure is more common in Early Old Swedish, and that its frequency goes down over the next two periods. From Late Modern Swedish, however, the use of the structure increases. In the paper we will investigate these changes more in detail.

3 Theoretical backdrop

When discussing resumption, certain definitions need to be in place. In this paper, I will use the term *antecedent* or *fronted constituent* for the initial element, in other words the XP preceding the resumptive. The resumptive, thus, is the element intervening between the antecedent and the finite verb.

(10) Terminology

på måndag	så	ska	vi äta soppa
↓	↓	↓	
ANTECEDENT	RESUMPTIVE	FINITE VERB	

In the following I will make a distinction between *generalized* and *specialized* resumptives (Section 3.1) and I will briefly describe the derivation of V2 clauses (Section 3.2).

3.1 Generalized and specialized resumptives

Meklenborg (2020) makes a distinction between *generalized* and *specialized* resumptives. While a generalized resumptive is semantically bleached, the specialized resumptive has retained its original semantic properties. It follows from this that a generalized resumptive can be used in all cases, while the specialized resumptive must match the semantics of its antecedent.

The following examples illustrate this (11).

- (11) a. När du har gjort din läxa, så / *då kan du få se på
when you have done your homework SÅ DÅ can you get watch on
TV.
TV
'When you have done your homework, you may watch TV.'
[+TEMPORAL]
- b. Igår så / då gick vi på teater.
yesterday SÅ DÅ went we to theater
'Yesterday, we went to the theater.'
[+TEMPORAL]
- c. I Paris, så / *då mötte vi våra tidigare grannar.
I Paris, SÅ DÅ met we our former neighbors
'In Paris, we met our former neighbors.'
[+LOCATIVE]
- d. Lyckligtvis så / *då kommer vi i tid.
fortunately SÅ DÅ come we in time.
'Fortunately, we will be there in time.'
[+GENERAL]

In order to use the resumptive *DÅ*, the antecedent must be [+TEMPORAL]. Thus, it is acceptable after *igår* ‘yesterday’, but is impossible after the locative *i Paris* ‘in Paris’^{8,9} and the sentence adverbial *lyckligtvis* ‘fortunately’. As is clear from these examples, *sÅ* in Modern Swedish must be considered a generalized resumptive, while *DÅ* is specialized.

The examples in (11) illustrate the importance of the semantics of the antecedent in the choice of resumptive. The syntax of the antecedent is also subject to

⁸If *in Paris* is interpreted as ‘when we were in Paris’, DÅ would be acceptable.

⁹Swedish also has a [+LOCATIVE] resumptive, *där* 'there', which we will not discuss in this paper.

variation. In Modern Swedish, the antecedent can be a CP (11a), a PP (11b, 11c) or an AdvP (11d).

3.2 The V2 property

From a typological point of view, V2 is very rare, since it occurs first and foremost in the Germanic languages with the noteworthy exception of Modern English, and possibly Cimbrian¹⁰. In addition, V2 is observed in Estonian, Breton, Sorbian, Kashmiri, and Himachali (Holmberg 2015). Historically, V2 was also attested in the Old Romance languages (see among others Vanelli et al. 1985, Salvi 2004, Benincà 2006, Ledgeway 2008, 2012, Radwan 2011, Wolfe 2014, 2015, 2019, Meklenborg Salvesen 2013, Poletto 2014, Klævik-Pettersen 2018, Egerland & Falk 2010).

A V2 language is, as already mentioned, characterized by the fact that the subject may occur pre-verbally and post-verbally, while the finite verb always occupies the second position. I will follow Holmberg's definition, which splits up the V2 phenomenon into two different operations (12) (Holmberg 2015: 375).

(12) The V2 property:

- a. A functional head in the left-periphery attracts the verbal head;
- b. This functional head wants a constituent moved to its specifier position.

Further, I will assume that there is a visibility requirement that says that the specifier position must contain overt phonetic material (Meklenborg 2021).

It follows from this definition that a resumptive that occurs between XP and V must be located in the left periphery. While this is not possible in a traditional model, I will use a cartographic framework in which the CP is split into a number of projections following Rizzi's approach Rizzi (1997). More specifically, my starting point will be the elaborated structure proposed by Benincà & Poletto (2004) (13).

(13) Hanging Topics ... Scene Setting ... Force ... Topics ... Focus ... Finiteness ...

I will come back to a more detailed description of the left periphery in Section 8.1.

¹⁰The status of Modern Cimbrian is debated. See Bidese (2008) and Grewendorf & Poletto (2011) for different points of view.

4 Overall tendencies

As we saw in Section 2.2, the relative frequency of the resumptive structure drops from Early Old Swedish to Early Modern Swedish before increasing in Late Modern Swedish. This is quite unexpected given Meklenborg's clines. We would have expected resumption to be on a steady climb in the different environments, not a rollercoaster path.

However, we must take into account that there are two different resumptive elements in Swedish: *dÅ* and *sÅ*. When the data are sorted with respect to the two different resumptive elements, we find a different pattern. Most importantly, we see that there is a significant shift from Old to Modern Swedish: While *dÅ* resumption is by far the most common in Old Swedish, this role is completely taken over by *sÅ* after 1526. The shift is remarkable: While *dÅ* resumption accounts for 98.3% of all resumption in Late Old Swedish, it drops to 13.9% in Early Modern Swedish. The data are presented in Table 2.

Table 2: Resumption in the history of Swedish

	EOS		LOS		EMS		LMS	
<i>dÅ</i>	4,142	99.8%	1,118	98.3%	28	13.9%	37	6.6%
<i>sÅ</i>	7	0.2%	19	1.7%	174	86.1%	527	93.4%
Total	4,149	100.0%	1,137	100.0%	202	100.0%	564	100.0%

When we examine the data further, we see that there is a clear decrease of the use of resumption with *dÅ* from Early Old Swedish, while there is the opposite tendency with resumption with *sÅ* (Table 3).

In the following sections I will first give a description of the syntax of the structure (Section 5) before turning to its semantics (Section 6).

5 The syntax of the antecedent

In this section, we will examine the syntactic environment in which resumption takes place, in other words the *form* of the antecedent. I will show that the most common antecedent for a resumptive element is a fronted subordinate clause (CP), and that adverbs (AdvP) rarely function as antecedents.

Table 3: Resumption with DÅ and SÅ

	DÅ				SÅ			
	EOS	LOS	EMS	LMS	EOS	LOS	EMS	LMS
CP	4,070	1,051	28	37	7	19	171	510
PP	45	46					1	5
ADVP	4	1						9
QP	18	2						
DP	5	13					2	3
Total	4,142	1,118	28	37	7	19	174	527

5.1 Fronted CPs

Fronted adverbial clauses account for more than 96% of the cases in all periods. These can be both adverbial clauses (Section 5.1.1) or free relatives (Section 5.1.2).

5.1.1 Adverbial CPs

Fronted adverbial CPs can be both V1 conditionals (14a) and headed adverbial clauses (14b).

(14) Fronted adverbial clauses

- a. Værþær han goþær kunungær . þa lati guþ han længi liwæ.
 becomes he good king DÅ let God he long live
 ‘If he becomes a good king, God will grant him a long life.’
 (EOS, ULL, 1300–1399)
- b. Um nokor talar a konungen eller a konungx radh thet a
 if someone speaks on king.DEF or on king.GEN council that on
 thera hedher ganger, ok æro siex godhe men til witne, tha skal
 their honor goes and are six good men to witness, DÅ shall
 han i stadz gömo sætias ok hals huggen wardha.
 he in city watch put and neck chopped become
 ‘If somebody slanders the king or his council in the witness of six
 good men, then he should be imprisoned in the city and beheaded.’
 (EOS, MES, 1350–1450)

5.1.2 Free relatives

While the majority of the fronted clauses are adverbial, it is also possible to find fronted WH clauses that function as free relative clauses (15). These predominantly correspond to a thematic constituent in the clause (15a, 15b), but it is also possible to find fronted free relatives with an adverbial function (15c).

(15) Free relatives

- a. Ok hua þaghær houothtiunda gör först **tha** skall them wt
and who immediately main.tithe make first DÅ shall they out
göra.
make
'And whoever first immediately pays the tithe shall pay them.'
(EOS, YVGL, 1280–1399)
- b. Huilken therā ey wil ath thy litha, **tha** hauri wald ath wædia
who in-this NEG will on this comply DÅ have power to appeal
som saght ær
REL said is
'Who will not comply to this in this matter has the possibility to
appeal what has been said.'
(LOS, KL, 1442)
- c. Och hwar någhor wille göra them skadha, så gåår eelden
and where somebody wanted do them harm SÅ goes fire
vthaff theras munn
out.of their mouth
'And if any man would do them damage, fire comes out of their
mouth.'
(EMS, Vasa, Revelation 11:5, 1526)

This kind of fronted free thematic relative introduced by the relative HV word disappears at the turn of the 18th century. This is the consequence not only of changes in resumption but in the relative system. The HV-relative is replaced by a D-pronoun (*huilken* → *den*).

In Late Modern Swedish, there are still fronted CPs introduced by a HV-word, but these are adverbial clauses and not free relatives. Thus, clauses like the one in (16) have been counted as ordinary adverbial CPs.

- (16) Men ehuru det är, så finnas de.
but how it is SÅ exist they
'Nevertheless, they exist.'
(LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

5.2 Fronted PPs

DÅ resumption after PP antecedents increases from 1.1% in Early Old Swedish to 4.1% in Late Old Swedish. The difference is statistically significant ($\chi^2 : p = 0$).¹¹ In the following period, DÅ resumption with fronted PPs disappears from the corpus. There is one occurrence with SÅ in Early Modern Swedish, and a slight increase into Late Modern Swedish.

Fronted PPs may be bare PPs (17) or PPs that contain a relative clause (18).

(17) Bare PPs

- a. Millan þingariþi þa maghu æi husaby men þing suman kalla
between thing.times DÅ may not King's men thing together call
'Between the determined times of the thing, the King's men may not
call another thing.' (EOS, DL, 1318–1335)
- b. Oc om wintrin tha skal middax maltidhen wara mindre än
and about winter DÅ shall midday's meal be less than
wm quälin
about evening
'And in winter the meal at midday should be lesser than the evening
meal.' (LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)

5.3 Fronted AdvPs

There are very few examples of DÅ resumption with fronted AdvPs in the earliest periods. In Early Modern Swedish, there are no examples of the structure, but it resurfaces with SÅ in Late Modern Swedish.

- (18) a. Ok þær æptir þa fylli han fore domarænom meþ sinum eþe
and there after DÅ fill he before judges with his oath
hwat han horþe.
what he heard
'And thereafter, under oath, he will tell the judges what he heard.'
(EOS, BÖR 1300–1350)
- b. Å dermed så reste han öfwer hela Werlden.
and thereby SÅ travelled he over whole world
'And so he travelled all over the world.' (LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

¹¹Based on a two way table comparing 45/4142 and 46/1072, using <http://www.quantitativeskills.com/sisa/statistics/twoby2.htm>

5.4 Fronted QPs

In the Old Swedish language, it is possible to have a fronted quantifier phrase followed by *DÅ* resumption. In EOS, all the antecedents of this category contain a quantified DP followed by a relative clause.

The frequency of fronted quantifier phrases followed by the resumptive is 0.5% in Early Old Swedish, and it goes down to 0.2% in Late Old Swedish. This is statistically significant (Fisher Exact test: $p = 0.116134$).¹² Resumption after fronted QPs is not attested in the following centuries.¹³

- (19) Ok alt þæt sum þær bötis firi þa höre hænne halft til.
 and all that REL there pays for *DÅ* belongs her half to
 ‘And of everything that is paid for there, half of it belongs to her.’
 (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)

5.5 Fronted DPs

Fronted DPs with *DÅ* resumption is a marginal construction in Old Swedish. We find 5 such examples in Early Old Swedish, where 2 follow a bare DP, while 3 follow a DP that contains a relative clause (20). In Late Old Swedish, 8 of 19 contain a relative clause, while the majority are bare DPs (21).

- (20) DP + relative as antecedent
- Then tiidh stadzens swen biwdher nokrom til radzstuffw koma
 the time city’s man ask someone to council.house come
 vm skut, *tha* skall tweggia manna witne widher wara
 about taxes *DÅ* shall two men witness by be
 ‘At the time the city’s mayor asks someone to come to the council,
 two men should witness it.’ (EOS, MES, 1350–1450)
 - Galienus mestare sighir at kona the som ätir fröö aff merke i
 Galenius master says that wife DEF that eats seeds of celery in
 barnbyrdh *tha* faar thz barn bulda wtan ieff oc fulan saröka
 child.birth *DÅ* gets the child bules without even and bad wounds
 ‘Master Galenius says that if the woman eats celery seeds in
 childbirth, the child will get bules and bad wounds.’
 (LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)

¹²Based on 2/1116 and 18/4124; using <https://www.quantitativeskills.com/sisa/statistics/fisher.htm>

¹³It should, however, be noted that QP + resumptive is attested as late as in 20th century Swedish (Elmqvist 1945). In a later study, Nordström (2010) concludes that the acceptability rate for this is low in contemporary Swedish.

(21) Bare DP as antecedent

- a. Ok þæn kostin þa förin böndær a kirkiu bol mote hanum.
and that food DÅ bring peasants to church farm meet him
'And with respect to the food, the peasants should bring it to him at
the church's farm.'
(EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)
- b. Oc annat arit tha wardha the stor.
and second year DÅ becomes it big
'And the second year, it [= the juniper] gets big.'
(LOS, LB4, 1400–1500)
- c. Oc then tidh wätzskan brynder tha ludhir blodit samman.
and that time liquid burns DÅ sticks blood together
'And during the time that the liquid is burning, the blood will
coagulate.'
(LOS, LB5&6, 1400–1500)

6 The semantics of the antecedent

Having examined the syntax of the antecedent, it is time to turn to its semantics.

6.1 Fronted CP

As we saw in Section 5.1, there are two different types of CP antecedent: adverbial and thematic. In the following, we will first look at the adverbial CPs (Section 6.1.1), then at the free relatives (Section 6.1.2).

6.1.1 Adverbial CPs

In Old Swedish, a fronted adverbial CP followed by the resumptive DÅ is predominantly conditional (22). The second most common environment is when DÅ follows a temporal antecedent (23).

- (22) [...] will man giua sinu frillu barne nakuat. þa a han fara
will man give his concubine children something DÅ always
til lionga þingxs ælla firi kunung.
he go to Linköping thing or for king
'[...] if a man wants to give something to his illegitimate children, then he
must go to the thing at Linköping or to the king.' (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)

Table 4: Resumption after fronted adverbial CPs

(a) DÅ									
	EOS		LOS		EMS		LMS		
condition	3838	96.4%	930	88.5%	15	53.6%	19	51.4%	
time	125	3.1%	115	10.9%	13	46.4%	17	45.9%	
concession	4	0.1%	5	0.5%					
comparison	3	0.1%							
exception	2	0.1%							
cause	6	0.2%	1	0.1%			1	2.7%	
consequence									
locative	1	0.1%							
intention	2	0.2%							
Total	3981	100.2%	1051	100.0%	28	100.0%	37	100.0%	

(b) SÅ									
	EOS		LOS		EMS		LMS		
condition	4	57.1%	9	47.4%	119	69.6%	327	64.3%	
comparison	3	42.9%	8	42.1%	20	11.7%	25	4.9%	
time			2	10.5%	26	15.2%	107	21.0%	
concession					5	2.9%	35	6.9%	
intention							1	0.2%	
cause							14	2.7%	
locative					1	0.6%			
Total	7	100.0%	19	100.0%	171	100.0%	510	100.0%	

- (23) Tha biskopir wil næmpd seea. **tha** skal han manadha budh
 when bishop will council sit DÅ shall he months announcement
 fore sik faa.
 for REFL get
 ‘When the bishop wants to see the council, he shall send out a message
 one month in advance.’ (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)

We can, however, observe a clear shift as the language evolves into the modern period. We have already seen that the amount of DÅ resumption decreases.

At the same time, the semantic environment of *DÅ* resumption changes. While *DÅ* resumption could occur after all kinds of antecedents in the earliest sources, in LOS, it almost exclusively occurs after an antecedent expressing condition or time. In both periods of Modern Swedish, there is almost an equal split between conditional (24) and temporal (25) antecedents when *DÅ* is the resumptive. The semantics of the subordinate temporal clause is often very close to that of a conditional clause, as is clear from the example in (25b). The adverbial clause is almost always introduced by *när* in the sense ‘when’ or ‘if’.

(24) Conditional CP

Ah, sade hon, är det ingen annan, *då* kan jag berätta hwad som uti
 ah said she is there no other *DÅ* can I tell what that outof
 mig har hendt.
 me has happened
 ‘Ah, she said, if there is nobody else, I can tell you what has happened to
 me.’ (LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

(25) Temporal CP

- a. Men när Herodes war dödh, sij, tå vppenbaradhes Herrans Ängel
 but when Herodes was dead see *DÅ* appeared Lord’s angel
 Joseph j sömpnen j Egyptj land
 Jospeh in sleep in Egypt land
 ‘But when Herod was dead, an angel of the Lord came in a dream to
 Joseph in Egypt.’ (EMS, Vasa, 1526)¹⁴
- b. När twänne redelige Män komma i Krig med hwarandra, *då* är
 when two honorable men come in war with each other *DÅ* is
 det en swår feigd at se uppå.
 it a difficult feud to look upon
 ‘When two honorable men go to war against each other, it is a
 difficult feud to watch.’ (LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

Further, we see that there is a restriction in the possible semantics of the antecedent with *DÅ* resumption. In Early Old Swedish, we find scattered examples of *DÅ* resumption with antecedents other than temporal and conditional ones. These are arguably few, but they cannot be discarded. (26) is an example of a fronted causal clause, while (27) is a fronted comparative clause.

¹⁴Matt 2:19, translation from <https://www.o-bible.com/cgibin/ob.cgi?version=bbe&book=mat&chapter=2>

- (26) Thy at forne lagha rætte seen uipninga uærþe. **tha** comber
 because that former laws court later confirmed become DÅ come
 stundum sua til at umskiptis thæn lagha staþge sum
 occasionally so to that change that law determined REL
 skipaþer ær til at ræta kranca manna siþi.
 proclaimed is sent to that rectify weakness man's side
 'Because a former law later becomes confirmed, sometimes it is so that
 the laws that have been established are changed so that they take the side
 of the weaker man.'
 (EOS, Con-SL, 1330–1400)
- (27) sua manga arftaka sum han hauær þa ma han giua slikan lut sum
 so many heirs that he has DÅ must he give such dowry that
 en þerra takær
 one theirs take
 'He should give as many appropriate dowries as he has heirs.'
 (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)

When it comes to SÅ resumption, this is strongly restricted in the earliest sources and is only found after conditional (28) and comparative antecedents (29).

- (28) Hugger maþer oc vp scogh tiældræ mællum böte oc swa. **swa** scal
 chops man also up forest mark between pay and so SÅ shall
 bötæ baþe firi aldin viþu oc vndir viþu sum sakt ær.
 pay both for nuts by and under width as said is
 'If a man cuts down [trees in] a [common] forest between the marks and
 then pays for it, he should pay for the nuts that lay on the ground where
 he has cut down trees as well.'
 (EOS, YVGL, 1280–1399)
- (29) Swa sum han war mykin for sic till alþræ raþhæ. **swa** war oc han
 so REL he was much for REFL to all things SÅ was also he
 goþþær drængær till swærþh
 good boy to sword
 'Just like he was a talented squire in all things, he was also talented with
 the sword.'
 (EOS, Vid-an, 1280–1399)

6.1.2 Fronted free relatives

Fronted free relatives followed by a resumptive that corresponds to a thematic constituent are not found in the modern language. In the examples below in (30)

the relative clauses correspond to the subject of the main clause. In (30a) there is a null subject, but in (30b) and (30c) the subject *han* ‘he’ is expressed and post-verbal. These clauses are interesting as it would seem that the fronted clause is picked up twice, first by the resumptive and then by the anaphor. An analysis of this construction needs to account for this apparent contradiction, which I will get back to in Section 8.

It should be noted that these are not instances of topic left dislocation, as this construction in Germanic requires that the left dislocated element be immediately followed by its pronominal anaphor.

The fronted free relative clauses often come with a nuance of concession: ‘whoever would do this’. In the corpus from Early Old Swedish, 61 of 86 fronted free relatives are of this kind.

(30) Fronted thematic clauses

- a. Ok hua þaghær houothtiunda gör först **tha** skall them wt
and who immediately main.tithe make first **DÅ** shall they out
göra.
make
‘And whoever first immediately pays the tithe shall pay them’
(EOS, YVGL, 1280–1399)
- b. Æ hwar þen dræper han ærwæ skulli. **þa** wari han skilder
and who then kills he inherita should **DÅ** become he separated
wiþ arf.
with inheritance
‘And whoever kills the man he was supposed to inherit from will not
get the inheritance.’
(EOS, SöL, 1330–1400)
- c. Hwar som äther mykyt aff henne, **thaa** faar han quinna lwstha.
who REL eat much of her **DÅ** get he women urges
‘Whoever eats much of it [parsnip] will get a woman’s urges.’
(LOS, LB7, 1500–1600)

A free relative may also have an adverbial meaning. As these free relative clauses are introduced by *hvar* ‘where’), they often depart from a locative reading. However, some of these clauses take on different adverbial interpretations. Thus, (31a and 31b) places the action in an abstract time–space location, while the sense of (31c) approaches that of a fronted conditional clause.

(31) Fronted adverbials

- a. *Æ hwar man skiptir iorþ. þa wæri þæt byrþ hans.*
always where man shifts earth *ÞÁ* becomes that birthright his
‘Anytime a man exchanges soil, then that soil becomes his and can be inherited.’
(EOS, ULL, 1300–1399)
- b. *E hwar bondæ faar ay ræt . þa kiæræ sik fore*
always where paysant gets not right *ÞÁ* complain *RFL* before
konungæ sinom.
king his
‘And when a peasant does not get his way, then he appeals before his king.’
(EOS, HåL, 1350–1400)
- c. *Hwar sum mæn hittæs satte i garþe oc skiliæs osatter*
where that men find agreement in farms and separates enemies
æn þo at gierninger comin þeræ mællum. þa ær ei
before that that actions come him between *ÞÁ* is not
ezore.
oath.breach
‘Where men meet as friends and become enemies without anything having happened between them, the King’s oath has not been broken.’
(EOS, SöL, 1330–1400)

6.1.3 Summing up

We have seen *ÞÁ* is by far the most common type of resumptive following fronted CPs in Old Swedish (pre 1526). Come Modern Swedish, the situation is turned upside down, and *SÅ* is the most common resumptive.

In Early Old Swedish, *ÞÁ* accepts a wider range of semantics in its antecedent than its modern descendant *ÞÁ*. *THA* has in other words undergone semantic retraction implying a shift from a generalized resumptive in Old Swedish to a specialized resumptive in Modern Swedish.

SÅ is hardly attested as a resumptive in the oldest sources, and it is limited to antecedents expressing condition or comparison. We see that the semantic scope of the antecedent of *SÅ* expands gradually. This way, *SÅ* becomes a generalized resumptive.

With respect to the semantic type of the CP antecedent, fronted conditional clauses are dominant, followed by temporal clauses. The elevated number of fronted conditionals in Early Old Swedish can be explained by the fact that these are legal documents. Therefore, one might be tempted to ask if the distribution

reflects the selection of texts rather than the language itself. While the corpus from Early Old Swedish consists of laws, there are no laws among the examined texts from Modern Swedish. In the case of Late Modern Swedish, the only accessible legal text is *Kristoffers landslag*. In order to check the status of *∅Å* and *sÅ* resumption, I therefore examined the oldest law accessible through Lagen.nu, namely the *Ridderskapets och adelns privilegier* from 1723. This text provides 18 examples of resumptive structures, all following a fronted clause. 15 of these have *sÅ* as their resumptive, while 3 have *∅Å*. 2 of the 3 examples of *∅Å* follow a conditional subordinate clause, while the last follows a free relative introduced by *hwar*. The subordinate clauses preceding *sÅ* have different semantics: temporal, locative, conditional, and more. As we will see, the pattern we find in this law is quite similar to the one we find in other texts from the same period. Therefore, I take the tendencies expressed in Table 3 to be representative for the evolution of the resumptive structure in Swedish.

The strong link between time and condition is not surprising as the condition is temporal in nature in that it will always precede the consequence (32). (See Bergqvist 1884: 10 for a similar observation.)

$$(32) \quad [\alpha \Rightarrow \beta] \rightarrow [\alpha \prec_t \beta]$$

The fact that *∅Å* is linked to temporal contexts is embedded in its etymology: when not used as a resumptive, *∅Å* is a temporal conjunction and an adverbial.

6.2 Fronted PPs

We have already seen in Section 5.2 that resumption after a PP is much more common in Old Swedish than in Modern Swedish. Further, it is more frequent in Late Old Swedish than in Early Old Swedish (1.1% vs. 2.4%).

Again, we can observe the shift from *∅Å* resumption to *sÅ* resumption: There are no instances of *sÅ* resumption with PP antecedents in Old Swedish, while there are no such examples with *∅Å* in the modern language. Further, we see that resumption after PPs is a marginal phenomenon in all periods.

In the table, I have grouped a rather heterogeneous group under the label ‘instrument’. These are constituents with no specific semantic content, but that either express the instrument that affects the action in the clause (33) or that introduces an element of the clause that follows (34). I have used a similar broad definition for the group ‘place’ and included abstract locations such as *i siukdom* ‘in sickness’ and similar.

Table 5: Resumption after fronted PPs

(a) DÅ					(b) SÅ			
		EOS		LOS		EMS		LMS
time	7	15.6%	23	50.0%	time			
place	5	11.1%	10	21.7%	place	1		
instrument	33	73.3%	7	15.2%	instrument			5
cause			2	4.3%	Total	1		5
other			4	8.8%				
Total	45	100.0%	46	100.0%				

- (33) Ok aff sinne makt **tha** driffuir hon bort the kaallosot som kallas febris
and of her power DÅ drive she away the illness that called febris
acuta.
acuta

‘And by the means of her powers, she drives away the illness that is
called *febris acuta*.’ (LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)

- (34) Jag finner, min Läsare, at för en stackars Dräng, så talade Jerker intet
I find my reader that for a poor boy SÅ spoke Jerker not
så galit.
so badly

‘Well, my reader, I think that for a poor boy, Jerker did not speak so badly.’
(LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

Note that in the example in (34), the PP is in initial position in a subordinate clause embedded under *finner* ‘finds’.

We may argue that in clauses like (33), the instrument is a prerequisite of the action described in the main clause, and that a temporal reading is inherent, thus justifying the use of DÅ. This is more difficult to sustain in the case of (34).

Even though resumption with DÅ often follows instrumental antecedents in Early Old Swedish, DÅ also often follows a PP antecedent that is [+TEMPORAL] (35).

- (35) Millan þingariþi þa maghu æi husaby men þing suman kalla.
between thing.times DÅ may not King’s men thing together call
‘Between the determined times of the thing, the King’s men may not call
another thing.’ (EOS, DL, 1318–1335)

In Late Old Swedish, the relative number of temporal contexts increases dramatically, and almost half of the resumptives after PPs follow a temporal antecedent.

- (36) Än äpter maltidh **tha** skolin j saktelika ganga, oc swa hwilas.
 and after meal **THA** shall you slowly walk and then rest
 ‘And after a meal, you should walk slowly and rest.’ (LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)

In my corpus from Modern Swedish, there are no instances of resumption after temporal PPs. In Late Modern Swedish, the structure is exclusively attested with instrumental PPs.

The data presented here point towards a process of specialization, similar to the one we have already seen with CP antecedents. Resumption with **DÅ** starts out as fairly generally accessible, but already in Late Old Swedish, there is a stronger tendency to use **DÅ** with temporal antecedents. There is in other words a tendency towards a semantic restriction with respect to the antecedent.

6.3 Fronted AdvP

Resumption after a fronted AdvP remains fairly marginal throughout the first centuries of Swedish. Also, there are some examples in Old Swedish, but none in Vasa’s Bible translation. However, the structure resurfaces at the beginning of the 18th century, but with **SÅ** as its resumptive.

Table 6: Resumption with ADVP antecedents

(a) DÅ			(b) SÅ	
	EOS	LOS		LMS
time	2		time	2
place	2		condition	2
comparison		1	comparison	1
Total	4	1	aboutness	1
			sentence adverbial	3
			Total	9

There are no apparent semantic restrictions with respect to the fronted AdvP antecedent. We find relatively more resumption in this context in Late Modern Swedish than in the old language. The antecedent in (37) expresses time, while the one in (38) is a comparison.

- (37) ok þær æptir þa fylli han fore domarænom meþ sinum eþe hwat
and there after ÐÅ fill he before judges with his oath what
han horþe .
he heard
'And then he tells the judges under oath what he heard.'
(EOS, BÖR, 1300–1350)
- (38) thes mera han drikkir thes mera tha wanskas han
the more he drinks the more ÐÅ troubles he
'the more he drinks, the more troubles he has.'
(LOS, LB3 1400–1500)

Interestingly, we find resumption with sentence adverbials and nynegocentric adverbials as early as the 18th century.

- (39) Åtminstone så indraga hans Segel, at han intet seglar fram för oss
at least så withdraw his sail that he NEG sail forth for us
'At least take his sail from him so that he will not sail in front of us.'
(LMS, Argus 1732–1734)
- (40) Nu så skall jag be ehr min lilla wackra Argus, at ...
now så shall I ask you my little beautiful Argus that
'And now, my little, beautiful Argus, I will ask you that ...'
(LMS, Argus 1732–1734)

6.4 Fronted QPs

The fronted QPs followed by a resumptive element may in most cases be translated by 'with respect to', as in (41) and (42). As such, they may be described as some sort of hanging topic.

- (41) Alla aflinga iorþ sum ei ær af byrþ köpt. þa hawi þen
all crops earth that not are of birthright bought ÐÅ has the.one
wald sum aflat hawer. giwa oc giællæ oc sæliæ hwem han will.
power as grown has give and pawn and sell whom he will
'With respect to all crops of land that has not been inherited, the one who
grows the crops has the right to give and pawn and sell to whoever he
wants.'
(EOS, SöL, 1330–1400)

- (42) Ok alt þæt konan uærkar þa skal hænnu gipta man suara firi
 and all that woman do DÅ shall her married man answer for
 hana.
 her
 ‘And with respect to everything a married woman does, her husband will
 answer to it.’ (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)

One of the clauses in the corpus from Early Old Swedish functions as a temporal adverbial, but again the closest translation is ‘with respect to’ (43).

- (43) Alla dagha som marknadha skulu haldas i thæssom fornempdom
 all days that marked shall hold in these aforementioned
 köpstadhum, som i wæstraros, vpsalum eller hwilkum stadh thet ær,
 market.towns as in Westerås, Uppsala or what city it is
 tha skal ængin man nokot köp göra vm sunnodagh
 DÅ shall no man anything purchase make on Sunday
 ‘With respect to all the days there is a market in the aforementioned
 market towns like Westerås, Uppsala or whatever city it might be, no
 man should buy anything on a Sunday.’ (EOS, MES, 1350–1450)

In Late Old Swedish, there are only two examples of a QP followed by a resumptive. These are both locative.

- (44) Alla stadi man find hitter, tha scal han sik wrtiufua göra först
 all places man finding find DÅ shall he REFL un.thief make first
 meth lysninga witnom.
 with calling witnesses
 ‘Every place a man finds something, he should make himself its rightful
 owner first by calling it in the presence of witnesses.’ (LOS, KL, 1442)

6.5 Fronted DPs

We have seen that the number of bare DPs functioning as the antecedent of DÅ increases in Late Old Swedish. The fronted DPs are either thematic or expressions of time. The two examples with DP + resumption in Late Modern Swedish are both topical.

Table 7: Resumption with DP antecedents

(a) <i>dÅ</i>			(b) <i>sÅ</i>		
	EOS	LOS		EMS	LMS
thematic	2	6	thematic		2
time	3	13	time		
Total	5	19	Total		2

(45) Thematic elements

- a. Nu köpmalum þa koma i manga sældir.
 now transactions *dÅ* come in many sales
 ‘There may be many sales in the transactions.’ (EOS, ÖGL, 1300–1399)
- b. Jtem then som wardir freneticus thz är galyn oc spyr aff
 ITEM the.one who becomes frenetic that is crazy and vomits of
 offmiklom hoffwdwerk tha skal han taka synap oc honag oc
 big headache *dÅ* shall he take mustard and honey and
 thz gula aff äggit oc fröt aff grabo som hetir artimeisa
 the yellow of egg and grain of mugwort that called artimeisa
 ‘As for the one who gets frenetic, that means crazy, and vomits from
 big headaches, he shall take mustard and honey and egg yolks and
 the seeds of mugwort that is called artimeisa.’ (LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)
- c. Det endaste den Wåpan duger til, så är det til Frökens Hemligheter,
 the only that weapon uses to *sÅ* is it to missy’s secrets
 efter hon tror den Wåpan så wäl.
 after she thinks the weapon such well
 ‘The only thing that weapon is good for is for the missy’s secrets,
 given that she has such a faith in that weapon.’
 (LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

It should be noted that in (45b), the fronted DP is resumed both by the *dÅ* resumptive and the personal anaphor *han* ‘he’. This double resumptive strategy is very different from what we have seen with respect to fronted adverbial elements. However, it strongly resembles the cases we saw with fronted free relatives in Section 6.1.2.

Already in Early Old Swedish, there is a tendency that the fronted DP adjunct expresses time. This is even more so in Late Old Swedish, where 13 of 19 clauses are [+ TEMPORAL] (46). However, this structure is not attested in Modern Swedish.

(46) DP expressing time

- a. Then tydh aarsens borghamestara ok radhmen skulu wælias, **tha**
the time year mayor and councilors should elected DÅ
skulu ok alle embetzmén wælias.
should also all civil.servants elect
‘At the time of the year that the mayor and the councilors are elected,
also the civil servants should be elected.’ (EOS, MSL, 1350–1450)
- b. Then siette manadh i arit **tha** skal man drycka kella watn fore
the sixth month in year DÅ shall one drink well water for
lwngom.
lungs
‘In the sixth month of the year, one shall drink water from the well
for [the benefit of] the lungs.’ (LOS, LB10, 1400–1500)

6.6 Summing up

We have seen that DÅ is the dominating resumptive element in Old Swedish but that it is more or less replaced by SÅ in Modern Swedish. Further, we have seen that resumption after DÅ becomes specialized after CP and PP antecedents denoting time, while resumption after SÅ is generalized.

7 The clines

In Section 1.1, we discussed Meklenborg’s clines, and we suggested that the adverbial cline be divided into a syntactic and a semantic cline. The clines are repeated in (47).

(47) The clines

- a. THEMATIC CLINE: $DP_{REL} > DP_0$
- b. SYNTACTIC CLINE: $CP > PP > AdvP$
- c. SEMANTIC CLINE: specific semantics > general semantics > complete semantic bleaching (= nynegocentric use)

7.1 The thematic cline

The implication of the thematic cline is that resumption first occurs with fronted DPs that contain a relative clause before it extends to bare adjunct DPs that correspond to a thematic element in the clause. While our data show a relatively elevated number of fronted free relative clauses resumed by a resumptive, we do not find bare fronted thematic DPs with the resumptive element.

However, we see that the number of bare DPs followed by the resumptive increases from Early to Late Old Swedish. However, these are all adverbial in nature and express time.

If we examine the semantics of all free relative clauses (CP-rel), DPs followed by a relative clause (DP+CP) and bare DPs, we get the distribution in Table 8.

Table 8: Thematic and adverbial antecedents

	CP-rel		DP+CP		DP	
	thematic	adverbial	thematic	adverbial	thematic	adverbial
dÅ						
EOS	61	28		3	2	
LOS	11	1	2	5	1	10
sÅ						
EMS	2	6				
LMS	1	20				3

We see in Table 8 that the very few DPs modified by a relative clause are adverbial in Early Old Swedish, while they may also be thematic in Late Old Swedish. However, the numbers are so small we may not draw any conclusions. With respect to bare DPs as antecedents, these are typically adverbial in Late Old Swedish.

When it comes to sÅ resumption, we see that there is an increase of thematic free relatives followed by a resumptive in Late Modern Swedish. These are, however, almost exclusively adverbial in nature. There is only one example where the antecedent may be interpreted as corresponding to a thematic argument (48). The interpretation is not uncontroversial – it might be argued that this is in fact a concessive adverbial clause introduced by *hwad*.

- (48) Men hwad han icke hade i desse, så hade han i en del, som
but what he not had in these så had he in a part that
effterföljde
followed

A: 'But that which he did not have in those [= compassion], he had in the
following group' [THEMATIC]

B: 'But regardless of what he did not have in those, ...' [ADVERBIAL]
(LMS, Argus, 1732–1734)

We thus see that resumption after a constituent corresponding to a thematic element is a feature of the old language and restricted to *DÅ* resumption. In the modern language, where *DÅ* resumption is limited to [+TEMPORAL] antecedents, resumption after fronted thematic elements is ruled out.

These observations lead us to reject Meklenborg's claim that there is a thematic cline in the case of Swedish. However, the lack of a clear-cut cline might be the consequence of the semantic strengthening of *DÅ*. In Late Old Swedish, this is particularly clear after bare DP antecedents, where all but one are temporal adverbials. It would seem, again, that the impact of semantics overrule the possibility of having a syntactic cline.

7.2 The syntactic cline

Meklenborg's cline is an implicational hierarchy, and it suggests that there is a unidirectional development, where the domain of the resumptive gets expanded. While structures with fronted CPs are most common at first, the structure extends to PPs, then to AdvPs. This, is not, however, what we find in the data presented thus far. While resumption after fronted CPs is predominant in all periods, resumption after fronted PPs increases from Early Old Swedish into Late Old Swedish, but then it drops, and by the time of Late Modern Swedish, the frequency of resumption in these contexts is lower than in the earliest period.

When it comes to resumption after PPs, there is a syntactic expansion from Early Old Swedish to Late Old Swedish with respect to the resumptive *DÅ*. However, this expansion stops abruptly, and resumption after PPs with *DÅ* disappears. It is resumed by *SÅ* in Early Modern Swedish, and then it becomes more common in Late Modern Swedish.

The number of resumptive structures with a fronted AdvP in Old Swedish is, however, so small that it is not possible to draw any conclusions. We observe the same tendency as with resumption with PPs: resumption with *DÅ* disappears completely with the ascent of Modern Swedish. It is not until Late Modern Swedish that we again find resumption with AdvPs, but then with the resumptive *SÅ*.

7.3 The semantic cline

As we have seen, *DÅ* undergoes semantic strengthening from Early Old Swedish to Late Old Swedish. Both in the case of fronted CPs and fronted PPs, we see that the amount of [+TEMPORAL] antecedents increases.

In the case of *SÅ* resumption, the picture is the opposite. Resumption with *så* starts out after fronted CPs expressing condition or comparison and gradually takes on more contexts. We find the following evolution (49).

- (49) condition/comparison > time > concession > cause

The examples following PPs are so few it is impossible to draw a conclusion, and in the case of adverbial antecedents, they do not appear until Late Modern Swedish, and then it is possible to find all kinds, both specific, general and *nyne-gocentric* ones.

A brief sideglance to Ekblad's letters does, however, point to a certain development. Resumption occurs after fronted PPs and AdvPs in these texts, and the antecedents typically express some sort of aboutness topic 'with respect to'. There are no instances of sentence adverbials or *nyne-gocentric* antecedents in these letters.

- (50) Anbelangandes iagten min kiäre bror haar warit i hosz hårdén med
with.respect.to hunt my dear brother has been in by hoard with
de små hundarna så haar iagh här sett en Copie aff en sådan iagdt.
the small dogs så have I here seen a copy of a such hunt
'With respect to the hunt my dear brother has taken part in, with the
hoard with the small dogs, I have seen a copy of such a hunt here.'
(EMS, Ekblad 06. Oct. 1652)

We may therefore conclude that Meklenborg's cline holds in that there is a clear semantic development in the CP antecedent. With respect to adverbial antecedents, it is necessary to conduct a thorough analysis of the Early Modern Swedish period in order to get a more precise picture.

8 Structural changes

In his quite remarkable thesis, Bergqvist observes some of the changes we have discussed so far (Bergqvist 1884). He suggests that the starting point for the fronted conditional subordinate clause was parataxis. When hypotaxis evolved, it happened by means of *DÅ* inserted in the initial position of the main clause.

He identifies four stages in the evolution towards the modern system. In the first stage, the main clause has the form of an ordinary clause, typically S–V. In the second stage, the main clause is introduced by *DÅ* with subject inversion. In the third stage, both the embedded and the main clause are introduced by *THA*, and in the final stage only the embedded clause retains *DÅ* (Bergqvist 1884: 24). This aligns neatly with what we have seen so far.

Kiparsky (1995) has made a similar observation for subordinate clauses in Proto-Indo-European. He suggests these were *adjoined*, not *syntactically* embedded. Syntactic embedding only evolved later in the daughter languages. Kiparsky proposes a model where there are two positions to the left of *COMP*, namely a focus and a topic position. Movement into the focus position would generate V2 word order, while elements in the topic position would give V3. He suggests that in the old languages, the adjoined, fronted adverbial clauses occupied the initial slot. The model is presented in Figure 1.

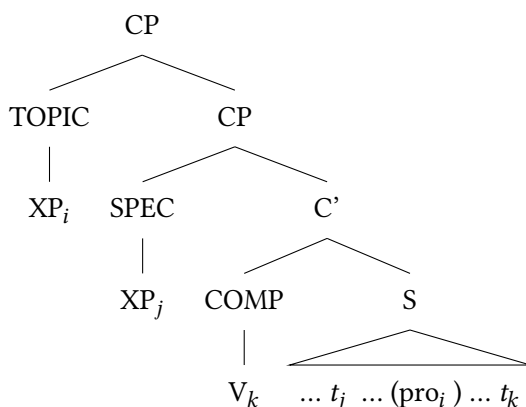


Figure 1: Kiparsky's model

The implication of Kiparsky's analysis is that the fronted CP is a topic that cannot count as the initial element in a V2 clause. In this case, some other element must occupy the first slot. This approach readily explains why *DÅ* comes to become a resumptive element. Originally a [+ TEMPORAL] adverb, it is versatile and lends itself naturally to this placeholder function in the sentence. We use the clause in (14a), repeated as (51) to exemplify the structure. The formal structure is presented in Figure 2.

(51) Værþær han goþær kunungær. þa lati guþ han længi liwæ

(52) [_{CP} Værþær han goþær kunungær]. [_{V2} þa lati guþ han længi liwæ]

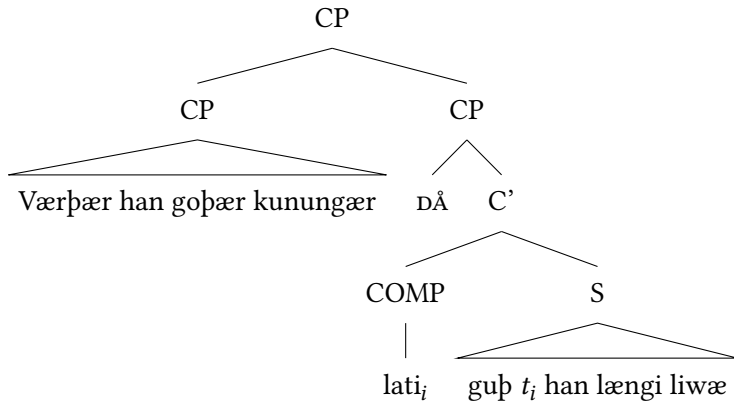


Figure 2: Kiparsky's model exemplified

If Kiparsky's model does indeed extend to Old Swedish, we may make two predictions: (1) that any XP may follow the initial CP: the resumptive, the subject or any other XP, generating an ordinary V2 structure; and (2) that there are very few, if any, occurrences of V1 clauses following the initial CP. In other words, the CP may not count for V2 and as such it occurs outside the clausal core. These predictions are only partially borne out.

We do find examples where the subject intervenes between a fronted CP and the finite verb, such as in (53). This corresponds to what Bergqvist describes as the initial phase of the development in Swedish (Bergqvist 1884: 11–12). These constitute clear indications that in the earliest sources, the CP may still occupy a left peripheral position.¹⁵ The structure is paratactic in the sense that it semantically speaking is a subordinate clause, but it is not fully integrated into the clause.

- (53) Taker man annæn oc leþir til stok. hogger af hænder eller föter. þet
 take man other and lead to trunk chop off hands or feet that
 ær kununx ezöre.
 is king's oath.swearing
 'If a man takes another and leads him to a tree trunk and chops off his
 hands or feet, then it is a breach of the King's peace.'
 (EOS, SöL, 1330–1400)

¹⁵Interestingly, this structure is not attested in Old Norse (Swan 1994), pointing to a certain divergence between Old Norse and Old Swedish.

- a. [_{CP} Taker man annæn oc leþir til stok. hogger af hænder eller föter]
[_{V2} þet ær kununx ezöre]

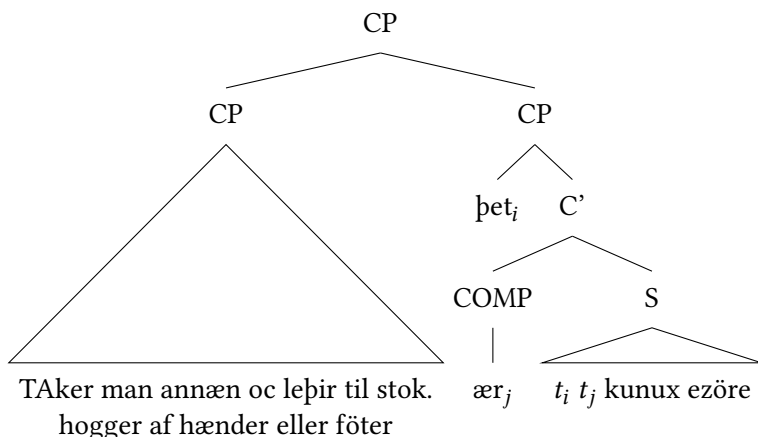


Figure 3: Fronted CP preceding a S-V structure

This way, we may claim that the first prediction is borne out. As for the other one, it is less clear. It is fairly common to find structures where the fronted CP is followed by the finite verb, as in example (54). If the CP is not subordinated and integrated into the central clause (54a), it is necessary to assume that the main clause has a V1 structure.

- (54) Dræpæ flere mæn en man vm suknudagh böten alle .III. marker
kill more men one man on week.day pay all three marks
biscupi.
bishop
'If several men kill one man during the week, all must pay three marks to
the bishop.'
(EOS, SöL, 1330–1400)
- a. [_{V2} [_{XP} Dræpæ flere mæn en man (...)] [_V böten [_S alle [.III. marker]]]

Corpus searches for fronted adverbials or PPs followed by the subject have not generated any tokens. I take this as an indication that these are integrated into the clause. This way, we may assume that in Early Old Swedish, fronted CPs may be clause-external and clause-internal, while fronted PPs or ADVPs are clause-internal only.

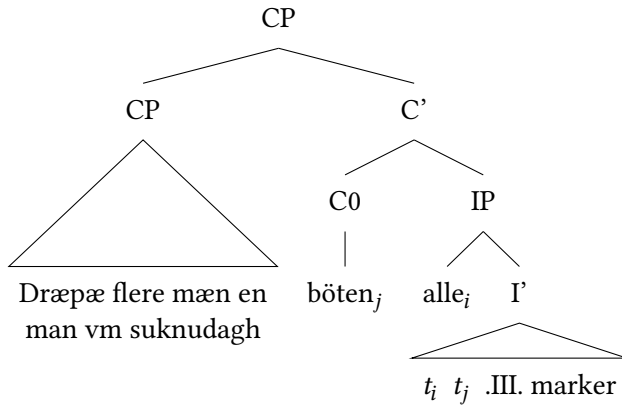


Figure 4: Integrated fronted CP

8.1 Resumption in a cartographic model

Transposing Kiparsky's observations to the framework developed by Benincà & Poletto (2004) (see Section 3.2), we would say that the fronted CP would occupy either a Hanging Topic or a Scene Setting position, located to the left of the projection associated with V2.

In Figure 5, I suggest that the locus for V2 is FinP. Recent literature suggests that V2 may take place either in FinP or in ForceP (see among others Walkden 2014, Wolfe 2019 and subsequent literature). For our purpose, the exact projection is immaterial. Thus, we may simplify the model above into the following. We lump Hanging Topics and Scene Setters together under the label *Frame*, and we eliminate the topic and focus projections under the assumption that V2 takes place in the specifier of the V2 projection, which serves as a bottleneck (Haegeman 1996) and that further movement into Topic (and possibly Focus) is strongly limited (see Grohmann 2000 and subsequent work for more details).

Interestingly, there are examples where a topicalized DP precedes the fronted adverbial clause. I will assume that these occupy a Hanging Topic projection.

(55) Hanging topics

- a. Kirwil warder han stampad mz olie **tha** duger han för kranedom.
 chervil becomes he crushed with oil **DA** works he for illness
 'As for chervil, if it is ground with oil, it cures illness.'
 [_{XP1} kirwil] [_{XP2} warder han stampad mz olie] [_{RES} tha][_{VFIN} duger ...]
 (LOS, LB8, 1500–1600)

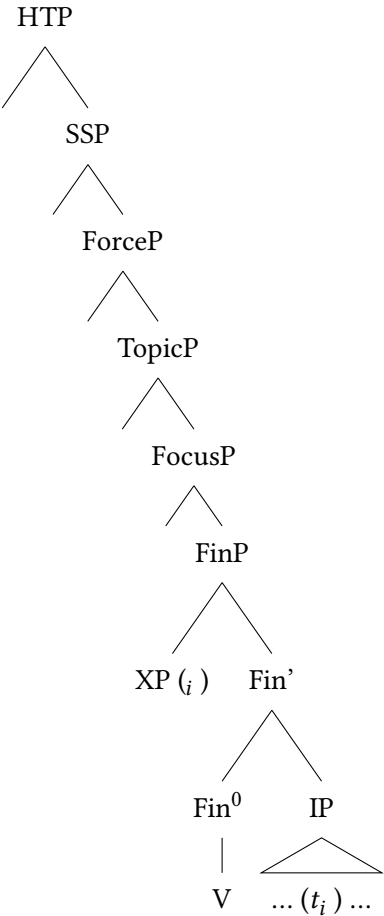


Figure 5: The cartographic model

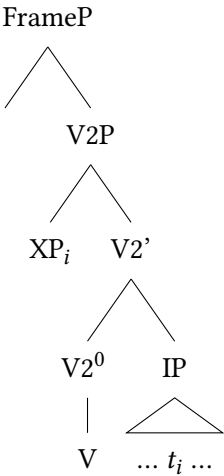


Figure 6: A simplified model

- b. Men then som twiffuelachtigh är, äter han, så är han fördömd.
 but the.one that doubtful is eats he SÅ is he doomed
 ‘But whoever has doubts is condemned if he eats.’
 [_{XP1} then som twiffuelachtigh är] [_{XP2} äter han] [_{RES} så][_{VFIN} är...]
 (EMS, Bible, Rom 14:23, 1526)¹⁶

This analysis also accounts for the fronted free relatives that we saw in Sections 6.1.2 and 6.5, where the fronted thematic constituent is both resumed by *DÅ* and by the pronominal anaphor. The example in (30c), repeated as (56), is an example of this.

- (56) Hwar som äther mykyt aff henne, **thaa** faar han quinna lwstha.
 who REL eat much of her DÅ get he women urges
 ‘Whoever eats much of it [parsnip] will get a woman’s urges.’
 (LOS, LB7, 1500–1600)

The structure is easily accounted for within the model. The fronted free relative is a Hanging Topic, located in SpecFrameP. It is co-referential with the pronominal anaphor *han* ‘he’, which is in SpecTP. *DÅ* occupies the initial position of the V2 phrase, and the finite verb *faar* ‘gets’ has moved into V2⁰.

The data strongly indicates that what we have called a resumptive so far is not what is understood by a resumptive in the modern languages. Rather than picking up the initial element of a V2 clause, the *DÅ* resumptive in the oldest stages is an independent element that in itself satisfies the V2 constraint by occupying SpecV2P. As such, *DÅ* is clearly a phrase. At this stage, the function of *DÅ* resembles that of an expletive. The analysis is presented in Figure 7.

We find clauses well into Late Old Swedish that have this structure, and we take this as evidence that the fronted subordinated clause could still be syntactically independent, e.g. that parataxis was still available. However, as we shall see in the next section, the integration of the initial clause leads to a reanalysis of the resumptive.

A natural question is why this happens. *DÅ* is not a general expletive, and it is an open question why the subject does not simply move to meet the V2 requirement. What in the derivation causes the subject to stop in SpecIP rather than moving to SpecV2P? If *DÅ* were a true expletive, we would expect it to be merged in SpecV2P as a last-resort operation – which might be the case if there were no accessible subject or any other constituent that could move. As this is

¹⁶Translation based on the new international version of the Bible, accessed through <https://biblehub.com/parallel/romans/14-23.htm>

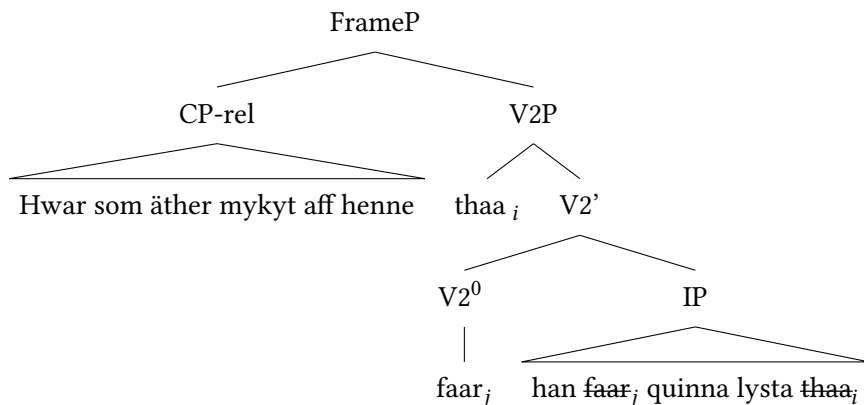


Figure 7: Fronted free relative clause + DÅ + pronominal anaphor

clearly not the case here, it is difficult to argue that DÅ is a full-blown expletive. Rather, I would suggest that at this stage, DÅ is moved into the initial position of the clause, checking the relevant feature on the V2⁰ head.

8.2 Integration leading to syntactic retraction

Both Hanging Topics and Scene Setters are merged in the high left peripheral position, and they are not accessible to the lower part of the clause, as we have seen. This explains why DÅ assumes the role of a generalized resumptive in Early Old Swedish: it moves into initial position of the V2 clause and is only loosely connected to the peripheral elements. When the antecedent gets integrated into the clause and acts as the initial element of the V2 clause, the situation changes radically and resumption with DÅ plummets.

In order to understand what happens, it is necessary to take a look at a related construction, namely Left Dislocation. The link between the two structures is striking, as has been observed by several others (see among others Altmann 1981, Holmberg 1986, 2019, Jørgensen 2016.) Axel labels this structure German Left Dislocation (Axel 2007: 204). In the Germanic V2 languages, a left-dislocated element is immediately followed by its anaphor, which in turns precedes the finite verb. An example is provided in (57) where *absintium* 'absinth' is followed by an anaphoric pronoun *thz*.

- (57) Absintium thz är malyrt
 absinth that is wormwood
 'Absinth is wormwood.'

(LOS, LB3, 1400–1500)

I will follow Grohmann (2000), Boeckx & Grohmann (2005) in assuming that the anaphor is the spell-out of the trace of the topicalized DP. The V2 constraint requires overt phonetic material in the specifier of the V2P, and the spell-out of the anaphor is as such a last-resort option.¹⁷ This operation assures that the bottleneck is not cracked and the effect is that there is co-reference between the two initial elements. The structure is presented in Figure 8.

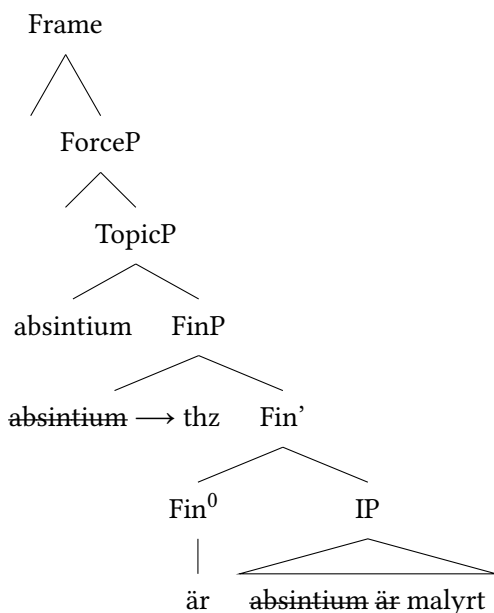


Figure 8: Left-dislocated thematic element

In the case of fronting of integrated adverbial subclauses, I suggest that these are derived the same way as thematic topics. The clause moves through the SpecV2P and is then attracted to SpecTopP. As the V2 requirement demands phonetic material in its specifier position, the trace of the clause is spelled out by DÅ. As DÅ is not semantically bleached, this explains the tight semantic relationship between the anaphor and DÅ. In order for DÅ to serve as an anaphor, it must carry the same semantic features as the antecedent. The basic semantic value of DÅ is [+TEMPORAL], and as such only antecedents that may be interpreted as [+TEMPORAL] can be followed by DÅ. The derivation is presented in Figure 9. The analysis implies that DÅ is a phrase.

¹⁷See also Grewendorf (2002) for a slightly different analysis, where what moves through the bottleneck is a big XP, that is subsequently split into two components.

- (58) Ok tha hon blomstras om sommaren, tha skal hon wp takas ok
 and when she flowers in summer DÅ shall she up take and
 törkas i skugganom.
 dry in shadows
 ‘And when she is in bloom in summer, she should be picked and dried in
 the shadows.’
 (LOS, L3, 1400–1500)

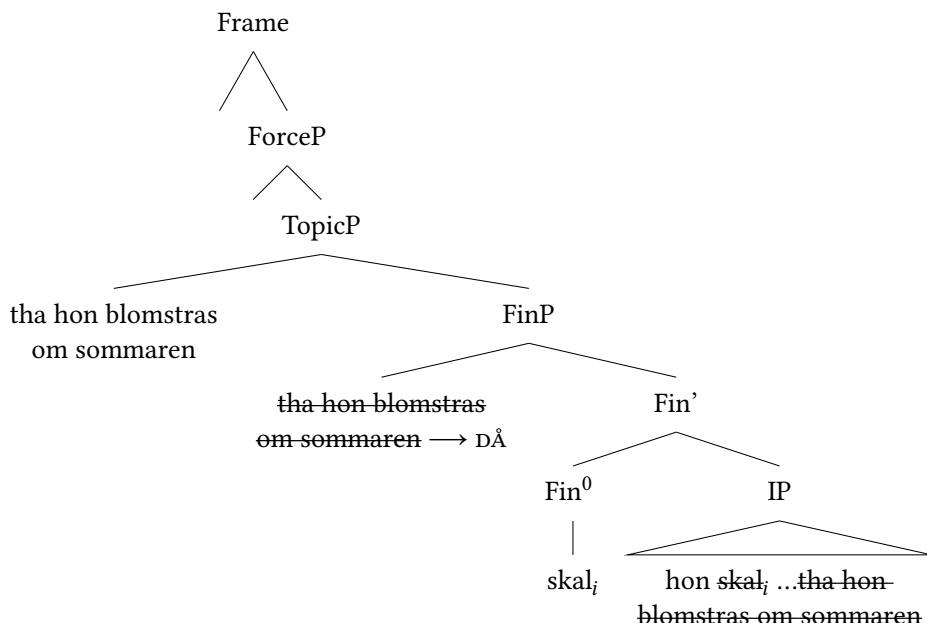


Figure 9: Fronted integrated adverbial clause with resumption

We have seen that in the case of fronted PPs in Late Old Swedish, 17 of the 37 cases are [+INSTRUMENTAL] rather than [+TEMPORAL] (see Figure 5). This would be an argument against the analysis above. However, as we observed above in Section 5.2, these [+INSTRUMENTAL] PPs have in common that the instrument is an action that precedes the action of the main clause and as such may be interpreted as some sort of condition. Thus, these may not be taken to constitute counter-examples to the analysis presented above.

The analysis above strongly resembles the one that Axel-Tober (2023: 186–187) proposes for High German. While resumption with *so* was ubiquitous in German in the 15th and 16th centuries, its use suddenly dropped. Axel suggests that this has to do with the incorporation of the fronted adverbial clause. Incorporation

rules out *so* resumption as *so* is not semantically bleached. We see that it is exactly the same thing that happens in Swedish: once the fronted adverbial constituent gets incorporated into the clause, a non-bleached resumptive element may only follow antecedents that match its semantics. However, in Swedish, unlike German, *så* is semantically bleached.

If we are on the right track and the integration of the initial element is what triggers semantic restriction of the antecedent of *THA*, one might ask why resumption is not lost altogether or, at the very least, gets restricted to temporal or conditional antecedents. Instead, what we find is that *så* resumption rises and quickly becomes the dominating resumptive element. While *då* remains a specialized resumptive, *så* becomes a fully generalized one.

One obvious reason for the rise of *så* is that the language already has access to the resumptive structure as such. When *då* no longer is accessible due to its semantics, the language swaps it for *så*. This, however, could only happen if *så* was semantically bleached. We saw in Table 4 that when fronted adverbial clauses get integrated into the clause, in Late Old Swedish, almost 90% of cases of *så* resumption took place after fronted conditional and comparative clauses, which were the only contexts *så* resumption was found in Early Old Swedish. Only 2 clauses do not fall into these two categories, and these are temporal. Based on this, we may draw two conclusions: (1) Fronted adverbial clauses get integrated into the main clause in Late Old Swedish; and (2) The resumptive element is not semantically bleached. This also explains why the use of resumptive elements drops in the Old Swedish period.

When we enter the period of Modern Swedish, this changes. *Så* follows a variety of different semantic antecedents, and as such it appears to be semantically bleached. This is, in other words, a process that takes place no later than the late 15th or early 16th century. We can postulate that the bleaching of *så* took place as an internal change in the language, but it is tempting to point to two external factors that may have contributed to the bleaching and subsequent rise of *så* as a resumptive: phonetic changes, and the influence from German. In the following, I will sketch out some hypotheses as to why this change could take place.

8.3 Phonetic collapse

In Late Old Swedish, the sibilants /θ/ and /ð/ are reduced to /t/ and /d/. However, building on medieval letters, Horn af Åminne (2016) finds that the change first is reflected in the written language in the second half of the 14th century, but that it did not become prominent until the 15th century. The findings support Noreen's (1904: 202–203) claim that the process was over by 1450.

The data examined by Horn af Åminne (2016) further indicate that there was substantial confusion with respect to the etymology and thus the correct orthography of certain words. In the late Middle Ages, words that had never contained a /θ/ would be written *th* as if to indicate a lost sibilant – and the other way around.

It is reasonable to presume that in the midst of this process, there was a certain confusion with respect to the different sounds, and the articulation point of /θ/ and /ð/ are close to that of /s/. This means that the language users may not always have felt the difference between *dā* and *sā* during this transition period. This would ease the transition from *dā* to *sā* resumption, but it would not explain the semantic bleaching.

8.4 Influence from German?

During the late Middle Ages, the influence from the Germanic Hansa was important all over Scandinavia, and their presence also came to change aspects of the language (see, among others, Torp 1998).

Therefore, it is not unlikely that the language also borrowed *sā* as its go-to resumptive. As already mentioned, generalized resumption with *so* was universally accessible in both High and Low German, and the structure is attested as early as the 9th century.

(59) Resumption with *so* in Older German

- a. *Āfter mīr so quīmit er.*
after me so comes he
'He comes after me.' (Old High German, Otfr.ev. 1.27)
- b. *Morgen zu mittag so solt ir mit mir essen in Jeronimus Roberti*
morning to dinner so shall you with me eat in Jeronimus Robert's
hauß.
house
'Tomorrow you will dine with me in Jeronimus Robert's house.'
(from Thim-Mabrey 1987: 203)

Vasa's translation of Luther's Bible is the first attestation of *sā* as a generalized resumptive. While the readings from the Bible in the Catholic mass were held in Latin, the new Protestant readings were in the vernacular language, in other words in Swedish. Therefore, linguistic use in the Bible would possibly have an important impact. Even if *sā* resumption was possible, but marginal, by the time

the translation was conducted, the use of *så* in the Bible would lead to the spread of this construction in the spoken language. It is thus interesting to compare the quotes below. The translations are from the new international version of the Bible, accessed through biblehub.com.

- (60) a. So ich aber mit Zungen bete, so betet mein Geist. (Luther)
b. När iagh nu bedher medh tungonne, så bedher min ande. Vasa
‘For if I pray in a tongue, my spirit prays.’ (1 Corinthians 14:14)
- (61) a. Bistu aber los vom Weibe, so suche kein weib. (Luther)
b. Ästu ock vthan hustru, så begära icke hustru. (Vasa)
‘Are you pledged to a woman? Do not seek to be released.’
(1 Corinthians 7:27)

The interesting question is of course if the translation mimics the German original also in places where the spoken language at the time would not use these structures. If this is the case, the text is leading the way towards the change. I leave this question for future research.

However, it is unlikely that the influence from Vasa’s Bible translation would have led to the introduction of *så* as a resumptive unless the language already had access to the structure. It could have encouraged the changes that were taking place, as such lending a hand to *så* on its way towards its status as a completely bleached resumptive element.

9 Conclusion

This paper has examined the evolution of the resumptive structure in Swedish, from the 13th century to the first half of the 18th. We have seen that there have been important changes in the resumptive structures, where *då* resumption is dominant in the first period, before *så* resumption takes over from the 16th century.

Two different mechanisms account for the changes we observe. First, in the earliest sources, the fronted subordinate clause was not integrated into the main clause, and the resumptive *då* functions as an expletive in order to ensure the V2 word order in the main clause. At this stage *då* is a full phrase that is moved into initial position of the V2 clause. In Late Old Swedish, the fronted adverbial clause gets integrated into the clause, and there is a reanalysis in which the resumptive is the spell-out of the trace of the fronted constituent. This way, the resumptive must map the semantics of the antecedent; in other words there must be semantic

identity between the two constituents preceding the finite verb. Therefore, the use of a specialized resumptive such as *DÅ* gets heavily restricted. There is no indication that *SÅ* was a specialized resumptive in Late Old Swedish, but data from Early Modern Swedish suggest that *SÅ* had undergone bleaching. This in turn led to syntactic and semantic expansion, where *SÅ* was admitted into all contexts as a resumptive.

In this paper, we set out to discuss Meklenborg's clines. Given what we have seen, we may not observe any cline with respect to *DÅ* resumption. *DÅ* is a specialized resumptive from the start, and it never undergoes semantic expansion. Once its antecedent gets integrated into the clause, its usage gets strongly limited.

With respect to *SÅ*, there is indeed an evolution that seems to support Meklenborg's clines. However, we have seen that the evolution of the resumptive is closely linked to underlying changes in derivation of the clausal structure in Swedish.

Abbreviations

The references to source texts are the following:

BÖR	Bjärlösaätten 1300–1350
Con-SL	Confirmation of the Södermannalag, 1330–1400
DL	Dalalagen, 1318–1335
EMS	Early Modern Swedish
EOS	Early Old Swedish
HäL	Hälsingelagen, 1350–1400
KL	Kristoffers Landslag, 1442
LB	Läkebok (the following number indicates the volume)
LMS	Late Modern Swedish
LOS	Late Old Swedish
MES	Magnus Erikssons Stadslag, 1350–1450
ÖGL	Östgötalagen, 1350–1400
SL	Skånelagen, 1203–1212
SöL	Södermannalagen, 1330–1400
ULL	Upplandslagen, 1300–1399
Vid-an	Vidhemsprästens anteckningar, 1280–1289
YVGL	Yngre Västgötalagen, 1280–1399

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Chapter 7

Cohesion and/or disruption? The discourse functions of Early New High German preverbal *so*

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This study investigates the discourse functions of the left peripheral *so* in Early New High German narratives and evaluates how it is used as tools for cohesion. It is argued that sequences with a preverbal adverbial + *so* are primarily, but by no means exclusively used to signal a shift in frame-setting, connecting the following discourse explicitly to the previous.

Based on data extracted from Early New High German prose texts, the paper evaluates whether [adverbial + *so*] is used as a tool for cohesion and/or disruption. Cohesion is a well-established concept and disruption is defined as instances in which the expected flow of cohesion is interrupted. It is argued that it is used for both.

This hypothesis is evaluated by considering the distribution of [adverbial + *so*] within the larger text and its co-occurrence with referential continuity. For this purpose, a distinction is made between constructions with adverbial clauses and those with adverbs. The sequence [adverb + *so*] is exploited as a cohesive tool linking the following proposition explicitly to the previous discourse, whereas sequences containing an adverbial clause or a prepositional phrase may be more disruptive and do not necessarily set up this link themselves.

1 Introduction

This study investigates the discourse functions of the Early New High German (henceforth: *ENHG*) patterns in which an adverbial combines with preverbal *so* in



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narrative prose and evaluates how it is used as a tool for cohesion or disruption. The examples in (1) illustrate the pattern, which is referred to as *ADVl + so*.

- (1) a. frauwe wolt ir yne sehen so wil ich yne uch bringen
woman wanted you him see so want I him you bring
'Woman, if you want to see him, I will bring him to you.' (Pontus, 11ra)
- b. Er ordinert sin schiff in das hoge mere vnd wolt nit das sie
He commands his ship in the high sea and wanted not that they
sin gewar wurden Dar vmb det er das Vort so nam er vl schyff
his aware became there for did he that further so took he 45 ship
vnd fore ans lant
and rode to.the land
'He commanded his ship to the high sea and did not want that they
would become aware of them. That is why he did that. In addition, he
took 45 ships and rode to land.' (Pontus, 85va)¹

This use of *so* was more productive in ENHG than it is in Present-Day German (Thim-Mabrey 1987). Not only did *so* occur following conditional clauses (1a) and concessives – contexts in which it is attested nowadays (Catasso 2021: 31–32) – it could also follow adverbial clauses with other functions and is, remarkably, even attested following short adverbs (1b).

In previous literature, *so* following adverbials – both clausal and non-clausal ones – has been analyzed as a (adverbial) resumptive (Meklenborg 2020), see for Middle High German (Catasso 2021), meaning that it is used as a placeholder for a previous constituent within the clause (Haegeman et al. 2023). Its main function is to syntactically and/or semantically integrate a constituent into the upcoming utterance (Thim-Mabrey 1987) and thereby it seems to be a tool used for cohesion.² The story of preverbal *so* is, however, a bit more complex. Resumptives in general are thought of as elements that facilitate processing, reducing the load processing takes on the working memory (Hawkins 2004, Links et al. 2017). Therefore, they are especially useful with heavy elements, which are difficult to process within a sentence. In addition, they are useful whenever an element introduces new information that would otherwise occur in an unexpected position in the clause (Prince 1997), as for example in *A young man, barely 20 years old, he had jelly from a doughnut on his face*. The dislocated constituent introduces the new information in the discourse. The resumptive subsequently can refer to the same information, which is now given, within the clause. In those

¹Punctuation is represented as in the source.

²But cf. Axel-Tober (2023), who analyzes this use of *so* as an expletive.

cases, the resumptive construction breaks the discourse-flow. Further, an item can be resumed whenever it has not been relevant for some time (Givón 1983: 11). Hereby, resumption may function both as a disruptive element – activating an element outside of the active realm – and as a tool for cohesion, since it takes up an earlier item from the discourse. In this light, certain uses of preverbal *so* are unexpected from what is known about resumptives. For example, in (1b) we find *so* following a light element – *vort* – that does not refer to new or newly introduced information and *so*, if it is an adverbial resumptive, seems to pick up an adjacent constituent. A similar use of apparent resumptives is found in the modern Scandinavian languages, where the cognate of *so* – *så* – is likewise found following adverbs (Elmqvist 1945, Nordström 2010, Eide 2011, Meklenborg 2020). This is exemplified for Swedish in (2).³

- (2) Och därmed så dansade jag.
 and there.with so danced I
 ‘And thus, I danced.’ Almqvist (1843)

For *så*, it has been argued that it is used to mark a new point of departure (Nordström 2010) and has also been connected to a type of topic-shift in Norwegian (Eide 2011). Both analyses show a large degree of overlap with analyses of scene-setting and frame-setting elements (Speyer 2008). Due to a similarity in distribution between the Scandinavian *så* and ENHG *so* (Meklenborg 2020), such an analysis may be extendable to ENHG. In addition, other patterns with an adverbial in non-initial but preverbal position in Present-Day Dutch have been argued to mark topic-shift as well (Breindl 2011). It is therefore very well possible that a similar analysis can be proposed for the ENHG ADVL + *so*.

It should be noted, however, that in contexts like (1b), it has been argued that it is not in fact the adverb preceding *so* that introduces the new topic or presents a new point of departure, since the adverb is connective in this context (Bloom 2024a). When *so* follows an adverb, it then does not function as a resumptive taking up the adverb per se but instead seems to collaborate with the adverb to connect the following proposition to another discourse segment (see e.g. Patocka 1998).⁴ The results in this paper do support this, as adverb + *so* is more strongly a tool for cohesion than adverbial clause + *so*.

³The Swedish examples in the paper originate from the Äldre svenska romaner section of the Språkbanken corpus (Pettersson & Borin 2022).

⁴There are several arguments against a unified analysis of *so* with adverbs and adverbial clauses, in particular their position in relation to vocatives and their backward-orientation (Bloom 2024a,b). The combination of the adverb and *so* may have formed a chunk (see Traugott 2022: 165ff.), as the two elements typically serve a joint function. However, the most frequent adverbs are not necessarily adjacent to *so* in these contexts (Bloom 2024a), which makes their status as one unit a bit less convincing but of course not improbable (see e.g., particle verbs).

On a terminological note, I refer to the preposed adverbial, be it clausal or not, as the precursor and to the sentence that hosts it, as the host, or host sentence. The use of *so* in this context is abbreviated as PV *so*, which is short for preverbal *so* in order to remain agnostic to its precise function. The construction in which an adverbial and *so* combine is referred to as ADVL + *so*.

This paper first argues that by and large ADVL + *so* is associated with a shift in frame-setting but notices that it is also found in other contexts. This is primarily the case for patterns with non-clausal adverbials. Based on data extracted from ENHG prose texts, the paper evaluates whether ADVL + *so* is used as a tool for cohesion and/or disruption. It is argued that it is used for both. This hypothesis is evaluated by considering the distribution of ADVL + *so* within the larger text as well as its co-occurrence with referential continuity. Some differences emerge between sentences with clausal and non-clausal adverbial clauses, as the data indicate disruptive contexts for the former but not the latter. Combinations of an adverb with *so* in particular are argued to link the following predication to the previous discourse, whereas adverbial clauses and prepositional phrases do not necessarily set up this link themselves and regularly co-occur with a coordinating conjunction.

Section 2 presents the background to the current study and introduces the concepts of cohesion and disruption and of frame-setting. Section 3 introduces the data. In Section 4, the question whether and to what degree ADVL + *so* signals a (shift in) frame-setting is evaluated. Section 5 focuses on the issue of cohesion and disruption, evaluating the distribution of the construction within the narrative (at the beginning of chapters and turns, versus within narrative sequences) and the extent of its co-occurrence with referential continuity. Section 6 then considers the different types of adverbials (adverbs, clauses, and prepositional phrases) that precede *so* and presents a more detailed argument as to their differential behavior in relation to discourse cohesion and disruption. Finally, Section 7 concludes the paper.

2 Background

2.1 Cohesion & disruption

Central in this study are the concepts of cohesion and disruption. Going back to the basic definitions, the term cohesion can be defined as “the act or state of sticking together” (*Merriam-Webster* 2023: cohesion), whereas disruption is “a break or interruption in the normal course or continuation of some activity, process, etc.” (*Merriam-Webster* 2023: disruption).

For texts, cohesion is created by what Halliday & Hasan (1976) call *ties*, i.e., elements that partake in dependency relations. These cohesion devices contribute to “the continuity of meaning in the text.” (Griffith et al. 1986). Well-known types of ties are replacement (3a); ellipsis (3b); conjunction (3c); and lexical cohesion (3d) and (3e).

- (3) a. *They wait for her to go. She **does**.*
- b. *You’ve shared your stories. Well, she has ____.*
- c. *I came to Caldera, **because** I wanted experiences.*
- d. *In the **library** he lingered over the **books** and pored over rare Japanese **prints**.* (COCA, Davies 2009)
- e. *These **tracks** here are from a male running, just the toe of his **shoe** leaves a **print**, takes all his weight.*

In each of those cases, “the interpretation of some element in the discourse is dependent on that of another” (Halliday & Hasan 1976: 4). To be explicit, in (3a), the interpretation of *does* depends on the *to go* in the preceding sentence; for (3b) *she has* is interpreted on the basis of the preceding ‘*ve shared your stories*, in (3), *I wanted the experiences* is interpreted in relation to *I came to Caldera*, and in (3d), the interpretation of *prints* is guided by the preceding *library* and *books* different than e.g., in (3e), where *print* is interpreted against *tracks* and *shoe*.

Disruption should be a closely related term to talk about cases in which there is a break or interruption in the expected flow of cohesion. This concept has been used in studies on e.g., narration in psychology (Jepsen et al. 2022) but is generally not used in contexts of narration by non-impaired speakers. Yet, breaks or interruptions in the expected continuation of a discourse or text are commonly signaled explicitly by linguistic means. For example, unpredictable referents are frequently explicitly signaled (Haspelmath 2021): Low accessible referents, i.e., unexpected ones, are realized in a different form (e.g., by long definite descriptions) than highly accessible referents (which may be left unexpressed or are realized by pronouns) (Ariel 2004). Another example is differential object marking, in which animate and/or definite objects – which are unexpected since prototypical grammatical objects are inanimate and indefinite – are cross-linguistically frequently indicated by an extra morpheme (Aissen 2003). This is illustrated for Spanish in (4).

- (4) a. *Encontré un problema.*
‘I found a problem.’

- b. Encontré a un superviviente.

‘I found a survivor.’ (Fábregas 2013)

Other markers associated with disruption are the various discourse particles. Some concrete examples are that the beginnings and endings of a segment are often accompanied by a discourse particle, such as the German *ach* and *achso* as used in conversation (e.g., Golato & Betz 2008, Barske & Golato 2010, Steensig 2013). Moreover, *by the way* in English is used as a so-called digressive marker, indicating a shift away from the current topic (Traugott 2022: 46). Discourse particles may also be used to indicate that the information conveyed is surprising or unexpected, like the English *actually* (e.g., Fox Tree 2015: 74) or Dutch *eigenlijk* (van Bergen & Bosker 2018, Rasenberg et al. 2020).

In each of these examples, an interruption of the cohesive flow is mitigated by a signal that indicates that there is something different than what the normal course or continuation of the discourse or narration would lead one to expect. Disruption is thus signaled by the use of additional linguistic material to modify the predictions made by the addressee of what follows.

2.2 Frame-setting

Frame-setters are elements that “limit the applicability of the main predication to a certain domain” (Chafe 1976: 50). In an earlier study, I referred to these domains as spaces (Bloom 2024a). However, in order to relate the current study to the literature on frame-setting, where the definition of a frame is distinct from its definition in the literature on mental spaces (Fauconnier 1994, Fauconnier & Sweetser 1996, Dancygier & Sweetser 2005) and to avoid terminological confusion, I refer to these domains as realms, in which propositions are predicted or claimed to hold.

Adverbial clauses in particular have been described as elements that serve as so-called “guideposts”, “providing a temporal, conditional, causal, or other such orientation for the information in the upcoming main clause” (Chafe 1984: 444). They provide an orientation, viz. a ground. For example, a conditional clause (5) or a temporal clause (6) may activate a realm in which a certain proposition holds.

- (5) If Hiro reaches out and takes the hypercard, then the data it represents will be transferred from this guy’s system into Hiro’s computer. (Dancygier & Sweetser 2005: 33)
- (6) When she awakens she will think a magician has been there. (Dancygier & Sweetser 2005: 46)

In (5), the data will be transferred under the condition, that is, in a realm in which Hiro reaches out and takes the hypercard. In (6), the temporal clause similarly presents a realm in which it is claimed that she will think that a magician has been there.

Frame-setters are thought to imply contrast: “if there is no alternative perspective to be considered, (...) there is no need for an explicit frame setter either” (Krifka 2008). In this way, they are similar to contrastive topics. The difference between them is, according to Krifka (2008), that contrastive topics mark that the topic of a sentence diverges from the given expectation, but frame-setters mark that the information that is provided is restricted to the specified dimension. The content of the clause following a conditional is claimed to apply in the realm in which the content of the *if*-clause holds, and there is an implication that if Hiro does not reach out, the data also won’t be transferred. There is thus limited applicability. Similarly, in the temporal adverbial clause in (6) there is the implication that she won’t think that a magician has been there before she awakens.

The limited applicability of the main predication implies that frame-setters have a direct effect on the truth of the main predication, which has been recognized by Jacobs (2001: 656). That is, according to him, the main predication should not hold outside of the constraints, as the frame-setter directly affects the truth of the comment. This presents a rather straightforward operationalization of the notion of frame-setter: If the information that is provided applies outside the realm signaled by the precursor, we are not dealing with a frame-setter in the narrow sense. However, as will become more clear throughout the paper, in particular in Section 4, frame-setting is not always used in this strict sense but has also been applied to contexts in which the truth of the comment is not necessarily invalidated outside of the specified realm (Maienborn 2001, Maienborn & Schäfer 2012).

What this broader sense of frame-setting may include can be elaborated by making reference to work on the Scandinavian cognate of PV *so*, *så*. This element has been proposed to mark a shift in frame-setting (Nordström 2010, Eide 2011). Nordström (2010) focuses on the use of *så* after non-clausal constituents in modern Swedish. An example can be found in (7). Nordström (2010) argues that this use of *så* is used to signal a new point of departure. This term can be understood as the landmark (Langacker 1987, 2008) or ground (Talmy 1975), i.e., the reference point “with respect to which the figure’s path or site receives characterization” (Talmy 1975: 419). Crucially, the idea is that *så* is used in contexts where the ground for the following proposition is not the same as the one in which the preceding utterance should be understood. To put it differently, where the realm in which the following predication is to be understood changes. In the example

in (7), this constitutes a temporal shift, but note that the proposition ‘I froze it in’ is nevertheless entailed.

- (7) Och **sen** så frös jag in det
and then so froze I in it
‘And then I froze it in.’ (Nordström 2010: 47)

Sollid & Eide (2007) and Eide (2011) present a similar analysis for Norwegian *så* and analyze the Norwegian *så* as an Aboutness-Shift topic, in the sense of Bianchi & Frascarelli (2010). They argue that *så* is used to signal a new topic, or to return to a previously abandoned topic.

Frame-shifting constructions are associated with both cohesion and disruption. Between the precursor and the host, frame-setter constructions are cohesive: The interpretation of the host depends on the precursor. This is rather obvious, as the sentence forms a structural unit, which are thought to be cohesive by definition (Halliday & Hasan 1976: 8). Beyond this structural relation, however, the construction disrupts cohesion between the host and the discourse that precedes the precursor: By the explicit introduction of a new frame, the applicability of the proposition or the ground upon which the proposition in the host is to be interpreted is no longer determined by the preceding discourse, thereby disrupting the discursive flow.

3 Data

The central data set used in the current study consists of 898 adverbial + *so* + finite verb sequences that are extracted from a preliminary version of the Roko.UP (Bloom et al. 2024), a corpus of ENHG narrative texts. In addition, these texts have been used to extract data and examples to illustrate phenomena going beyond the scope of the central data set. Whenever this is the case, it is mentioned explicitly.

These texts originate from different narrative traditions: First, *Tristrant und Isalde*, *Wigalois vom Rade* and *Wilhelm von Österreich* are reworkings of Middle High German poetic novels. Second, the corpus contains adaptations from French texts: *Pontus und Sidonia*, *Huge Scheppel*, *Melusine*, and *Die Schöne Magelone*, and one text translated from Latin, the *Goldene Esel*. Third, *Fortunatus* and *Das Rollwagenbüchlein* are not based on a model text. *Fortunatus* was originally written in ENHG and is a long running narration, just like the other texts of the corpus. *Das Rollwagenbüchlein* is a collection of farces. For *Huge Scheppel* and the *Goldene Esel* the data has been extracted from excerpts of ca. 25,000 words; for the other sources, the entire text was used. All but two texts come from the

Table 1: Early New High German narratives

Middle High German		
Wilhelm	Upper German	1481
Tristrant	Upper German	1484
Wigalois	Upper German	1519
French and Latin		
Pontus	Rhine-Franconian	between 1450 and 1476
Melusine	Upper German	1474[1456]
Huge Scheppel	Rhine Franconian	between 1455 and 1472
Magelone	Upper German	1535
Goldener Esel	Upper German	1538
No model text		
Fortunatus	Upper German	1509
Rollwagenbüchlein	Upper German	1555

Upper German dialect area; only *Pontus* and *Huge Scheppel* are written in the Rhine Franconian dialect. This is summarized in Table 1. For a general overview of the frequency distribution of the construction, see Bloom (2024a).

Narrative prose is a particularly useful genre to investigate issues of cohesion and disruption, as they are cohesive texts that typically discuss multiple characters and report on a plurality of events. Moreover, narrative prose is per definition temporally organized, with many deviations from iconic experientiality (Enkvist 1981), i.e., the order and balance in temporal sequence in the discourse coincides with that of the story (Genette 1972, 1980). For this reason, they lend themselves well to a transparent analysis of frame-shifting.

4 Frame-setting

As has been noted previously, PV *so* typically follows conditional clauses, especially V1-conditionals (Meklenborg 2020: 96). This is exemplified in (8) below.

- (8) *Context:* Ponthus and the children are eating hastily, because they fear they will soon be brought to death. Ponthus declares that that lies in the hands of God.

Ist is sin wille **so** sterben wir.

is it his wish so die we

‘If it is his wish, we will die.’ (Pontus, 4rb)

In conditional contexts like in (8), the content of the precursor affects the applicability of the proposition of the host clause. In other words, the event expressed in the host, in this case ‘we will die’, is only true if the adverbial clause also presents a true statement, i.e., if ‘it (= ‘that we will die’) is his wish’ is true. In the implied alternative realm, where it is not his wish, or something else is his wish, it is also not the case that ‘we will die’. The applicability of the content of the host is thus explicitly delimited, and this is a neat instance of frame-setting in the narrow sense. The wider context furthermore indicates that, prior to Ponthus uttering this sentence, the children had the impression that they were going to die anyway, i.e., independent of a specific condition. The use of the conditional clause thus explicitly delimits the realm in which it is true, thereby shifting the realm in which the statement holds.

Preposed temporal and causal adverbial clauses also occur with this narrow definition of frame-setting, as in (9a) and (9b) below.

- (9) a. *Context:* Someone has been ordered to come to court and understands that he will have to pay a fine. He complains about this and is advised the following:

wann er mit im für das gericht keme, so solt er kein ander
when he with him for the court come.SBJV so shall he no other
antwort geben, (...) dann das einig wort “blee”.
answer give (...) than the single word blee
‘When he will bring him in front of the court, he should answer
nothing (...) but the single word “blee”.’ (Rollwagen, 60)

- b. *Context:* There is a helmet that can test whether one has six virtues. If one lacks one virtue and puts the helmet on, the gemstone that signifies that virtue will disappear. Joraffin suspects that Rial might not have all the virtues needed. Rial asks what the six virtues are. Joraffin answers him:

seid yr edle wird sūchent so will ich sy ewch auch hie ze
since you gem’s worth search so want I them you also here to
wissen thūn der erst stein rubin bedeitet daz er fest sol sein. vnd
know do the first stone ruby signifies that he firm will be and
tugent vol. (...)
virtue full

“‘Since you seek the significance of the gems, I want to let you know them here: The first stone, ruby, signifies that he will be firm and full of virtue (...)’.” (Wilhelm, 224/26v)

In (9a), the expression in the host clause only holds when ‘he will bring him in front of the court’. At other times and under different circumstances ‘he’ should not only answer “blee”. One may suggest that this example contains a conditional clause instead. However, the context indicates that the court-appearance is a given, and thus, it is a matter of ‘when’, not ‘if’. The advice is restricted to this time; at other times the addressee of course can answer with other words.

Similarly, in (9b), the speaker, Joraffin, only wants to let Rial know about the meaning of each gem, because Rial is looking for this. Since it is the reason for Joraffin’s willingness, in realms in which it is not true, Joraffin would not want to share the gems’ significance with Rial.

In this way, the examples support the fact that *so* occurs with frame-setters in the strict sense: The proposition of the host is confined to the scenario expressed by the adverbial clause that precedes it. Since there is an explicit frame-setter in these examples, it is expected, or perhaps even necessary, that there is a shift in frame-setting, because with frame-setting continuation, the frame-setting is left implicit (Krifka 2008). This is clearly contextually supported for (9a); there is a shift in temporal setting, from speaker-here-and-now, to a point in the future. For (9b), the shift is a bit more complex, since the realm is in fact opened by Rial requesting this information (*Do sprach Rial Herr sagent mir bald wólcherley mugent die sechs tugenden sein* ‘Rial said then “Lord, tell me quickly whatever may those six virtues be?”’). The shift happens within Joraffin: As he fears that Rial doesn’t have the needed qualities, he initially advises him to just let the helmet be, so that his honor stays intact. Rial decides that he is interested despite this, which then shifts Joraffin’s perspective on things.

So does not necessarily follow adverbial clauses but may also occupy the preverbal position on its own. In those constellations, it is not considered as a resumptive – because there is nothing to be resumed – but instead is typically viewed as a demonstrative adverb. Interestingly, even there it regularly occurs in contexts in which frame-setting is being negotiated. These examples are not part of the core data set, but they are found in the texts and are worth a specific mention. In these narrative texts, *PV so* is attested in contexts where the interaction between two characters results in the limitation of the applicability of the proposition in the host. Consider (10) as an example.

- (10) Vnd sprach Agripina begerest du hye in disem closter dein
and said Agripina desire you here in this monastery your
wohnung zu haben
living.space to have
‘And said, “Agripina, do you desire to live here in this monastery?”’

sy sprach gar demütiglich ja gnedige fraw äbtissin.
she said quite humbly yes mercifull miss abbess
'She spoke quite humbly, "Yes, merciful miss abbess."
Sy sprach so wüerst du mir gehorsam sein (...)
she spoke so will you me obedient be (...)
'She said, "Then you should obey me (...)." (Fortunatus, 17/555)⁵

One of the characters, the abbess, asks Agripina whether she wants to live in the monastery. Agripina's affirmation of this question is taken as the frame-setting for the host: Only in a realm in which Agripina desires to live in the monastery is it true that she has to obey the abbess. In the implied alternative realm where Agripina would have reacted negatively to the question, she also would not have to obey the abbess.

In the context of narrative texts, we are of course not in actuality dealing with two different people working together to construct a frame-setting, but one writer presenting the situation from two different perspectives. As such, there is no true negotiation involved but an imitation thereof. Yet, such segments in which two characters interact are reflective of interaction between two individuals, and thus we may here speak of negotiation. It serves an additional goal to engage the reader and structure the discourse in a dynamic manner. Examples like (10) indicate that frame-setting is not necessarily dependent on the presence of a preposed adverbial but can be associated with the element before *so* regardless of its syntactic status, or, following Bloom (2024a), with a slot within a construction – in the construction grammar sense (i.e., a conventionalized form-function pair) – in which *so* is lexically specified (e.g., of the type $[[X]_{\text{frame-setter}} \text{ so } \dots])$.

Other support for this analysis is that there are also other cases in which we find the frame-setting function with non-adverbials, if they combine with and precede *so*. In such cases, they may even be positioned such that they cannot be considered to be a syntactic component of the 'host clause'. This is illustrated in (11).

⁵There are a couple of reasons why a reading like 'She said thus ...' is unlikely. In general, *so* is rarely used cataphorically in the ENHG Roko.UP and is instead, unlike the English *so*, backward-oriented. Moreover, I checked Fortunatus, Tristrant and Melusine, and it would mean that these texts would contain no V2-clauses following such an inquit. V2 is at this time already the most dominant word order for declarative main clauses and often follows other inquit-formulae. Finally, the use of *so* in these contexts systematically occurs at the beginning of consequences, which is fully in line with its typical use following conditionals in which it likewise introduces apodoses.

- (11) Peter lieber sun du wayst das wir keyn anderenn sun haben (...) dann
 Peter dear son you know that we no other son have (...) than
 alleyn dich einigenn auch sunst keynenn erbenn dann dich **so** stehet
 only you alone also else no heir than you so stands
 auch alle vnser hoffnung vnnd trost zu dir.
 also all our hope and consolation to you
 ‘Peter, dear son, you know that we have no other son than just you, also
 no other heir than you. Thus, all our hope and consolation is with you.’
 (Magelone, 596–597)

The restricting information in (11) is not expressed by an adverbial but by a complement clause that is a constituent of a previous sentence. The state that is denoted by this complement clause frames the proposition expressed by the following clause: ‘all our hope and consolation is with you’ is only true in the realm in which Peter is their sole heir. In the implied alternative realm, in which there are other heirs, not all hope would be on Peter. Thus, a non-adverbial constituent that serves another function is here repurposed as a frame-setter limiting the applicability of the following proposition. While the element that activates the realm is explicit in the discourse, it initially serves a different function and is not part of the same sentence. As such, what can be the precursor in the *so*-construction may have to be expanded, as it seems to be not limited to linguistic units that have the form of a prototypical frame-setter (i.e., adverbial clause, prepositional phrase, or adverb).

Above we have seen three contexts in which the element that *so* follows can be construed as a frame-setting element. First, PV *so* occurs with unequivocal frame-setters (9); second, *so* is used in contexts in which frame-setting is negotiated (10); and third, *so* can be used to repurpose a constituent that was used with a different function as a frame-setter (11). In these contexts, the applicability of the main predication is conditioned or restricted by a previous element. This constituent, the frame-setter, is prototypically adjacent and takes the form of an adverbial clause, but this is not necessarily the case. The last two uses of PV *so* indicate that *so* itself may be the element that signals that there is a shift in the activated realm or flags a construction with a frame-setter in the first slot. While this nicely supports an analysis of PV *so* as an element signaling a shift in frame-setting, it cannot be the whole story, as we will see in what follows.

Even when PV *so* follows temporal adverbial clauses – frame-setters par excellence – the precursor does not necessarily need to impact the applicability of the following proposition. Consider as an example (12).

- (12) VNd als sy also stönden so kommt der schalck geloffen
 and as they also stood so comes the rascal walking
 ‘And when they stood like that, the rascal comes walking.’ (Fortunatus,
 30/415)

The two events expressed in (12) coincide temporally, but whether the proposition of the host holds does not depend on whether the proposition of the precursor holds. Moreover, there is no implied alternative realm in which there is a prediction about whether ‘the rascal comes walking’. That is, the rascal comes walking regardless of whether ‘they’ stood there like that. Instead, the relation between the two events is a matter of non-causal, incidental temporal sequentiality. In this regard, the initial temporal clause is not a frame-setter in the strict sense. The event expressed by the precursor is presented as being relevant to the second and technically presents the time in which the second event is claimed to occur. Nevertheless, there is a sense of frame-setting in a wider sense, in that the precursor grounds the following expression temporally – not delimiting its application but providing an anchor in the previous discourse to which the following expression can be related.

This is more broadly applicable to PV *so* following *als*- and *so*-clauses.⁶ For Dutch, these patterns in which clauses with *als* and *so* as a conjunction combine with *so* in preverbal position have been treated as an independent construction, separate from other configurations with adverbial clauses by Vandenberghe (2006). She refers to this as *kopie-correlatieven* (‘copy-correlatives’) and *expressieve correlatieven* (‘expressive correlatives’), in which the similarity between the two expressed propositions is highlighted. Such comparative correlatives are also found in ENHG, this is illustrated by the examples in (13).

- (13) a. *Context*: A lady has given Fortunatus a wallet from which he can get an infinite amount of money. In return, she requests that Fortunatus take one day off each year in order to find a man who has a daughter but is too poor to pay her dowry. Fortunatus should give them clothes and money.
 als du heüt erfreüwet bist worden von mir so erfrew du alle
 CONJ you today delighted am became from me so delight you every
 iar ain arme iungfraw
 year a poor lady
 ‘And as you have been delighted by me today, you will delight a poor lady every year.’ (Fortunatus, 47/431)

⁶The conjunctions *als* and *so* are historically related (Vandenberghe 2006: 102–154).

- b. **So** du nun schuldig bist. **so** bist du auch schuldig vnd gepunden
 CONJ you now guilty are so are you also guilty and bound
 mir widerumb zu helffen auß meiner so grossen nott.
 me again to help out my so big need
 ‘As you are now guilty, you are also guilty and bound to help me out
 of my big need.’ (Tristrant, 54)

In (13a), the speaker does not restrict the applicability of the main predication – whether Fortunatus delights a poor lady depends on that he should give them clothes and money, not that the speaker has pleased him today. Instead, both propositions are asserted within the same realm. Again, there is a sense of frame-setting in a wider sense; the precursor grounds the following expression by highlighting the similarities to an experience familiar to Fortunatus. A similar example is presented in (13b), where the precursor introduced by *so* presents the standard of comparison and the host presents the item that is compared to this.

In a different context, whenever PV *so* occurs with a concessive clause, the precursor cannot function as a frame-setter in the narrow sense either. With concession, the proposition of the host-clause holds despite something else. As such, there is no restricted applicability. Moreover, just like with the comparative correlatives in (13a) and (13b), both propositions are claimed to hold true and are asserted. Consider the two examples (14).

- (14) a. *Context:* The narrator is describing an animal called a *forthaspinacht*, which must be feared by all animals, because it has a very sharp and sturdy hide so that it cannot be harmed by any hand weapons.
Doch so thut es niemant nichß.
 still so does it no.one nothing
 ‘Yet, it does not harm a fly.’ (Wilhelm, 261/56v)
- b. wie er jung sy **so** ist er doch werstendlich wyse mennlich vnd
 how he young be so is he still responsible wise manly and
 von großem gelucke
 of great fortune
 ‘How young he is, he is still responsible, wise, manly and of great
 fortune.’ (Pontus, 33va)

In the first example, (14a), *doch* does not function as a frame-setter, nor does the preceding main clause or any other preceding constituent: The proposition expressed by *es thut niemant nichß* ‘it doesn’t harm a fly’ holds true in any realm.

What is expressed here is that this proposition even holds true despite the expectation that has been set by the *forthaspinacht* being feared and having a hard and pointy skin. In the second example, (14b), the applicability of the main predication is likewise not contingent on the first: That he is responsible, wise, manly, and lucky does not depend on how young he is; on the contrary, it is the case despite the fact that he is young. Again, the proposition holds true despite an implication set by the preceding text. There is however one crucial difference between (14a) and (14b): While the expectation despite which the proposition holds is set by the preceding adverbial in the second example, in the first example, the expectation is set by a larger discourse segment, namely the entire preceding context. The initial adverbial *doch* specifies more precisely how the following clause connects to this larger segment. It is thus a connective instead of a frame-setting element.

When the link to the previous discourse is one of addition, as is the case in (15), the initial adverbial cannot be construed as a frame-setter in the narrow sense either. Unlike with concessives, there is no frame-shift in any sense. This additive function is only attested when PV *so* combines with a non-clausal adverbial and does not combine with constructions with adverbial clauses.

- (15) a. *Context:* Er ordinert sin schiff in das hoge mere vnd wolt nit das sie sin gewar wurden Dar vmb det er das
'He commanded his ship to the high sea and did not want that they would become aware of them. That is why he did that.'
Vort so nam er vl schyff vnd fore ans lant
further so took he 45 ship and rode to the land
'In addition, he took 45 ships and rode to land.' (Pontus, 85va)
- b. *Context:* dem küng wz aber söllichs nit vermeint. das er sein tochter seinem trucksässen solt geben.
'The king did not think any such thing, that he should give his daughter to his bailiff.'
Auch so wisset er vormalen söllicher manheyt von jm nicht.
also so knew he before such manliness of him not
'Also, he had not known him to be so brave.' (Tristrant, 29)

In (15a), the host-clause is simply asserted without any conditions or restrictions posed on the realm in which it holds. As such, *vort* does not function as a frame-shifting element. Instead, as was the case with *doch* in (14a), it connects the following predication to what has been said before. Differently, it is not an expectation set in the preceding discourse that the host-clause relates to, but the more

general state of affairs that has been established. The host-clause further builds upon this. The realm thus explicitly remains the same as in the previous context.

The same is true for the host in (15b) where *auch* is a connective element, signaling that the following predication builds upon the realm that is established before. The context here is that the king has promised to let his daughter marry the person who slays the serpent. The king's bailiff hears that the serpent has been slain, and he goes to claim the king's daughter by pretending that he was the one who completed this quest. For the reader, this is part of the common ground at this stage. The two sentences in (15b) both give the reader hope that the king sees through this deceit and does not approve the marriage. Thus *auch* so provides an additive connection at discourse-level not at story-level.

In this section it becomes clear that ADVL + *so* typically correlates with the setting of a specific frame. The frame-setting happens both in the narrow sense, with limited applicability of the host due to the predictive relation between the two propositions (Dancygier & Sweetser 2005), or in a broader sense, in which the proposition in the host is more loosely related to the background content provided by the precursor. It should be noted that this frame-setting function does not need to be realized by a preposed adverbial but can attach to other elements as well. Finally, PV *so* also follows additive adverbs, where the realm is explicitly continuous. The frame-setting remains expressly the same and such patterns do not have to involve any kind of shift.

The data suggest that PV *so* dominantly combines with adverbials that provide a local shift, being frame-setters, albeit not in a strict sense. They are thereby forward-oriented, as they pertain to their host. We also saw that PV *so* follows adverbs that mark additive relations, in which the elements in front of PV *so* are tied more strongly to the preceding discourse. As such, ADVL + *so* with *so* may be both discourse disruptive – activating a different realm for the following discourse – or cohesive – explicitly connecting what follows to what has gone before.

5 Cohesion and/or disruption?

In the previous section, it was indicated that PV *so* occurs with elements that are both discourse connective and shifting. This section further evaluates whether patterns with PV *so* are more strongly associated with cohesion or disruption, or with both to a similar degree. For this purpose, I first look at the position at which ADVL + *so* occurs in the narration: On the one hand, ADVL + *so* can be found at the beginning of chapters and at the beginning of turns of speaking that are

taken by the characters within the story. Such contexts are typically associated with a disruption of the main flow of the narration. On the other hand, it often supports larger sequences of discourse, e.g., contributes to the main argument, or progresses a narrative sequence. In these contexts, disruption is generally absent and instead a cohesive function is expected. Thereafter, the section considers the type of subjects, the length of the subjects, and the referential continuity in the host sentence in terms of cohesion and disruption. Throughout this section, a distinction between clausal and non-clausal adverbials is made as the latter may be associated with cohesion to a higher degree than the former.

5.1 In the narrative

This section considers three different contexts within the narrative in which ADVL + *so* occurs: At the beginning of chapters, at the beginning of turns, and within sequences. The first two are associated with discourse disruption, as the beginning of chapters and turns starts a new sequence. Differently, the use of ADVL + *so* within or at the end of a sequence is considered as a cohesive context.

5.1.1 Chapter initial

The first distributional property of elements associated with discourse disruption is a chapter initial position. A new beginning of a chapter, typically coincides with a shift in topic and/or location or time in which the reported events occur. Earlier research has indicated that specific elements are recruited for this function and consequently often occur at the beginning of new episodes (Brinton 1996: 42–44). If ADVL + *so* is found frequently at the beginning of chapters, it would be an indication that this is a function that may be specifically associated with the construction. Therefore, it is predicted that if ADVL + *so* does occur at the beginning of chapters, it is at the very least compatible with a disruption of the discourse.

Only those texts that use explicit chapter titles are included here. The main reason for this is that these headers provide an optical disruption in the text and function as prospective segments, summarizing that what follows. Thereby, they deliberately break up the presentation of the story and disrupt the cohesive flow. Data from the Pontus, Huge Scheppel, and Wigalois are not considered here, as they lack chapter headings in the reported editions.

The data indicate that it is very rare for ADVL + *so* to occur at the beginning of chapters: Only 1.08% of the clausal adverbials + PV *so* are found here (once in Fortunatus, Melusine, and Rollwagen, and twice in Wilhelm) and none of the

adverb + PV *so* sequences are used as the first segment of a chapter. In the rare case that it occurs, the clauses have a temporal function: Four of the five adverbial clauses have an unambiguous temporal meaning. This is illustrated in (16a). The *dieweil*-clause + PV *so* in Rollwagen is either temporal, causal, or both (16b).

- (16) a. **Wie der marschalck Wegrich den knaben mit jm fu ret gen zwingen vnd in dem k nig schanckt.**
 ‘How the marshal Wegrich leads the lad along with him to Zwingen and gives him to the king.’
 Do jm nun der marschalck wegrich zu jm in sein schif nam/
 when him now the marschal Wegrich to him in his ship took
 vnnnd zu dem gestadt des m res mit jm kommen was/ und yecz
 and to the place of the sea with him came was and now
 hinder sich sicht. *so* sicht er das (...)
 behind REFL sees *so* sees he that (...)
 When the marshal Wegrich took him to his ship and had come with him to the place of the sea and now looks behind, he sees that (...).’
 (Wilhelm, 201/9v)
- b. **Wie ein gu t frumm mann am Kochersperg einem gu ten einfaltigen ein walfart verdinget zu  Sant Veiten zu  wallen.**
 ‘How a good pious man at the Kochersberg sells a good simple man a pilgrimage to travel to Sant Veit.’
 Dieweil wir yetzund auch auff einer fart oder reiß sind, *so*
 while we now.and also on a trip or travel are *so*
 manet mich gleych ein g ter schwanck
 reminded me immediately a good tale
 ‘While we are now on a journey or a trip, I am reminded of a good tale.’ (Rollwagen, 11)

Thus, there is only evidence for temporal adverbial clauses + PV *so* to occur at the beginning of chapters. Other adverbial functions as well as adverb + *so* are unattested. How does this relate to other elements that are found in this context? For the Fortunatus (F), Melusine (M), Wilhelm (O), and Rollwagen (R), I have, in addition to the data set described in Section 3, collected the types of elements that are found in chapter initial position. The results are presented in Table 2.

In general, the majority of the chapter initial elements are references to characters of the story (48%), as exemplified in (17). These are primarily expressed by proper names or definite noun phrases in each text except R. R is a collection of short narrations each with different characters, while M, F, and O present one

Table 2: Chapter initial element

	R	M	F	O	total
character	63	37	17	19	136
whereof definite	5	24	16	16	61
temporal setting	7	27	26	36	96
other	41	4	4	3	52
whereof place	39	0	0	0	39
total	111	68	47	58	284

main story and thus contain multiple recurrent characters. For this reason, definite subjects are more likely to occur at the beginning of chapters in M, F, and O than in R.

- (17) **REÿmond** kam in diser grossen klag zû einem brunnen genant der
 Reymond came in this great mourning to a well called the
 turst brunn
 thirst well
 ‘Reymond came, in this great mourning, to a well called the thirst well.’
 (Melsune, 22)
- (18) **DA Agley den brief gelaß** schreib sy einen anderen
 when Agley the letter read wrote she an other
 ‘When Agley read the letter, she wrote another.’ (Wilhelm, 248/45r)
- (19) **Zu Bern** haben gewont zwen gût freünd mit nammen Mathias
 to Bern have lived two good friends with names Mathias
 Apiarius der ein und Hans Ypocras der ander.
 Apiarius the one and Hans Ypocras the other.
 ‘Two good friends, one named Mathias Apiarius and the other Hans
 Ypocras, lived in Bern.’ (Rollwagen, 24)

The texts differ from each other. While references to characters are the main chapter starters in R and M (37% and 54% respectively), in F and O, reference to a temporal setting is dominant (55% and 62% resp.), as illustrated in (18). This type of chapter initial element is frequent in M as well (40%) but rarely attested in R (6%), which instead more often has locative frame-setting elements, as in (19). This can again be accounted for by M, F & O being long running narratives

in which a temporally progressing story is presented, whereas R's stories only progress temporally within a chapter. As these are tales that were often read during travels, the dominant strategy of the locative grounding of stories is furthermore fitting.

The uses of PV *so* after temporal adverbial clauses at the beginning of chapters fall into a larger pattern of starting chapters by specifying the temporal setting of what follows. In this way, the realm is not merely specified for the following proposition, but it may set the stage for a segment of discourse that encompasses more events.

Despite the low frequency of adverbial clause + PV *so* at the beginning of chapters – both in comparison to other elements that occur there and to chapter internal use of the pattern – the attested examples do illustrate that temporal adverbial clauses + PV *so can* be used here. As such, the sequence temporal adverbial clause + PV *so* is likely forward-oriented and compatible with a disruption of the discourse. For other patterns, no chapter initial position is attested and hence, no such conclusions can be drawn.

5.1.2 Turn initial

The second diagnostic for a construction's discourse disruptive use is its use in turn initial position. In narrative prose, parts of the story are presented by letting the characters speak, either in monologue or dialogue. When ADVL + *so* occurs at the beginning of a turn, it coincides with a change in voice, viz. 'who speaks' (Genette 1980).

Present-Day German clause initial *so* – especially without a preceding adverbial – is known to be an action-shift marker (Burkhardt 1987, Barske & Golato 2010). It marks either new discourse moves or new (non-verbal) actions, and as such it lends itself well as a turn-entry device (Sacks et al. 1974: 719f.), that is, an element with which a discourse participant takes over the floor and starts speaking. Noteworthy is that with this use, time adverbials like *dann* may accompany PV *so* (Barske & Golato 2010: 256). Turn-taking in narrative prose of course differs from turn-taking in actual conversation in that the former is not spontaneous behavior. Features of real conversation are stylized and represented with the audience in mind (Morgan 2019: 14–17). A dialogue is merely a sketch of "the remains of a conversation that never took place" (Morgan 2019: 147). Consequently, elements that are used by speakers to negotiate who is speaking can be used to signal to readers transitions between characters that are speaking but are likely less frequently represented. If turn-taking is a use of *adverb + so* in ENHG as well, it is nevertheless expected that we find this sequence regularly at

the beginning of turns, especially when the reported speech is not mediated by other means.

In addition, the alternation between segments of reported speech and narration defines a narrative rhythm (Genette 1972, Packard 2008: 96–97). A shift from narration to direct reported speech is typically one from summary to isochrony (viz. a coincidence of the temporal progression of the narrated and narrating events), slowing down the narrative speed. Moreover, the perspective on the represented events changes: In the main narration, we are listening to the narrator speaking, but in segments of direct speech, we are listening to the voice of a character (de Jong 2004). This is another way in which the beginning of a turn may be associated with a form of disruption. It should be noted that the voice of a character was not individualized and disconnected from the narrator in the same manner we see in modern novels (see also Louvriot 2016: 178–196), but this does not speak against a shift in who speaks.⁷ For these reasons, if *adverbial* + *so* does regularly occur at the beginning of turns, it may be associated with a narrative disruption in voice and pace.

Example of turn initial adverbial clauses followed by PV *so* are illustrated in (20). In (20a), the segment of direct speech is explicitly introduced by a verbum dicendi, but the turn in (20b) is not mediated. It is quite regularly the case that there is no indication at all whether it is the character who speaks, which would lead one to expect the presence of other signals of turn-transition.

- (20) a. dann sie sprach so mein vater solchs innen wurd **so** wurd
then she spoke CONJ my father such in becomes so becomes
er vns nachuolgen
he us follow
“Then she said, “If my father notices it, he will follow us.” (Magelone, 637)
- b. Herr jch heiß Tristrant vnd bin künig marcksen schwester sun.
lord I am.called Tristrant and am king Marck’s sister son
Seyd jr her tristrant so hab jch vor malen dick von euch
are you lord Tristrant so have I before times such from you
vernommen. vil grosser frümkeyt vnd manlicher gethat.
heard many great virtues and manly deeds
“Lord, my name is Tristrant and I am king Marck’s nephew.” “If you

⁷Depending on the text, the form of the dialogue may strongly differ. For example, reported speech in Ponthus includes many long monologues with a lot of imagery, which underscore the virtues and eloquence of particular characters. In others, e.g., Tristrant, the speaker in reported speech changes more rapidly.

are Lord Tristrant, I have heard a lot about you: Many great virtues and manly deeds.” (Tristrant, 119)

Table 3 presents the distribution of turn initial position of clausal and non-clausal precursors. The data show that adverbial clause + PV *so* recurrently occurs at the beginning of turns: 17% is found in this position. Non-clausal adverbials are used less frequently than expected as turn initial elements, while clausal adverbials occur more often than expected. This difference is significant with $p < 0.001$, $\chi^2 = 34$; the primary cells that are responsible for this is “clausal – turn initial” (χ^2 -residual = 2.91) and “non-clausal – turn initial” (χ^2 -res. = -4.73). In other words, only adverbial clause + *so* is disruptive in this way.

Table 3: Turn initial element

	perc.bar	turn initial	not turn initial	total
clausal	■	111	549	660
non-clausal	■	4	235	239
total	■	115	784	899

Even if one disregards those with a vocative or affirmative/negative particle preceding the adverbial clause in the turn (e.g., *Frauwe/ja/nein*) 70 adverbial clauses and 4 non-clausal adverbials are turn initial. This difference is still significant ($p < 0.001$, $\chi^2 = 19$; χ^2 -residual = 2.23 and χ^2 -residual = -3.62).

Contra the expectation one would have from a Present-Day German perspective, non-clausal precursors are not used as a tool to signal transitions between characters that are speaking: It occurs only a few times, and even then, it is mostly clearly indicated that there is a change in who is speaking, exemplified in (21).

- (21) Do sprach Andrean morgen zu mittag so solt ir mit mir essen in
 then spoke Andrean morgen to midday so shall you with me eat in
 Jeronimus roberti hauß
 Jeronimus Roberti house
 ‘Then Andrean said: “Tomorrow afternoon you will eat with me in
 Jeronimus Roberti’s house.”’ (Fortunatus, 29/413)

What should be noted is that the majority of turn initial adverbial clauses followed by PV *so* express conditionality or causality; no prototypical example of a temporal clause are found in this position; even the conjunctions that in

other contexts often introduce temporal adverbial clauses – *dieweil* and *seid* – receive here a causal reading, as exemplified in (22).

- (22) Mein edler herr vnd freünd dieweyl jm also ist als jr anzaigt so
My noble lord and friend while him also is as you show so
rath ich (...)
advise I (...)
'My noble lord and friend, while it is to him as you show, I advise you (...).'
(Magelone, 637)

The turn initial position is not in the same way associated with a break in the discourse as a chapter initial position. Instead of a shift of temporal setting, it is more common to begin new turns opening a hypothetical realm or to re-frame previously understood information as a cause or reason for the character to want or do something. Only evidence for disruptive use of adverbial clause + *so* has been provided in this section, as was the case with chapter initial use. For non-clausal adverbials, no disruptive use has thus far been identified.

5.1.3 Within sequences

In the previous sections, evidence for adverbial clause + *so* in narrative positions that are associated with disruption was discussed. The absence of non-clausal adverbials + *so* in these contexts may suggest that it is more strongly associated with cohesion. Besides in the sequence-initial positions, ADVL + *so* is also attested within textual sequences. ADVL + *so* supports a broader communicative purpose when used in such context. As such, it is here thought to be associated with cohesion rather than disruption. I first consider the patterns with non-clausal adverbials, which are argued to occur even in absence of disruption. After this, clausal adverbials are discussed.

An example of non-clausal ADVL + *so* within a sequence is illustrated in (15a) with its additive function, which is repeated in (23) below.

- (23) *Context:* Er ordinert sin schiff in das hoge mere vnd wolt nit das sie sin
gewar wurden Dar vmb det er das
'He commanded his ship to the high sea and did not want that they
would become aware of them. That is why he did that.'
Vort so nam er vl schyff vnd fore ans lant
further so took he 45 ship and rode to.the land
'In addition, he took 45 ships and rode to land.' (Pontus, 85va)

In (23), the narrator is describing what Ponthus did. The narrator explains the motivations behind Ponthus' decision and afterwards returns to the description of Ponthus' actions, adding more information about the temporal unfolding of events. Instead of introducing a new setting, the construction with *so* explicitly links the following description to a previous one that still is being built upon. The narrative sequence is continued.

While in (23), the sequence is interrupted by the narrator commentary 'that's why he did that', such disruptions are not necessary for non-clausal ADVL + *so* to occur in otherwise cohesive contexts. This is exemplified in (24).

- (24) allso stach man zwû oder drey stund vnd **denn so** tantzet man **denn**
 thus jousted one two or three hours and then so danced one then
so aß man
 so ate one
 'They jousted like that for two or three hours. And then they danced,
 then they ate.' (Fortunatus, 95/479)

ADVL + *so* in (24) occurs without any disruptions. The function of the construction is not to return to a previously introduced topic but simply to connect the following proposition to the preceding sentence. As a whole, it is a fully cohesive, narrative sequence, in which the temporal progression of what happened at the event is presented. This example very strongly indicates that adverb + PV *so* may occur without shifts and even occurs in a context in which exactly the same sequence is used in the preceding clause.

Besides in narrative sequences, non-clausal ADVL + *so* can be used within argumentative sequences when the proposition simply supports the main argument. This is illustrated in (25), in which a character gives a lengthy answer to the king.

- (25) *Context:* The king asks Ponthus what he should do about the war against all the heathen in the country and what Ponthus would advise him to do. Ponthus answers that one does not have to fear the heathens, even though there are so many of them, because God is on our side.
 Dieser krieg berurt den Cristenglauben vnd gett an all
 this war touches the Christian.faith and gets on all
 Cristenmentschen **Dar vmb so** hoff ich das alle Cristen die da
 Christian.people there for so hope I that all Christians who there
 von vernemen vns zu hulff kommen sollen
 of hear us to help come shall
 'This war touches Christianity and concerns all Christians. Therefore I hope that all Christians who hear of this will come to help us.' (Pontus, 23ra)

The main advice that Ponthus gives to the king has yet to follow, namely *Dar vmb ratt ich das ir schribent uwer brieffe (...)* ‘Therefore I advise that you write your letters (...).’ The segment presented in (25) builds up to this, and the sentence with ADVL + *so* plays a supporting role in the argumentation. There is no shift or disruption of the cohesive flow, and *darumb* directly relates to the preceding sentence.

In the examples above, the adverbial position before PV *so* is filled by a non-clausal adverbial. Even adverbial clauses with *so* are attested as sentences continuing or concluding a sequence. Consider as an example (26).

- (26) *Context:* Fortunatus is match-making. He asks the young woman how she likes the neighbour’s son. She answers:

ich wil nit wöllen. dann wölchen mir mein vater und müter gebent
I want not want than which me my father and mother give
den wil ich haben vnd solt ich on man sterben so wil ich
that want I have and must I without man die so want I
kainen selber nemen.
none self take

‘I won’t want anyone, because whomever my father and mother give, him I want to have. And even if I have to die without a man, I do not want to take one myself.’ (Fortunatus, 72/456)

Clausal ADVL + *so*’s function in the answer of the young woman in (26) is not to return to a previously introduced topic but to further strengthen her just stated position – that she will not decide whether the neighbor’s son would make a good husband for her. This reinforcement is appropriate here, since the young woman is in fact lying; she is very much in love with the boy, and her mother knows this. To hide her inappropriate feelings, the young woman feigns her conviction and overdoes it. The clause following PV *so* continues to add to the same realm as the preceding discourse.

Unlike the previous variables, whether or not ADVL + *so* is used within a sequence depends on the level of analysis. Consider for example (27).

- (27) *Context:* Wigoleys arrives at the door of the castle, touches the golden ring and is let in. When he crosses himself and goes in, the door disappears. In its place, there is an extremely small window.
Er erschrack vnd gedacht in im selbs was will dises bedeüten **die weil**
he startled and thought in him self what will this mean the time

er also in gedencken stund so kompt ein grosser donerschlag mit
he thus in thought stood so comes a great thunderclap with
eim so lauten krach als ob die burg zu hauf fallen wolt.
a so loud crack as if the castle in heaps fall would
‘He was startled and thought “What does this mean?” While he stood in
thought, a great thunderclap came with such a loud crash as if the castle
would fall apart.’ (Wigalois, 73)

On the one hand, the temporal simultaneity of Wigoleys thinking and the sound of the thunderclap is expressed as part of one narrative sequence in which there is unity of time and place. On the other hand, the discourse moves from a representation of Wigoleys thoughts – ‘What does this mean?’ – to an event that happens independently. In other words, there is a perspective-shift. (27) may simultaneously be analyzed as being internal to a narrative sequence and as shifting the perspective, thereby serving a different communicative purpose.

In general, ADVL + *so* may occur within narrative sequences to simply temporally progress the narration, or in argumentative sequences to support a larger argument. Specifically, in structures in which a non-clausal adverbial precedes PV *so*, a shift or disruption is not necessary. Such convincing contexts are not found for *so* with clausal adverbials as shifts are present on a different level of analysis.

5.2 Subjects and referential continuity

This section considers the correlation between preposed adverbials and referential continuity, i.e., the repeated occurrence of expressions that refer to the same participant(s) (Garnham et al. 1982, Givón 1983). Two aspects are reported on: First, the realization of the subject of the host clause is investigated. This is taken as a grammatical reflection of whether or not the participant is an accessible part of the previous discourse – thereby facilitating cohesion – or not.

Second, whether the subject of the host clause is co-referential with the subject of the preceding sentence is discussed. The participant that is most crucially involved in the action sequence is most likely to be coded as the grammatical subject (Givón 1983). Furthermore, the subject of a sentence is typically topical (Givón 1983). If the two subjects of the sentences are co-referential, it can be reasonably assumed that the most central participant is kept the same and thus that we are dealing with topic continuity, as in (26). If not, there is a shift, see (27) for an example.

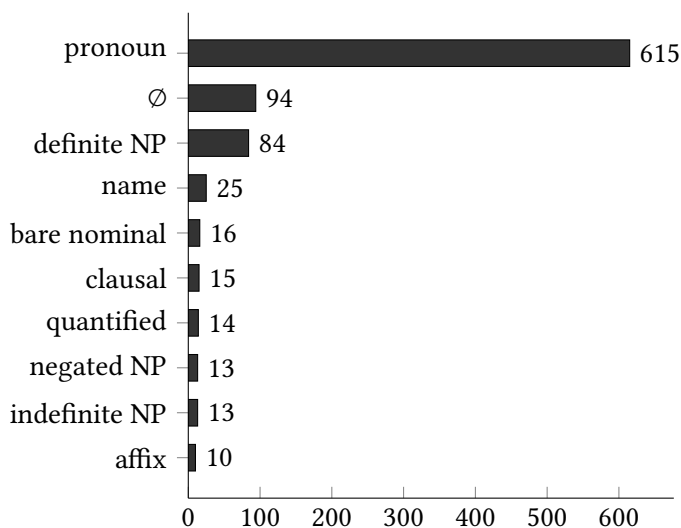


Figure 1: Subject of the host sentence

In Figure 1, the frequency of the different realizations of subjects of the host sentence are presented. By far the majority of the subjects of the hosts are pronominal and thus seem to provide given information, connecting the current expression to a participant that has been mentioned previously. This is true both for sentences with clausal preposed adverbials and sentences with non-clausal preposed adverbials. There are no striking differences between the two regarding the type of subject they co-occur with. Pronouns, zero-subjects and definite noun phrases signal accessible referents, either highly accessible ones (pronouns and zero-subjects), or referents lower on the accessibility scale (definite noun phrases) (Ariel 2004). New referents, as seen in example (27), occur relatively seldom following ADVL + *so*, which suggests that referential continuity and not referential shifts accompany the construction.

The second way in which referential continuity is operationalized is by testing whether the subject of the previous main clause is the same or different to the subject of the host sentence. This is annotated for all clauses, except for the six that occur in chapter initial position. The results are visualized in Table 4.

On average, 37% of the hosts have a subject that is co-referential with the previous main clause. For hosts that are preceded by a non-clausal adverbial, subject-continuity is found in 39% of the sentences. For constructions that have an adverbial clause as precursor, 33% show subject-continuity. This distinction between the two groups is not significant ($p = 0.14$). Overall, thus a shift in subject, as for

Table 4: Subject continuation

	perc.bar	same subject	different subject	total
clausal		253	401	654
non-clausal		79	160	239
total		332	561	893

example seen in (25) and (27), is more common than subject-continuity, (24) and (26). However, with 1/3 of the subjects being the same as in the previous main clause, it is by no means rare for ADVL + *so* to occur in contexts of referential continuity.

In the previous sections, the different signs of cohesion and/or disruption were discussed. For turn initial position, it was noted that there is a significant difference between clausal and non-clausal adverbials, with clausal adverbials occurring more than expected in a turn initial position. In positions within a sequence, non-clausal adverbial clauses seem to be more strongly associated with cohesion than disruption; they are even able to be used without any type of shift. For clausal adverbial clauses both continuation and discontinuation are present, depending on the level of analysis. For the type of subject in the host and subject continuation, however, no quantitative distinction was found between clausal and non-clausal preposed adverbials. The question rises whether there is a systematic difference between clausal and non-clausal adverbials regarding their use as a discourse cohesive and disruptive tool. This is evaluated in the following section.

6 Types of adverbials

The signs of discourse disruption discussed in the previous section are the discontinuation and newness (approximated by indefiniteness marking) of the referent expressed by the subject as well as the occurrence in chapter and turn initial position. Of these, only turn initial position was statistically differentiating between clausal and non-clausal adverbials. Signs of discourse cohesion are the use of short, pronominal subjects or zero subjects and the occurrence within a sequence. Whether something is part of a sequence is, however, problematic to systematically annotate, as this depends on the discourse level one looks at. Therefore, to evaluate the differences between clausal and non-clausal adverbials

in the ADVL + *so*-pattern, the use of the construction with *vnd* ‘and’ is taken as a signal for occurrence in a cohesive context.

- (28) a. Aber du pist selbs schuldig daran. **vnd** von deiner grossen
but you are selfs guilty there.on and from your great
vnwarheit vnd vntrew wegen **so** wirst du dein herczliebes liep
dishonesty and untrue ways so will you your beloved love
verlieren
lose
‘But you are yourself guilty of that. And because of your great
dishonesty and unfaithfulness, you will lose your beloved love.’
(Melusine, 120)
- b. Der güt gesell was geschwindt auff den füssen, lieff dem
the good companion was quick on the feet walked the
beinhauß zů, **und** als er jetzund die stiegen hinnabkumpt, **so**
ossuary to and when he now the stairs descends so
hört er den dieb nüß krachen.
hears he the thief nut crack
‘The good companion was quick on his feet, walked towards the
ossuary, and when he then descends the stairs, he hears the thief
cracking nuts.’ (Rollwagen, 56)

In both sentences in (28), *vnd* explicitly links the host to the preceding discourse. The examples show that this is possible both for ADVL + *so*-patterns with a clausal and non-clausal adverbial. However, the data show a significant difference between them. This is reflected in Table 5.

Table 5: Coordination

	perc.bar	with <i>vnd</i>	no <i>vnd</i>	total
clausal	■	172	488	660
non-clausal	■	33	206	239
total	■	205	694	899

This distinction is significant with $p < 0.001$. Specifically, non-clausal adverbials have a lower than expected frequency in contexts with coordinating *vnd* (χ^2 -residual = -2.91). This seems slightly conflicting in light of the previous results: A turn initial position is viewed as a signal for discourse disruption,

whereas co-occurrence with *vnd* ‘and’ is an explicitly cohesive tool. The results then seem to suggest that ADVL + *so* with adverbial clauses is both more and less disruptive than ADVL + *so* with non-clausal adverbials. How is this possible?

What seems to be the case is that many of the non-clausal adverbials in ADVL + *so* serve a similar function as *vnd*, since they themselves are connectives (Bloom 2024a). This is primarily the case for adverbs, while prepositional phrases, such as the one in (28), combine at least as easily with *vnd* as adverbial clauses, as can be read off from Table 6. Since these adverbs are typically connectives themselves, would the combination with PV *so* not constitute a construction in which the clause connection is redundantly marked? Probably, yes. Fabricius-Hansen (2005) concludes that connectives are redundant if the intended interpretation can be assigned to the sentence with and without the connective being present.

Table 6: Coordination

	perc.bar	with <i>vnd</i>	no <i>vnd</i>	total
adverb		19	175	194
adverbial clause		169	474	643
PP		11	16	27
other		6	29	35
total		205	694	899

In contexts like the one in (29), one may even suggest *vnd*, *darumb*, and PV *so* are all redundant. Mere juxtaposition of *Wiß vnd hab keinen zweyfel daran nit* should not change the interpretation, because the clauses are connected by *daran* and the effect-cause relation between the clauses can be inferred: It quite naturally follows that the addressee should not doubt his answer, because it was a good one.

- (29) Aber du gabest jm gar ein gütte antwurt Vnd darumb so wiß vnd
 But you gave him quite a good answer and therefore so know and
 hab keinen zweyfel daran nit
 have no doubt there.on not
 ‘But you gave him quite a good answer. And therefore, thus, know and
 don’t doubt it.’ (Melusine, 41)

This potential redundancy is not problematic. As Pijpops & Zehentner (2022) have argued, syntagmatic redundancy is widespread and highly frequent, al-

though typically only with the double marking of the same thing. Trine expression, as in (29), is considerably more rare but not unheard of. If one considers it as redundant marking, it should come as no surprise that the conjunction *vnd* is considerably less frequent in contexts in which the clause connection is already signaled by a connective adverb and PV *so*.

It should be noted that PV *so* is one of the most frequent adverbs in ENHG. In the Baumbank.UP (Demske et al. 2020),⁸ it is the most frequent one: with 2500 occurrences as adverb (AVD), compared to 2129 *auch* and 1070 *wol*, the second and third most token frequent adverbs. Moreover, in the sequence adverb-finite verb, it is likewise the most frequent type to occur as adverb, making up 16% of the instances with a lexical finite verb and 27% of those with an auxiliary.⁹ This relatively high frequency of *so* in front of a finite verb in comparison to other adverbs supports the idea that PV *so* is not the element whose occurrence should be questioned. Being the most frequent adverb in this position, it can be taken as a typical signal or flag of a construction that connects the following proposition to the previous discourse. This is also the case for sentence in which there is an additional adverb preceding PV *so*, as in (29), where the knowing is related to giving a good answer (see also Bloom 2024a). Since *so* is a highly polysemous element (e.g., Paul 2002: 918), the use of an additional connective adverb with more specific semantics – like *darumb* – would then more precisely signal the semantic relation of the following proposition to the previous.

There is thus a distinction between ADVL + *so* with adverbial clauses and prepositional phrases vs. with adverbs, in that adverb + *so* as a whole functions as a tool serving discourse cohesion, while adverbial clauses and prepositional phrases typically set a frame (in the narrow or broader sense) in which the proposition expressed in the following clause is to be interpreted.

7 Conclusion

The primary issue addressed in this paper is whether ADVL + *so* in ENHG is associated with discourse cohesion or disruption, leaving open the option that it is associated with both. Cohesion is a well-established concept (Halliday & Hasan 1976) and disruption is defined as instances in which the expected flow

⁸<https://www.uni-potsdam.de/en/guvdds/potsdam-treebank-of-early-new-high-german/corpus>, accessed via Tündera at August 1st, 2023.

⁹The queries [pos= "AVD"] . [pos = "VVFIN"] (adverb followed by a finite lexical verb) and [pos= "AVD"] . [pos = "VAFIN"] (adverb followed by a finite auxiliary) were used. The results are 648 of the 4159 sequences with a lexical verb have *so* as the adverb and 530 of the 1903 with an auxiliary.

of cohesion is interrupted. The two are thus not mutually exclusive but in fact often go hand in hand. This was hypothesized for ADVL + *so* in ENHG as well, because PV *so* functions both as an adverbial resumptive (e.g., Meklenborg 2020, Catasso 2021) and is attested in contexts where it cannot function as such, i.e., following adverbs. For a similar construction in Swedish and Norwegian, it has been proposed that it is used to indicate a topic/frame-shift (Nordström 2010, Eide 2011), which indicates disruption.

The paper first evaluates to which degree the element before PV *so*, the precursor, is prototypically a frame-setting element. Despite the fact that frame-setting in the narrow sense, i.e., where the truth value of the proposition depends on the truth value of the frame-setter, is not very prevalent, frame-setting in the broader sense, viz., where the proposition is interpreted in relation to the information provided by the frame-setter, is well attested. Yet, the presence of a precursor does not always indicate a shift, as for example when the adverbial has an additive meaning. In this regard then, ADVL + *so* is compatible both with cohesive and slightly disruptive discourse segments. This hypothesis was further explored in Section 1.

The position of the ADVL + *so*-patterns within the narratives was considered as well as its co-occurrence with referential continuity. The data indicate that temporal adverbial clauses + *so* are attested in chapter initial position. For other precursors, no evidence was found. Concerning the turn initial occurrence of the construction, the results show that clausal precursors are regularly attested here, but non-clausal ones + *so* are not. Finally, although all types of precursors are attested within sequences, the lack of a shift is more convincing for structures in which there is a non-clausal adverbial. All in all, these results suggest that there is a distinction between clausal and non-clausal adverbials, with non-clausal precursors being less associated with discourse disruption than clausal ones.

For referential continuity, the realization of the subject in the host was considered and whether it was co-referential with the subject of the preceding main clause. In the majority of the cases, the subject was pronominal, which is suggestive of a strong discourse cohesion and high accessibility of the subject referent. While the subject of the host was more often not co-referential with the subject of the preceding main clause, it was not rare for the two to be co-referential. This means that both a subject-shift and continuation are fully compatible with the pattern. In this regard, there was no significant difference to be found between clausal and non-clausal precursors. This was somewhat unexpected in light of the earlier differences between the constructions. Is there a systematic difference between clausal and non-clausal adverbials regarding their use as a discourse cohesive and disruptive tool? Section 1 addressed this issue and argues

for the affirmative. Specifically, the sequence adverb + *so* is exploited as a cohesive tool linking to the following proposition explicitly to the previous discourse, whereas constructions with adverbial clauses and prepositional phrases as precursors may be more disruptive and do not necessarily set up this link themselves. Yet, they are fully compatible with such contexts, which is why co-occurrence with a coordinating conjunction is quite widespread.

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Part IV

Verb-third and language contact: A view from the Alps

Chapter 8

V2 and V3 in Rhaeto-Romance varieties: Rethinking language contact

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The present contribution aims at re-evaluating the role of language contact in the emergence of V2 phenomena in Rhaeto-Romance varieties. Through a survey on the patterns of variation between V2 and V3 structures, the paper attempts (1) to determine the position of Rhaeto-Romance varieties within the spectrum of V2 languages devised by Cruschina & Sailor (2022), while also contextualising their development from Old Romance in accordance with Wolfe's (2019) diachronic typology, and (2) to verify whether it is possible to draw a direct correlation between higher degrees of language contact and stricter V2 constraints. If, from a general perspective, the varieties that are characterised by a closer and more prolonged contact with German (such as Swiss Romansh and the Ladin varieties of South Tyrol) generally appear to exhibit V2 more systematically, a closer scrutiny of the single varieties and their instances of micro-variation does not support the hypothesis of a direct proportionality between syntactic structures and language contact: other factors, such as information structure, appear to override the general predictions. Furthermore, as stated in Cruschina & Sailor (2022), the literature on the diachronic development of V2 has mostly been focused on the loss or preservation of V2, rather than its extension or emergence. The paper thus also takes into account examples of V2 structures that appear to be emerging among the youngest informants of the Rhaeto-Romance varieties lacking a significant exposure to German influence (namely Friulian, Fassan and Fodom). Cumulatively, these observations (1) suggest that the syntactic system of Rhaeto-Romance presents a general tendency to develop V2 (as argued by Kaiser & Hack 2013) and (2) confirm that language contact does not constitute a trigger for the emergence of V2 in Rhaeto-Romance. Rather, it can act as a catalyst for the retention or reinforcement of pre-existing features.



1 Introduction

1.1 Aim of the study

Since the publication of the monograph by Benincà & Haiman (1992), and later with the extensive work by Poletto (2000, 2002), the research concerning peculiar features of Rhaeto-Romance – given also its sociolinguistic and geographic position between Romance and Germanic – has often proven itself to be greatly beneficial for the deeper understanding of syntactical phenomena both on a synchronic and a diachronic level of analysis.

The purpose of the present contribution is to explore the issue of V2 and V3 word orders in Rhaeto-Romance varieties from a historical sociolinguistic perspective, with a specific focus on their relationship with Germanic varieties, whether Standard German or German dialects spoken in the area. Crucially, this paper does not aim at proposing a novel theory for the derivation or the representation of V2 and V3 structures in Rhaeto-Romance languages; rather, it strives at recontextualising them in light of the most recent developments in the research concerning the so-called “relaxed” and “residual” V2 languages.

1.2 Defining Rhaeto-Romance

Firstly, it is essential to understand what is meant by Rhaeto-Romance, which as a label has been varyingly applied to a number of languages and varieties throughout the history of the discipline.¹ In this paper, Rhaeto-Romance is used to refer to the following languages and their respective diatopic varieties:

- Romansh
 - Sursilvan (incl. Tuatschin)
 - Sutsilvan
 - Surmeiran
 - Engadinese (Jauer, Putèr, Vallader)
- Dolomitic Ladin
 - Gaderan (Badiot, Mareo)
 - Gardenese

¹For further discussion, see Benincà & Haiman (1992) and Salvi (2016). Varga (2009) provides an interesting study from a syntactic perspective. For a recent publication opposing the hypothesis of a cohesive Rhaeto-Romance family, see De Cia & Iubini-Hampton (2020).

- Fassan
- Fodom
- Friulian
 - Carnic
 - Western
 - Central-Eastern

While the genealogical connection between Rhaeto-Romance languages remains a matter of ongoing debate, these linguistic varieties collectively exhibit a set of – mostly conservative – features, effectively setting them apart from other Northern Italian and Gallo-Italic varieties. Conveniently, the issue is not particularly relevant for the purposes of the present study. Instead, the focal point resides in the intricate sociolinguistic and geographic context in which these varieties are spoken – regions characterised by substantial and prolonged language contact. It is also crucial to emphasise that, although official, these all constitute minority languages, with a rather limited number of speakers.

Indeed, Romansh is one of the four official languages of Switzerland (along German, French and Italian), counting approximately 60,000 speakers, mostly in the canton of Graubünden (rom. *Grischun*, fr. *Grisons*, it. *Grigioni*). Virtually all speakers are at least bilingual, with a majority of the population having German as an L2, and some cases of Italian as an L3. It should however be noted that, historically speaking, the language contact mainly involved the regional varieties of German and Italian, rather than the standard languages themselves. Contact with the Italo-Romance varieties is predictably more consistent in the southernmost part of the canton (Anderson 2016: 170).

The situation of Dolomitic Ladin² is equally interesting: Mareo, Badiot and Gardenese – collectively definable as northern varieties (Casalicchio 2020: 149) – are spoken in South Tyrol, a region characterised by a high degree of bilingualism, with a slight preponderance of the German element. On the other hand, the southern varieties Fassan and Fodom (also known as Livinallese) are, respectively, spoken in the regions of Trentino and Veneto, thus in an Italian-speaking

²Dolomitic Ladin (sometimes referred to as *Sella dialects*) constitutes the best-preserved dialect subdivision of Ladin – which, depending on the theoretical framework of the different scholars, also includes the Agordo and Cadore dialects, as well as the Anaunico group – and the one that underwent deepest investigation. In earlier studies (such as Belardi 1991 and Benincà & Haiman 1992), the group also included Ampezan, which is now often considered to be a Cadore variety (see Salvi 2016: 155).

area. The approximate number of Ladin speakers is 25,000–30,000 (Salvi 2016: 156).

Friulian constitutes the language with the highest number of speakers (as many as 600,000³). The linguistic landscape of the Friuli-Venezia Giulia region is particularly fascinating: along with Italian and German, Friulian shares a border with Slovene, which also resulted in a number of loanwords (Spinozzi Monai 2015, Frau 2015).

2 V2 and contact in Rhaeto-Romance

2.1 Areal distribution

The question concerning the possibility of contact-related effects in V2 structures in Rhaeto-Romance thus arises from the observation of their distribution across the different varieties. Indeed, V2 appears to be more systematic in those dialects that are characterised by a more consistent contact with German. Consider the following examples from Benincà & Haiman (1992: 170–174):

(1) Sursilvan

Ed aschia fa=el il patg cul nausch
and so makes=he the pact with.the devil
‘Thus, he makes the pact with the Devil.’

(2) Putèr

Eir in Grischun vains nus industrias chi prodüan auncha memma
even in Grisons have we industries that produce also too
bger tössi per l’ ajer
much poison for the air
‘Even in Grisons, we have industries that produce too much poison in the air.’

The emergence of XVS order and the avoidance of V3 is therefore described as “general” across Swiss Romansh varieties. As observed later in the present paper, there are indeed certain contexts that license V3 in Romansh dialects and, to a certain extent, their areal distribution still appears to align with the varying degree of German contact (i.e., V3 is more frequent in Engadinese than elsewhere). Indeed, the same pattern is observed in Dolomitic Ladin:

³According to the Regional Agency for the Friulian Language’s (Agjenzie Regionâl pe Lenghe Furlane) 2014 census.

- (3) Badiot
 inshö e l alkol ruve a fa pert da nosta alimentatsiun
 thus is the alcohol arrived to make part of our diet
 ‘Thus alcohol has become a part of our diet.’
- (4) Gardenese
 ilò a=l scumencià a mene na stleta vita
 there has=he begun to lead a bad life
 ‘There he began to lead a dissolute life.’
- (5) Fassan
 dapò da sera, la vaces ju n stala i se perla
 after at evening the cows down in stable they REFL talk
 ‘Afterwards, in the evening, the cattle down in the stable talk among themselves.’
- (6) Fodom
 Nte le Filippine mpruma l a mpare la lingua visaja
 in the Philippines first he has learned the language Visayan
 ‘It was in the Philippines that he first learned Visayan.’

The correlation between German or Italian influence and the presence or absence of V2 in main declarative clauses is quite apparent. Quoting directly from Benincà & Haiman (1992: 171):

The geographical distribution of this feature clearly suggests the importance of German influence: the closer to Bressanone/Brixen, the greater the influence of German; the closer to Trento, the less the influence of German.

Consistently with this view, no subject-verb inversion is found in main declarative clauses in Friulian:

- (7) Friulian
 Une sabide matine il Pari Eterno al puarte a ciase un biel
 one Saturday morning the Father Eternal he brings at home a fine
 ciavret
 kid
 ‘One Saturday morning, the Eternal Father brings home a fine kid.’

Notably, all the Friulian examples provided by Benincà & Haiman (1992: 171) feature an initial Frame Setter – a quite pervasive V3 trigger, even in so-called

“strict” V2 languages (see e.g. Greco & Haegeman 2020) –, thus providing no information about the status of orders such as Adv-Subj-V.

A swift query on the CLAAP (Center for Applied Linguistics) Friulian Corpus⁴ allows us to observe a few instances of V3 in main declarative clauses introduced by an adverb:

(8) Friulian

Imnò nissun sa che la fantate e je in cjase tò
Still nobody knows that the girl she is in house your
‘No one knows yet that the girl is in your house.’

On the other hand, compatibly with Benincà & Haiman’s (1992) description, no examples of V2 are found for adverb-introduced main declarative clauses.

The pattern is undoubtedly striking, initially leading to a quite widespread consensus concerning the relevance of German influence:

- The distribution of subject-verb inversion within Rhaeto-Romance strongly supports the hypothesis that XVS word order (whether in itself an inherited feature, as argued in Benincà 1985 and Vanelli 1984, or a later development, as suggested in Kuen 1957, Haiman 1974, and Hilty 1975) is a result of German influence (Benincà & Haiman 1992: 174).
- *Unser Phänomen tritt nur in den Gebieten auf, die stark von deutschen Mundarten geprägt wurden. [...] Aufgrund dieser Verhältnisse, insbesondere aufgrund der differenzierten Sachlage im Dolomitenladinischen, ist der Schluß zu ziehen, daß die Herausbildung dieses besonderen Systems der Inversion und der Inversionsformen im Rätoromanischen mit deutschem Einfluß in Verbindung zu bringen ist.*⁵ (Linder 1987: 95).

2.2 Against the contact shortcut

However, the nature of such influence, as well as the modalities in which it operates, constitute a matter of debate. Indeed, especially in the early history of Rhaeto-Romance studies, many syntactic traits have been far too hastily described as being triggered by contact with German and its alpine varieties. This

⁴<https://claap.org/corpus-furlan/>

⁵“Our phenomenon appears only in those areas which have been strongly influenced by German dialects.[...]. Because of these circumstances, in particular because of the complex situation in Dolomitic Ladin one has to conclude that the evolution of this particular system of inversion and inversion forms in Rhaeto-Romance should be connected to German influence.”

is for example the case of Verb+Adverb constructions attested in Ladin, which were earlier described as a form of syntactic calque on German separable verbs (Plangg 1980).

(9) Gardenese

- a. *pensé do* (lit. “think behind”) < Ger. *nach-denken*, “to reflect”;
- b. *mëter pro* (lit. “put nearby”) < Ger. *zu-setzen*, “to add”.

(10) Badiot

- a. *tó sö* (lit. “take up”) < Ger. *auf-nehmen*, “to collect, record”;
- b. *odëi ite* (lit. “see inside”) < Ger. *ein-sehen*, “to understand”.

While these constructions display an undeniable resemblance with their German counterparts and constitute a significantly productive phenomenon, they represent lexical calques rather than syntactic ones. Indeed, such verbal constructions are also commonly found in other Northern Italian dialects that are not characterised by significant contact with German and, therefore, could not borrow a syntactic structure from it.

Furthermore, syntactic interference phenomena – especially in the form of borrowings and calques – are by themselves a highly debated subject, with prominent scholars within the generative framework (such as Baker 1996 and Longobardi 2001) deeming them to be marginal at best and utterly unconceivable at worst. Less extreme views allow contact-induced syntactic changes provided a superficial correspondence of the interested syntactic structures (Bidese 2023: 191) and/or a high degree of bilingualism (Benincà 1994: 98–99; cfr. Trudgill 2016: 318).⁶

However, such bilingualism did not actually characterise the majority of the Ladin community until the latter half of the 19th century (Belardi 1991: 135–141, Benincà 1994: 99). The hypothesis of the independent emergence of these forms is therefore confirmed by the observation of diachronic data from Old Italian and Old French (Cordin 2011: 84) as well as Ladin itself, where “phrasal verbs” are already attested in documents from the 16th and 17th centuries (Belardi 1991: 283).

In essence, caution is highly required when trying to ascribe the emergence of certain features to the effect of language contact, which – while not necessarily subordinated to other sources of language change – can only be reliably

⁶See Harris & Campbell (1995: 121–150) for several examples of syntactic interference between typologically distant languages.

considered the triggering factor when no adequate internal factor can be individuated.⁷ However, contact can contribute to the preservation or the spread of such features, as later discussed in the present study.

The same principle applies to the opposite situation, as in the case of Mòcheno, a Germanic language spoken in the Trentino region. The sociolinguistic situation of Mòcheno shares multiple points of resemblance with that of several Rhaeto-Romance varieties: it constitutes a speech-island and virtually all of its speakers (about 1,300) are bilingual. Therefore, many of its properties, such as so-called *relaxed* V2 (see below), have been considered to be an effect of language contact with Standard Italian and the neighbouring North Italian varieties. However, Cognola (2015) argues that V3 – as well as other syntactic traits such as Verb-Object order – cannot be attributed to “competing grammars”, i.e. the availability for the speakers to rely on different syntactic structures from different languages within their competence, as previously stated by Rowley (2003), among others.

Instead, taking syntactic contexts and informational structures into account, the V3 phenomenon found in Mòcheno differs consistently from both German and Italian. As explicitly stated in an earlier work (Cognola 2013):

contrariamente all’ipotesi che la variazione sia il risultato della presenza di due grammatiche in competizione – una conservativa di tipo tedesco, ed una innovativa di tipo romanzo – la distribuzione dei due ordini sintattici OV/VO [è] sensibile in mocheno al tipo di frase.

‘contrary to the hypothesis that variation is the result of the presence of two competing grammars – a conservative one of the German type and an innovative one of the Italian type – the distribution of the VO/OV syntactic orders in Mòcheno is sensitive to the sentence type.’

Besides providing a valuable explanation in terms of internal grammar that can be equally applied to the issue of V2 and V3 phenomena in Rhaeto-Romance, the previous quote also offers a valuable insight from a diachronic perspective.

Indeed, it can actually be argued that German syntax is not necessarily more conservative than the Romance one. In his typology of V2, Wolfe (2019) provides a categorisation of V2 through various diachronic stages of both Germanic and Romance languages, observing that deviations from V2 are indeed more frequently attested in Early Germanic and Romance languages than in their modern counterparts (Wolfe 2019: 3). Indeed, V3 is attested as late as the 15th century in Early New High German (Speyer 2008: 481):

⁷For an in-depth discussion of the interplay between intra- and extra-linguistic factors see Far-
rar & Jones (2002).

- (11) Early New High German, ca. 1450

Dar nach die edel kunginn fuer enhalb Ofen [...] mit grossem
after that the noble queen went beyond Ofen [...] with great
kummer
concern

‘Thereafter the noble queen went, with great concern, beyond Ofen’

The construction displayed in the previous example is virtually identical to the one attested in the following Old Venetian sentence (Wolfe 2019: 11):

- (12) Old Venetian, 14th century

Unde Brat levà la man
thus Brat raised the hand
‘Brat then raised his hand’

2.3 A typology of V2

At this point, in order to avoid confusion, it is crucial to provide a brief terminological overview of V2. The most general description of the V2 property is probably the one proposed by Holmberg (2015: 375), involving two core components:

- A functional head in the left periphery attracts the finite verb.
- This functional head requires that a constituent be moved to its specifier position.

Following Wolfe (2019) I therefore assume that the left periphery is constituted by the following functional fields, as initially described by Rizzi (1997: 283):

[Frame.... [Force.... [Topic.... [Focus.... [Fin.... [TP....]]]]]

The detail that concretely sets apart the so-called strict and relaxed V2 languages is the functional head that attracts the finite verb: this is Force in the case of strict V2 (virtually all the standard Germanic languages with the exception of English) and Fin in the case of relaxed V2 (such as Old Romance and Early Germanic).⁸

⁸However, Catasso (2024) argues for the classification of Modern German as FinP V2. Within Early Germanic, Old Saxon already shows strong tendencies towards generalised V-to-Force⁰ movement as early as the 9th century (Walkden 2015: 15–29). An alternate account of strict vs. relaxed V2 based on the feature scattering hypothesis (Giorgi & Pianesi 1997) is proposed by Hsu (2017).

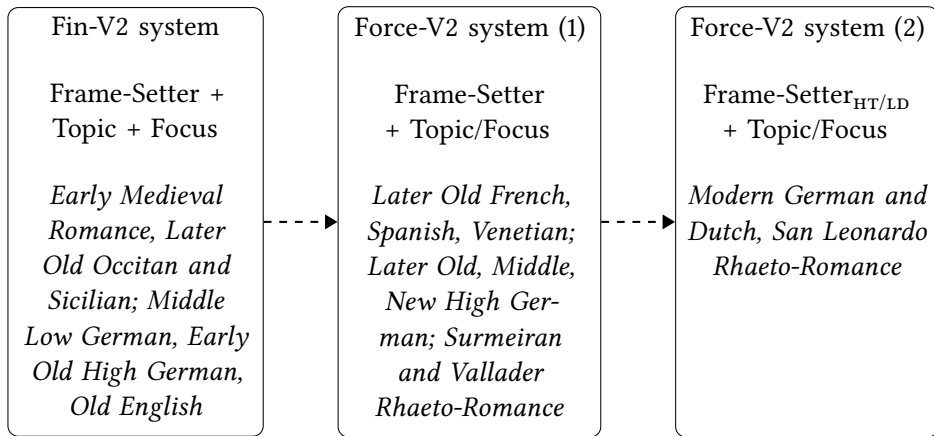


Figure 1: Types of V2 systems (Wolfe 2019: 14).

As shown in Figure 1, according to Wolfe’s (2019) typology, Rhaeto-Romance languages are classified within two subsets of strict V2. Surmeiran and Vallader are listed as type 1 Force-V2 languages in which the verb, moved to Force, can be only preceded by a Frame Setter and a topicalised or focussed element:⁹

(13) Surmeiran

La seira anturn las nov Tina sa prepara per sorteir
the evening around the nine Tina REFL prepares to go.out
‘In the evening around nine, Tina gets ready to go out.’

(14) Vallader

in quel istess mumaint il trid uorsin as transmüdet in ün bel
in this same moment the ugly bear REFL transforms in a handsome
prinz
prince
‘In this moment the ugly bear changed into a handsome prince.’

On the other hand, the Badiot dialect of San Leonardo (extensively analysed by Poletto 2000, 2002) only licenses V3 when the first of the two preverbal constituents is expressed as a Hanging Topic (HT) or via Left Dislocation (LD):

(15) Badiot (S. Leonardo)

L liber, a Giani ti l’ai bel dé
the book, to Giani it have=I already given
‘I already gave the book to John.’

⁹Notice the similarity between these two utterances and the examples in (11) and (12).

The data from S. Leonardo is therefore in contradiction with the contact hypothesis, since Romansh varieties (or at least Surmeiran) would be expected to exhibit stricter V2 constraints. As shown later, more complex and reliable data will emerge through the closer observation of the singular varieties.

For the purposes of this paper, a further difference is marked between *partial* V2 and *residual* V2, as defined in a fairly recent contribution by Cruschina & Sailor (2022):¹⁰

- A language displays a *partial* V2 system if the only clause types in which V2 emerges are non-declarative.¹¹ Although V2 is only exhibited in limited environments, its derivation still follows the rules described in Holmberg (2015) and the language is considered to be a V2 language.
- A language displays *residual* V2 if some syntactic environments display superficial V2 order as a vestige of an earlier stage when the language exhibited Full V2 (i.e. either strict or relaxed V2, see figure below). However, in this case, the derivation of the structure does not involve V-to-C movement and the subsequent movement of a constituent to its specifier position. Thus, the language is not considered to be a V2 language.

According to this framework, despite displaying a superficially analogous word order in *wh*-questions, Modern English qualifies as a partial V2 language (since it exhibits V2 in a limited set of environments), while the Modern Romance languages are considered as residual (thus non-) V2, as summarised in Figure 2.

2.4 Partial and residual V2 in Rhaeto-Romance

Once such categories have been defined, it is possible to place the different Rhaeto-Romance varieties on this spectrum according to their behaviour and to verify if a relationship between such behaviour and the degree of contact with German varieties exists. Let us start from Fassan, Fodom and Friulian which, as previously observed, display no V-to-C movement in main declarative clauses, thus not qualifying as Full-V2 languages according to the proposed terminology.

Munaro (2011: 180–182) proves quite convincingly that the subject (clitic)-verb inversion attested in Central-Eastern Friulian in a rather wide set of non-declarative clauses – mostly connoted by an attitude of uncertainty or disbelief regarding the content of the proposition (see also Poletto 2000) – is expressed through

¹⁰Notice that this typology may differ greatly from previous accounts relying on the same or similar labels (e.g. Rizzi 1996 or Klævik-Pettersen 2022).

¹¹By the authors' own admission, the "non-declarative" label requires further refinement, since English also exhibits V2 in a limited set of declarative clauses (see Sailor 2020: 127).

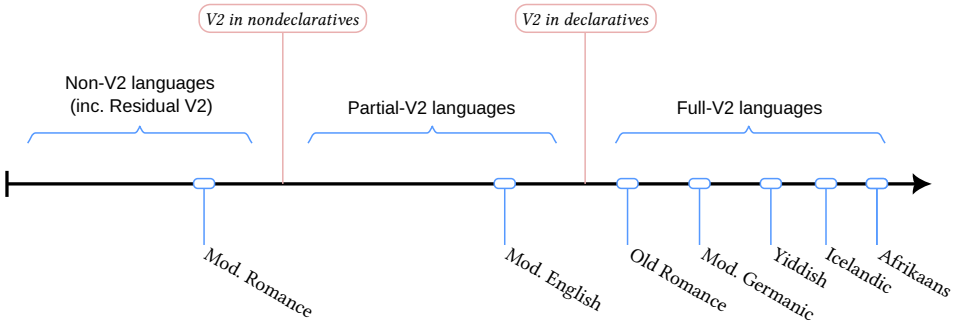


Figure 2: V2 Spectrum (Adapted from Cruschina & Sailor 2022).

the raising of the inflected verb to a functional head in the C-layer. Consider the following examples:

(16) Central Friulian

- a. ce mi toci=al di vjodi!
what me-obj.cl touches=it of see
'What am I forced to see!'
- b. ti vess=jo dit la veretât!
you-obj.cl. had=I told the truth
'Had I only told you the truth!'
- c. vinisi=al tjo pari, o podaresin là
came=he your father, we could go
'If your father came, we could go.'

If Munaro's observation is correct, then Friulian (or at least its Central-Eastern variety) does indeed satisfy the first requirement for V2. However, the second requirement – i.e. the attraction of a constituent to the specifier position of this functional head – only appears to be overtly satisfied in (16.a). A V2 analysis for the latter examples is possible under the assumption – shared e.g. by Haegeman (1995: 98–99) and Grosz (2012: 254) and included in Wolfe's (2019: 20) typology – of a covert operator serving as XP1 in non-declarative clauses such as optatives/exclamatives (16.b) and conditionals (16.c). Thus, superficial V1 orders are analysed as having an underlying V2 structure:

- b. [OP]_{XP1} ti vess=jo _{V2} dit la veretât!
- c. [OP]_{XP1} vinisi=al _{V2} tjo pari [...]

From this perspective, Friulian can therefore be considered a partial V2 language within Cruschina & Sailor's (2022) framework.¹²

Despite being based on the same stimuli as (16), the currently available data for Fassan – retrieved from the ATHEME Verona-Trento Corpus (Tomaselli et al. 2022) – are unfortunately elusive to a direct comparison. That is because Fassan features an incomplete subject clitic paradigm (Hack 2012: 47) and subjects lacking a clitic form can be omitted, while 3rd person clitics (both singular and plural) are only obligatory in the absence of an overt subject (Salvi 2016: 164).¹³ Furthermore, the 1st person plural enclitic subject *-e* is phonetically identical to the verb ending in (17c).

(17) Fassan

- a. Che che me tocia veder!
What COMP me-obj.cl touches see
'What am I forced to see!'
- b. Te aesse dit la verità!
you-obj.cl. had.1.SING told the truth
'Had I only told you the truth!'
- c. Se ruasse to pare podassane partir
If came.3.SING your father could.1.PL. go
'If your father came, we could go.'

As anticipated in Section 2.1, the standard literature (Benincà & Haiman 1992: 171, Salvi 2016: 164) does not account for XVS orders in Fassan and Fodom. Compatibly with these descriptions, no such orders are attested for sentences introduced by conditional (map 101) or concessive (map 301 and 511) clauses on the ALD-II (Dolomitic Ladin Atlas, Goebel et al. 2012) either. The *wh*-COMP sequence displayed in (17a) is traditionally described as being limited to the Brach and Cazet varieties of Fassan, where it is also found in partial interrogatives as an alternative to the more conservative *wh*-V-S.cl. order. This feature, as well as other instances of SV orders in interrogative clauses, has been interpreted by Hack (2012: 183) as evidence of the highly residual V2 status of Brach and Cazet.

¹²Arguably, such requirements are also satisfied by several Venetan dialects, displaying verb raising in progressively smaller subsets of the environments (Munaro 2011: 187). This once again suggests that researchers ought to be extraordinarily careful before ascribing syntactic phenomena to the effect of German influence.

¹³Salvi (2016: 164) actually states that 3rd person clitics are obligatory in the absence of preverbal subjects. However, in main declaratives with a fronted object, subject clitic omission is preferred by 2/3 informants in the corpus, as in *el caffè lounch no lo tol so fra, ma so mare*.

On the other hand, in the same contexts, Moenat – the remaining Fassan variety – displays obligatory Subject-Verb inversion and is thus considered to feature a stricter V2 propriety.¹⁴

Despite the limited sample, an informal survey conducted on seven Fassan speakers produced interesting results. The task consisted in the translation of the same stimuli provided in Italian. Firstly, the two Moenat participants (both between 30 and 40 years of age) translated the sentence as “*Che che me tocia veder!*”, thus producing the wh-COMP sequence that was unattested in Moenat at the time of Hack’s (2012) account. It is thus possible that the phenomenon is currently spreading into Moenat as well, or has done so over the course of the last decade. Secondly – and more relevantly to the purposes of this paper – two informants (60 and 44 years old, respectively from Vigo di Fassa and Campitello) produced V-S.cl. order, as in “*Che me tochel veder!*”. Further investigations featuring a larger sample and including purposefully devised stimuli (in order to avoid ambiguous responses) will certainly provide valuable insight into the more recent developments of Fassan.

Fodom and Fassan display identical strategies for the formation of the (pseudo-interrogative) exclamative (18a) and conditional (18b). Similarly to Fassan, the inverted order in (18b) constitutes an unexpected result, which is also completely unattested on the ALD-II (informants born between 1919 and 1953). Subject clitic inversion was exclusively produced by the youngest of the two Fodom speakers in the ATHEME Verona-Trento Corpus (respectively born in 1989 and 1964). The same speaker also reformulated the conditional in (18c) as a desiderative: “*ruasse-lo pur to pere!*”, once again displaying V-S.cl. inversion.

(18) Fodom

- a. Ci che me toca vedei!
 What COMP me-obj.cl touches see
 ‘What am I forced to see!’
- b. T’ es-io pur dit la verité!
 you-obj.cl. had-1.SING even told the truth
 ‘Had I only told you the truth!’
- c. Se vegnisse to pere podonsa parti
 If came.3.SING your father could.1.PL. go
 ‘If your father came, we could go.’

¹⁴The fact that it is precisely the variety of Moena, that in closest contact with Italian and non-Ladin dialects, to have retained a more conservative word order in these contexts has been explained by Hack (2012: 234) in terms of *Überentäußerung* (over-renunciation), i.e. an higher resistance to language interference on the very edges of the bordering areas.

Although the unquestionable scarcity of data hinders the possibility of making broader statements, the pattern is undoubtedly striking. The traditional accounts for Fassan and Fodom as residual V2 varieties apply to virtually all the speakers born until the late 50's, while younger speakers manifest a stronger tendency towards V2. However, without a larger sample of speakers from both areas and without further data concerning non-declarative clauses (or other environments) featuring obligatory subjects in Fassan, it is currently impossible to determine whether Fassan and Fodom could represent a partial V2 variety as it has been proposed for Friulian. If further findings were to confirm these tendencies towards the extension of V2 orders, that would bear significant implications both for the contact hypothesis (since the areas are not characterised by contact with German) and the V2 typology of Rhaeto-Romance as a whole.

2.5 V3 in strict-V2 Rhaeto-Romance varieties

2.5.1 Romansh

Having discussed the status of the Rhaeto-Romance varieties on the left-end of the V2 spectrum, let us now consider the instances of V3 and their contexts in the varieties with a higher degree of contact with German.

The data found in Romansh seems to, at least partially, counter the assumption of a proportional adherence to German syntax. V3 of the kind S-Adv-V appears to be only attested in Sursilvan (19) – the Romansh variety in closest contact with German – but ungrammatical in Surmeiran (20):

- (19) Sursilvan (Samo 2019: 10)
 Jeu bunamein sedurmentel
 I almost fell.asleep
 'I almost fell asleep'
- (20) Surmeiran (Anderson 2016: 14)
 el saleida curtaschevlamaintg igl plevant
 he greets courteously the minister
 'He greets the minister courteously.'

On the other hand, Surmeiran differs from the other varieties by lacking inversion of the element *ins* (< lat. UNUS) used for impersonal constructions, even in interrogatives. Notice the absence of inversion with *ins*, as opposed with the second *igl* ("they") in the following sentence (Anderson 2016: 23):

- (21) Surmeiran
Ainten chell'ustareia ins na magl igl betg schi bagn, on igl detg.
Inside that=inn one not eat it not so well, have they said
'They said one does not eat too well in that inn.'

As opposed to Sursilvan and Putèr (*ün* is the impersonal pronoun in the latter):

- (22) Sursilvan
Nua en ins cun la lavur? Alla fin en ins mai.
Where is one with the work? At.the end is one never
'At what point are we with the work? We're never done.'
- (23) Putèr
Passand tres il desert chatta ün qualchevoutas skeletons.
Passing across the desert finds one sometimes skeletons
'Walking across the desert, you may sometimes find skeletons.'

Anderson (2006: 19–20) thus argues that Surmeiran *ins* does not occupy subject position, rather it behaves like a preverbal clitic, similarly to the reflexive impersonal constructions found in Italian and Spanish.¹⁵ This statements bears considerable implications about the V2 status of Surmeiran as a whole, since “non-inverted” impersonal declaratives as in (24) would then license a V1 structure, which ultimately leads Anderson to deny a V2 grammar for Surmeiran.

- (24) Surmeiran
Ins na pò betg eir quant spert tg'ins vot sen las autostradas
one NEG can.3SG not go as fast that=one wants on the freeways
svizras
Swiss
'You can't go however fast as you want on the Swiss freeways'

¹⁵A peculiar aspect of the divergent behaviour of Surmeiran is that, while some speakers do accept inversion with *ins*, the resulting sentence is perceived as “sounding like German” (Anderson 2016: 24). This is further proof that in multilingual environments, even if a structure is featured (and potentially acceptable) in the speaker's competence, the supposed presence of “competing” grammars does not necessarily have to result in the adherence with the structures of the *Dachsprache*. On the contrary, the speakers may – more or less consciously – display forms of hyperdialectalism, favouring features that emphasise the differences between the two languages. The phenomenon is well attested and analysed in the field of Scandinavian dialectology, where it is known as *naboopposisjon* (neighbour opposition). For an overview see Jahr (2017).

To this respect, it is legitimate to object that verb-initial orders are well attested both in Old Romance (Wolfe 2015) and Early Germanic (Hinterhölzl & Petrova 2010). Furthermore, V1 is attested in impersonal clauses even in rather strict V2 languages such as Icelandic.

While not directly involving verb-subject orders, the next few examples allow for some relevant observations concerning the diachronic development of Romansh in relation to its contact with German.

Sursilvan differs from the rest of Rhaeto-Romance by lacking clitic pronouns (Benincà & Haiman 1992: 125), that were otherwise present in Old Sursilvan at least until 1718:

- (25) Vallader (*La Soncha Scrittüra*, 1953)

Tü m'hast clamà
you me=have called
'You have called me.'

- (26) Sursilvan (*Vegl Testament*, 1967)

Ti has clamaui mei
You have called me
'You have called me.'

- (27) Sursilvan (*Bibla da Cuera*, 1718)

Ti mi=has clumau
you me=have called
'You have called me.'

The loss of clitics in Sursilvan has been mentioned as a suitable example of German influence (Ascoli 1883, Stimm 1973). However, cross-linguistic observation suggests that such development can also be triggered by language-internal factors: Brazilian Portuguese, in contrast to its European counterpart, is indeed undergoing loss of object clitics.¹⁶ The diverging developments of European and Brazilian Portuguese, which by themselves do not appear to be motivated by language contact in general, are clearly not motivated by contact with a Germanic language (Kaiser & Hack 2013: 92–93).

The syntax of Tuatschin (a Sursilvan variety spoken by around 900 people) is extensively described in Mauer-Cecchini's (2021) grammar. According to his account, the V2 system of Tuatschin appears to be rather strict and quite comparable to German. However, when presenting one single instance of V>2, the

¹⁶Second person objects are systematically expressed with non-clitic object pronouns. The shift also applies to third person objects in colloquial Brazilian Portuguese (Duarte 2000).

author states that if “a subject which would normally be inverted is focalised, it may occur preverbally” (Mauer-Cecchini 2021: 225):

(28) Tuatschin

[A lur scha'l vès ussa pagljau in grép tga vès pudju bétar èl]
[and then if=it had now hit a rock that had could throw it]
[scha]quèls fissan grat schulaj gjù ajl'aua
[then] these would immediately fall down into=water
'And then if it [the load] hit a rock that could have thrown it down, these
[the mules] would have immediately fallen into the water.'

According to the available literature, Tuatschin quite uncontroversially qualifies as a strict V2 variety. Kaiser (2002: 328) argues that such structures (also found in different diachronic stages of Sursilvan and Engadinese) are analogous to forms of *wenn...dann* dislocation found in German, where a whole subordinate clause is displaced and the adverbial coreferent “*scha*” appears as the first constituent in the main clause. V3 orders introduced by a resumptive element are well attested in contemporary colloquial German (Wiese & Müller 2018).

Finally, instances of a Frame Setter being followed by the subject and the verb are found in both the main Engadinese varieties (Samo 2019: 152). With temporal Frame Setters (29b, 30b), Vallader differs from Putèr by only allowing V3 via subject focalisation:

(29) Vallader (Oetzel 1994: 157–159)

- a. Prö üna chasa da vaschins üna merla ha fat seis gnieu
On a house of neighbours a blackbird has made her nest
'On one of the houses of the neighbours, a black bird made its nest.'
- b. Fin a quel di ingün nu'm vaiva mai dit il
Until to that day nobody NEG.ME=OBJ.CL had never said the
cuntrari
opposite
'Until that day, nobody told me the opposite.'

(30) Putèr (Oetzel 1994: 161)

- a. Nodvart l'alp Givannes evra a la fin la buocha
This.side.of the=alps Givannes opened finally the mouth
'Once on this side of Alps, Givannes finally started talking.'
- b. Uossa Ciglia la clama
Now Ciglia her=calls
'Now Ciglia calls her.'

Table 1: Deviations from V2 in Romansh varieties.

	S-Adv-V	Impersonal V1	Frame-S-V	PP-S-V
Sursilvan	+	–	– ^(a)	–
Sutsilvan	–	–	–	–
Surmeiran	–	+	–	–
Vallader	–	–	+/- ^b	–
Putèr	–	–	+	+

^aExcept for constructions with a resumptive element and a focused subject in Tuatschin (27).

^bOnly via subject topicalisation with a temporal Frame Setter.

Furthermore, Putèr distinguishes itself from the other Romansh varieties by allowing a topicalised PP to precede the subject (focused or otherwise) and the inflected verb:

(31) Putèr

- a. a Ludwig ils ögls haun cumanzo a glüschir
to Ludwig the eyes have started to glow
‘Ludwig’s eyes started glowing.’¹⁷
- b. ma da que üngün nu s’ho inachüert ünguotta
but of that nobody NEG REFL=have noticed nothing
‘But no one noticed anything about that.’

Through this overview of Romansh varieties, some preliminary conclusions can be drawn. While, on a macroscopic level, the different degrees of adherence to XVS point towards a correlation with the neighbouring languages, deeper investigations and the observation of microvariation prove that further factors that can disrupt such a linear analysis are at play. Table 1 provides an overview of the contexts that deviate from V2 in the different Romansh varieties. While it is still possible to place the different varieties on a spectrum according to their contact with German or Italian, some phenomena elude this interpretation.

Firstly, independent developments within the singular varieties can bring to deviations even in those that appear to have a stricter V2 systems, as in the case

¹⁷At first glance, one might interpret the initial PP as expressing a possessive relation within a complex DP ([a Ludwig [ils ögls]]). However, the PP denotes a contrastive topic, a more fitting translation might be “as for Ludwig, his eyes started to glow”.

of S-Adv-V orders in Sursilvan (19) and verb-initial impersonal declaratives in Surmeiran (24). Secondly, although V3 in Engadinese varieties seems to be proportional with their distance to Italian, its licensing is also strongly affected by factors as informational structure and the type of the fronted constituent. Thus the observed data hinders the complete acceptance of Kaiser's (2002: 330) claim that:

Die regelmäßigen Abweichungen von der Verb-Zweit-Stellung beschränken sich im Bündnerromanischen weitgehend auf Dislokationsstrukturen und auf Kontexte, in denen durch die Versform die syntaktischen Stellungenregeln gelockert sind. Im Alt- und Mittelfranzösischen hingegen sind Abweichungen von der Verb-Zweit-Stellung nicht auf solche Kontexte beschränkt.

'The regular deviations from the verb-second position in Romansh are largely limited to dislocation structures and to contexts in which the syntactic position rules are relaxed by the verse form. In Old and Middle French, on the other hand, deviations from the verb-second position are not limited to such contexts.'

It should be mentioned that Kaiser's study is solely based on biblical material, thus no reliable comparative analysis between verse and prose is provided. Indeed, many of the V3 structures analysed by Kaiser are found in the spoken language as well, such as examples (29–31). Some further critique of Kaiser's method and claims will be presented in the conclusions.

Finally, the fact that loss of object clitics in Sursilvan can be determined by language-internal factors (as suggested by the analogous phenomenon in Portuguese), contrasts Oetzel's (1994: 169) statement that without the assumption of contact phenomena "there is no other way to explain why in Sursilvan and Sursilvan – two idioms that have less contact with Italian – the VS serialisation is observed more consistently than in Engadinese".¹⁸

2.5.2 Ladin

After providing such an overview of the Romansh varieties, it is now possible to move forward with the analysis of variation within (northern) Dolomitic Ladin.

¹⁸ Anders ist nicht zu erklären, weshalb im S und Ss – zwei Idiomen, die weniger Kontakt mit dem Italienischen haben – die VS-Serialisierung konsequenter beachtet wird als im Engadinischen" Notice, however, that Oetzel is assuming a strict V2 as the starting point for Romansh in general and attributing the deviations from V2 found in Engadinese to Italian influence.

The following examples are primarily excerpted from Casalicchio & Cognola's (2018) survey on micro-variation within Ladin varieties.

The first example of V3 is represented by a Frame setter followed by a focalised subject, as produced by a Gardenese speaker:

(32) Gardenese

Te butëiga mami à for cumprà la farina
in shop mum has always bought the flour
'It was always mum who bought the flour in the shop.'

Although this construction is commonly accepted, V2 still constitutes the preferred alternative among Badiot speakers and the only acceptable one for the Mareo informant, contrarily to predictions based on the degree of contact with German:

(33) Badiot

Te botëga à tres la mama cumprè la farina
in shop has always the mum bought the flour
'In the shop, mum has always bought the flour.'

As observed for the Engadinese varieties, a significant role is played by the informational structure of the utterance. Indeed, V3 is the preferred option when the subject is not focalised:

(34) Badiot

Inier Maria à cumprè i soni
yesterday Maria has bought the potatoes
'Yesterday Maria bought the potatoes.'

The following construction – consisting of a fronted object and a focused subject – results in V2 being accepted by the Mareo speaker and one of the Badiot informants interviewed in Casalicchio & Cognola's survey. However, although accepted, V2 is not spontaneously produced by any of the speakers.¹⁹ Indeed, the two main structures produced either consist of a Left Dislocation (as also found in Italian) (36) or no inversion at all (35).

¹⁹Regrettably, the Mareo speaker did not complete this task and incorrectly translated the sentence contained in the following task. While their acceptance of V2 and the absence of a spontaneously produced alternative suggests their preference for V2 in a context featuring a fronted object and a focused subject, no comparable inference can be brought forward for an analogous context without focus on the subject.

- (35) Badiot
 La lëtra al foliet la uma ti à scrit
 the letter to.the newspaper the mum it.OBJ.CL has written
 ‘It was mom who wrote the letter to the newspaper.’
- (36) Gardenese
 La lëtra tla zaita l’ à scritta la l’oma
 the letter to.the newspaper OBJ.CL has written the mum
 ‘It was mom who wrote the letter to the newspaper.’

V2 was produced by one of the Badiot informants when presented a sentence with a fronted object and no focalised subject. Similarly to the previous context, the rest of the Badiot speakers tend to produce a structure without inversion, while the Gardenese speakers produce a LD resembling Italian:

- (37) Badiot
 Le liber la uma l’à cumprè inier
 the book the mum it=has bought yesterday
 ‘Mom bought the book yesterday.’
- (38) Gardenese
 L liber l à cumprà la l’oma inier
 the book it=has bought the mum yesterday
 ‘Mom bought the book yesterday.’

The provided results are summarised in Table 2.

Table 2: V3 licensing in the northern Ladin varieties

	Frame _{-Foc} Subj-V	Frame-Subj-V	Front _{Obj-Foc} Subj-V	Front _{Obj-Subj-V}
Mareo	–	–	?	?
Badiotto	+/- (V2 preferred)	+	+	+
Gardenese	+	+	+	+

3 Final remarks: Rethinking contact

As previously mentioned, while – on a macroscopic level – the distribution of V2 and V3 orders within Dolomitic Ladin seems to point to the effect of contact either with German or Italian, the closer observation of instances of variation among speakers of the same variety highlights how the alternation between V2 and V3 is also related to the informational structure of the utterance and to sociolinguistic factors. These observations, along with the description of (1) deviations from V2 in the Romansh varieties and the language-internal factors that drove their development and (2) previously unattested V2 orders in Fassan and Fodom, lead us to reconsider and redefine the role of language contact in the emergence or retention of V2 in Rhaeto-Romance.

As stated in Cruschina & Sailor (2022: 18), the scholarship on the diachronic development of V2, especially in the Romance area, has mostly been focused on the *loss* or *preservation* of V2, rather than its *extension*. This perspective justifies Kaiser's (2002: 331) claim that Romansh V2 cannot be interpreted as the preservation of an earlier Old Romance stage (represented by Old French).²⁰ While this point is perfectly solid, there are some methodological aspects that might benefit from reconsideration.

Kaiser (2002) proposes a comparison between the changes in frequency of XVS orders in the different diachronic stages of French and Romansh (in particular Sursilvan), observing a considerably higher frequency both in Modern and Old Romansh when compared to Old French, thus excluding the hypothesis of V2 preservation. However, it is crucial to highlight that – given that the first written attestations of Romansh are rather recent – the label “Old” Sursilvan is used to describe the language contained in the Bible translation of 1718, while the Old French translation consulted by Kaiser dates back to the 12th century. The frequency of XVS in Old Sursilvan is actually quite comparable to the 1494 Middle French translation (22.8% vs. 26.8%).

Applying a diachronic-typological perspective such as that proposed by Wolfe (2019), the assumption that both French and Romansh syntax developed from an Old Romance type, characterised by a relaxed V2 system, appears perfectly plausible. Such a system would then evolve in different directions: one characterised by the progressive loss of V2 (as in most Romance languages), the other by its expansion as in the case of Romansh and other Rhaeto-Romance varieties. Crucially, French had initially undergone a similar expansion of V2 (Later Old French

²⁰“Dies führt zu der Schlussfolgerung, dass die im Bünderromanischen existierende Verb-Zweit-Stellung nicht als ein “Überbleibsel” einer erb-Zweit-Stellungseigenschaft angesehen werden kann, die ursprünglich in den romanischen Sprachen allgemeine Gültigkeit gehabt haben soll.”

is in fact mentioned as a type1 Force-V2 system in Wolfe's typology, cfr. fig.1). Unlike the rest of Romance, a more precise chronological subdivision of the process in Rhaeto-Romance is unfortunately hindered by the late date of the first written attestations.²¹

The contact with German and its regional varieties, which were undergoing (or had already undergone) a similar development of V2 strengthening (as observed in Speyer (2008)), therefore contributed to its expansion in Rhaeto-Romance varieties, rather than triggering it. Thus, rather than Germanic influence, it would be appropriate to define the process as *contact-induced grammatical reinforcement*, i.e. the further spread of shared syntactic traits that were already independently developing in both language groups because of their similar starting syntactical proprieties.

An analogous process is described by Cordin (2011: 84–85) regarding the aforementioned topic of Verb+Adverb constructions. Contact with German did not cause the emergence of the construction in Romance varieties, rather it “attracted the phenomenon to the other end of the [grammaticalisation] spectrum”. Furthermore, contact-induced grammatical reinforcement is not limited to the domain of syntax but has been observed in other levels of analysis, such as morphology. Trudgill (2016: 322–323) shows that the Old English two-copula system (*wesan-beon*) reflected a semantic nuance – distinguishing habitual vs. non-habitual “to be” – identical to that found in Celtic. The contact between West Germanic and Celtic languages, coupled with the presence of this shared lexical and semantic trait, contributed to the preservation of the two copula stems, ultimately resulting in the suppletive inflection of the verb “to be” in present-day West Germanic.

In conclusion, V2 in Rhaeto-Romance varieties is far from a cohesive phenomenon, and not one that can be swiftly accounted for as a form of syntactic Germanism. While the presented data is compatible with an hypothesis of contact-induced grammatical reinforcement, resulting in the development of a strict V2 system in areas characterised by a high degree of Romance-German bilingualism (especially in the last three centuries), a more insightful analysis of the diatopic, sociolinguistic, discourse-related and speaker-internal variation that results in deviations from V2 confirms that the phenomenon arose independently in the different languages (possibly as a common development from a SOV order attested both in Latin and Early Germanic). Additionally, the new attestations of

²¹It is however interesting to notice that, according to Kaiser's (2002: 325) investigation, the strengthening of V2 in Sursilvan appears to be a rather recent development, since the percentage of XVS orders almost doubled between 1718 and 1967. While, by itself, this detail provides no sufficient chronological evidence, it does not clash with other observations concerning the timeline of contact with German and its supposed effect, as later discussed.

seemingly V2 orders in Rhaeto-Romance varieties that are not characterised by an equally strong and lasting contact with German varieties (such as Fassan and Fodom) could serve as a further proof of a general tendency of Rhaeto-Romance to develop a V2 system, as assumed in Kaiser & Hack (2013):

strong contact with German has caused the emergence of a strong V2 order in Swiss Romansh in a situation where a tendency to develop such a word order already existed before.

Thus, further research on micro-variation within Rhaeto-Romance will undoubtedly provide valuable insight on the validity of contact-related hypotheses and the syntactic environments in which they can operate.

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Chapter 9

Deriving CP-expansion in the German enclave varieties across Northeast Italy: Cracks in the bottleneck?

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This paper compares and analyzes V2-related phenomena in the German-speaking varieties in North-Eastern Italy, particularly the expansion of the C-domain (violation of linear-V2) and the progressive specialization of its projections. Even though accounting for a split-CP configuration à la Rizzi (1997), we argue that CP-expansion in these German(ic) varieties differs substantially from the split-CP configuration typical of Romance languages. For this reason, the bottleneck effect fails to systematize the variation phenomena within these varieties, while the Feature-Scattering Hypothesis (Giorgi & Pianesi 1997, Hsu 2017) works better in catching intra/inter-linguistic differences. Moreover, the different degrees of expansion of the C-domain highlight two lines of variation: the West-to-East line represents the most conservative one; the North-to-South one shows a higher degree of variation. With this categorization, also supported through the analysis of the diachronic development of Cimbrian, we provide further confirmation that the geographical distribution of these varieties (i.e. the distance from the German core as well as the higher immersion in the Romance one) drastically influences the variation phenomena linked to the structural-V2 and OV/VO typology.



1 Introduction

Since den Besten's (1983) seminal work on continental West Germanic, this specific set of languages (e.g. German, Dutch) has been characterized by the well-known V2 phenomenon, which corresponds to the mandatory movement of the finite verb (henceforth: Vf) from its base position to the Head of the Complementizer Phrase (C^0) in the main sentence (V-to-C movement). Such structural movement involves the V2 (or linear) restriction, which is clarified by the following examples for standard German:

- (1) a. Ich **gehe** morgen einkaufen.
 1SG.NOM go tomorrow shop.INF
 b. Morgen **gehe** ich einkaufen.
 Tomorrow go 1SG.NOM shop.INF
 c. * Morgen ich **gehe** einkaufen.
 Tomorrow 1SG.NOM go shop.INF
 'I'm going shopping tomorrow.'

As (1a) and (1b) clearly show, when Vf moves to C^0 , only one element can be found in the left periphery (i.e. in SpecCP), whether the sentence is subject-initial or not. The poly-occupation of this slot violates the V2-restriction, resulting in an ill-formed sentence, as in (1c).

Solid evidence for C^0 as the target position for finite V-to-C movement is the complementary distribution between V2 and the lexical complementizer: in (standard) German subordinate clause introduced by an overt complementizer (e.g. *dass*-sentences), Vf appears clause-finally (2b), while in complementizer-less sentences (= COMP-deletion) a verb-second order mandatorily appears (2a). The co-occurrence of an overt complementizer with V2 is generally ruled out, as in (2c):

- (2) (from Vikner 1995: 66)
- a. Er sagt, diesen Film **haben** die Kinder
 3SG.M.NOM says DEF.M.ACC Film have DEF.PL.NOM children
 gesehen.
 seen
 b. Er sagt, dass diesen Film die Kinder **gesehen**
 3SG.M.NOM says that DEF.M.ACC Film DEF.PL.NOM children seen
haben.
 have

- c. * Er sagt, dass diesen Film **haben** die Kinder
 3SG.M.NOM says that DEF.M.ACC Film have DEF.PL.NOM children
 gesehen;
 seen
 ‘He says that the children saw/have seen the movie.’

V-to-C movement in root sentences plus only one element allowed to the left of Vf represents the traditional correlation of V2 (but see Holmberg 2015 for a detailed analysis).

This specific restriction seems to represent a strong challenge to the hypothesis of an expanded C-layer, as postulated within the cartographic approach. Since Rizzi (1997), a split-CP configuration, i.e. a Complementizer Domain fragmented into multiple independent functional projections, has been adopted for Romance Languages to explain semantic and information-oriented features, as represented in (3):

- (3) ForceP > TopicP > FocusP > TopicP* > FinP > IP/TP...¹

Interestingly, German left periphery also clearly interrelates with information structure, even if limited to one constituent. As a matter of fact, object-fronting is allowed independently from its status within the information structure (either topic or focus) and restrictions occur only for elements that cannot be topicalized, such as indeterminate objects (see 4c) (Fanselow 2004, Mohr 2009, Jouitteau 2010):²

- (4) (from Mohr 2009)
- a. Einen MINISTER **hat** die Presse schon lange kritisiert, aber
 INDEF.ACC MINISTER has the press already long criticized but
 nicht den Kanzler
 not DEF.ACC chancellor
 ‘The press has long criticized a MINISTER, not the chancellor’

¹In the configuration from Benincà & Poletto (2000) TopicP is higher than FocusP, while the lower TopicP from the Rizzian model is assumed to be an extension of FocusP (Benincà & Poletto 2000) and the structure is: ForceP > TopicP > FocusP > FinP > IP/TP...

²Even if object fronting in German is more complex than the discussion around (4) suggests (see Wierzba & Fanselow 2020), we take it as a first step in order to discuss the complex relation between fronting (i.e. syntax) and information structure in V2-languages (see Fanselow & Lenertová 2011). We thank one of the anonymous reviewers for pointing out these aspects and the related references to us.

- b. Diesen Minister **hat** die Presse schon lange kritiziert
DEM.ACC Minister has the press already long criticized
'The press has long criticized this minister'
- c. *Einen Minister **hat** die Presse schon lange kritisiert
INDEF.ACC minister has the press already long criticized

To account for these specific patterns in V2 languages (Germanic as well as for Old Romance and other Romance varieties), a theory-internal device, i.e. the bottleneck-effect, has been proposed (Benincà & Poletto 2004, Haegeman 1996, Roberts 1996, 2004, Cardinaletti & Repetti 2010, Wolfe 2015, 2018), claiming that in V2 languages *stricto sensu* all fronting operations target SpecFinP, which bears an EPP feature that needs to be checked (Roberts 2004). Once a single phrase has moved to this specific position, the bottleneck activates, disabling any other movement process after f-checking. A further development has been proposed by Poletto (2002), claiming that the left periphery can be divided into two sub-areas/domains:

- (5) [_{ForceP} (XP) ... [_{TopicP} (XP) ... || [_{FocusP} (XP_k) ... [_{FinP} (XP_i) [_{Fin}⁰ Vf [_{IP/TP} ... t_i t_k]]]]]]

As the structure shows, the lower domain inside the LP results as the target position for movement operation, while the elements inside the higher domain are considered to be base-generated directly there and do not interfere with the feature checking and the bottleneck in FinP.

As Hsu (2017) points out, even though able to generalize the major difference in the restrictions among V2 and non-V2 languages, this hypothesis posits some theoretical issues, such as the reason for constituents that bear either topic- or focus-meaning to target SpecFinP before moving in their appropriate position, thus violating the Criterial Freezing (see Rizzi 2010). Moreover, it fails to catch the degree of variation cross-linguistically and intra-linguistically: for these reasons, Hsu accounts for a revised model of head-bundling (Hsu 2017: 17), based on the feature scattering hypothesis by Giorgi & Pianesi (1997).

Using the concepts of bundled/separate heads, this model seems to catch quite some interlinguistic differences across languages, as displayed in Figures 1–3.

Hsu's typology appears to be solid and finds further confirmation in the case of the Germanic V2 varieties in Northeastern Italy (Triveneto), such as Timavese and Cimbrian, on which we focus in the next two sections respectively. Interestingly, Timavese displays a dual configuration regulated by an ordering constraint similar to the one proposed in Giorgi & Pianesi (1997) and in a similar

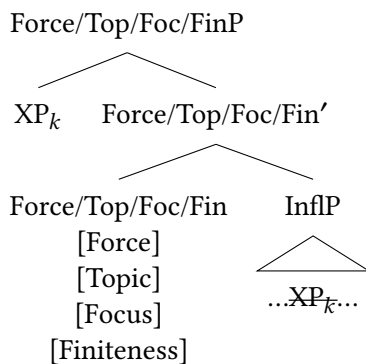


Figure 1: Non-expanded CP, one specifier (e.g. German)

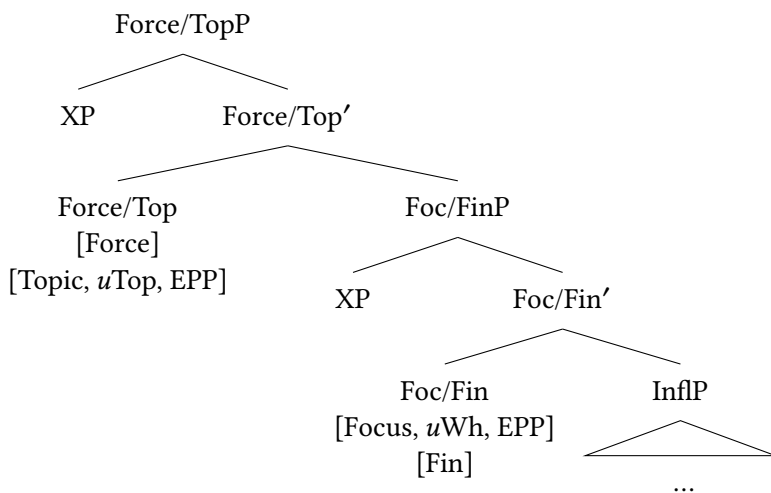


Figure 2: First CP expansion, two specifiers (e.g. Ladin Badiot)

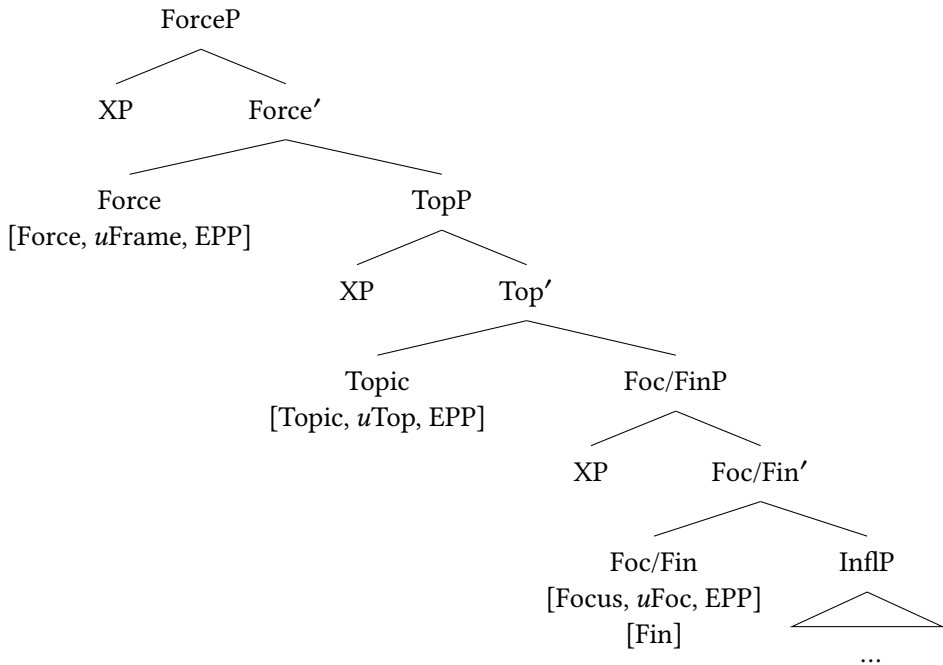


Figure 3: Fully articulated CP, more than two specifiers (e.g. Old Italian)

way as what has been suggested by Hsu (2017) for Badiot (2nd configuration) as a result of an interplay between movement vs. base-generation processes. Conversely in Cimbrian a more expanded CP seems to apply, with a configuration that resembles the one proposed for Old Italian (3rd configuration), *modulo* the trigger of Vf movement and pronominal syntax. The variations among Germanic linguistic islands in the Alpine region show a tendency towards a CP-expansion due to the separation from the Germanic core, suggesting two possible lines of development, that is a) from West to East, in parallel with the Austrian border, which includes Plodarisch, Saurian, Timavese, and b) from North to South, which includes the Cimbrian varieties of Lusern, Giazza, and Roana; the Mòcheno varieties are to be located as a pivot point between the two lines. We take as starting points of our analysis Timavese (for the West-East line) and Cimbrian (for the North-South line) to show how geographical distance from the Germanic core plays an important role in shaping the different degrees of variation, as suggested in Guardiano et al. (2016) for the Greek varieties in Apulia, which even though sharing macroparametric settings in common with other Greek varieties, tend to cluster with Extreme Southern Italo-Romance varieties (e.g. Salentino).

The higher line (the W-E one) is more conservative not only for the reduced CP-expansion but also for the maintenance of both nominal Subject inversion and the OV-patterns (cf. Section 2). As for the second line, the North-to-South one (cf. Section 3), we observe a further degree of distance from the Germanic core: the C domain results as more expanded, Subj-inversion is restricted to pronominal elements only and VO patterns have been fixed. Further evidence in favor of this analysis is provided by the conspicuous presence of historical sources for the Cimbrian varieties, which allows us to trace a diachronic evolution, showing a potential reflection of the different stages of synchronic variations attested in the two lines.

This chapter is organized as follows: in Section 2 we provide the description and the analysis of the W-E line focusing on Timavese; Section 3 is devoted to the description and the analysis of the N-S line focusing on the Cimbrian variety of Luserna; in Section 4 we take into consideration the diachronic evolution of Cimbrian since the beginning of the XVII century; the last section (Section 5) is dedicated to some conclusive remarks.

2 The West-to-East line

Plodarisch, Saurian, and Timavese represent three of the four minority languages of Germanic origin in the Friuli-Venezia Giulia region (henceforth: FVG), together with Kanaltalerisch, spoken around Tarvisio.³ Even geographically speaking, the three communities are located much further North than the Cimbrian and Mòcheno localities, almost on the Austrian border, with the only exception of Sauris, which is more “internal” than Sappada and Timau. In terms of external exposure, the last two are also geographically more accessible, in particular, Timau is characterized as a *Straßendorf* and develops along a historical trade route that has connected the Romance and Germanic areas since ancient times. In this section we provide some data relating to the syntax of the German varieties spread across the West-to-East line concerning the aforementioned phenomena (OV/VO alternation, Subj-Verb inversion, and CP-expansion). As a general pattern, the V-to-C movement in root context still represents a solid trait in all these varieties, thus being classified as structural V2 languages, though more than one constituent may simultaneously appear to the left of Vf, that is within the C-domain, as the following examples show:

³The three varieties, however, differ from Kanaltalerisch as the latter represents an effective extension of Carinthian within Friuli, while Plodarisch, Saurian and Timavese are isolated from the German-speaking area.

- (6) a. Timavese
Haintn avn plozzn **hoon**=i in Jani (nitt) tseachn
Today in.the square have=1SG DEF.M.ACC John (not) seen
‘I haven’t seen John today in the center’
- b. Plodarisch
Geischter me bolde **hot**=ar si (nét) werlezt
Yesterday in.the forest has=3SG.M.NOM 3SG.REFL (not) wounded
‘He didn’t wound himself in the woods yesterday’
- c. Saurian
Geischter im poudn on=i (neit) pageingt de schuelleararin
Yesterday in square have=1SG (not) meet the teacher.F
‘I didn’t meet the teacher in the city center’

The structural movement of Vf in C° is easily traced if we look at the post-verbal subject clitics, which appear in enclisis to the finite verb, as well as the postverbal negation, which are traditionally considered as diagnostics for Vf movement out of vP into the C-domain, as clarified in the following structure:

- (7) [CP XP1 XP2... [C° Vf [WackernagelP [TP [NegP [VP [... V° ... t_{Vf}]]]]]]]

Paired with the structural V2, these varieties share a “split-CP” configuration with an articulated periphery which seems to host multiple independent projections; in particular, Subj-V inversion (linear restriction) appears to be mandatory only with weak pronominal subjects, while Subject-DPs are usually placed preverbally, displaying a [XP DPSubj Vf] order in the main sentence.⁴ As we will see (Section 3.2), the conditions which favor the nominal Subj-inversion represent the first major difference across these varieties, as well as the combination of both number and syntactic functions of the fronted XPs.

In the next sections, we present a fine-grained analysis of the varieties in FVG, namely Plodarisch, Saurian, and particularly Timavese, starting with the OV/VO alternation (Section 2.1), then proceeding with the different degrees of maintenance of nominal Subj inversion (Section 2.2), and finally the different modalities of CP-expansion (Section 2.3).

⁴Even if V3-patterns may be explained considering a multiple specifiers approach (Lahne 2009, Bacskai-Atkari 2023), as suggested by an anonymous reviewer, it is not clear to us how this approach will derive restrictions on the possible number of specifiers. The gradual expansion of the C-domain attested throughout the Germanic varieties on which we are focusing finds a more appropriate explanation in a Feature-Scattering approach (see later for Timavese, “no more than two”-Constraint vs. Cimbrian fully CP-expansion).

2.1 OV/VO

Despite the great exposure to contact with Italo-Romance varieties, which characterized all the Germanic language islands across the Italian Alps, Plodarisch and Timavese seem to maintain some structural traits typical of German in a much more solid way (Grewendorf & Poletto 2005, Poletto & Tomaselli 2019, Madaro & Bidese 2022, Madaro 2024). In particular, if we consider the OV structure in the main and subordinate clauses, it is easy to observe that the German-like verbal bracket is maintained:

- (8) a. Plodarisch
Hainte **hot** de mome de alan me morkt **gakaaft**
Today has DEF.F.NOM mother DEF.PL.ACC eggs in market bought
- b. Timavese
Haitn **hott** da muatar da ailan im morkt **gackaaft**
Today has DEF.F.NOM mother DEF.PL.ACC eggs in market bought
‘Today the mother bought eggs at the market’

In subordinate clauses, both varieties show instances of V(P)R-related phenomena coherently with an OV typology, even though in Timavese VO structures with Objects-DPs outside the verbal brackets are attested and widely accepted, suggesting much more freedom within the syntactic structure due to pragmatic/information structure traits⁵. These types of occurrences are ruled out in Plodarisch:

- (9) a. Timavese
Dar Jani hot=mar sok [as=ar (aa ringl) **hott gackaaft**
The John has=1SG.DAT said [that=3SG.M.NOM (a ring) has bought
aa ring vir sai baib]
a ring for his wife]
‘John told me that he bought his wife a ring’
- b. Plodarisch
*Sie hont=mer gesouk [as ana Kronkhet **hot geteten** de Kie]
3PL have=1SG.DAT said [that a disease has killed the cows]
‘They told me that a disease killed the cows’

⁵As claimed in Madaro & Bidese (2022), verbal clusters in Timavese (as well as Saurian and Cimbrian) are generally found in an [AUX V] order in subordinates introduced by a lexical complementizer, while the order [V AUX], typically found in Continental West-Germanic with OV base, is considered not to be acceptable among speakers. This specific trait has led to the hypothesis that these patterns should not be treated as instances of VR, but of a crystallized setting of verbal cluster, probably a first instance for switching from an OV order to a VO one.

On the other hand, Saurian displays a higher degree of OV/VO alternation as far as interrogatives/infinitives are considered (see examples 10a,b and 10c,d). The possibility of having a preverbal negation in subordinate context (example 10e) highlights a certain degree of asymmetry, even though variation occurs, as (10f) clearly shows:

(10) Saurian

- a. Bein **ot** der khiokhmon *in* *vuks* **gesehn**?
when has DEF.M.NOM hunter DEF.M.ACC fox seen?
- b. Bein **ot** der khiokhmon **gesehn** *in* *vuks*?
when has DEF.M.NOM hunter seen DEF.ACC fox?
'When did the hunter see the fox?'
- c. I hon=en geheart **vleitn** 's *gaigele*.
1SG have=3SG.ACC heard play.INF the fiddle
- d. I hon=en geheart 's *gaigele* **vleitn**.
1SG have=3SG.ACC heard the fiddle play.INF
'I heard him playing the violin.'
- e. I houfe [as=ar *net* **geat** in bolt].
1SG hope [that=3SG.M.NOM not goes in woods]
'I hope that he doesn't go into the woods.'
- f. I houfe [as 's **schneibet** *neit* haite].
1SG hope [that 3SG.IMPERS snows not today]
'I hope that it doesn't snow today.'⁶

Nevertheless, a contrastive analysis between Modern Saurian and some early nineteenth-century texts shows an increase in terms of the diffusion of VO-type orders diachronically (Costantini 2019a), an aspect that would lead to considering the variety as VO-dominant with alternation (Madaro & Bidese 2022), with a possible shift from an asymmetric to a symmetric word order (see position of object clitics and negation in subordinates).

2.2 Subject-verb inversion

As said before, multiple elements within the LP in root clauses are widely attested and violations of the V2 restriction seem to apply quite frequently even

⁶As the two possible positions for negation show, it seems unclear whether Saurian may or may not be considered an asymmetric language. For further evidence see the discussion in Costantini (2019b) and Bidese (2019), both from the same volume.

in Plodarisch, which is considered the most conservative among the varieties we analyze in this section.

A first hint of comparison is represented by the degree of acceptability of Subj-V inversion in the root declarative context: as already mentioned, the pattern applies mandatorily with “weak” pronominal subjects in all the FVG varieties, while full Subjects are more frequent preverbal. In Saurian, for instance, [XP Vf DPSubj] order represents the least preferred choice, even though acceptable (examples and acceptability rates taken from Costantini 2019a: 101):

(11) Saurian

- a. Geister **ot** *der* *Peter* gelezn a puech. [0.4]
Yesterday has DEF.M.NOM Peter read a book
- b. Geister *der* *Peter* **ot** gelezn a puech. [0.9]
Yesterday DEF.M.NOM Peter has read a book
'Peter read a book yesterday.'

This pattern is divergent in Timavese (and apparently also in Plodarisch: see Grewendorf & Poletto 2005),⁷ both orders are well-accepted, and the acceptability may be due to external factors, such as information structure (see Madaro 2024).

However, some instances of post-verbal DPSubjects are generally attested and well-accepted (but not mandatory) also in Saurian, specifically if the first constituent is contrastively focalized:

⁷As stated in Madaro (2024), both orders seem to be acceptable among native speakers (six informants: 4 female informants, 2 male informants) on a Likert scale from 1 (not acceptable) to 6 (totally acceptable), here reported on a 0–1 scale through proportion to be aligned with the data for Saurian:

- (i) Da vargonnana boucha dar Gianni is af Paluc mit darmaschine
The last.F week DEF.M.NOM John is to Paluzza with DEF.F.DAT auto
gongan. [0.95]
gone
- (ii) Da vargonnana boucha is dar Gianni af Paluc mit darmaschine
The last.F week is DEF.M.NOM John to Paluzza with DEF.F.DAT auto
gongan. [1.0]
gone
'Last week John went to Paluzza by car.'

(12) Saurian

GEISTER (der Peter) **ot** (der Peter) gelez n a puech net
 Yesterday (DEF.M.NOM Peter) has (DEF.M.NOM Peter) read a book not
 haite [0.9]
 today
 ‘Peter read a book yesterday, not today’

Root contexts introduced by a Wh-operator appear to be interesting as far as Subj-V inversion is concerned. As Cognola (2013a,b) already pointed out for Mòcheno, subject inversion in Wh-questions occurs only with pronominal subjects, while Subjects-DPs are to be placed outside the matrix clause, either as left- or right-dislocated elements, with a resumptive element (pronoun) positioned clause-internally. This phenomenon strongly contrasts with Standard German and related varieties (e.g. Bavarian/South-Tyrolean) where Wh-operators trigger Subj-V inversion. Interestingly, it is well attested in other varieties we are analysing. See the examples below for Timavese (13a-b) in contrast with (standard) German (13c):

(13) a. Timavese

Dar Jani bos hott=ar=en tsok?
 DEF.M.NOM John what has=3SG.M.NOM=PTC said?

b. *Bos **hot**=n *dar Jani tsok?*

c. German

Was **hat** *Johann* gesagt?
 What has John said?
 ‘What has John said?’

In these varieties, there seems to be an incompatibility between pre-verbal DP-Subjects and WH-elements; in particular, the Wh-Criterion seems somehow to interfere with the EPP-checking/Subject-agreement in SpecFinP: the finite Verb in Fin° either satisfies the WH-criterion (i.e. the Spec-head relation with the WH-element) or enters a Subject-agreement relation. The fact that the DPSubject cannot occur immediately on the right of the finite verb – in the lower [Spec, TP], see (13b) – but only in a peripheral position could be explained considering the role of C°/Fin° as nominative case assigner in a structural V2 language. More specifically, in C-dominant languages (such as German) C is responsible for NOM-assignment (and eventually pro-licensing) in the lower T domain, while T is in

charge in T-dominant languages (such as Italian).⁸ Crucially SpecTP represents the structural position in which NOM is assigned in both C- and T-dominant languages. In Timavese the DPSubject may occur in [Spec, TP] -on the right of the finite verb- only under specific conditions but its unmarked position corresponds to the preverbal one, i.e.: [Spec, FinP]. We speculate on the hypothesis that the satisfaction of the WH-criterion inhibits Nominative case assignment by Fin° to the DPSubject which could be rescued only by the intervention of the enclitic pronoun which absorbs case and forms a chain with the dislocated DP, resembling the configuration which characterizes the Northeastern Italo-Romance varieties.⁹

Without entering further details, it is interesting to anticipate the following observation: the ban for the DPSubject to occur in [Spec, TP] – which characterizes only the WH-root clause in Timavese – represents a generalized restriction in the Cimbrian varieties where it applies in both the interrogative and the declarative root clause (cf. Section 3). As a matter of fact, the WH-root clause confirms its double role in the process, which leads to the dismantling of V2: in English, the WH-root clause represents the context where V2 is maintained (Subject-AUX inversion as residual V2), in the Germanic enclaves of the Italian Alpine region it represents the context where Subject-Vf inversion “à la German” is first lost.

If we take into consideration all the aspects touched upon so far in a preliminary manner, it seems possible to outline a sort of continuum that connects all the varieties of the West-to East line as shown in Table 1.

As we will see in Section 3 (cf. Table 3, Section 3.2) the gradualness which characterized the loss of DPSubj inversion *à la German* has gone further in the North-to-South line *au-pair* with the gradual expansion of the CP. In the next

⁸Bidese et al. (2020) propose a re-visitation of the distinction between COMP-dominant versus INFL-dominant language (which goes back to Hulk & van Kemenade 1995) adopting Ouhali’s mechanism of feature-inheritance: SHARE versus DONATE. Cf. Section 3.2 for its extension to Cimbrian.

⁹In north-eastern Italo-Romance varieties such incompatibility is well expressed by the mandatory presence of a (resumptive) clitic which undergoes enclisis to Vf in [+Wh]-sentences (differently from declarative root sentences), thus showing Subj-inversion, as in the case of Friulian (GEMONA):

- (i) Maria l=à cumprâ el libri
 Maria 3SG.FR=has bought a book
 ‘Maria bought a book’
- (ii) Maria, ce ch’ à=la cumprâ?
 As for Mary, what that has=3SG.F bought?
 ‘What did Mary buy?’

Table 1: W-to-E line features settings

	V2		inversion in decl. clause		inversion in WH-Qs		asymmetry
	Linear	Structural	DPSubj-Vf	Subj _{pron} -Vf	DPSubj-Vf	Subj _{pron} -Vf	
(German)	+	+	+	+	+	+	+
Plodarisch	–	+	+	+	+?	+	+
Timavese	–	+	+	+	–	+	+
Saurian	–	+	(+)	+	–	+	#
(Mòcheno)	–	+	(+)	+	–	+	+

section (Section 2.3) this hypothesis will be explored in depth through an analysis of V3 orders in Timavese, trying to identify possible restrictions even within a more articulated CP.

2.3 CP-Expansion

There is robust evidence in the literature of non-canonical V3 orders across V2 languages with specific types of elements, such as adverbial clauses and, more generally, frame setters which seem not to trigger Subj-V inversion in root clauses with pronominal Subjects:

- (14) a. West Flemish (Haegeman & Greco 2018)
Als ‘t geijzeld is ze **risschiert** heur niet buiten
when it frosty is 3SG.F risks 3SG.REFL not outside
‘When it is frosty, she does not venture outside’
- b. Kiezdeutsch (Wiese 2009)
Morgen ich geh arbeitsamt
Tomorrow 1SG go job centre
‘Tomorrow I will go to the job center’
- c. Norwegian Urban Vernacular (Freywald et al. 2015)
Med limewire det **tar** en to dager
with Limewire 3SG.N takes one two days
‘Using Limewire it takes 1 or 2 days’

Similar examples may also be found in (Eastern/Western) Yiddish (te Velde 2017), Urban Vernacular Danish, and Urban Vernacular Swedish (Walkden 2017), and diachronically, OHG/OE show similar “deviation-from-linear-V2” patterns, thus highlighting a [FrameP + V2] order. Such elements seem not to directly

influence the internal structure of the clause, either being base-generated externally or being merged with the following subject pronouns as a single phonetic unit (see *te Velde* 2017). These phenomena result in an apparent (superficial) violation of the V2 restriction and may be due to some post-syntactical operation. This pattern strongly differs from V3 in non-V2 languages, as in Italian, where the Vf is preceded by two nominal objects both in main and embedded clauses:

- (15) a. A Gianni il libro glie =l =ho dato ieri.
to J. the book 3SG.DAT =3SG.ACC =have given yesterday
'I gave the book to John yesterday.'
- b. Ho detto [che a Gianni il libro glie =l ho dato
have said [that to J. the book 3SG.DAT =3SG.ACC =have given
ieri].
yesterday]
'I said that I gave the book to John yesterday.'

Back to our varieties, non-inverted V2 orders with frame-setters/adverbial clauses are also attested in Timavese, independently from their status related to the information structure:¹⁰

- (16) a. Q: "Who does always buy the flour at the grocery shop?"
SUBJ [new] + FS [given]
- i. In lohn da nona ckraft obla is batzameal.
In market DEF.F grandma buys always DEF.N.ACC flour
- ii. In lohn ckraft obla da nona is batzameal.
In market buys always DEF.F grandma DEF.N.ACC flour
- iii. *Da nona in lohn ckraft obla is batzameal.
DEF.F grandma in market buys always DEF.N.ACC flour
- 'The grandmother always buys the flour at the grocery shop.'

¹⁰Preferred version. As the examples (i) and (ii) show, the DPSubject [+new] may occupy two distinct positions, either right before Vf or in a lower vP-focus-position (below the adverb *obla*), which is favored by the Subject itself being [+new information] (for a standard assumption about a lower Focus position in vP see among others *Belletti* 2004, 2018, but also *Petrova & Hinterhölzl* 2010 for OHG). As a confirmation, it is important to note that a SpecTP position higher than *obla* is available only by a [-new] DPSubject. See the following sentences:

- (v) *In lohn ckraft da nona [+new] obla is batzameal
(vi) In lohn ckraft da nona [-new] obla is batzameal

- b. Q: “When did mom buy the dress?”

SUBJ [given] + FS [new]

- i. Geister nochmittag da mama **hot** in keittel gackaft.
 yesterday afternoon DEF.F mom has DEF.M.ACC dress bought
- ii. *Geister nochmittag **hot** da mama in keittel
 yesterday afternoon has DEF.FR mom DEF.M.ACC dress
 gackaft.
 bought

‘The mom bought the dress yesterday.’

Apparently, in cases of frame setter/adverbs-initial sentences, DSubjects are usually attracted in a pre-verbal position, as evidenced by sentences in 16b; with pronominal subjects, conversely, the pattern [XPframe-setter Vf=pronominal subject] is perfectly grammatical: this aspect may suggest a certain degree of specialization within left-peripheral position, as for SpecFinP in Cimbrian (cf. Section 3.2).

On the other end, object fronting (as [+topic] or [+focus] constituent, with no resumptive element) satisfies the EPP feature in SpecCP, thus triggering Subj-V inversion:

- (17) a. Q: “Who has bought the car to Maria for her birthday?”

SUBJ [new] + OBJ [given]

- i. Dar Maria-n **hott** da nona in auto
 DEF.F.DAT Maria-DAT has DEF.F.NOM grandma DEF.M.ACC car
 gackaft.
 bought
- ii. *Dar Maria-n da nona **hott** in auto
 DEF.F.DAT Maria-DAT DEF.F.NOM grandma has DEF.M.ACC car
 gackaft
 bought

‘The grandmother bought Maria the car’

- b. Q: “Did the kids eat everything?”

SUBJ [given] + OBJ [new = FOCUS]¹¹

¹¹As the examples show, Object-fronting with no resumption is still possible in Timavese, differently from other varieties, such as Cimbrian, where object-fronting always occurs as left-dislocation with a resumptive object pronoun (cf. Section 3.2). Nonetheless, fronting is acceptable if DP-Object is [+given], or topic information; when [+new], they cannot undergo simple fronting unless contrastively focussed.

- i. is VLAISCH **hont** da ckindar geissn da greisn nitt.
 DEF.N meat have DEF.PL kids eaten DEF.PL veggies not
- ii. * is VLAISCH da ckindar **hont** geissn da greisn nitt.
 DEF.N meat DEF.PL kids have eaten DEF.PL veggies not
- ‘The kids ate the meat, not the vegetables’

If the topicalized element (either a DPSubject or DPObject) is doubled by a clause-internal resumptive element, poly-occupation is allowed, suggesting that in sentences like (18), they occupy a different structural position within the C-domain, that is within the higher sub-domain dedicated to base-generated non-fronted DPs:

- (18) a. Dar Maria- n_i da nona **hont**= ar_i in
 DEF.F.DAT Maria-DAT DEF.F.NOM granma has=3SF.F.DAT DEF.M.ACC
 auto gackaft.
 car bought
 ‘As for Maria, the grandmother bought her the car.’
- b. Da ckindar $_i$ is VLAISCH **hont**= sa_i geissn da greisn nitt.
 DEF.PL kids DEF.N meat have=3PL eaten DEF.PL veggies not
 ‘As for the kids, they ate the meat, not the vegetables.’

Apparently, the assumption of two subdomains in the CP – as proposed by Poletto (2002) – is quite solid also in Timavese. Fronting via movement (no resumption) suffices to check the EPP feature: once a DPObject has been moved to the LP, any other kind of fronting via movement is disabled. If an element has already moved in this lower domain, additional elements may appear only if they are adjuncts (frame-setters) or doubled by a resumptive element (via left-dislocation).

Even in the higher domain (the base-generated one) though, some restrictions seem to apply, as it is shown in (19):

- (19) a. Q: “Who has bought the stuff I asked?”
 OBJ: [+new] SUBJ: [given (+ RE)] + FS
 *Geister mai pruar $_i$ is VLAISCH **hont** = ar_i
 Yesterday my.NOM brother DEF.N meat has =3SG.M.NOM
 gackaft nitt in visch.
 bought not DEF.M.ACC fish
 ‘Yesterday my brother bought the meat, not the fish (that was bought by my sister).’

- b. Q: “Who has bought the newspaper today?”
SUBJ: [+new] OBJ: [given (+ RE)] + FS
*Haintn da zaitin_t dar Jan und da Mari
Today DEF.F.NOM newspaper DEF.M Jan and DEF.F Mary
hont=sa_t gackaft.
have=3SG.F.ACC bought
‘As for the newspaper, John and Mary have bought it.’

Apparently, the sentences in 19a-b are agrammatical in Timavese. However, adverbial phrases/frame-setters and left-dislocated elements should not trigger any restriction, as they are elements positioned in the highest domain (intended for base generation) of an articulated CP.¹² The equivalent of this structure in Italian (or other Italo-Romance varieties) or Cimbrian would be acceptable. This leads us to assume that even within the highest domain there are restrictions in terms of element placement.

See Table 2 for a summary of the possible combinations examined so far.

Table 2: LP occurrences in Timavese

Base-g domain		Move-domain	C°	CliticP	IP/TP	
FrameS		DPSubj	Vf	-	...	Ok
FrameS		DPObj	Vf	-	...	Ok
DPSubj (new/given)		DPObj	Vf	RE(DPSubj)	...	Ok
DPObj (new/given)		DPSubj	Vf	RE(DPObj)	...	Ok
FrameS	DPSubj		Vf	RE(DPSubj)	...	Ok
FrameS	DPObj		Vf	RE(DPObj)	...	Ok
FrameS	DPSubj	DPObj	Vf	RE(DPSubj)	...	*
FrameS	DPObj	DPSubj	Vf	RE(DPObj)	...	*
		DPObj DPSubj	Vf			*

¹²In fact, a structure with [adv – XP (left-disl) Vf=RE ...] turns out to be perfectly acceptable:

- (i) Haintn da zaitin_t hont=sa_t dar Jan und da Maria gackaft
Today DEF.F newspaper have=3SG.F DEF.M Jan and DEF.F Maria bought

After examining all the possible combinations of elements within an articulated CP in Timavese, it is possible to hypothesize some generalizations:

(20) LP constraints in Timavese:

- 2 (or more) XPs never occur in the LP via movement.
- 2 XPs may occur if at least one of them is base-generated directly in the LP.
- If (b) occurs, no other XP can be moved to or base-generated in the LP.

Now going back to the original model assumed in Hsu (2017) for bundled heads, it is possible to sketch a dual configuration of Timavese CP.

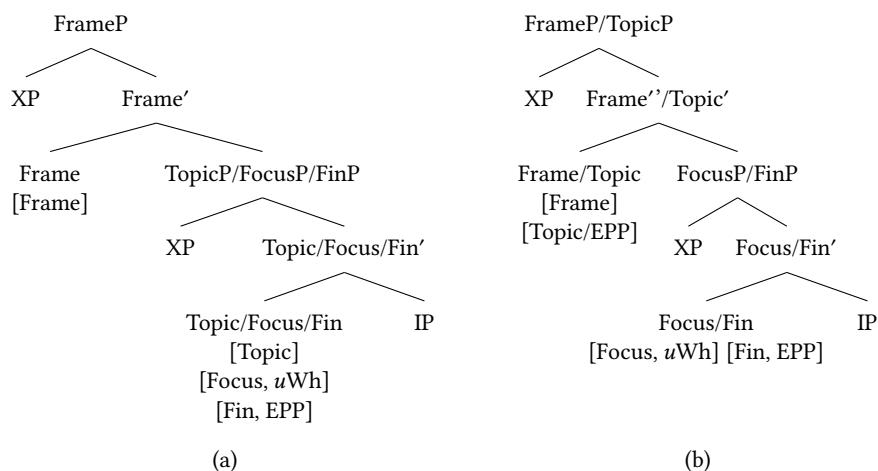


Figure 4: Dual CP configuration in Timavese, (only) two Specs allowed

These configurations help us to catch the observable phenomena in Timavese C-domain: it is possible to hypothesize a [Base-gen +V2] CP, meaning a “Spatial” restriction: no more than two constituents seem to be allowed in Timavese LP, either both being base-generated or one moved plus one base-generated. Moreover, the bottleneck effect alone is not sufficient to determine the preferred CP configuration: the occurrences can be captured if we hypothesize two different structures, in which the feature [Topic] may be bundled together either to FrameP or to an already bundled FocusP-FinP: the choice follows the Universal Ordering Constraint (Giorgi & Pianesi 1997), and the bundled FocusP-FinP head is the first one to be checked. Contrary to the West-to-East line, the varieties across the

North-to-South line have developed a fully expanded CP with a structural Top-icP higher than FocP and a lower [Spec, Fin] which has specialized as structural Subject position.

3 The North-to-South line

In this section we will provide some data relating to the syntax of the German varieties spread across the North-to-South line. We will focus our attention on the Cimbrian variety spoken in Luserna (TN) – the enclave where the majority of Cimbrian speakers live – and we will compare it occasionally with:

- Mocheno – which is spoken in the Fersina valley and still maintains partial intercomprehension with the German dialects of South Tyrol
- the Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetzan (VR) –which nowadays counts on no more than a dozen native speakers.¹³

In line with what has been already shown for the West-to-East line, all these varieties have lost the V2 linear restriction but maintain structural V2, i.e. Vf movement to the C-domain in the root declarative clause, with the only possible exception of the Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetzan. Let us consider the following data:¹⁴

(21) Mòcheno

Hait en de boteig hòn =e =en nèt tsechen.
Today in the shop have =1SG.NOM =3SG.M.ACC (not) seen
'Today I have (not) seen him in the shop.'

(22) Cimbrian (Luserna variety)

Haüt in balt hatt =ar =en nèt gesek.
Today in forest haa =3SG.M.NOM =3SG.M.ACC not seen
'Today he has not seen him in the wood.'

¹³As for the Cimbrian variety spoken in Roana/Robaan (VI) we do not have, at least for the moment, enough data either collected or discussed in previous literature in order to draw a comparable picture and we will leave this further extension to future research.

¹⁴For Mòcheno we refer to Cognola (2013a,b); for the Giazza variety to Bidese (2023), Bidese, Cognola, et al. (2012) and Bidese et al. (2020); for the Cimbrian variety spoken in Luserna to Bidese, Cognola, et al. (2012), Bidese (2023) and Bidese et al. (2020).

- (23) Cimbrian (Giazza variety: from Scardoni 2000: 157)

Vour tz' essan er besce=ci sempar de hente.
 Before to eat.INF 3SG.M.NOM wash=3SG.REFL always DEF.PL hands
 'Before eating he always washes his hands.'

As the examples 21 and 22 show, Mocheno and the Luserna variety of Cimbrian are still characterized by a reduced verbal bracket which embraces both the enclitic pronoun(s) and sentence negation (*nèt*) reproducing the well-known German structure but with an expanded CP (cf. Section 2, point 7):

- (24) [CP XP1 XP2... [C° Vf [WackernagelP [TP [NegP [VP [... V° ... t_{Vf}]]]]]]]]]

Only in the Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetzan (see example 23) the subject pronoun occurs on the left of the finite verb and the lexicalization of the Wackernagel position is restricted to reflexive pronouns and object clitics hinting to a potential restructuring of the system (loss of structural V2 and maintenance of a low verbal bracket), as we will discuss in the final remarks (cf. 5).

In the following paragraphs we will show that the verbal bracket may be expanded only in Mocheno which maintains both OV (cf. 3.1) and nominal subject inversion (cf. Section 3.2) as residual word order possibilities displaying a situation similar to the one already discussed for Saurian. Rather on the contrary the Cimbrian varieties have definitely lost nominal subject inversion and display a stable VO typology in contrast to what has been discussed for the varieties of the West-to-East line. As we are going to show, a further relevant difference which characterizes the North-to-South line with respect to the West-to-East line concerns the structure of the expanded CP with particular reference to the modality of object fronting (cf. Section 3.3).

3.1 OV/VO

The North-to-South line displays a linear adjustment to the Romance word order patterns not only with respect to the systematic violation of the V2 linear restriction but also with respect to the typological change from the OV towards the VO type. The gradual change from the German OV type, which is maintained in the dialects spoken in South Tyrol, toward the VO type is well attested along the flow of the river Adige, as already noted, among others in Tomaselli & Panzeri (2015).

Let us consider the following examples:

- (25) German (standard)
 Heute **hat** Hans das Holz im Wald gehackt.
 Today has John DEF.N.ACC wood in.the forest chopped
 ‘Today John has chopped some woods in the forest.’
- (26) South Tyrolean (Meran variety)
 Haint **hot** der Hons es holz in wold khockt.
 Today haz DEF.M.NOM John DEF.N.ACC wood in forest chopped
 ‘Today John has chopped some woods in the forest.’
- (27) Mòcheno¹⁵
 Haüte der Hons **hot** (a puach) kaft (a puach).
 Today DEF.M.NOM John has (a book) bought (a book)
 ‘Today John has bought a book.’
- (28) Cimbrian (Luserna/Lusern)¹⁶
- a. Häüt di māmma **hatt** gespüalt di pjattn.
 Today DEF.F mother has washed DEF.PL dishes
 ‘The mother has washed the dishes today.’
 - b. I **hân** *niamat* **getrofft**
 1SG have noone met.
 - c. I **hân** **getrofft** *niamat*
 1SG have met noone
 ‘I haven’t met anyone.’

As the previous data show, while Mòcheno still admits the OV pattern with the definite object (*a puach*) -much like Saurian- the Cimbrian varieties have fixed the VO type and admit the OV type in very restricted contexts, i.e. with either a pronominal object or a negative polarity item like *niamat*.

Without entering into further details, it is important to stress that all the German varieties which display a VO typology (i.e.: Cimbrian, Mòcheno, Saurian) do not behave like the Italian “high” VO type but rather like the Scandinavian “low” VO sub-type.¹⁷ The past participle is realized by an invariant form which is never endowed by overt object-agreement morphology. Furthermore, the past

¹⁵Data from Cognola (2013a) who underlines the prevalence of the VO type (85%) with respect to the OV type (15%).

¹⁶Data presented and discussed in Grewendorf & Poletto (2005).

¹⁷For the distinction between a Germanic low VO subtype and a Romance higher one cf. Poletto & Tomaselli (2009, 2018, 2019).

participle always follows sentence negation (*nèt*) and low adverbs like *hèrta* ‘always’:

(29) Cimbrian (Luserna/Lusern)

- a. Haüt di màmma hatt nèt gespüalt di pjattn.
today DEF.F mother has NEG washed DEF.PL dishes
‘Today the mother didn’t wash the dishes.’
- b. Haüt di màmma hatt hèrta gespüalt di pjattn.
today the mother has always washed the dishes
‘Today the mother always washed the dishes.’
- c. Haüt di pjattn soìn (*hèrta*) khent (*hèrta*) gespüalt vodar
today the dishes are (always) been (always) washed by.the
màmma.
mother
‘Today the dishes are always washed by the mother.’

Rather on the contrary, the Italian past participle shows object-agreement morphology (*stat-e/i/a/o*, *lavat-e/i/a/o*), may host an object clitic (*salutat-o=lo*), and may move out of the vP to a high functional head.¹⁸

(30) Italian (standard)

- a. Le stoviglie sono stat-e (spesso) lavat-e (spesso).
The dishes are been-3PL.F (often) washed-3PL.F (often)
‘The dishes have often been washed.’
- b. Salutat-o=lo, lei partì.
Greeted-3SG.M=3SG.M.ACC 3SG.F.NOM left
‘Having greeted him, she left.’

Hence, the adjustment to the Italian word order pattern which seems to have reached a higher degree of fulfillment in the North-to-South line implies linear convergence rather than a structural one.¹⁹

¹⁸Cf. Belletti (2004) for an analysis of reduced past participle clauses in terms of V to C movement.

¹⁹For a theory of language contact in the generative perspective, cf., among all, Bidese (2023) and the literature cited there.

- b. Gester **hòt** der Mario kaft a puach
 Yesterday has DEF.M.NOM Mario bought a book
 ‘Yesterday Mario bought a book’

(32) Cimbrian (Lusern variety)

- a. Haüt dar nono **iz** khent atz Lusern
 Today DEF.M.NOM grandpa is come to Lusern
- b. * Haüt **iz** dar nono khent atz Lusern
 Today is DEF.M.NOM grandpa come to Lusern
- c. * Haüt **iz** khent dar nono atz Lusern
 Today is come DEF.M.NOM grandpa to Lusern
- d. Haüt **iz=ta** khent dar nono atz Lusern
 Today is=DA come DEF.M.NOM grandpa to Lusern
 ‘Today the grandpa has come to Lusern’

(33) Cimbrian (Giazza variety, from Scardoni 2000: 154)²¹

- a. Gheistar i=me balt in vatar **ha=ci** gahakat an
 Yesterday in=DEF.DAT forest the father has=3SG.REFL cut a
 vingarn arbitjgne.
 finger working
- b. * Gheistar i=me balt **ha=ci** in vatar gahakat an
 Yesterday in=DEF.DAT woods has=3SG.REFL the father cut a
 vingarn arbitjgne.
 finger working
 ‘Yesterday the father cut his finger in the woods while working.’
- c. (from Scardoni 2000: 171)
 Gheistar iz **ist** kent tz‘ essan in Giani.
 Yesterday 3SG.N.NOM is come to eat.INF DEF.M.NOM Gianni
 ‘Gianni came to eat yesterday.’

The lack of nominal subject inversion *à la* German in the Cimbrian varieties discussed so far has led to the following hypothesis already discussed in the literature:

²¹The examples for Giazza variety are adapted from Scardoni (2000) and recently tested via fieldwork interviews which are collected in personal archives.

- the Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetzan (the southernmost point from the geographic perspective) has lost structural V2 (cf. Tomaselli 2004 and Bidese 2008) even if it maintains a low verbal bracket which includes both the clitic object and negation, cf. ex. 23);
- the Cimbrian variety spoken in Luserna has undergone a restructuring of the left periphery: the lower Specifier position of the CP domain, i.e. [Spec, FinP] has been reanalyzed as structural subject position, as the position where Nominative case is assigned. Following Bidese et al. (2020: 591) we will assume that Nominative case is assigned by C/Fin (as for German) in a Spec-head configuration similar to Italian (Figure 5).

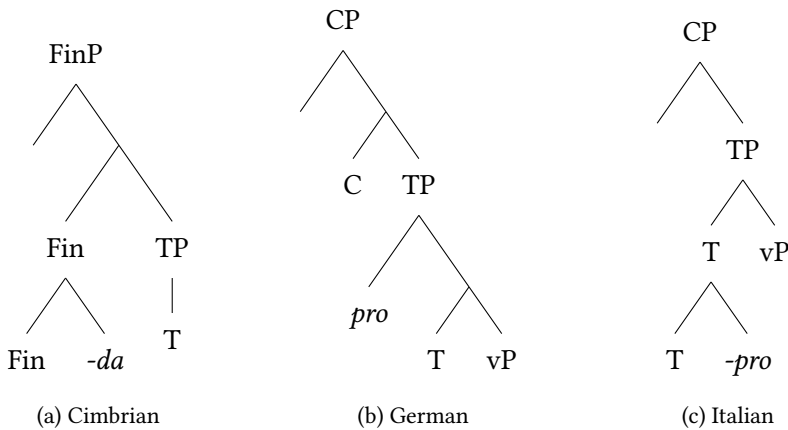


Figure 5: NOM-assignment from Bidese et al. 2020: 591

This reanalysis of [Spec, FinP] as structural subject position implies relevant consequences for the modality of CP-expansion, in particular for object fronting that always implies pronominal resumption, as we will see in the next section.

3.3 CP-expansion

A first common trait of the varieties that form the North-to-South line is the possibility to have even more than two XPs on the left of the finite verb, contrary to what has been observed in detail for Timavese (cf. Section 2.3). Let us consider the following examples:

- (34) Mòcheno (cf. Cognola 2013a: 185)
 Gester en de Maria der Mario **hòt** a puach (nèt) kaft.
 yesterday to DEF.F.DAT Maria DEF.M.NOM Mario has a book (not) bought
 ‘Yesterday Mario bought Maria a book.’
- (35) Cimbrian (Lusern)
 Haüt i=me balt dar nono **hat=en** (nèt) gesek.
 today in=DEF.DAT wood DEF.M.NOM grandpa has=3SG.M.ACC (not) seen
 ‘Today the grandpa hasn’t seen him in the forest.’
- (36) Cimbrian (Giazza/Lusern)
 Haüt i=me balt in nono **hat=en** (nèt) gesek.
 today in=DEF.DAT forest DEF.M.NOM grandpa has=3SG.M.ACC (not) seen

It is interesting to note that the possibility to have more than two XPs on the left of the finite verb usually implies the preverbal position of the DP_{SUBJ} which counts as third constituent.

A second relevant difference between the Cimbrian varieties and all the other Germanic language islands (i.e.: both Mòcheno and the ones which form the West-to-East line) consists in the clitic resumption which obligatorily applies with object fronting:

- (37) Cimbrian (Lusern)
 In vuks **hatt=ar=en** nèt gesek.
 DEF.M.ACC fox has=3SG.M.NOM=3SG.M.ACC not seen
 ‘As for the fox, he hasn’t seen it.’

Rather on the contrary, the clitic recovery of the DP_{Subj} is always excluded unless the prosodic intonation or the distance between the dislocated Subject and the finite verb hints to a left-dislocation construction, with the subject base-generated in a higher functional projection, i.e. in the higher CP subdomain:

- (38) Cimbrian (Lusern)
- a. In vuks dar nono **hatt=en** nèt gesek.
 DEF.N.ACC fox DEF.M.NOM grandpa has=3SG.M.ACC not seen
 - b. Dar nono in vuks **hatt=en** nèt gesek.
 DEF.M.NOM grandpa DEF.M.ACC fox has=3SG.M.ACC not seen

- c. Dar nono, || in vuks **hatt**=ar=en nèt
 DEF.M.NOM grandpa DEF.M.ACC fox has=3SG.M.NOM=3SG.M.ACC not
 gesek.
 seen
 ‘As for the fox, the grandpa hasn’t seen it.’

The analysis of (38c) as a left-dislocated construction is confirmed by the fact that the DPSubj allows/undergoes right-dislocation as well:²²

- (39) Cimbrian (Lusern)
 In vuks **hatt** =ar =en nèt gesek dar
 DEF.M.ACC fox has =3SG.M.NOM =3SG.M.ACC not seen DEF.M.NOM
 nono.
 granpa

It is interesting to note that Mòcheno still allows Object-fronting without clitic recovery along with DPSUBJ inversion à la German. In our perspective, the co-existence of the following word order patterns:

- (40) Mòcheno
 a. (Gester) S puach **hòt**=se (gester) kaft.
 yesterday DEF.N.ACC book has=3SG.F.NOM (yesterday) bought
 b. (Gester) S puach **hòt** di mama (gester) kaft.
 yesterday DEF.N.ACC book has DEF.F.NOM mother (yesterday) bought
 ‘(Yesterday) the mother/she bought a book.’

could be taken as an argument in favor of a not-yet-specialized pre-verbal position, i.e. [Spec, FinP] is free to host either the Subject or the Object and has not yet specialized as structural subject position as in Cimbrian (cf. diagram in 34).

In Cimbrian the specialization of [Spec, FinP] as Subject position necessarily implies a further step in the CP-expansion process, namely the projection of TopP as possible landing site for XP fronting. Differently from Timavese, where

²²Right dislocation does not coincide with “free subject inversion” with the whole verbal complex. In the first case clitic resumption implies a personal pronoun, in the second case the expletive particle *-da/ta* is involved as the comparison between the following examples clearly shows (cf. Bidese & Tomaselli 2018 for further details):

- (i) Häüt iz=ta khent dar nono atz Lusern
 (ii) Häüt izz=ar khent atz Lusern, dar nono

the feature [Top] collapses with [Frame] in a higher projection than the unspecialized Foc/FinProjection (cf. Section 2.3, Figure 4), Cimbrian has scattered the feature [Top] and presents a fully articulated CP:

- (41) [FrameP ... [ForceP [TopP [FocusP [FinP DPNOM [Fin° Vf [WP [TP ...
]]]]]]]]

It is important to stress that the expansion of CP which we assume for the Cimbrian varieties does not overlap with the analysis assumed by Hsu (2017) for Old Italian (cf. Section 1, Figure 3) at least under two aspects:

- the specialization of [Spec, FinP] as structural subject position (for Nominative case assignment) and the maintenance of a Wackernagel position which implies enclisis to the element which lexicalizes Fin° (either the finite verb or the lexical complementizer).
- the development of a double class of lexical complementizers: a low one which alternates with the finite verb in Fin and a higher one which lexicalizes a functional head in the higher C-subdomain.

As for (I), the specialization of [Spec, FinP] as structural subject position correlates with the absence of DP-Subject inversion “à la German” in both the declarative and the interrogative clause. As a matter of fact, the only position in which a DP-Subject may occur without clitic resumption is the position on the left of the finite verb in the root declarative clause. In all other cases clitic resumption (either pronominal or expletive) is necessary to save the structure:

- (42) a. (Haüt) dar nono (haüt) hatt nèt gesek in vuks.
 (today) DEF.M.NOM grandpa (today) has not seen DEF.M.ACC fox
b. Haüt hatt=ta nèt gesek in vuks dar nono.
 today has=DA not seen DEF.M.ACC fox DEF.M.NOM grandpa
c. Haüt hatt=ar nèt gesek in vuks dar nono
 today has=3SG.M not seen DEF.M.ACC fox DEF.M.NOM grandpa
- (43) a. Benn hatt=ar gesek in vuks dar
 when has=textsc3sg.m.nom seen DEF.M.ACC fox DEF.M.NOM
 nono?
 grandpa?
b. Dar nono, benn hatt=ar gesek in vuks?
 DEF.M.NOM grandpa when has=3SG.M.NOM seen DEF.M.ACC fox?

- c. Benn **hatt**=ta gesek in vuks dar nono?
 When has=DA seen DEF.M.ACC fox DEF.M.NOM grandpa?
 ‘As for the grandpa, when has he seen the fox?’

If Subject agreement (i.e.: nominative case assignment) applies in FinP, rightwards agreement need the intervention of a rescue element either expletive (-*ta*) or pronominal (-*ar*) in order to allow nominative case absorption.²³ In a WH-root clause the finite verb cannot enter a double Spec-Head relation within the same domain (it cannot satisfy both the WH-criterion in FocP and Nominative case assignment in FinP), hence Subject raising in [Spec, FinP] is blocked and either left or right dislocation favored.

As for (II), it is important to note that the existence of a double class of lexical complementizers, which was already attested in Baragiola (1907) – cf. Section 4.2 – builds a fully developed system in the Cimbrian variety spoken in Luserna.²⁴ The following examples clearly show that the low class of complementizers lexicalizes Fin° in complementary distribution with Vf (cf. 44b) while the high one lexicalizes a higher functional head in the higher C-subdomain (i.e.: Force) and requires a V2 word order pattern (cf. 44c):

- (44) a. In balt **hatt**=ar nèt gesek in vuks
 in forest has=3SG.M.NOM not seen DEF.M.ACC fox
 b. [az=ar nèt **hatt** gesek in vuks
 [that=3SG.M.NOM not has seen DEF.M.ACC fox
 c. [kè in balt **hatt**=ar nèt gesek in vuks
 [that in forest has=3SG.M.NOM not seen DEF.M.ACC fox

As expected, Object left dislocation cannot be embedded under *az* (see ex. 45b): the complementizer *az* lexicalizes Fin°, the lowest sub-projection in the C-domain, and there is no possible position for object-fronting on the right of it (i.e. in the lower I/T-domain). On the contrary, it is fully compatible with a subordinate clause introduced by *kè*, as its position is in the higher C-domain (Force°), allowing object-fronting in TopP (see ex. 45c):

- (45) a. In vuks **hatt** =ar =en nèt gesek in balt.
 DEF.M.ACC fox has =3SG.M.NOM =3SG.M.ACC not seen in forest

²³The alternation of -*da/ta* with a non-raised DP-Subject with the pronominal clitic -*ar* in dislocated construction reproduces the difference between expletive and argumental pro in a Null Subject language like Italian.

²⁴Cf. Bidese, Padovan, et al. (2012), Grewendorf & Poletto (2011), Bidese & Tomaselli (2018).

- b. * [az in vuks hatt =ar =en nèt gesek.
that DEF.M.ACC fox has =3SG.M.NOM =3SG.M.ACC not seen
- c. [kè in vuks hatt =ar =en nèt gesek in
that DEF.M.ACC fox has =3SG.M.NOM =3SG.M.ACC not seen in
balt
forest

The maintenance of the low class of complementizers is a residual phenomenon in the Cimbrian variety of Giazza, where only the high class of complementizers is now attested, coherently with the hypothesis that this variety has already lost structural V2.

As a matter of fact, the Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetzan shows a further degree of development. Our speculation that this variety has lost structural V2 is based on the following observations: (i) in the root declarative clause the pronominal subject always precedes the finite verb; (ii) enclisis on Vf is restricted to object pronouns; (iii) the expletive pronoun *iz* always shows up on the left of the finite verb (cf. ex. 33c *versus* 32d, Section 3.2); (iv) *ke* has quite completely replaced *az* (a low class of lexical complementizers is no more attested). In this perspective, it is interesting to note that the interrogative clause represents the only context which still exhibits pronominal subject inversion (displaying the already noted convergence with the pattern attested in the contact Italo-Romance varieties, cf. fn. 6):²⁵

- (46) a. Begnje **he**=sa gashlafat?
when have=3PL slept ?
'When did they sleep?'
- b. (Romance variety of Verona)
Quando **a**=le dormio?
when have=3PL slept?
'When did they sleep?'

Rather on the contrary, as expected, DPSubject always requires either left or right dislocation (no agreement relation between the finite verb in Fin and the specifier of the lower functional projection, i.e. [Spec, TP]).

²⁵As already discussed in Bidese & Tomaselli (2018, 2019), the linear convergence derives from a different feature characterization of the functional head T/INFL: weak in V2 Germanic varieties (where the subject clitic in Wackernagel position is attracted by the dominant head C which is endowed with the relevant phi-features), strong in Romance null subject varieties (where the phi-features characterize the higher layer of an expanded T/INFL domain and need to be lexicalized by either the subject clitic – as in Northern Italian dialects – or by finite verb movement – as in Standard Italian).

- (47) a. (Daine toustarn) begnje **he=sa** gashlafat (daine toustarn)?
 your daughters when have=3PL slept (your daughters)?
 ‘When did your daughter sleep?’
 b. (Le to neode) quando **a=le** dormio (le to neode)?
 DEF.PL your nieces when have=3PL slept (DEF.PL your nieces)?
 ‘When did your nieces sleep?’

The position of Mòcheno among the varieties of the North-to-South line resembles the situation already discussed so far for Saurian and, partly, for Timavese:

- it hasn’t developed a double series of complementizers;
- object fronting does not necessarily imply clitic resumption (cf. 17a);
- DP-Subject inversion with the finite verb is still attested (cf. ex 12a);
- expletive *pro* is allowed (exactly as in German) in the same contexts where *-da* is required in Cimbrian

- (48) Hait is [pro] ka Verona kemmen der nonno
 today is [pro] to Verona come DEF.M.NOM grandpa.
 ‘The grandpa has come in Verona today’

- in WH- root clauses the DP-Subject is always dislocated (on the left of the WH-Phrase or on the right of the whole verbal complex); Furthermore, differently from Timavese (and/as in Saurian), Mòcheno allows more than two constituents on the left of the finite verb.

Even if the picture is far from being exhaustive (/needs to be further elaborated), it is sufficient to show that the North-to-South line displays a further degree of CP expansion with respect to what has been noted for the West-to-East line. The loss of Object fronting in the root declarative clause in favor of a left-dislocation construction (with clitic resumption) correlates with the loss of DP-Subject inversion “à la German” (i.e. on the right of Vf) and will possibly involve the loss of the low class of complementizers which competes with the finite verb for the same position in the low CP domain (i.e. Fin), hence to the loss of structural V2.

The table proposed at the end of Section 2 (cf. Table 2) could now be completed as Table 3.

Table 3: settings distribution across W-to-E and N-to-S lines

	V2		inversion in decl. clause		inversion in Wh-Qs		asym- metry
	Linear	Struc- tural	DPSubj -Vf	Subj _{pron} -Vf	DPSubj -Vf	Subj _{pron} -Vf	
(German)	+	+	+	+	+	+	+
Plodarisch	–	+	+	+	+?	+	+
Timavese	–	+	+	+	–	+	+
Saurian	–	+	(+)	+	–	+	#
Mòcheno	–	+	(+)	+	–	+	+
Cimbrian							
Lusern	–	+	–	+	–	+	– ^a
Giazza	–	– ^b	–	–	–	+	–

^a+ with low complem^blow verbal bracket

Plodarish is characterized by the same values as Standard German with the only exception of the V2 linear restriction.

Timavese has lost DP-Subject inversion in the WH-root clause but still maintains it in the root declarative clause.

Saurian and Mòcheno display a similar situation with a stronger tendency to maintain the DP-Subject in a pre-verbal position (which gives rise to V4 in Mòcheno: XP-YP-DPnom-Vf ...)

The Cimbrian varieties display the furthest degree of separation from Standard German. They have lost DP-Subject inversion with the finite verb (which corresponds to a fully articulated CP system) and they have weakened the root/embedded word order asymmetry (due to the development of a high class of lexical complementizers involving the possible replacement of the low one).

The Cimbrian variety spoken in Giazza/Ljetan represents the final stage in the process of losing structural V2: pronominal subject inversion with the finite verb in the declarative clause is no more attested and the word order asymmetry lost due to the dismissing of the low class of lexical complementizers. The verbal bracket is maintained in a lower portion of the sentence structure (i.e. vP) and includes only object pronouns and (possibly) negation.

The gradual expansion of the C-domain which emerges from the synchronic comparison between the varieties of the West-to-East line with the varieties of

the North-to-South line finds an interesting confirmation in the diachronic perspective, taking into account the historic evolution of the Cimbrian varieties in the last four centuries.

4 Cimbrian diachronic evolution

For most of the German(ic) dialects spoken in Northern Italy, there are no written records before the early 19th century, making it challenging to reconstruct earlier diachronic phases of their syntax. One exception is Cimbrian, which has been documented since the early 17th century. Based on this historical evidence, the loss of V2 in the history of the Cimbrian syntax can be categorized into four phases:²⁶

Stage I (Cimbrian of the 17th century): the Germanic linear V2 word order is broken in favor of a V3 word order pattern, especially in WH main clauses (XP WH Vf ...), where the dislocated XP usually corresponds to a hanging topic.

Stage IIa (Cimbrian of the 19th century): first argument in favor of a TopP.

Stage IIb (Cimbrian of the early 20th century): DPSubject inversion in the root declarative clause is lost, Object fronting requires clitic resumption, first attestation of a high class of lexical complementizers.

Stage III (present-day Cimbrian of Lusern): the paradigm of lexical complementizers is characterized by a systematic articulation into a low versus a high class of complementizers; first signs of the dismantling of the root-embedded word order asymmetry.

Stage IV (Cimbrian of Giazza): loss of structural V2, the verbal bracket is maintained in a lower portion of sentence structure.

Stages III and IV have been already illustrated and discussed in the preceding section (cf. in particular Section 3.3), stages I and II will be analyzed in Section 4.1 and Sections 4.2.1–4.2.2, respectively.

²⁶For a more detailed discussion about the diachronic development see Bidese & Tomaselli (2007), Bidese (2008, 2023).

4.1 The first stage: 17th century

The oldest existing Cimbrian record is a religious work: the Cimbrian Catechism of 1602, which belongs to the varieties of the so-called Seven Municipalities in the North of Vicenza. This is the Cimbrian translation of the Catechism of the Catholic Church composed in 1598 by Cardinal Roberto Bellarmino; it was intended to oppose the spread of Protestantism south of the Alps. In the preface of the text, Bishop Marco Corner of Padova, who commissioned Bellarmino's work to be translated into Cimbrian, stated the following purpose.

We also pray through the Heart of Jesus Christ all lay people who are accustomed to teaching *to abandon the other doctrines and turn to the one we are presenting with the same zeal and love* (Meid 1985a: r. 81–84, italics added: EB, RM, AT).

The concerns regarding the orthodoxy of the true faith are evident. In the preface, Marco Corner states what follows:

we have resolved to have this doctrine translated *word for word* by pious persons, who are understanding in their native German language (Meid 1985a: r. 33–35, italics added: EB, RM, AT).

At the end of the translation, the orthodoxy examiner, Niccolò Molini, provides the following remarks:

I [...] reviewed the aforementioned translation of the Christian Doctrine from Italian into the corrupted variety of the German language used in the Seven Parishes of the Diocese of Padua, and I determined that *it has been translated verbatim* (Meid 1985a: r. 1436–1447, italics added: EB, RM, AT).

The consequence of the literal translation from Italian into Cimbrian can be detected at the beginning of the Catechism text. Let us consider the first sentence of the Italian text:

(49) (Meid 1985a: 48)

[Santamente] *Nostro Signor Papa Clemente Ottavo*, [e con somma
holily Our Lord Pope Clement Eighth, and with great
prudenza] *hà fatto stampare un nuovo Libretto della Dottrina*
wisdom has let print a new book of the Doctrine
Christiana.
Christian

‘With a holy intention and great wisdom, our Lord Pope Clement the VIII.
let print a new book of the Christian doctrine.’

The sentence's subject is the DP 'Nostro Signor Papa Clemente Ottavo' (Our Lord Pope Clement VIII) followed by the adverbial adjunct 'e con somma prudenza' (and with great wisdom). The adverb 'santamente' (holily), which appears at the beginning of the sentence, is actually connected with the prepositional phrase '[santamente] e con somma prudenza' and has been moved to the beginning of the sentence to emphasize it, the subject resulting in a sandwich construction between the two conjuncts of the adverbial phrase. The Cimbrian translation repeats the original text word for word (cf. 50):

- (50) (Meid 1985a: r. 56–58)
 [Hailiklik] *unser Herre Babst Clemente VIII.* [unt mit gròser
 holily our Lord Pope Clement Eighth and with great
 prudentia] **hat** ghemàkt stamparn an liberle vòn der Christlike
 wisdom has let print a booklet of the Christian
 Dottrina neugez.
 Doctrine new

In most cases, the subject-DP is realized in front of the finite verb without any other constituent; however, in a few sentences (7.54%) the subject is preceded by another constituent, usually an adverb, as in the following examples:

- (51) (Meid 1985a: r. 496–497)
 [un also] *der fine von allen Ghepott* **ist** dez
 and so DEF.M.NOM end of all commandments is DEF.N.NOM
 ghepott der Liebe.
 commandment of love
 'And so, the end of all commandments is the commandment of love.'
- (52) (Meid 1985a: r. 487–488)
 [unt dernak] *unzer Herre Christo* **hat** si confirmart in der nèugien.
 and then our Lord Christ has it confirmed in DEF.F.DAT new.DAT
 'And then our Lord Christ confirmed it in the new law.'

In the text of the Catechism, there is only one sentence in which the subject-DP is inverted with the finite verb (cf. 53a). It is in the lyrical part of the text. The syntactic difference with the Italian original, which shows the inversion of the subject-DP with the whole verbal complex, was a possible option in the Cimbrian syntax at the time of the Catechism, although only a residual one:

- (53) a. (Meid 1985a: rr. 1272–1273)
 [Unt hia] **saint iere paineghe** alle ghegoltet.
 and there are their torments all rewarded
 ‘And there all their torments are rewarded.’
 b. (Meid 1985a: 126)
 Et ivi **sono** premiati i lor tormenti.
 and there are rewarded DEF.PL their torments

Not surprisingly, the pronominal subjects regularly invert with the finite verb, as in the following examples (54a, 55a, 56a) that we compare with the original sentences in Italian (54b, 55b, 56b) where the subject is not overtly realized. This suggests that verb-subject inversion à la German was clearly not conditioned by the Italian model:

- (54) a. (Meid 1985a: r. 247)
 [unt daròme] **saint=sa** zbelf Artichèln
 and hence are=3PL.NOM twelve articles
 ‘And hence, there are twelve articles.’
 b. (Meid 1985a: 60)
 e però **sono** dodici articoli
 and hence are.3PL twelve articles
 (55) a. (Meid 1985a: r. 702)
 [unt kan deme] **indrizzat=ar** alle dink
 and towards it directs=3SG.M.NOM all things
 ‘And towards it he directs all things.’
 b. (Meid 1985a: 86)
 ed à quello indrizza ogni cosa.
 and towards it directs everything
 (56) a. (Meid 1985a: r. 1302)
 [Dez hantik] **bil ik** trinken.
 the vinegar want 1SG.NOM drink
 ‘I desire to drink the vinegar.’
 b. (Meid 1985a: 128)
 Vò ber l’ aceto
 want.1SG drink the vinegar

For our discussion, it is also interesting to note that the topicalization of the object in (56a) does not require a resumptive clitic pronoun, as it will be typical for the later stages of the Cimbrian syntax (cf. also Section 3.3 above).

It is also possible to find more than one constituent in front of the finite verb which regularly attracts the subject pronoun on its right (either full or enclitic), as in the following examples (see the position of *bier/ber*):

- (57) (Meid 1985a: r. 56–58)
 [Also palle, das unz ist zoakemt dazselbe liberle] [mit reverentia, unt
 As soon as 1PL.OBL is come this booklet with reverence and
 fröbde groazza] **habe** *bier=z* enffanghet.
 joy great have 1PL.NOM=3SG.N received
 ‘When this little book came to us, we received it with reverence and great joy.’
- (58) (Meid 1985a: r. 78–79)
 [Die selben medemen] [mit alem herzzen] **essortar=ber** zo
 DEF.PL.NOM same ones with whole heart urge=1PL.NOM to
 pensaran offte.
 think often
 ‘We urge the same ones wholeheartedly to think often.’

Another syntactic feature of the Catechism concerns the syntax of dislocation, i.e. the constructions of hanging topic and left dislocation (see Bidese 2008). As for the former, we find a prototypical example of a hanging topic in the following declarative sentence (cf. 59):

- (59) (Meid 1985a: r. 380–381)
 [*Quanto von der ubel*] iz **vorset** sik, daz ...
 As for DEF.F.DAT evil 3SG.N asks REFL that
 ‘As for evil, it asks that ...’

Furthermore, several direct interrogative clauses with a WH element are preceded by a dislocated XP, usually the DP subject, but in some cases also the object, which is resumed in the sentence by a resumptive pronoun. In all examples, the Cimbrian translation follows the original Italian version (cf. X-Y):

- (60) (Meid 1985a: r. 654)
 [*De Fede*] nun, **bia** stet=se zua Gott?
 DEF.F.NOM faith now, how applies=3SG.F.NOM to God?
 ‘How is faith also related to God?’

- (61) (Meid 1985a: r. 733)
 [Disa] **bia** kimet se unz abeghereschet?
 DEM.F.NOM, how comes 3SG.F.NOM 1SG.OBL abraded
 ‘How do we get this [= the original sin] erased from us?’
- (62) (Meid 1985a: r. 317)
 [Disa Kirka], **barume** cheu=sik Hailega, unt Catholica?
 DEM.F.NOM church why calls=REFL holy and catholic
 ‘Why is this church called holy and catholic?’

Although hanging topic constructions are also possible in German, the thematization of the DP subject is considered marked in German, as already observed in Bidese & Tomaselli (2007). In contrast, the thematization of the nominal subject in Italian is considered unmarked since it reproduces the SVO order of the language. Moreover, subject inversion in Italian regularly applies with the whole verbal complex. This means that subject fronting is supported by the syntax of the DPSubject in Italian, which usually requires a dislocated position on either the left or the right. Furthermore, thematized demonstrative pronouns (as exemplified by 61 and 62) are particularly difficult to find in German.

Nevertheless, if we take into consideration the German dislocation pattern (*Linksversetzung*) which is still attested in the Cimbrian text, it is easy to recognize a coherent Germanic V2 structure: it shows a D-pronoun as resumptive element on the left of the finite verb, which agrees in case, number and gender with the initial segment (cf. 63–65):²⁷

- (63) (Meid 1985a: r. 75)
 [die andere sibna]ⁱ [die]^I lernt unz zo tunan bol
 DEF.PL.NOM other seven, 3PL.NOM teach 1PL.OBL to do good
 in prossimen.
 DEF.PL.DAT neighbour
 ‘The other seven rules teach us to do good to our neighbours’.
- (64) [Dain bil]ⁱ [der]ⁱ ghesceghe also bia im Himele.
 your will, 3SG.M.NOM be.done as how in heaven
 ‘Your will be done as in heaven.’

²⁷ A kind of topicalization which is defined as *Contrastive Left-Dislocation* in Anagnostopoulou 1997.

(65) (Kat.1602: r. 213)

Baròm [das bort (in namen)]ⁱ [das]ⁱ deutet die
 because DEF.N.NOM word in name, 3SG.N.NOM means DEF.F.NOM
 onikot.
 unity
 ‘Because the word “in name” means the unity.’

This fact is properly confirmed in the following example, in which an instance of right dislocation is realized, again with a demonstrative pronoun as resumptive element:

(66) (Kat.1602: r. 371)

[der]ⁱ hat=z ghemachet [Christo unzer Here]ⁱ.
 3SG.M.NOM has=3SG.N done Christ our Lord
 ‘Christ our Lord has done it.’

Summing up, the syntax of the First Catechism reproduces a situation that is similar to what we observed for Timavese, even if more conservative, with some peculiar aspects of German syntax, i.e.: a) subject-finite verb inversion, with both nominal and pronominal subject; b) topicalization of the DP-object without resumption c) resumption of the dislocated element by a demonstrative pronoun on the left of the finite verb. On the other hand: i) there is already a first break in the linear order, in that the finite verb can be preceded by more than one constituent and ii) the inversion of the nominal subject is to be considered as residual (the less frequent option). Furthermore, in this diachronic stage of Cimbrian there is no trace of a double series of complementizers and the particle *-da* has only a lexical value (in contrast with *der* in ex. 66 above), as in the following example:

(67) (Kat.1602: r. 577–578)

da saint drei rette ghebet von unzer Heren Giesu Christ
 there are three counsels given by our Lord Jesus Christ
 ‘There are three counsels that have been given by our Lord Jesus Christ’.

The C-System of (67) can be then schematized in the following way, much similar to the one represented in Figure 4a:

(68) [Frame *XP* [_{CP} unspecialized Spec [_C *Vf*/Complementizer [_{TP}...]]]]

4.2 The second stage: 19th and early 20th centuries

The second phase in the evolution of Cimbrian is evidenced by two written documents, which were published at the start of the 19th and 20th centuries respectively. The first record is a catechism from 1813 (refer to Meid 1985b for the edited text), and the second is an account of the building of a bridge in Roana village in the Seven Communities (refer to Baragiola 1907).

4.2.1 The second catechism

The initial significant change displayed by both texts is the complete disappearance of DP-subject inversion, which was already residual in the first Catechism (see above). Consequently, subject inversion is now definitely restricted to the pronominal subject, which appears enclitic to the finite verb (see 69–70):

- (69) (Kat.1813: r. 65)
 [Nia] **bel**=*bar* riven zo vorkünnen eür linnez herze.
 never want-1PL.NOM give.up to praise your tender heart
 ‘We never want to give up praising your tender heart.’
- (70) (Kat.1813: r. 349–350)
 [von da] **hat**=*ar* zo kemman zo judicáran.
 From there has=3SG.M.NOM to come to judge
 ‘From there, he will come to judge.’

In the interrogative context, the Subject-DP is always doubled by a subject pronoun encliticized onto the finite verb (cf. 71 and 72) independently of its position:

- (71) (Kat.1813: r. 137)
 Unbrúmme saint=*sa*ⁱ [*dise* *drai persúun*]ⁱ an Gott anlóan?
 why are=3PL.NOM DEM.PL.NOM three persons one God alone?
 ‘Why are these three persons one God?’
- (72) (Kat.1813: r. 238)
 Bibel sáint=*sa*ⁱ [*de Comandaménten von der* *Kerchen*]ⁱ?
 how.many are=3PL.NOM commandments of DEF.F.DAT church
 ‘How many commandments are there in the Church?’

As for the syntax of dislocation, the 1813 Catechism shows an increase in dislocated structures. However, they are all in interrogative contexts and with a clitic

subject as resumptive pronoun. This suggests that the typical Germanic construction of the left dislocation with a demonstrative pronoun as in the precedent Catechism is no longer part of the Cimbrian syntax.

With respect to the construction of the hanging topic, we find many examples like in the first Catechism, although only in direct interrogative structures, where the V3 linear sequence in WH main clauses always results from the occurrence of the subject-DP fronted to the left of the nexus WH-Vf (cf. X):

- (73) (Kat.1813:r. 206)
 [De Kercha]ⁱ **ba langhe** hát =seⁱ =da zo sainan
 DEF.F.NOM church, how long has =3SG.F.NOM =here to be?
 ‘How long will the church exist?’

However, there are also examples of WH interrogatives in which the Subject-DP is shifted to the right of the clause, in contrast to what we find in the Catechism of 1602 and in Standard German:

- (74) (Kat.1813: r. 99–100)
Brumme hát =arⁱ =üz gaschàft un galèt af de belt
 why has =3SG.M.NOM =1PL.OBL created and placed on DEF.F world,
 [Gott dar Herre]ⁱ?
 God DEF.M.NOM Lord
 ‘Why did God the Lord create and place us in the world?’

In general, a clear tendency to a more Romance type of hanging topic left dislocation/topicalization can be observed. Prepositional phrases, which either belong to the core of the sentence (cf. 75) or are used to connect the sentences to each other, as in the case of (76), can be dislocated in front of the sentence without any resumption:

- (75) (Kat.1813: r. 194)
 [Un nach den viarz taghen] [**baz**] hat=ar gatànt?
 and after DEF.PL.DAT forty days, what has-3SG.M.NOM made?
 ‘What did he make after forty days?’
- (76) (Kat.1813: r. 132–133)
 [In minschen boart], [**baz**] hat=sich zo tünan zo volghen allen disen
 in a few words, what has=REFL to do to follow all DEM.PL
 Comandaménten?
 precepts
 ‘What is to do, in a few words, for following all these precepts?’

If the PP in (76) can be actually interpreted as a FrameP, the one in (75) is clearly part of the sentence and must be understood as a Topic. In fact, it repeats what has been said in the sentence before (Kat.1813: r. 192–193), namely “*Ear hatsich gamàcht segnen vor viarzk taghe sain schularn*” (He let his disciples see him for forty days). In this respect, also the direct Yes/No questions show the same tendency to fronting the subject-DP and/or other lexical material (cf. 77–79):

- (77) (Kat.1813: r. 114)
 [Gott der Herre]ⁱ *síghet=arⁱ* nun allez?
 God DEF.M.NOM Lord, sees=3SG.M.NOM now all?
 ‘Does God, the Lord, know everything?’
- (78) (Kat.1813: r. 157–158)
 [Dar Sun von Gotte me Herr-en]ⁱ [*máchent-en=sich* man]
 DEF.M.NOM son of God DEF.M.DAT Lord-DAT making-DAT=REFL man
hat=arⁱ galàzt zo sáinan Gott?
 has=3SG.M.NOM given.up to be God
 ‘Did the son of God, the Lord, becoming man, give up being God?’
- (79) (Kat.1813: r. 215)
 [Zo ghenan in Hümmel] *tüü=z* sain gatófet, un cloben?
 to go in heaven does=3SG.N.NOM be baptized and believe
 ‘Is it enough to be baptized and believe to go to heaven?’

To summarize: A further degree of expansion within the CP system finds a robust argument in the simple fact that the translations of the Cimbrian sentences with a dislocated element into standard German is no longer possible. We hypothesize that they imply a different structure with respect to the first Catechism. The relevant difference in comparison with the FrameP of the 1602 Catechism is the scattering of the feature [Top] above the projection which hosts the WH element, possibly as head of a TopP. It is still unclear at this point of development whether the WH element occurs in a dedicated FocP, different from FinP, or still in an unspecialized Spec on the left of the finite verb. The evidence is only indirect since DP-subject inversion is no more attested. In summary, the C system seems to have been split into a number of projections with at least a topic position inside, similar to Figure 4b (page 309):

- (80) [_{Frame} XP [_{Topic} **Topic** [_{CP} unspecialized Spec [_C Vf/Complementizer [TP...]]]]]

4.2.2 Baragiola (1907)

The text that we consider relevant for the assumption of a TopP in the C-domain is the story *Dez dink vo' der prucka* (The affair of the bridge), written by Domenico Zotti from Camporovere in the Seven Communities and published by Baragiola (1907). This text completes the lines of development already observed in the 1813 Catechism. SpecFinP is now clearly specialized as (structural) DP-subject position (cf. 81, 82, 83), distinct from both FocP and a higher TopP. The assumption of TopP higher than FocP is since topicalized objects are now obligatorily resumed by a clitic pronoun on the right of the finite verb (cf. 84):

- (81) (Baragiola 1907: 8)
 [Un in doi Zait] [*dear erste Deputato*] hat kött 'me Loite.
 and in that time DEF.M.NOM first deputy has said DEF.N.DAT people
 'And at that time, the first deputy said to the people.'
- (82) (Baragiola 1907: 11)
 [Benne dear Consilio hat gat garivet de andarn Materien
 when DEF.M.NOM council has had finished DEF.PL.ACC other matters
 'me Komáuene zo riven] [*de Presidente*] as=sich gahevet
 DEF.N.DAT township to finish DEF.M.NOM chairman has=REFL stood
 af de Vüze.
 on DEF.PL.ACC feet
 'When the council concluded the affairs of the township that were to be
 concluded, the chairman stood up.'
- (83) (Baragiola 1907: 20)
 [Af de noin Oarn] [*de Klocka*] hat get Avviso.
 at DEF.PL.ACC nine hours DEF.F.NOM bell has given alarm
 'The bell gave alarm at 9 o' clock.'
- (84) (Baragiola 1907: 23)
 [*miar*]ⁱ importar=z=*mar*ⁱ nicht zo sterben.
 1SG.DAT worries=3SG.N.NOM=1SG.DAT nothing to die
 'I don't care about dying.'

When the DP-subject is separated from the finite verb by an adverbial, i.e. temporal clause, the subject is usually resumed by a clitic pronoun at the finite verb, as in the following examples:

- (85) (Baragiola 1907: 9)
 [Di Robáner]ⁱ, [hörtenten prechten asó garecht disen
 DEF.PL.NOM people.of.Roana hearing speak so well DEM.M.ACC
 ersten Deputaten] **haben**=saⁱ kött alle.
 first deputy have=3PL.NOM said all
 ‘When the people of Roana heard the first deputy speak so well, they all
 said.’
- (86) [De Loite ..., ba saint da gabest,]ⁱ [segenten asó],
 the people ..., who were there present, seeing this,
haben=seⁱ=sich ritirart alle.
 have=3PL.NOM=REFL retired all
 ‘All the people ..., who were present, seeing this, retired.’ (Baragiola 1907:
 26)

A final very significant syntactic feature of this text is the first occurrence of the high declarative complementizer *che* ‘that’, borrowed from the same Italian conjunction (cf. x-Y):

- (87) (Baragiola 1907: 7)
 ... segenten **che** de Spesa ist zovil groaz.
 ... seeing that DEF.F.NOM cost is too great
 ‘... when he realized that the costs will be too high.’
- (88) (Baragiola 1907: 17)
 ... habent gahoart **che** se machent an Consilien.
 ... have heard that 3PL.NOM do INDEF council
 ‘... heard that they will be holding a council meeting.’

Usually, the complementizer *che* is introduced by perception verbs like ‘to see’ or ‘to hear’ or, in one case, by the factive verb ‘to make understand’. In the other cases, the autochthonous complementizer *as* ‘that’ is the preferred choice. Nevertheless, an important difference (see Bidese 2004) can be observed between the use of *che* and that of *as*: whereas *as* realizes an asymmetric structure with respect to the position of the negation and the reflexive pronoun (cf. 89a and 90a with 89b and 90b), *che* shows only a symmetric one (cf. 91):

- (89) a. (Baragiola 1907: 23)
 ... ’az se nette ghenan vüar.
 ... that 3PL.NOM NEG go on
 ‘... that they do not go on.’

- b. (Baragiola 1907: 10)
disa Botta **zeder**=bar *net*.
DEM.F.NOM time give.in=1PL.NOM NEG
‘this time we don’t give in.’
- (90) a. (Baragiola 1907: 28)
... ’az se *sich* legen in Kiete.
... that 3PL.NOM REFL put in peace
‘... that they get calmed down.’
- b. (Baragiola 1907: 19)
noch in de erste Lichte von deme Tage
already at the first light of DEM.M.DAT day
hevan=se=*sich* alle.
get.up=3PL.NOM=REFL all
‘Already with the first light of day, they all get up.’
- (91) (Baragiola 1907: 21)
... zo machen seggen **che** [dessen von-me Róane]
... to let see that DEF.N.GEN of-DEF.N.DAT Róane
degnarn=se=*sich* gnanca seggen=sen.
deign=3PL.NOM=REFL even look=3SG.OBJ
‘... to show that of the one in Roana, they didn’t even deign to look at it.’

In summary: at the beginning of the 20th century, Cimbrian syntax was already characterized by a fully articulated CP domain which maintains structural V2 (mandatory V to Fin in the declarative root clause). [Spec, FinP] has specialized as structural subject position and inversion with the finite verb is limited to the pronominal subject. Object fronting on the left of the finite verb always implies clitic resumption, i.e. the activation of [Spec, TopP] *à la* Italian (but note that the resumptive clitic always occurs enclitic to the finite verb in Fin). Furthermore, the first use of the complementizer *che* can be detected, although still limited to perceptive verbs. It is worth noting that the complementizer *che* lexicalizes a functional head in the higher C-subdomain and hence triggers a symmetrical word order (requires V to Fin movement) exactly as in the Cimbrian variety of Lusern today. (92) schematizes the CP-system of Cimbrian at the end of the second stage, reproducing the hypothesis put forward for Lusern Cimbrian (cf. above 42):

- (92) [_{Frame} XP [_{Topic} Topic [_{Focus} Focus [_{FIN} Subject-DP [_{FIN}
Vf/Complementizer [_{TP...}]]]]]]

5 Final remarks

The diachronic development of Cimbrian syntax shows the gradual expansion of the C-domain which ultimately leads to the loss of structural V2. This process which covers more than four centuries could be summarized in the following four stages:

- (I) [Frame XP [unspecialized Spec [_C Vf/Complementizer [TP...]]]]
- (IIA) [Frame XP [Topic XP [_{CP} (un)specialized Spec [_C Vf/Complementizer [TP...]]]]]
- (IIB) [Frame XP [_{ForceP} [_{FORCE} high Complementizer) [_{TopicP} Topic XP [_{FocusP} WH- [_{FinP} Subject-DP [_{FIN} Vf/low Complementizer [TP...]]]]]]]
- (III) Consolidation of phase IIB (and gradual reduction of the low class of complementizers)
- (IV) Loss of structural V2 (no finite Verb movement to Fin in the root declarative clause): no subject inversion (either nominal or pronominal) in the root declarative clause, loss of the low class of complementizers, loss of the root-embedded word order asymmetry.

Stage I is attested by the first Cimbrian catechism (1602) and roughly corresponds to the first structure assumed for Timavese in Figure 4a (Section 2.3); stage IIA is attested by the second translation of the catechism (1813) and finds a correspondence with the second structure assumed for Timavese (cf. Figure 4b, Section 2.3); stage IIB is attested by Baragiola (1907) and represents a clear point of innovation with the specialization of [Spec, FinP] as structural subject position and the development of a fully articulated CP which hosts a higher class of lexical complementizers compatible with V to Fin movement; stage III corresponds to the Cimbrian variety spoken in Luserna (cf. Section 3, in particular Section 3.3) and shows a consolidation of stage IIB (combined with the first signs of a gradual dismantling of the root-embedded word order asymmetry)²⁸; stage IV corresponds to the Cimbrian variety spoken in Ljetzan/Giazza – the southernmost Germanic enclave attested in northern Italy – and already shows the loss of structural V2 (cf. table 5, Section 3.3).

The early stages of the diachronic evolution of Cimbrian (stages I and IIA) show an interesting overlapping with what has been observed for Timavese from a synchronic point of view and confirms the more conservative aspects of the

²⁸Cf. Bidese & Tomaselli (2021) for a detailed discussion.

West-to-East line with respect to the North-to-South line. The limited expansion of the C-domain which correlates with the violation of the linear V2 restriction (a common trait of all the varieties taken into consideration) finds a further development only in the North-to-South line due to the different modalities of topicalization. Since at least Baragiola (1907) topicalization seems to resemble the Romance model of Clitic Left Dislocation: Object fronting implies the activation of TopP and requires clitic resumption (which coherently with structural V2 shows up as enclisis to the finite verb in Fin). This change allows (i.e. goes along with) the specialization of [Spec, FinP] as a structural subject position and opens the way to the borrowing of the Italian high complementizer *ke*. The maintenance of structural V2 is linked to the maintenance of the low class of complementizers, i.e. the one which competes with the finite verb with respect of the same functional head in the low C-subdomain. As a matter of fact, the Cimbrian variety of Giazza/Ljetzan has already lost both pronominal subject inversion in the root declarative clause and the root-embedded asymmetry – i.e.: the lexical complementizers of the low class – and hence fails the diagnostic tests for the assumption of structural V2.²⁹

The possibility that the varieties of the West-to-East line follow the same path remains for the moment pure speculation and requires further research and data collection.

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²⁹ As suggested by one of the anonymous reviewers, the question arises about the status of FinP in the Cimbrian variety of Giazza. As a matter of fact, it is never lexically realized, by neither the low lexical complementizer nor the finite verb, as in a V2 German-like system. At the same time, it does not host the infinitival marker as it is assumed for *di* in Italian (Rizzi 1997); on the contrary, the infinitival particle *zo* coherently behaves as its German cognate *zu*, showing adherence to the Germanic model. For a more detailed cross-linguistic analysis regarding the structure of infinitival clauses in V2-varieties, see Tomaselli et al. (2024).

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Verb-third phenomena in Germanic verb-second languages

With the exception of English and its varieties, all Present-Day Germanic languages display some kind of verb-second (V2) rule, according to which the finite verbal form has to be put in the second position of the clause in declarative utterances. But even within the Germanic domain, the exact contours of the V2 rule vary strongly in time and space. Above all, the so-called bottleneck demanding that one and only one constituent be placed before the finite verb is not equally respected in all Germanic varieties. The typology of V2 violations, apparent or real, is now regarded as a core question for the typology of V2 itself. The present volume is concerned with all kinds of alleged “cracks in the bottleneck”, involving argument stacking, remnant movement, or adverbial resumption. A general introduction by Modicom and Harchaoui discusses the current state of linguistic research on verb-third phenomena in Germanic languages, both in synchrony and diachrony. The introduction is followed by a diachronic panorama of V3 phenomena in the history of High German, by A. Speyer, who shows that behind the apparent stability of V2, the syntactic typology of apparent V3 in German has undergone significant changes over the last centuries. The other contributions to the volume follow this variational and historical thread: E. Klaevik-Pettersen and N. Catasso discuss the validity of the bottleneck hypothesis in present and ancient V2 varieties. E. Louvriot, Th. Robin, Chr. Nilsen and B. Bloom focus on verb-third phenomena involving resumptive items in the history of English, High German, Low German and Swedish. In their paper on Old West Germanic verse corpora, Louvriot and Robin concentrate on clause-initial *tha/ tho*, investigating which factors determine its capacity to either be followed by the finite verb (V2) or by another constituent before the finite verb (V3). Nilsen is concerned with the semantic evolution of verb-third adverbial resumption involving *da* and *så* in Swedish. Bloom focuses on the V3 use of one resumptive, *so*, in Early New High German during the 16th century, tackling the discourse-organizational factors behind adverbial resumption. Finally, the chapters by L. Riccardelli, R. Madaro, A. Tomaselli and E. Bidese investigate how contact between Germanic and Romance may have interacted with language-internal dynamics in the history of several varieties of Rhaeto-Romance (Riccardelli) and Upper German (Madaro, Tomaselli and Bidese).